A Modern Handbook of Physics

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Preface

The basic sciences and physics, in particular, are of prime importance today in the training of engineers for the various branches of the national economy. This has led to fundamental changes in recent years in the teaching of physics in engineer ing institutes, and to the students of other educational institutions in which they do not major in physics. The scope and scientific level of physics courses have been substantially supplemented and cover the main trends in the development of modern physics. Consequently, the physics textbooks for engineering students have inevitably become three-volume editions of almost fifteen hundred pages. The need has arisen, in this connection, for a concise handbook on this subject. The aim of the authors was to fulfill this need.

In scope and depth this handbook includes all of the definitions, formulas and information covered in the most comprehensive and up-to-date physics courses of engineering institutes and the physics departments of universities and colleges. Physical laws are concisely formulated, all the necessary explanations are given and, in many cases,

derivations as well. Though it plays a vital role in the teaching of physics, experimental material has been omitted. This is due only to a lack of space. All the units and symbols comply with the requirements of the SI. Units of physical quantities and systems of units are listed and dealt with in a short appendix.

This handbook is designed primarily for engineering students, as well as college and university students studying, but not majoring in physics. It can be used to advantage by engineers and graduate students, as well as by instructors and lecturers of intermediate schools and colleges.

Mathematical knowledge required in using the handbook is within the scope of the ordinary mathematics courses of engineering institutes. The detailed index and the numerous cross references, indicating the chapter, section and subsection, are of aid in finding any required information. The authors are sincerely grateful to the translator, N. Weinstein, and the science editor, T. Baranovskaya, for their comprehensive and expert work in the publication of the English edition of this handbook, as well as for their valuable suggestions, which should facilitate its use by the reader.

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Parts One, Four, Five and the appendices were written by Prof. A. A. Detlaf; Parts Two, Three, Six, Seven and Eight, by Prof. B. M. Yavorsky.

Part I.

Mechanics

1 Kinematics

1.1 Mechanical Motion. The Subject Matter of Mechanics

1.1.1

The simplest form of motion in nature is *mechanical motion*. It consists of changes in the relative positions of bodies or their parts in space in the course of time. The branch of physics dealing with the laws of mechanical motion is called *mechanics*. In a more narrow sense of the word, this is often under stood to mean *classical mechanics*, which deals with the motion of macroscopic bodies travelling at velocities a great many times less than that of light in free space. Classical mechanics is based on Newtons laws and is therefore frequently referred to as *Newtonian mechanics*. The laws of motion of bodies at velocities close to that of light in free space are taken up in *relativistic mechanics* (5.1.1), and the laws of motion of micro particles (for example, the electrons in atoms, molecules, crystals, etc.) are the subject matter of *quantum mechanics* (**??**).

1.1.2

Classical mechanics comprises three basic branches: statics, kinematics and dynamics. Statics deals with the laws for the composition of forces and the conditions for the equilibrium of bodies. *Kinematics* provides a mathematical description of all possible kinds of mechanical motion, regardless of what causes each particular kind of motion. *Dynamics* investigates the effect of the interaction between bodies on their mechanical motion.

1.1.3

The mechanical properties of bodies are determined by their chemical nature, internal structure and state. These are beyond the scope of mechanics and are studied in other branches of physics. Hence, in accordance with the conditions of each specific problem on hand, various simplified models are employed to describe real bodies in motion. These include the particle, the perfectly rigid body, the perfectly elastic body, the perfectly inelastic body and others.

A *material point*, or *particle*, is a body whose shape and size are of no consequence under the conditions of the problem being considered. For example, in a first approximation, the motion of a ship from one point to another can be dealt with as the motion of a particle. If, however, it becomes necessary to take into account such details of this motion as the pitching and rolling of the ship by swells or heavy seas, the ship should be dealt with as an extended body of definite shape. In the literature the word particle is more frequently used than material point.

Any extended body or system of such bodies, making up the *mechanical system* being investigated, can be regarded as a *system of particles*. For this purpose, ail the bodies of the system can be conceived of as being broken down into such a large number of parts that the size of each part is negligibly small compared to the sizes of the bodies themselves.

1.1.4

A *perfectly rigid body*, or simply *rigid body*, is one whose deformation can be neglected under the conditions of the given problem. The distance between any two points of a rigid body remains constant no matter what action the body is subjected to. A perfectly rigid body can be regarded as a system of particles rigidly connected to one another.

A *perfectly elastic body* is one whose deformation obeys Hookes law (**??**). After the external forces applied to such a body have been removed, its initial size and shape are completely restored.

A *perfectly inelastic body* is one that completely retains its deformed state, caused by external forces applied to the body, when these forces have been removed.

1.2 Frames of Reference. Path, Path Length and Displacement Vector of a Particle

1.2.1

The position of a body in space can be specified only in reference to other bodies. It makes sense, for instance, to speak

of the location of the planets with respect to the sun, that of an air liner or steamship with respect to the earth, but we cannot indicate their position in space "in general" without reference to some specific body. A perfectly rigid body in which a coordinate system is rigidly fixed, furnished with a "clock" and employed to determine the position of bodies and particles being investigated in space at various instants of time, is called a frame of reference. Sometimes the frame of reference is the coordinate system itself if it is provided with a "clock" and the solid in which the system is rigidly fixed is called the body of reference. In each specific problem the frame of reference is selected so as to simplify the problem to the maximum extent. Inertial frames of reference (2.1.2) are the most commonly used in physics.

1.2.2

Most extensively employed is the Cartesian rectangular system of coordinates (Figure 1.1) whose orthonormal (normal orthogonal) basis is formed by the three vectors **i**, **j** and **k**, which are unit vectors with respect to their magnitudes, mutually orthogonal and pass through the origin O of coordinates. The position of an arbitrary point M is specified by the radius vector **r**, which connects the origin O of coordinates to point M. Vector **r** can be resolved along the axes **i**, **j** and **k** of the basis as follows:

$$\mathbf{r} = x\mathbf{i} + y\mathbf{j} + z\mathbf{k}$$

where $x\mathbf{i}$, $y\mathbf{j}$ and $z\mathbf{k}$ are the components of vector **r** along the coordinate axes. The coefficients of resolution, x, y and

z, are the Cartesian coordinates of point M and, due to the orthogonality of the vectors of the basis, the projections of radius vector $\mathbf{r}$ on the corresponding coordinate axes.

The motion of a particle is completely specified if three continuous and single-valued functions of the time t,

$$x = x(t),\ y = y(t) \text{ and } z = z(t),$$

are given to describe the changes in the coordinates of the particle with time.

These equations are said to be the *kinematic equations of motion of a particle*. They are equivalent to the single vector equation $\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{r}(t)$, for a moving particle.

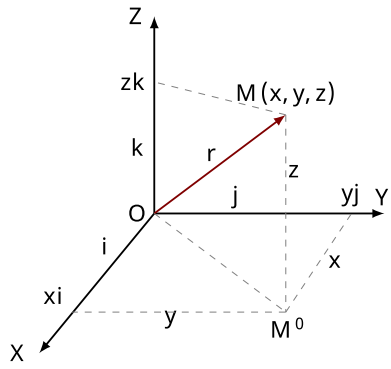


Figure 1.1.: Cartesian system of coordinates.

1.2.3

The line described by a moving particle in space is called its *path*. The kinematic equations of motion of a particle specify the equation of its path in parametric form (the parameter being the time t). Depending upon the shape of the path, distinction is made between *rectilinear* and *curvilinear* motion. The motion of a particle is said to be *plane* if its path lies completely in a single plane.

The mechanical motion of a body is relative, i.e. the nature of the motion and, in particular, the kind of path travelled by the points of the body depend upon the chosen frame of reference.

1.2.4

In the general case, the path of a moving particle is a spatial, rather than plane, curve. Introduced for such curves is the

concept of an *osculating plane*. The osculating plane at the arbitrary point M of a curve is in the limiting position of a plane passing through any three points of the curve when these points approach point M without limit.

An *osculating circle* at point M of a curve is the limit of a circle passing through three points of the curve being considered when these points approach point M without limit. The osculating circle lies in the osculating plane. The centre of the osculating circle and its radius are called the *centre of curvature* and *radius of curvature*, at point M, of the curve being considered. The straight line connecting point M to the centre of curvature is called the *principal normal* to the curve at point M. The tangent to the curve at point M is perpendicular to the principal normal and also lies in the osculating plane.

1.2.5

The *path length* is the sum of the lengths of all the portions of the path over which the particle passes m the given interval of time. The instant of time $t = t_0$, from which we begin to consider the motion of a particle, is called the initial instant of time, and the position of the particle at this instant (point A in Figure 1.2) is called its initial position. Owing to the arbitrary nature of the time reference point it is usually assumed that $t_0 = 0$.

The path length s, travelled by the particle from its initial position, is a scalar function of time: $s = s(t)$. As is obvious from its definition, the path length of a particle cannot be a negative quantity. If the particle travels along an arc of the path AB (Figure 1.2), always in the same direction and

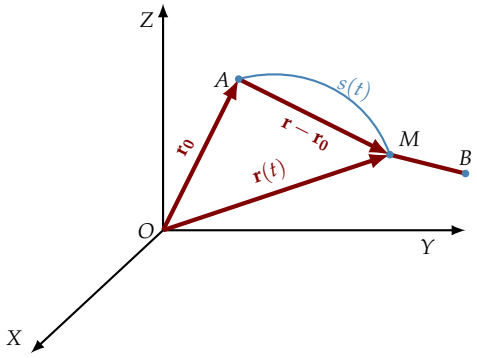


Figure 1.2.: A particle moving on a curve.

is at point M at the instant of time t,then $s(t) = \widehat{AM}$. If the particle travels along the path in a more complicated way, for example if it travels from A to B, reaching B at the instant of time $t_1 < t$, and then reverses, returning to point M at instant t, then $s(t) = \widehat{AB} + \widehat{BM}$.

1.2.6

The displacement vector of a moving particle during the time interval from $t = t_1$ to $t = t_2$ is the vector from the, position of the particle at the instant of time t_1 to its position at instant t_2. It is equal to the increment in the radius vector of the particle during the time interval being considered:

$$\mathbf{r_2} - \mathbf{r_1} = \mathbf{r}(t_2) - \mathbf{r}t_1$$

The displacement vector is always directed along the chord subtending the corresponding portion of the path.

Shown in Figure 1.2 is the displacement vector of the particle for the time interval from t_0 to t. It is equal to $\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r_0} = \mathbf{r}(t) - \mathbf{r}(t_0)$.

The displacement vector of a moving particle for the time interval from t to $t + \Delta t$ equals

$$\Delta r = r(t + \Delta t) - r(t) = \Delta x \times \mathbf{i} + \Delta y \times \mathbf{j} + \Delta z \times \mathbf{k}$$

where Δx, Δy and Δz are the increments (changes) in the coordinates of the particle during the time interval being considered.

1.2.7

A particle travelling freely in space can accomplish only three *independent motions*, i.e. motions that cannot be represented as combinations of the other two. As a matter of fact, the motion of a particle along each of the axes of a Cartesian rectangular coordinate system cannot be obtained by its motion along the other two axes. The number of independent motions that a mechanical system can accomplish is called the *number of degrees of freedom* of the system. Hence, a free particle has three degrees of freedom.

1.3 Velocity

1.3.1

The concept of velocity is introduced in mechanics to characterize the rate of motion of bodies. It is the time rate of

change in the position of moving bodies. The *average velocity* of a moving particle in the time interval from t to $t + \Delta t$ is the vector $\mathbf{v_{av}}$, equal to the ratio of the increment $\Delta\mathbf{r}$ in the radius vector of the particle during this time interval to the length of the time interval Δt:

$$\mathbf{v_{av}} = \frac{\Delta \mathbf{r}}{\Delta t}$$

Vector $\mathbf{v_{av}}$ has the same direction as $\Delta\mathbf{r}$, i.e. along the chord subtending the corresponding portion of the particles path.

1.3.2

The *velocity* (or *instantaneous velocity*) of a moving particle is the vector quantity $\mathbf{v}$, equal to the first time derivative of the radius vector $\mathbf{r}$ of the particle being considered:

$$\mathbf{v} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

The velocity of the particle at the instant of time t is the limiting value that the average velocity $\mathbf{v_{av}}$ approaches for an infinitely small value of the time interval Δt. Thus

$$\mathbf{v} = \lim_{\Delta t \to 0} \frac{\Delta \mathbf{r}}{\Delta t} = \lim_{\Delta t \to 0} \mathbf{v_{av}}$$

The velocity vector $\mathbf{v}$ of the particle has the direction along a tangent to the path toward the motion in the same way as the vector $d\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{v}dt$ of infinitely small displacement of the particle during an infinitely short time interval dt.

The path length ds travelled by the particle during the length of time dt is equal to the magnitude of the displacement vector: $ds = |d\mathbf{r}|$. Therefore the magnitude of the

velocity vector of a moving particle is equal to the first time derivative of the path length:

$$v = |\,\mathbf{v}\,| = \frac{\mathrm{d}s}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

1.3.3

The resolution of vector $\mathbf{v}$ along the basis of a Cartesian rectangular coordinate system is of the following form:

$$\mathbf{v} = v_x \times \mathbf{i} + v_y \times \mathbf{j} + v_z \times \mathbf{k}$$

The projections of the velocity of a moving particle on the coordinate axes are equal to the first time derivative of the corresponding coordinates of the particle:

$$v_x = \frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t},\ v_y = \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t},\ v_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}z}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

and the magnitude of the velocity vector, sometimes called the *speed*, is

$$v = |\,\mathbf{v}\,| = \sqrt{\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2}$$

1.3.4

In rectilinear motion of a particle, the direction of its velocity vector remains constant. The motion of a particle is said to be *uniform* if the magnitude of its velocity does not change with time: $v = ds/dt = \text{const}$. The path length s

travelled by a uniformly moving particle is a linear function of time: $s = vt$ (provided that $t_0 = 0$, see (1.2.5)).

If the magnitude of the particles velocity, i.e. its speed, increases with time $(dv/dt > 0)$, the motion is said to be *accelerated*; if the speed decreases with time $(dv/dt < 0)$, the motion is said to be *decelerated*.

1.3.5

The *average velocity of nonuniform motion* of a particle over a given portion of its path is the scalar v_{av}, called the *travelling speed*, which is equal to the ratio of the length Δs of this portion to the length Δt of the time interval required to travel over this portion:

$$v_{\text{av}} = \frac{\Delta s}{\Delta t}$$

It is equal to the speed of uniform motion in which the time required to travel the same path length As is the same as in the nonuniform motion being considered.

In curvilinear motion of a particle $|\Delta \mathbf{r}| < \Delta s$. Therefore, in the general case, the average velocity (travelling speed) v_{av} of the particle is not equal to the magnitude of its average velocity $\mathbf{v_{av}}$ over the same portion of its path (1.3.1): $v_{\text{av}} \geqslant |\mathbf{v}|$ where the equality sign corresponds to a rectilinear portion of the path.

1.3.6

In the case of plane motion of a particle M (1.2.3), it often proves convenient to use the polar coordinates r and φ,

where r is the distance from pole O to particle M and φ is the vectorial angle measured from polar axis OA (Figure 1.3). The velocity $\mathbf{v}$ of particle M can be resolved into

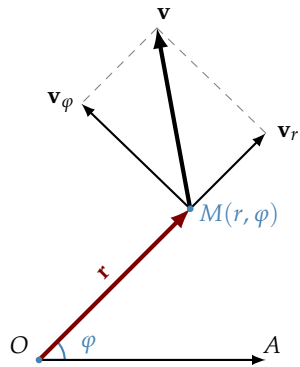


Figure 1.3.: Polar coordinates of a moving particle.

two mutually perpendicular components: the *radial velocity* $\mathbf{v}_r$ and the *transverse velocity* $\mathbf{v}_\varphi$:

$$\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}_r + \mathbf{v}_\varphi$$

in which

$$\mathbf{v}_r = \frac{1}{r}\frac{\mathrm{d}r}{\mathrm{d}t}\mathbf{r}, \text{ and } \mathbf{v}_\varphi = \frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t}[\mathbf{kr}]$$

where $\mathbf{r}$ is the polar radius vector of particle M, and $\mathbf{k}$ is the unit vector directed perpendicular to the plane of motion of the particle so that the rotation of radius vector $\mathbf{r}$ upon an increase in angle φ is seen, from the head of unit vector $\mathbf{k}$, to be counterclockwise.

The magnitude v of the velocity vector of particle M, in plane motion, is

$$v = \sqrt{\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}r}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2 + \left(r\frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2}$$

During the infinitely short length of time dt, polar radius vector $\mathbf{r}$ of the particle in plane motion sweeps over a sector of a circle, the area of the sector being $dS = r^2\, d\varphi/2$. Hence, the quantity

$$\sigma = \frac{\mathrm{d}S}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{1}{2}r^2\frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{1}{2}rv_\varphi$$

is called the *areal* velocity.

1.4 Acceleration

1.4.1

The concept of acceleration is introduced in mechanics to characterize the rate of change of the velocity vector of a mov ing particle. The *average acceleration* in the time interval from t to $t + \Delta t$ is the vector $\mathbf{a}_{\mathrm{av}}$, which is equal to the ratio of the increment $\Delta\mathbf{v}$ of the velocity vector of the particle, during the lime interval, to the length of the time interval Δt:

$$\mathbf{v}_{\mathrm{av}} = \frac{\Delta\mathbf{v}}{\Delta t}$$

1.4.2

Acceleration (or *instantaneous acceleration*) of a moving particle is the vector quantity $\mathbf{a}$, equal to the first time derivative

of the velocity **v** of the particle being considered or, other wise, the second time derivative of the particles radius vector **r**:

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{\mathrm{d}^2\mathbf{r}}{\mathrm{d}t^2}$$

The acceleration of a moving particle at the instant of time t is the limiting value that the average acceleration $\mathbf{a}_{\mathrm{av}}$ approaches for an infinitely small time interval Δt. Thus

$$\mathbf{a} = \lim_{\Delta t \to 0} \frac{\Delta \mathbf{v}}{\Delta t} = \lim_{\Delta t \to 0} \mathbf{a}_{\mathrm{av}}$$

1.4.3

The resolution of vector **a** along the basis of a rectangular Cartesian coordinate system is of the form:

$$\mathbf{a} = a_x\mathbf{i} + a_y\mathbf{j} + a_z\mathbf{k}$$

The projections of the acceleration vector of a moving particle on the coordinate axes are equal to the first time derivatives of the corresponding velocity projections or, otherwise, the second time derivatives of the corresponding coordinates of the particle:

$$a_x = \frac{\mathrm{d}v_x}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{\mathrm{d}^2x}{\mathrm{d}t^2},\ a_y = \frac{\mathrm{d}v_y}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{\mathrm{d}^2y}{\mathrm{d}t^2},\ a_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}v_z}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{\mathrm{d}^2z}{\mathrm{d}t^2}$$

The magnitude of the acceleration vector is

$$a = |a| = \sqrt{\left(\frac{dv_x}{dt}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{dv_y}{dt}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{dv_z}{dt}\right)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{\left(\frac{d^2x}{dt^2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{d^2y}{dt^2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{d^2z}{dt^2}\right)^2}$$

1.4.4

The acceleration vector of a moving particle lies in the osculating plane (1.2.4) passing through point M of the path being considered and is direct ed toward the concavity of the path BC (Figure 1.4). In this plane the acceleration vector $\mathbf{a}$ can be resolved into two mutually perpendicular components $\mathbf{a}_\tau$ and $\mathbf{a}_n$:

$$\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{a}_\tau + \mathbf{a}_n$$

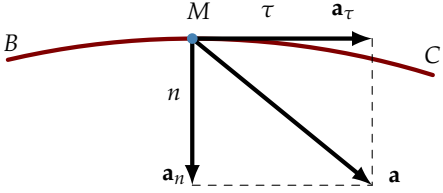


Figure 1.4.: Tangential and normal components of the acceleration of a moving particle.

1.4.5

Component $\mathbf{a}_\tau$ is called the *tangential acceleration* of the moving particle. It is directed along the tangent to the path and equals

$$\mathbf{a}_\tau = \frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}t}\boldsymbol{\tau} \text{ and } a_t = \frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

where $\boldsymbol{\tau} = \mathbf{v}/v$ is the unit vector of the tangent, from point M of the path in the direction of velocity $\mathbf{v}$ of the particle, and a_τ is the projection of the tangential acceleration on the direction of vector $\mathbf{v}$. The tangential acceleration characterizes the rate of change of the magnitude of the particles velocity vector. Vectors $\mathbf{a}_\tau$ and $\mathbf{v}$ coincide in direction, i.e. $a_\tau > 0$, in accelerated motion (1.3.4); vectors $\mathbf{a}_\tau$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are opposite in direction $a_\tau < 0$, in decelerated motion of the particle; and $a_\tau = 0$ in its uniform motion. If $a_\tau = \text{const} \neq 0$, the motion is said to be uniformly variable. In uniformly variable motion the magnitude of the particles velocity is linearly time-dependent:

$$v = v_0 + a_\tau t$$

where $v_0 = v(0)$ is the magnitude of the initial velocity, i.e. the velocity at the initial instant of time $t = 0$. If $a_\tau = \text{const} > 0$, the motion of the particle is said to be *uniformly accelerated*, whereas if $a_\tau = \text{const} < 0$, it is said to be *uniformly decelerated*.

1.4.6

Component $\mathbf{a}_n$ of acceleration $\mathbf{a}$ of the moving particle is called its *normal acceleration*. It is directed along the principal normal to the path at point M being considered, toward

the centre of curvature (1.2.4) of the path. Therefore, an is often called the *centripetal acceleration* of the particle. The normal acceleration equals

$$\mathbf{a}_n = \frac{v^2}{R}\mathbf{n}$$

where $\mathbf{n}$ is the unit vector of the principal normal, and R is the radius of curvature of the path. The normal acceleration characterizes the rate of change in direction of the particles velocity vector.

If the particle travels in a straight line the normal acceleration $\mathbf{a}_n = 0$ and the acceleration is equal to the tangential acceleration of the particle: $\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{a}_\tau$.

1.5 Translational and Rotary Motion of a Rigid Body[1]

1.5.1

Translation is the kind of motion of a rigid body in which any straight line rigidly fixed in the body (for instance, line AB in Figure 1.5), remains parallel to its initial position (A_0B_0). With respect to the earth, a lift cabin (elevator car), lathe tool, and many other items have translational motion. In the translational motion of a rigid rigid body all of its points are displaced in an identical way.

During the infinitely short time dt the radius vectors of these points are changed by the same amount dr. Hence

[1] Only perfectly rigid bodies are dealt with in this section; for the sake of brevity, they have been called simply "rigid bodies".

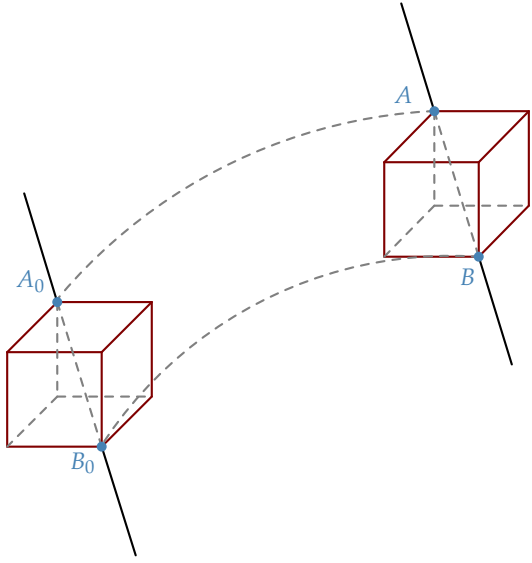


Figure 1.5.: Translational motion of a rigid body.

the velocity of all points of the body is the same in each instant of time and is equal to $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}/\mathrm{d}t$ and consequently, their accelerating is also the same. For this reason, a kinematic discussion of the translational motion of a rigid body reduces to the investigation of the motion of any one of its points, or particles. Dynamics usually deals with the motion of the centre of mass of the body (2.3.3). A rigid body travel ling freely in space has three translational degrees of

freedom (1.2.7), corresponding to its translational motions along the three coordinate axes.

1.5.2

The motion of a rigid body in which two of its points, A and B, remain fixed is called *rotation (or rotary motion) of the body about a fixed axis*. The fixed straight line AB is the axis of rotation. In the rotation of a rigid body about a fixed axis all the points of the body describe circles whose centres lie on the axis of rotation and whose planes are perpendicular to this axis. The rotors of turbines, motors and generators, for example, have rotary motion with respect to the earth if these machines are rigidly mounted.

A rigid body rotating about a fixed axis has only one degree of freedom (1.2.7). Its position in space can be completely defined by specifying the angle of rotation (position angle) φ from some definite (initial) position.

1.5.3

The angular velocity serves to characterize the rate and direction of rotation of a body about an axis. The *angular velocity* is the vector $\boldsymbol{\omega}$, which is equal in magnitude to the first derivative of the angle of rotation φ with respect to time t and is directed along the fixed axis of rotation in such a way that from its head the rotation of the body is

counterclockwise (Fig. 1.6)[2]:

$$\boldsymbol{\omega} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi}}{\mathrm{d}t} \text{ and } \omega = \frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

Here $\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi}$ is the vector of an element of rotation of the body during the time dt. This vector is directed along the axis of rotation, also according to the right-hand screw rule (Figure 1.6). Axial vectors $\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi}$ and $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ have no definite points of application: they can be laid off from any point on the axis of rotation. In Figure 1.6 they are laid off from a certain point O of the fixed axis of rotation. This point is also taken as the origin of the reference frame.

Rotation of a body is said to be *uniform* if the magnitude of its angular velocity remains constant with time $\omega = \text{const}$. In this case the angle of rotation of the body is linearly dependent on time: $\varphi = \omega t$.

1.5.4

An arbitrary point M of a rigid body rotating about fixed axis OZ with the angular velocity $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ describes a circle of radius ρ with its centre at point O' (Figure 1.7). As distinct from the angular velocity of the body, the velocity $\mathbf{v}$ of

[2]The direction of vector $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ can also be determined by the *right-hand screw rule*. It coincides with the direction of transla tional motion of a right-hand screw rotating together with the body. Vectors like $\boldsymbol{\omega}$, whose direction is related to the direction of rotation and is reversed in transforming from a right-handed to a left-handed system of coordinates, are called *pseudovectors*, or *axial vectors* (in distinction to ordinary, *polar vectors*, which are not reversed in the above-mentioned transformation of coor dinates). For example, the vector product of two polar vectors is a pseudovector, and that of a pseudovector and a polar vector is a polar vector.

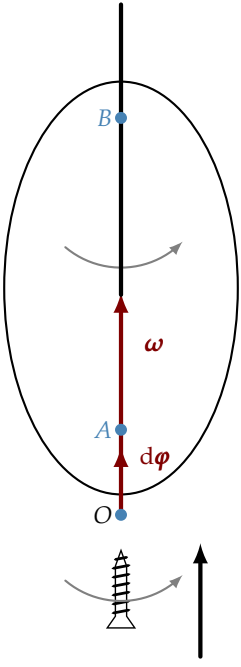


Figure 1.6.: Angular velocity and right-hand rule.

point M is often called the *linear velocity*. It is perpendicular both to the axis of rotation (i.e. to vector $\boldsymbol{\omega}$) and to radius vector $\boldsymbol{\rho}$, from the centre O' of the circle to point M, and is equal to their vector product:

$$\mathbf{v} = [\boldsymbol{\omega}\boldsymbol{\rho}] = [\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}] \text{ and } v = \omega\rho$$

Here $\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{OO'} + \boldsymbol{\rho}$ and is the radius vector of point M, from point O of the axis of rotation. Point O is taken as the origin of coordinates.

1.5.5

The *period of revolution* is the time interval T required for a body, rotating uniformly at the angular velocity ω, to complete one revolution about its axis of rotation (i.e. to rotate through the angle $\varphi = 2\pi$):

$$T = \frac{2\pi}{\omega}$$

The *rotational speed* $n = 1/T = \omega/2\pi$ is the number of revolutions made by a body in unit time in uniform rotation at the angular velocity ω.

1.5.6

The rotation of a rigid body in which one of its points remains fixed is said to be *rotation about a fixed point*. This point is usually taken as the origin of the fixed reference frame. In such rotation, all the points of the body travel along the surfaces of concentric spheres whose centre is at the fixed point.

At each instant of time, this motion of the rigid body can be regarded as rotation about a certain axis that passes through the fixed point and is called the instantaneous axis of rotation. In the general case, the position of the *instantaneous axis of rotation* varies with respect to both a fixed reference frame and one rigidly fixed in the rotating body.

The velocity $\mathbf{v}$ of arbitrary point M of such a body is

$$\mathbf{v} = [\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}] \text{ and } v = \omega\rho.$$

Here $\boldsymbol{\omega} = \mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi}/\mathrm{d}t$ is the angular velocity of the body and is directed along the instantaneous axis of rotation as is the vector $\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi}$ of an element of rotation of the body during the infinitely short time $\mathrm{d}t$, $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector from fixed point O, about which the body rotates, to point M, and ρ is the distance from point M to the instantaneous axis of rotation. Such a body can have three independent motions: it can rotate about each of three mutually perpendicular axes passing through fixed point O. It consequently has three degrees of freedom (1.2.7).

1.5.7

The *angular acceleration* vector $\boldsymbol{\epsilon}$ is introduced to indicate the rate of change of the angular velocity vector with time in nonuniform rotation of a body about a fixed axis or its rotation about a fixed point. Vector $\boldsymbol{\epsilon}$ is equal to the first derivative of the angular velocity $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ of the body with respect to the time t:

$$\boldsymbol{\epsilon} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\omega}}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

If the body rotates about a fixed axis, vector $\boldsymbol{\epsilon}$ is directed along this axis. It coincides in direction with $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ in accelerated rotation ($\mathrm{d}\omega/\mathrm{d}t > 0$) and is opposite to $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ in direction in decelerated rotation ($\mathrm{d}\omega/\mathrm{d}t < 0$). The projection of the angular acceleration on the fixed axis OZ of rotation is

equal to

$$\epsilon_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}\omega_z}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

where ω_z is the projection of vector $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ on the same axis.

1.5.8

As distinct from the angular acceleration, the acceleration a of arbitrary point M of a rigid body rotating about fixed point O, or about a fixed axis passing through point O, is often called the *linear acceleration*. It equals

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}[\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}] = \mathbf{a}_r + \mathbf{a}_{\mathrm{ax}}$$

where $\mathbf{a}_r = [\boldsymbol{\epsilon}\mathbf{r}]$ is the *rotary acceleration* of the point, and $\mathbf{a}_{\mathrm{ax}} = [\boldsymbol{\omega}[\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}]]$ is its *axipetal acceleration*, which is directed toward the instantaneous axis of rotation. If the body rotates about the fixed axis OZ (Figure 1.7), the rotary acceleration of point M coincides with its tangential acceleration $\mathbf{a}_\tau$ (1.4.5), and its axipetal acceleration coincides with its normal acceleration (1.4.6):

$$\mathbf{a}_\tau = [\boldsymbol{\epsilon}\mathbf{r}] = [\boldsymbol{\epsilon}\boldsymbol{\rho}] \text{ and } \mathbf{a}_n = -\boldsymbol{\omega}^2\boldsymbol{\rho}$$

1.5.9

Any complex motion of a rigid body can be broken down into two simple motions: translational motion at the velocity $\mathbf{v}_A$ of a certain arbitrarily chosen point A of the body and rotation about an instantaneous axis passing through

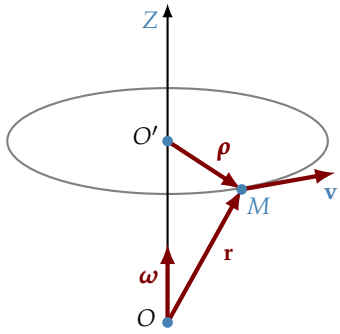


Figure 1.7.: Relation between linear and rotational acceleration.

this point. The angular velocity $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ of rotation is independent of the choice of point A. The velocity of arbitrary point M of the body is

$$\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}_A + [\boldsymbol{\omega}(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_A)]$$

where $\mathbf{r}$ and $\mathbf{r}_A$ are the radius vectors of points M and A.

In the dynamics of a rigid body it usually proves convenient to deal with its complex motion as the combination of two simultaneous motions: translational motion at the velocity of the bodys centre of mass (2.3.3) and rotation about the centre of mass.

The simplest case of complex motion of a body is *plane*, or *plane-parallel*, *motion*, in which all the points of the body travel in parallel planes. This is the motion, for instance, of a homogeneous circular cylinder rolling down an inclined plane. In plane motion the direction of the instantaneous

axis of rotation of the body about point A remains constant and vectors $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ and $\mathbf{v}_A$ are perpendicular to each other.

2 Newton's Laws

2.1 Newton's First Law. Inertial Frames of Reference

2.1.1

As the *first law of dynamics* Newton took a law that had already been established by Galileo: a particle persistsing its state of rest or uniform motion in a straight line until the action of other bodies compel it to change that state.

Newtons first law indicates that no external action is required to maintain a state of rest or of uniform motion in a straight line. This manifests a special dynamic property of bodies, called their *inertia*. Newtons first law is consequently called the *law of inertia*, and the motion of a body not subject to the action of other bodies is said to be *inertial motion*.

2.1.2

Mechanical motion is relative: its nature may differ for different frames of reference (1.2.1) that are moving in relation to each other. An astronaut, for instance, on board a man-made satellite orbiting the earth, may be at rest in a reference frame fixed in the satellite. At the same time, he is travelling together with the satellite with respect to the earth along an elliptic orbit, i.e. not with uniform motion and not in a straight line. It is thus obvious that Newtons first law does not hold for any frame of reference. A ball, for example, lying on the smooth floor of a stateroom in a ship travelling with uniform motion at sea in a straight line, may suddenly start moving along the floor without being subject to the action of any other bodies. This will occur when the velocity of the ship, i.e. its speed and/or direction, begins to change.

A frame of reference with respect to which a particle, not subject to external action, remains at rest or moves uniformly in a straight line is called an *inertial frame of reference*. The content of Newtons first law reduces, in essence, to two statements: in the first place, that all material bodies possess the property of inertia, and secondly, that inertial reference frames exist.

2.1.3

Any two inertial reference frames can move only with translational motion with respect to each other, and only uniformly in a straight line. It has been experimentally established that the *heliocentric frame of reference* is practically

inertial. The origin of its coordinate system is located at the centre of mass (2.3.3) of the solar system (approximately at the centre of the sun) and the three axes extend in the directions of three distant stars selected, for example, so that these coordinate axes are mutually perpendicular.

A *laboratory frame of reference*, whose coordinate axes are rigidly fixed in the earth, is noninertial chiefly owing to the earths diurnal (daily) rotation. But the earth rotates so slowly that the maximum normal acceleration (1.4.6) of points on its surface due to diurnal rotation does not exceed $0.034\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$. Therefore, in the great majority of practical problems, the laboratory reference frame can be regarded as being approximately inertial.

2.1.4

Inertial reference frames are of prime importance in all branches of physics, not only mechanics. This is due to the fact that according to Einsteins principle of relativity (5.1.2) the mathematical expression of any physical law should have the same form in ail inertial reference frames. Hence, in the following we shall make use of only inertial frames of reference, without stipulation each time. The laws of motion of a particle with respect to a noninertial reference frame is dealt with in Chapter 7.

2.2 Force

2.2.1

Force is a vector quantity which is a measure of the mechanical action exerted on the body being considered by other bodies. Mechanical interaction can be accomplished either be tween bodies in direct contact (for instance, in friction, and in the pressure of bodies against one another), or between remote bodies. A special form of matter, connecting particles of matter into unified systems and transmitting the action of certain particles on others at finite velocities, is called a *physical field*, or simply *field*. Interaction between remote bodies is accomplished by the gravitational or electromagnetic fields they set up (for example, the attraction of the planets to the sun, and the inter action of charged bodies or current-carrying conductors). Mechanical action exerted on a given body by other bodies can be manifested in two ways. In the first place, it can lead to a change in the state of mechanical motion of the body being considered, and secondly, to its deformation. Both of these elects can serve as the basis for measuring forces. For example, the measurement of forces by means of a spring dynamometer is based on Hookes law (**??**) for axial tension.

Using the concept of force, we usually speak in mechanics of the motion and deformation of a body by the action of the forces applied to it. Here, of course, each force always corresponds to a certain body exerting this force on the body being considered.

Force **F** is completely specified by giving its magnitude, direction in space and point of application. The straight line along which a force is exerted is called its *line of action*.

A field acting on a particle with the force **F** is said to be

steady, or *stationary*, if it does not change in the course of time t, i.e. if force $\mathbf{F}$ is explicitly independent of time at any point in the held: $\partial \mathbf{F} / \partial t \equiv 0$. For a held to be steady it is necessary that the bodies which set it up are at rest with respect to the reference frame used in considering the held.

2.2.2

The simultaneous action of several forces, $\mathbf{F_1}, \mathbf{F_2}, \mathbf{F_3}, \ldots \mathbf{F_n}$ (Figure 2.1 (a)) on a particle M is equivalent to the action of a single force, called the *resultant force* and equal to the vector sum of the component forces. Thus

$$\mathbf{F} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F_i}$$

It is the closing line of the polygon of forces $\mathbf{F_1}, \mathbf{F_2}, \mathbf{F_3}, \ldots \mathbf{F_n}$ (Figure 2.1 (b)).

If a body is perfectly rigid, the action of a force on it does not change when the point of application is displaced along the line of action, but within the limits of the body. In other words, forces applied to perfectly rigid bodies can be regarded as non-localized vectors.

2.2.3

A body is said to be *free* if no limitations are imposed on its position and motion in space. An airplane, for example, Hying in the air is a free body, as is a submarine travelling in the depths of the sea. Most bodies that we deal with are not free; certain limitations are imposed on their possible positions and motion. These limitations are called

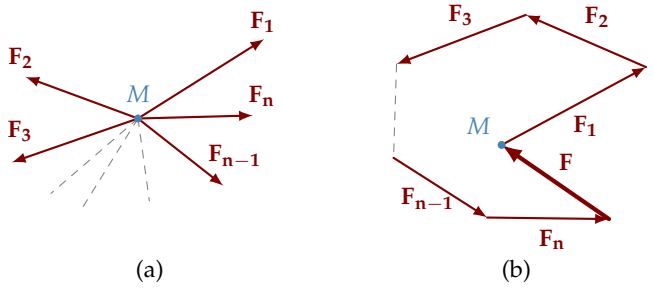


Figure 2.1.: Resultant force is equal to vector sum of the component forces.

constraints in mechanics. A ball, for example, hung on a nonextensible thread, can not move away from its point of suspension by more than the length of the thread; a streetcar (tram) must travel only along its tracks. Constraints are realized due to the action on the body being considered exerted by other bodies attached to or contacting this body (for instance, the thread on the ball tied to it, the track on the streetcar, etc.).

In investigating the behaviour of constrained bodies or systems of bodies in mechanics, the *principle of releasability* is applied. It states that a restrained body (or system of bodies) can be treated as a free body (or system) if the bodies imposing the constraints are replaced by the corresponding forces. These forces are called *reaction forces* of the constraints, or *constraint reactions*. All other forces exerted on the body are called *active forces*. Thus, the motion of the

ball hung by the thread can be treated as the motion of a free ball subject, in addition to all the active forces applied to it (for instance, gravity), to the reaction of the thread as well.

In contrast to the active forces, which should he given in each specific problem, the constraint reactions are not known beforehand. They are to be determined in solving the problem. Their values should be such that under the combined effects of the active forces and constraint reactions, the motion of the "released" body completely agrees with the limitations imposed by the constraints on the constrained body being considered. There are no other distinctions between constraint reactions and active forces.

2.2.4

Bodies not included in the mechanical system being investigated are called *external bodies*. Forces exerted on the system by external bodies are called *external forces*. Correspondingly, forces of interaction between the parts or particles of the system being considered are called *internal forces*.

A mechanical system is said to be *closed*, or *isolated*, if it does not interact with external bodies. No external forces act on any of the bodies of a closed system.

2.3 Mass. Momentum

2.3.1

In classical (Newtonian) mechanics, the *mass of a particle* (material point) is a positive scalar quantity which is a measure of the inertia of this particle. Under the action of a force the velocity of a particle changes *gradually*, not instantaneously, i.e. it acquires an acceleration *finite* in magnitude and inversely proportional to the mass of the particle. To compare the masses, m_1 and m_2, of two particles, it is sufficient to measure the magnitudes a_1 and a_2 of the accelerations acquired by these particles when the same force is applied to them: $m_2/m_1 = a_1/a_2$. The mass of a body is ordinarily determined by weighing by beam scales.

Classical (Newtonian) mechanics contends that:

(a) the mass of a particle is independent of its state of motion, being its unalterable characteristic;

(b) mass is an additive quantity, i.e. the mass of a system (for instance, a body) is equal to the sum of the masses of all the particles making up the system;

(c) the mass of an isolated (closed) system (2.2.4) does not change with any processes occurring within the system (*law of conservation of mass*).

These propositions of Newtonian mechanics were reconsidered and revised in relativistic mechanics (5.6.1, 5.6.2, 5.7.3 and 5.7.6).

2.3.2

The density ρ of a body at a given point M is the ratio of the mass dm of an infinitely small element of the body, which includes point M, to the quantity dV, which is the volume of this element. Thus

$$\rho = \frac{dm}{dV}$$

The size of the element being considered should be so small that any variation of density within its limits can be neglected. On the other hand, this size should he a great many times larger than intermolecular distances.

A body is said to be *homogeneous* if the density is constant at all of its points. The mass of a homogeneous body is the product of its density by its volume: $m = \rho V$.

The mass of a nonhomogeneous body is

$$m = \int_{(V)} \rho dV$$

where ρ is a function of the coordinates, and integrating is carried out over the whole volume of the body. The average density $\langle \rho \rangle$ of a nonhomogeneous body is the ratio of its mass to its volume: $\langle \rho \rangle = m/V$.

2.3.3

The centre of inertia, or centre of mass, of a system of particles is point C, whose radius vector $\mathbf{r}_c$ equals

$$\mathbf{r}_C = \frac{1}{m} \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i \mathbf{r}_i$$

where m_i and $\mathbf{r}_i$ are the mass and radius vector of the ith particle, n is the total number of particles in the system, and $m = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i$ is the mass of the whole system.

The velocity of the centre of mass is

$$\mathbf{v}_C = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}_C}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{1}{m}\sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i \mathbf{v}_i$$

2.3.4

The vector quantity $\mathbf{p}_i$, equal to the product of the mass m_i of a particle by its velocity $\mathbf{v}_i$, is called the *momentum of this particle*. The momentum of a system of particles is the vector $\mathbf{p}$, which is the geometric sum of the momenta of all the particles making up the system:

$$\mathbf{p} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{p}_i$$

The momentum of a system is equal to the product of the mass of the whole system by the velocity of its centre of mass: $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}_C$.

2.4 Newton's Second Law

2.4.1

The basic law of the dynamics of a particle is Newtons second law, which discusses how the mechanical motion of a particle is changed by the effect of forces applied to it. *Newton's second law* states: the rate of change in the

momentum p of a particle is equal to the force **F** acting on it. Thus

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{p}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{F} \text{ or } \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}(m\mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{F}$$

where m and **v** are the mass and velocity of the particle.

If several forces act simultaneously on a particle, the force **F** in Newtons second law is understood to he the geometric sum of all acting forces, both active forces and constraint reactions (2.2.3), i.e. the resultant force (2.2.2).

2.4.2

The vector quantity $\mathbf{F}\mathrm{d}t$ is called an element of *impulse of force* **F** during the infinitely short time $\mathrm{d}t$ of its action. The impulse of force **F** acting in the finite time interval from $t = t_1$ to $t = t_2$ is equal to the definite integral $\int_{t_1}^{t_2} \mathbf{F}\mathrm{d}t$, where **F**, in the general case, depends upon the time t.

According to Newtons second law, the change in the momentum of a particle is equal to the impulse of the force acting on it:

$$\mathrm{d}\mathbf{p} = \mathbf{F}\mathrm{d}t = \Delta\mathbf{p} = \mathbf{p}_2 - \mathbf{p}_1 = \int_{t_1}^{t_2} \mathbf{F}\mathrm{d}t$$

where $\mathbf{p}_2 = \mathbf{p}(t_2)$ and $\mathbf{p}_1 = \mathbf{p}(t_1)$ are the values of the momentum of a particle at the end $t = t_2$ and beginning $t = t_1$ of Ihe time interval being considered.

2.4.3

Since in Newtonian mechanics the mass m of a particle is independent of its state of motion, $\mathrm{d}m/\mathrm{d}t = 0$. Hence, the

mathematical expression of Newtons second law can also be presented in the form

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m}$$

where $\mathbf{a} = d\mathbf{v}/dt = d^2\mathbf{r}/dt^2$ is the acceleration of the particle and $\mathbf{r}$ is its radius vector. The corresponding statement of *Newton's second law reads*: the acceleration of a particle coincides in direction with the force acting on it and is equal to the ratio of this force to the mass of the particle. The tangential and normal accelerations of a particle (1.4.4, 1.4.5 and 1.4.6) are determined by the corresponding components of force **F**:

$$\mathbf{a}_\tau = \frac{\mathbf{F}_\tau}{m},\ a_\tau = \frac{dv}{dt} = \frac{F_\tau}{m}$$

and

$$\mathbf{a}_n = \frac{\mathbf{F}_n}{m},\ a_n = \frac{v^2}{R} = \frac{F_n}{m}$$

where v is Ihe magnitude of the particles velocity vector, and R is the radius of curvature of its path. The force F_n, imparting normal acceleration to a particle, is directed toward the centre of curvature (1.2.4) of the particles path and is therefore called the *centripetal force*.

2.4.4

If a particle is subject to the simultaneous action of sev eral forces, $\mathbf{F_1}$, $\mathbf{F_2}$, $\mathbf{F_3}$, ... $\mathbf{F_n}$, its acceleration is

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{1}{m}\sum_{l=1}^{n}\mathbf{F}_l = \sum_{l=1}^{n}\mathbf{a}_l$$

where $\mathbf{a}_l = \mathbf{F}_l / m$. Consequently, each of the forces acting simultaneously on a particle imparts to it the acceleration it would have if there were no other forces (*principle of superposition, or independence, of forces*).

The equation

$$m\frac{\mathrm{d}^2\mathbf{r}}{\mathrm{d}t^2} = \mathbf{F} = \sum_{l=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_l$$

is called the *differential equation of motion of a particle*.

In projections on the axes of a rectangular Cartesian coordinate system, this equation is of the form

$$m\frac{\mathrm{d}^2x}{\mathrm{d}t^2} = F_x,\ m\frac{\mathrm{d}^2y}{\mathrm{d}t^2} = F_y,\ m\frac{\mathrm{d}^2z}{\mathrm{d}t^2} = F_z$$

where x, y and z are the coordinates of the moving particle.

2.5 Newton's Third Law. Motion of the Centre of Mass

2.5.1

The mechanical action exerted by bodies on one another is of the nature of their *interaction*. This is what *Newton's third law* deals with: two particles exert forces on each other which are equal in magnitude and opposite in direction along a line connecting these particles.

If $\mathbf{F}_{ik}$ is a force exerted on the ith particle by the kth one, and $\mathbf{F}_{ki}$ is, the force exerted on the kth particle by the ith one, then, according to Newtons third law,

$$\mathbf{F}_{ki} = -\mathbf{F}_{ik}$$

Forces $\mathbf{F}_{ik}$ and $\mathbf{F}_{ki}$ are applied to different particles and can be mutually counterbalanced only when particles i and k belong to the same perfectly rigid body.

2.5.2

Newtons third law is an essential supplement to the first and second laws. It permits us to go over from the dynamics of a separate particle to that of an arbitrary mechanical system (system of particles). It follows from Newtons third law that in any mechanical system the geometric sum of all the internal forces (2.2.4) equals zero:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n} \sum_{k=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_{ik} = 0$$

where n is the number of particles in the system, and $\mathbf{F}_{ii} = 0$. The vector $\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$, equal to the vector sum of all the external forces (2.2.4) acting on the system, is called the *principal vector of external forces*:

$$\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_i^{\text{ext}}$$

where $\mathbf{F}_i^{\text{ext}}$ is the resultant external force applied to the ith particle.

2.5.3

It follows from Newtons first and second laws that the first derivative with respect to the time t of the momentum $\mathbf{p}$ of

a mechanical system (2.3.4) is equal to the principal vector of all external forces applied to the system. Thus

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{p}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$$

This equation expresses the *law of the change in the momentum of a system*.

Since $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}_c$, where m is the mass of a system and $\mathbf{v}_c$ is the velocity of its centre of inertia, or mass, the *law of motion of the centre of mass* of a mechanical system is of the form

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}(m\mathbf{v}_c) = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \text{ or } m\mathbf{a}_c = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$$

where $\mathbf{a}_c = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}_c/\mathrm{d}t$ is the acceleration of the centre of mass. Thus, the centre of mass (centre of inertia) of a mechanical system travels like a particle whose mass is equal to the mass of the whole system and which is subject to a force equal to the principal vector of the external forces applied to the system. If the system being considered is a rigid body that travels with translational motion (1.5.1), the velocities $\mathbf{v}_i$of all the points of the body and $\mathbf{v}_c$ of its centre of mass are the same and are equal to velocity $\mathbf{v}$ of the body. Correspondingly, the acceleration of the body $\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{a}_c$ and the *basic equation in the dynamics of translational motion of a rigid body* is of the form $m\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$.

2.6 Motion of a Body of Variable Mass

2.6.1

In Newtonian mechanics the mass of a body can be changed only if particles of matter are detached from or added to

it. An example of such a body is a rocket. In its flight the mass of the rocket is gradually reduced because the gaseous products of combustion in the rocket engine are ejected through the nozzles.

The equation of translational motion of a body of variable mass (Meshchersky equation) is

$$m\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{F}^{\mathrm{ext}} + (\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v})\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

where m and $\mathbf{v}$ are the mass and velocity of the body at the instant of time being considered, $\mathbf{F}^{\mathrm{ext}}$ is the principal vector of the external forces (2.5.2) acting on the body, and $\mathbf{v}_1$ is the velocity of the detracted particles *after separation* from the rocket (if $\mathrm{d}m/\mathrm{d}t < 0$) or the added particles *before being joined* (if $\mathrm{d}m/\mathrm{d}t > 0$).

2.6.2

The second member on the right-hand side of the Me shchersky equation represents the additional force acting on a body of variable mass. It is called the *reactive force*:

$$\mathbf{F}_{\mathrm{r}} = (\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v})\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{u}\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

where $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}$ is the relative velocity of the particles being separated from or joined to the body, i.e. their velocity with respect to a reference frame in translational motion together with the body.

The reactive force characterizes the mechanical action exerted on the body by the particles separated from or joined to it (for instance, the effect of the ejected exhaust gases on the rocket).

2.6.3

The equation of motion of a rocket not subject to the action of external forces is

$$m\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{u}\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

If the initial velocity of the rocket is zero the rocket flies in a straight line in the direction opposite to that of the relative velocity $\mathbf{u}$ of the exhaust gases ejected from the engine nozzle. Here

$$m\frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}t} = -u\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

and at $\mathbf{u} = \text{const}$ the relation between the velocity of the rocket and its mass is expressed by *Tsiolkovsky's formula*

$$v = u\ln\frac{m_0}{m}$$

where m_0 is the initial, or launching, mass of the rocket.

2.6.4

The maximum velocity that a rocket can reach in the absence of external forces is called its *characteristic velocity*. This velocity is acquired at the moment the rocket engine stops because it has used up all the fuel and oxidizer that were on board,

$$v_{\max} = u\ln\frac{m_0}{m_0 - m_{\mathrm{f}}}$$

where m_f is the initial mass of the fuel and oxidizer. The effects of the earths gravity and air resistance lead to an appreciable reduction in the maximum velocity actually acquired by the rocket, during the operation of its engine, as compared to the characteristic velocity.

2.6.5

The *characteristic velocity of a multistage* (combination) *rocket* is

$$v_{max} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} u_i \ln \frac{m_{0i}}{m_{0i} - m_{fi}}$$

where n is the total number of stages of the rocket, m_{fi} is the mass of the fuel and oxidizer intended for the operation of the ith stage engine, u_i is the exhaust gas velocity (nozzle velocity) of the ith stage engine, and m_{0i} is the launching mass of the multistage rocket, including all the stages from the ith to the nth. The velocity increase of a multistage rocket, compared to that of a single-stage one having the same launching mass and the same fuel and oxidizer capacity, is due to the reduction in the mass of the rocket as the first, second and subsequent stages are consecutively jettisoned when their fuel has been exhausted.

2.7 Law of Conservation of Momentum

2.7.1

The *law of conservation of momentum* is: the momentum $\mathbf{p}$ of a closed, or isolated, system does not change in the course

of time, i.e.

$$\frac{d\mathbf{p}}{dt} \equiv 0 \text{ and } \mathbf{p} = \text{const}$$

In contrast to Newtons laws, the law, or principle, of conservation of momentum is valid not only within the framework of classical mechanics. It belongs to the most fundamental of physical laws because it is concerned with a definite property of the symmetry of space: its homogeneity. The *homogeneity of space* is manifested in the fact that the physical properties of a closed system and the laws of its motion are independent of the choice of position of the origin of the inertial reference frame, i.e. these properties and laws are unchanged by a parallel translation of the closed system as a whole in space. According to modern concepts, fields can also have momentum, not only particles and bodies. Light, for example, exerts a pressure on the surface of a body that reflects or absorbs it because the electromagnetic field of the light wave has momentum.

2.7.2

In application to systems described by classical (Newtonian) mechanics, the principle of conservation of momentum can be regarded as a consequence of Newtons laws. For a closed mechanical system the principal vector of external forces

$\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$ and the principle of conservation of momentum follows from (2.5.3):

$$\mathbf{p} = \sum i = 1 n m_i \mathbf{v}_i = \text{const}$$

where m_i and $\mathbf{v}_i$ are the mass and velocity of the ith particle of the system, which consists of n particles.

Consequently, there is also no change in the projections of the momentum of a closed system onto the axes of Cartesian coordinates of an inertial reference frame:

$$p_x = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i v_{ix} = \text{const}$$

$$p_y = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i v_{iy} = \text{const}$$

$$p_z = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i v_{iz} = \text{const}$$

The momentum of the system is $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}_c$, where m is the mass of the system and $\mathbf{v}_c$ is the velocity of its centre of mass (2.3.4). It follows, therefore, from the principle of conservation of momentum that in any processes occurring within a closed system the velocity of its centre of mass does not change: $\mathbf{v}_c = \text{const}$.

2.7.3

If a system is not closed, hut the external forces acting on it are such that their principal vector is identically zero ($\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$), then, according to Newtons laws (2.5.3), the momentum of the system does not change with time: $\mathbf{p} = \text{const}$.

As a rule, $\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \not\equiv 0$ and $\mathbf{p} \neq \text{const}$. But if the projection of the principal vector of external forces onto any fixed axis is identically zero, the projection onto the same axis of

the momentum vector of the system does not change with time. Thus, $p_x = \text{const}$ under the condition that $F_x^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$. If, for instance, no other external forces, except gravity, are acting on a system, the horizontal component of the momentum of the system, perpendicular to the direction of the gravitational force, remains constant.

2.7.4

In some processes (e.g. collisions or in firing shells, etc.), the momenta of the parts of the system undergo great changes in relatively short time intervals. This is due to internal forces of interaction, of short duration, but of quite considerable magnitude, developed within the system. In comparison with these forces, all external forces acting continuously on the system (for instance, gravity) are small. In such processes, the action of the system of external forces can usually be ignored, i.e. it can be assumed that the momentum of the system as a whole is not changed in the process being considered.

2.8 Galilean Transformations. Mechanical Principle of Relativity

2.8.1

A *Galilean transformation* is a transformation of coordinates and time that is applied in Newtonian mechanics in going over from one inertial frame of reference $K(x, y, z, t)$ to another $K'(x, y', z', t')$ which travels with translational motion with respect to K at the constant velocity $\mathbf{V}$. The

Galilean transformation is based on axioms concerning the absolute nature of time intervals and of lengths. The first axiom contends that the passage of time (time interval between any two events) is the same in all inertial frames of reference. According to the second axiom, the dimensions of a body are independent of its velocity of motion with respect to the frame of reference. If the like axes of

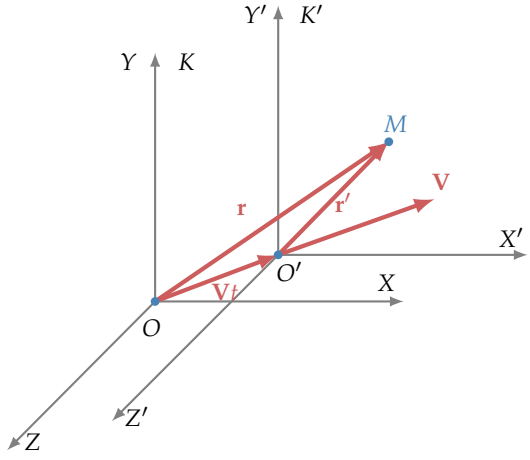


Figure 2.2.: A general Galilean transformation between two frames of reference K and K' moving with a constant velocity $\mathbf{V}$.

Cartesian coordinates of inertial reference frames K and K' are drawn parallel to one another pairwise and if at the initial instant of time $(t = t' = 0)$ the origins O and O'

of coordinates coincide with each other (Figure 2.2), the Galilean transformations are of the form:

$$x' = x - V_x t,\ y' = y - V_y t,\ z' = z - V_z t \text{ and } t' = t \text{ or}$$
$$\mathbf{r}' = \mathbf{r} - \mathbf{V}t \text{ and } t' = t,$$

where x, y, z and x', y', z' are the coordinates of point M in the frames of reference K (at the instant of time t) and K' (at the instant of time $t' = t$), $\mathbf{r}$ and $\mathbf{r}'$ are the radius vectors of point M in the same frames of reference, and V_x, V_y and V_z are the projections of the velocity $\mathbf{V}$ of reference frame K' onto the coordinate axes of reference frame K.

The coordinate axes are usually arranged so that frame of reference K' travels along the positive direction of axis OX (Figure 2.3). Under this condition the Galilean transformations are of their simplest form:

$$x = x - Vt,\ y' = y,\ z = z \text{ and } t' = t$$

2.8.2

A consequence of the Galilean transformations is the following law for transforming the velocity of arbitrary point M (Figure **??**) in going over from one inertial frame of reference K (the velocity of the point is $\mathbf{v} = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}/\mathrm{d}t$) to another K' (in which the velocity of the same point is $\mathbf{v}' = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}'/\mathrm{d}t$):

$$\mathbf{v}' = \mathbf{v} - \mathbf{V}$$

The projections of the velocity on like coordinate axes are transformed accordingly:

$$v'_{x'} = v_x - V_x,\ v'_{y'} = v_y - V_y \text{ and } v'_{z'} = v_z - V_z$$

In particular, when reference frame K' travels along the positive direction of axis OX (Figure 2.3)

$$v'_{x'} = v_x - V,\ v'_{y'} = v_y \text{ and } v'_{z'} = v_z$$

The accelerations of point M in frames of reference $K'(\mathbf{a} = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}/\mathrm{d}t)$ and $K'(\mathbf{a}' = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}'/\mathrm{d}t)$ are the same: $\mathbf{a}' = \mathbf{a}$.

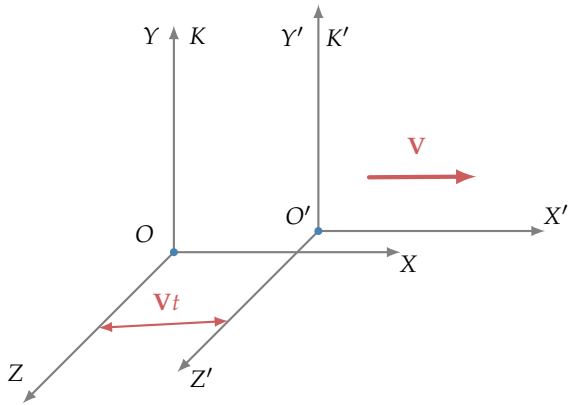


Figure 2.3.: Galilean transformation between two frames of reference K and K' when K' travels along direction of axis OX.

Hence, the acceleration of a particle is independent of the choice of the inertial frame of reference or, in other words, it is invariant with respect to Galilean transformations.

2.8.3

The forces of interaction between particles depend only upon their relative position and their velocity with respect to one another. The relative position of any two particles, 2 and 1, is represented by a vector equal to the difference between the radius vectors of the two particles, i.e. to the vector $\mathbf{r}_{21} = \mathbf{r}_2 - \mathbf{r}_1$ in reference frame K and to the vector $\mathbf{r}'_{21} = \mathbf{r}'_2 - \mathbf{r}'_1($ in reference frame K'. It follows from the Galilean transformations that $\mathbf{r}_{21} = \mathbf{r}'_{21} - \mathbf{r}_{21}$. Therefore, the distance between particles 1 and 2 is the same in reference frames K and K':

$$\mathbf{r}'_{21} = \mathbf{r}_{21} = \text{ or}$$
$$(x'_2 - x'_1)^2 + (y'_2 - y'_1)^2 + (z'_2 - z'_1)^2$$
$$= (x_2 - x_1)^2 + (y_2 - y_1)^2 + (z_2 - z_1)^2$$

The velocity of particle 2 with respect to particle 1 is equal to the difference of the velocities of these two particles: $\mathbf{v}_2 - \mathbf{v}_1$(in reference frame K) and $\mathbf{v}'_2 - \mathbf{v}'_1$ (in reference frame K'). It follows from the Galilean transformations that $\mathbf{v}'_2 - \mathbf{v}'_1 = \mathbf{v}_2 - \mathbf{v}_1$.

Thus, the relative position and the velocity of relative motion of any two particles are independent of the choice of inertial reference frame; they are invariant under a Galilean transformation. Accordingly, the forces acting on a particle are also invariant under a Galilean transformation: $\mathbf{F}' = \mathbf{F}$.

2.8.4

Equations expressing Newtons laws (2.4.3) and (2.5.1) are invariant with respect to Galilean transformations, i.e. their

form is unchanged in transforming the coordinates and time from one inertial frame of reference (K) to another (K'):

$$m\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{F} \text{ and } \mathbf{F}_{ki} = -\mathbf{F}_{ik}$$

(in reference frame K)

$$m'\mathbf{a}' = \mathbf{F}' \text{ and } \mathbf{F}'_{ki} = -\mathbf{F}'_{ik}$$

(in reference frame K')

where $m' = m$ is the mass of the particle being considered and is the same in all frames of reference.

Thus, the *mechanical principle of relativity (Galileo's principle of relativity)* is valid in classical mechanics. It contends that the laws of mechanics are the same in all inertial frames of reference. This implies that under the same conditions all mechanical processes proceed in the same way in different frames of reference. Consequently, it is impossible to establish, by means of any mechanical experiments conducted within a closed system of bodies, whether the system is at rest or is travelling at uniform velocity in a straight line (with respect to any inertial frame of reference whatsoever).

The mechanical principle of relativity points to the fact that all inertial frames of reference are equally valid in mechanics. It is impossible to single out any special, or "main", inertial frame of reference with respect to which the motion of bodies could be regarded as "absolute motion".

2.8.5

The principle of relativity was generalized to include all physical phenomena by Albert Einstein in his special theory of relativity (5.1.2). It was found that coordinates and time in various inertial frames of reference are related by the Lorentz transformations (5.3.2) rather than the Galilean transformations. But at low velocities of relative motion of the frames of reference (in comparison to the velocity of light in free space), the Lorentz transformations become the Galilean transformations.

3 Work And Mechanical Energy

3.1 Energy, Work and Power

3.1.1

Energy is a scalar physical quantity, which is a common measure of the various forms of motion of matter dealt with in physics. The energy of a system quantitatively characterizes this system with respect to the conversions of motion that are possible within it. These conversions take place due to the interaction between parts of the system, both with one another and with external bodies (the environment). The concept of various forms of energy has been introduced in physics to analyze the qualitatively different forms of motion and the interactions corresponding to them. These include: mechanical (3.4.1), internal (9.1.2), electromagnetic (**??**), nuclear (**??**) and various other forms of energy.

3.1.2

The mechanical motion of a body is changed by forces exerted on the body by other bodies. Used in mechanics for a quantitative description of such a process of energy exchange between interacting bodies is the concept of the work done by the forces applied to the body being considered. An *element of work* done by force **F** in the infinitely small displacement $d\mathbf{r}$ is the scalar quantity

$$\delta W = \mathbf{F}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{F}\mathbf{v}\,\mathrm{d}t$$

where **r** and $\mathbf{v} = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}/\mathrm{d}t$ are the radius vector and velocity of the point of the body at which the force is applied, and $\mathrm{d}t$ is the infinitely short time interval during which force **F** performs the work δW (the meaning of the notation δW is given in (3.1.8)). In rectangular Cartesian coordinates

$$\begin{aligned}\delta W &= F_x\mathrm{d}x + F_y\mathrm{d}y + F_z\mathrm{d}z \\ &= (F_x v_x + F_y v_y + F_z v_z)\mathrm{d}t\end{aligned}$$

where x, y and z are the coordinates of the point of application of the force, and F_x, F_y, F_z and v_x, v_y, v_z are the projections of vectors **F** and **v** on the coordinate axes.

3.1.3

The expression for an element of work can also be presented in the form

$$\delta W = F\,\mathrm{d}s\cos\alpha = F_\tau \mathrm{d}s$$

where $\mathrm{d}s = |\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}|$ is an element of the length of the path of the point of force application during the infinitely short

time interval dt, α is the angle between vectors $\mathbf{F}$ and $d\mathbf{r}$, and $F_\tau = F\cos\alpha$ is the projection of the force in the direction of the displacement $d\mathbf{r}$. A force normal to the path of its point of application performs no work.

Force $\mathbf{F}$ is called the *motive force* if $F_\tau > 0$, so that $\delta W > 0$. If $F_\tau < 0$ (so that $\delta W < 0$), force $\mathbf{F}$ is called the *retarding force* (*force of resistance*).

3.1.4

If a mechanical system is subject to the simultaneous action of forces $\mathbf{F}_1$, $\mathbf{F}_2$ ... $\mathbf{F}_n$, the work δW done by them during the infinitely short time dt is equal to the algebraic sum of the work done during the same time dt by each of the forces separately. Thus

$$\delta W = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \delta W_i = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_i d\mathbf{r}_i = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_i \mathbf{v}_i dt$$

where $\mathbf{r}_i$ and $\mathbf{v}_i$ are the radius vector and velocity of the point of application of force $\mathbf{F}_i$.

For example, for a particle $\mathbf{r}_i = \mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector of the particle and $\mathbf{v}_i = \mathbf{v}$ is its velocity. Accordingly, $\delta W = \mathbf{F}d\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{F}\mathbf{v}dt$, where $\mathbf{F} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_i$ is the resultant force (2.2.2). It follows from Newtons second law (2.4.1) that for a particle

$$\delta W = \mathbf{v}d\mathbf{p},$$

where $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}$ is the momentum of the particle, and m is its mass.

In the translational motion of a perfectly rigid body $d\mathbf{r}_i == d\mathbf{r}_C$ and $\mathbf{v}_i = \mathbf{v}_C$, where $\mathbf{r}_C$ and $\mathbf{v}_C$ are the ra-

dius vector and velocity of the centre of mass (2.3.3) of the body.

The work done by internal forces in any motion of a perfectly rigid body equals zero. Hence, in the translational motion of such a body $\delta W = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} d\mathbf{r}_C = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \mathbf{v}_C dt$, where $\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$ is the principal vector of external forces (2.5.2). It follows from the law of motion of the centre of mass (2.5.3) that

$$\delta W = \mathbf{v}_C d\mathbf{p},$$

where $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}_C$ is the momentum of a rigid body of mass m travelling at the velocity $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}_C$.

3.1.5

The work W done by force $\mathbf{F}$ along a finite portion of the path L of its point of application is equal to the algebraic sum of the work done over all the infinitely small portions of this path, i.e. it is expressed by the line integral

$$W = \int_{(L)} \mathbf{F} d\mathbf{r} = \int_0^s F_\tau ds$$

where s is the length of arc measured off along the path from the beginning of the portion of the path being considered, and F_τ the projection of the force onto the direction of displacement $d\mathbf{r}$ of the point of force application.

To calculate this integral it is necessary to know the dependence of F_τ on s along the given path L. If this dependence is represented graphically (Figure 3.2), the required work W is proportional to the hatched area in Figure 3.2.

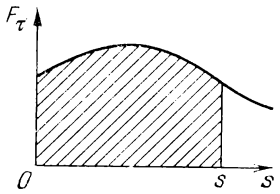


Figure 3.1.: Graphical representation of the resultant work.

3.1.6

Potential-field (conservative) forces are ones whose work depends only on the initial and final positions of their points of application; it depends neither on the shape of the path of these points nor on their laws of motion along this path.

For example, the forces of interaction between the parts (i.e. particles) of a system are said to be potential (conservative) forces if they depend only upon the configuration of the system, i.e. on the relative position of all its particles. The work done by these forces in moving the system from one arbitrary position to another is independent of the kind of displacement, but is completely determined by the initial and final configurations of the system. Examples are the forces of electrostatic and gravitational interaction.

A *steady (stationary)* field (2.2.1) is said to be *potential*, or conservative, if force F, which it exerts on a particle located in the field, is a potential, or conservative force. This implies that force F depends only upon the position of the particle in the field, and that the amounts of work done by force F in displacing the particle from one arbitrary

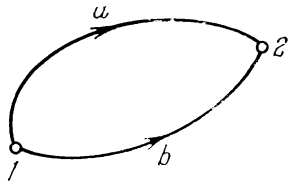


Figure 3.2.: Graphical representation of the resultant work.

position (1) to another (2) (Figure **??**) along any two paths, for instance, 1a2 (work W_{1a2}) and 1b2 (work W_{1b2}), are the same:

$$W_{1a2} = W_{1b2} = \int_1^2 \mathbf{F}\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}}$$

Accordingly, the work done by a conservative force in displacing its point of application along any closed path L (for example, 1a2b1) is equal to zero:

$$\oint\limits_{(L)} \mathbf{F}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r} \equiv 0$$

In the general case, the external bodies that set up the field being considered can be in motion with respect to an inertial frame of reference, so that their field is not stationary, i.e. force **F** depends explicitly on time:

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{F}}{\partial t} \not\equiv 0$$

A *nonstationary field* is a *conservative* one if the work done by force **F** upon instantaneous displacement of its point of

application along any closed path L equals zero:

$$\oint_{(L)} \mathbf{F}\,d\mathbf{r} \equiv 0$$

Here $\mathbf{F}$ depends, not only on the coordinates of the point of application, but on the time as well. To calculate this integral, how ever, time is assumed to be a fixed parameter.

3.1.7

Among the nonconservative forces are dissipative and gyroscopic forces. *Dissipative forces* are ones whose total work done in displacing a closed system in any way is always negative. Such, for instance, are the forces of sliding friction and the forces retarding the motion of bodies in liquids and gases. In contrast to conservative forces, dissipative forces depend, not only on the relative positions of the interacting bodies, but on their relative velocities as well.

Gyroscopic forces are ones that depend upon the velocity of the particle on which they act. They are directed perpendicular to this velocity. An example is the Lorentz force (24.1.1) exerted by a magnetic field on a charged particle travelling in this field. The work done by gyroscopic forces is always equal to zero, regardless of how the particle is displaced.

A mechanical system (system of particles) is said to be *conservative* if all the internal forces in it are conservative ones and all the external forces are both conservative and stationary. Systems that do not satisfy these conditions are said to be *non-conservative*.

3.1.8

An element of work done by force **F**, exerted on a particle by a stationary conservative field, can be represented in the form of an exact differential of a scalar function $\Phi(x, y, z)$ of the coordinates. This is called the force function of the field:

$$\mathbf{F}\,\mathrm{d}r = \mathrm{d}\Phi \quad \text{or}$$
$$F_x\,\mathrm{d}x + F_y\,\mathrm{d}y + F_z\,\mathrm{d}z = \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial x}\,\mathrm{d}x + \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial y}\,\mathrm{d}y + \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial z}\,\mathrm{d}z$$

Hence

$$F_x = \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial x}, \quad F_x = \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial x}, \quad F_x = \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial x} \quad \text{and}$$
$$\mathbf{F} = \boldsymbol{\nabla}\Phi$$

These last relations are also valid for a non-stationary conservative field, whose force function depends, not only on the coordinates, but on time as well: $\Phi = \Phi(x, y, z, t)$. But here

$$\mathbf{F}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r} = \mathrm{d}\Phi - \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial t}\,\mathrm{d}t$$

An element of work done by a nonconservative force cannot be represented in the form of an exact differential of any function whatsoever of the coordinates. This is precisely why an element of work done by an arbitrary force is denoted by δW.

3.1.9

The concept of power is used in mechanics to characterize the amount of work done in unit time. *Power (instantaneous power)* is the scalar physical quantity P. It is equal to the ratio of the element of work δW to the infinitely short time interval $\mathrm{d}t$ during which it is performed:

$$P = \frac{\delta W}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

If $\mathbf{F}$ is the force doing the work δW, the power is the scalar product of force $\mathbf{F}$ by the velocity v of its point of application:

$$P = \mathbf{F}\mathbf{v} = F_\tau v$$

In the general case, power may vary with time.

The *average power* in the time interval from t to $t + \Delta t$ is the physical quantity $\langle P \rangle$, which is equal to the ratio of the work W done during this time interval to the length of this interval Δt:

$$\langle P \rangle = \frac{W}{\Delta t}$$

3.2 Kinetic Energy

3.2.1

The *kinetic energy* of a body is the energy of its mechanical motion. A change in the kinetic energy E_k of a particle due to the action of force F is equal to the work done by this force:

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = \delta W = \mathbf{v}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{p}$$

where $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}$ is the momentum of the particle, and m and $\mathbf{v}$ are its mass and velocity. In Newtonian mechanics $m = \text{const}$ and the expression for the kinetic energy of a particle is of the form

$$E_k = \frac{m\mathbf{v}^2}{2} = \frac{mv^2}{2}$$

Kinetic energy in relativistic mechanics is discussed in (5.7.1).

3.2.2

The kinetic energy of a mechanical system is equal to the sum of the kinetic energies of all the parts of the system. For a system consisting of n particles, for instance,

$$E_k = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{m_i\mathbf{v}_i^2}{2} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{m_i v_i^2}{2}$$

where m_i and $\mathbf{v}_i$ are the mass and velocity of the i-th particle in the system.

The kinetic energy of a body is

$$E_k = \frac{1}{2}\int_{(V)} \rho\mathbf{v}^2 \mathrm{d}V = \frac{1}{2}\int_{(V)} \rho v^2 \mathrm{d}V$$

where $\mathbf{v}$ is the velocity of points of the infinitely small element of volume $\mathrm{d}V$ of the body, whose density is ρ and mass is $\mathrm{d}m = \rho \mathrm{d}V$. Integrating is carried out throughout the whole volume V of the body. If a perfectly rigid body of mass m travels with translational motion at the velocity $\mathbf{v}$, its kinetic energy is $E_k = mv^2/2$. The kinetic energy of rotating bodies is discussed in (4.3.3) and (4.3.5).

3.2.3

The change in the kinetic energy of a mechanical system is equal to the algebraic sum of the amounts of work done by all the external and internal forces acting on the system (2.2.4). Thus

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = \delta W^{\text{ext}} + \delta W^{\text{int}}$$

For example, for a system consisting of n particles

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_i^{\text{ext}} \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}_i = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \sum_{k=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_{ik} \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}_i$$

where $\mathbf{r}_i$ is the radius vector of the i-th particle, $\mathbf{F}_i^{\text{ext}}$ is the resultant of the external forces acting on this particle, and $\mathbf{F}_{ii} = 0$.

If the system is not deformed, then the work done by the internal forces

$$\delta W^{\text{int}} = 0, \text{ and } \mathrm{d}E_k = \delta W^{\text{ext}}$$

For example, the change in the kinetic energy of a perfectly rigid body in translational motion is

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}$$

where $\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$ is the principal vector of external forces (2.5.2), and $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}$ is the vector of an element of displacement of the body.

3.2.4

The kinetic energy of a mechanical system depends upon the choice of the frame of reference. If in the inertial reference frame K the kinetic energy of the system equals E_k and in the reference frame K', travelling with translational motion at the velocity $\mathbf{V}$ with respect to K, it is equal to E'_k, then

$$E_k = E'_k + \frac{mV^2}{2} + \mathbf{p}'\mathbf{V}$$

where m is the mass of the system, $\mathbf{p}' = m\mathbf{v}'c$ is the momentum of the system in its motion with respect to reference frame K', and $\mathbf{v}'_C$ is the velocity of the systems centre of mass with respect to K'. This equation is valid both for the case when $\mathbf{V} = \text{const}$, i.e. when K' is an inertial frame of reference, as well as for $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{V}/\mathrm{d}t \neq 0$.

In particular, if the frame of reference K' travels with translational motion with respect to reference frame K at the velocity $\mathbf{v}_C$ of the centre of mass of the system, i.e. $\mathbf{V} = \mathbf{v}_C$, then $\mathbf{v}'_C = 0$ and

$$E_k = \frac{mv_C^2}{2} + E'_k$$

This equation is an expression of *Koenig's theorem*: the kinetic energy of a mechanical system is equal to the sum of the kinetic energy that a particle would have if its mass was that of the whole system and if it travelled at the velocity of the systems centre of mass, plus the kinetic energy of the same system in its motion with respect to a translational reference frame (i.e. one travelling with translational motion) having its origin at the centre of mass.

It follows from Koenigs theorem that the kinetic energy of a perfectly rigid body is equal to the kinetic energy of translation al motion of this body at the velocity of its centre of mass plus the kinetic energy of rotation of the body about its centre of mass.

3.3 Potential Energy

3.3.1

Potential energy is the part of the energy of a mechanical system that depends only on its configuration, i.e. on the relative arrangement of all the particles of the system and their positions in the external potential (conservative) field (3.1.6). The decrease in the potential energy when the system is moved from arbitrary position **1** to another arbitrary position **2** is measured by the work W_{12} done in this displacement by the conservative forces (internal and external) acting on the system. Thus

$$E_p(1) - E_p(2) = W_{12}$$

where $E_p(1)$ and $E_p(2)$ are the values of the potential energy of the system in its initial and final positions. Accordingly, the work done by conservative forces upon an infinitely small change in the configuration of the system is $\delta W = -\mathrm{d}E_p$.

Note. It is assumed here that the external conservative forces are *stationary (steady)*, i.e. they can change with time only as the consequence of a change of the position of the system being considered with respect to the frame of

reference. Otherwise

$$\mathrm{d}E_p = -\delta W + \frac{\partial E_p}{\partial t}\mathrm{d}t$$

In the simplest case, when the system is a particle located in a conservative field, the relation between force **F**, acting on the particle, and the potential energy E_p of this particle in the held is of the form

$$F_x = -\frac{\partial E_p}{\partial x},\ F_y = -\frac{\partial E_p}{\partial y},\ F_z = -\frac{\partial E_p}{\partial z}$$

and $F = -\operatorname{grad} E_p$.

The potential energy E_p of a particle is related to the force function (3.1.8) of the corresponding conservative field by the equation

$$\mathrm{d}E_p = -\mathrm{d}\Phi \text{ or } E_p(x,y,z,t) = -\Phi(x,y,z,t) + C$$

where C is the integration constant.

3.3.2

The equations in (3.3.1) enable the dependence of the potential energy of a system on its configuration to be determined only to an arbitrary constant term that has no effect on the *change* in energy. To obtain a unique dependence of the potential energy of the system on its configuration, a so-called *zero configuration* is chosen, in which the potential energy of the system is conditionally assumed to equal zero. Thus, the potential energy of a system in an arbitrary state is equal to the work done by all the conservative forces acting on the system in transforming it from

the state being considered to the state corresponding to the zero configuration.

3.3.3

Example 1. *Potential energy of a particle in a uniform (homogeneous) force field.* Assume that force **F**, exerted on the particle by the field, is directed along axis OZ, i.e. $\mathbf{F} = F_z\mathbf{k}$, where $\mathbf{k}$ is the unit vector of axis OZ, and the projection F_z of force **F** onto axis OZ is independent of the coordinates of the particle. Then

$$\mathrm{d}E_p = -\mathbf{F}d\mathbf{r} = -F_z\mathrm{d}z \text{ and } E_p(z) = -F_z + E_p(0)$$

where $E_p(0)$ is the value of the potential energy of the particle at the level $z = 0$.

In particular, the potential energy of a particle of mass m located in a uniform gravity field at the earths surface (axis OZ is directed vertically upward, $F_z = -mg$, where g is the free fall acceleration) is equal to

$$E_p(z) = mgz + E_p(0).$$

3.3.4

Example 2. *Potential energy of a particle in a central force field.* In a conservative field of central forces the particle is subject to the action of forces **F** which are directed everywhere along straight lines passing through a fixed point, called the *centre of force*, and depend only on the distance r to this point:

$$\mathbf{F} = F_r(r)\frac{\mathbf{r}}{r}$$

where **r** is the radius vector from the centre of force to the point being considered in the field, and $F_r(r)$ is the projection of force **F** onto the direction of vector **r**; it depends only on the distance r. If the particle is attracted to the centre of force, $F_r(r) = -|F| < 0$, but if it is repelled from the centre of force, then $F_r(r) = |F| > 0$. An element of work done by force **F** is $\delta W = \mathbf{F}\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r} = F_r(r)\mathrm{d}r$. The potential energy of the particle is

$$E_p(r) = \int_r^\infty F_r(r)\mathrm{d}r + E_p(\infty)$$

Usually the energy of a particle, located at an infinite distance from the centre of force, is taken as the reference point for potential energy, i.e. it is assumed that $E_p(\infty) = 0$. Thus

$$E_p(r) = \int_r^\infty F_r(r)\mathrm{d}r$$

Examples of a central force field, in which the force is inversely proportional to the square of the distance to the centre of force ($F_r(r) \propto r^{-2}$), are the gravitational fields of a particle or a homogeneous sphere, the electrostatic field of a point charge, as well as that of a hollow sphere and a solid sphere uniformly charged along the surface and throughout the volume, respectively.

3.3.5

Example 3. *Potential energy of a system of two particles between which central forces* act, i.e. forces depending upon the distance between the particles and directed along the

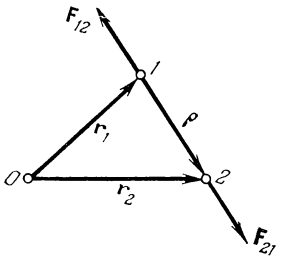


Figure 3.3.: Potential energy of a system of two particles with central forces.

straight line joining the particles. Shown in Figure 3.3 are mutually repulsive forces $\mathbf{F}_{12}$ and $\mathbf{F}_{21} = -\mathbf{F}_{12}$:

$$\mathbf{F}_{21} = F_\rho(\rho)\frac{\boldsymbol{\rho}}{\rho}$$

where $\boldsymbol{\rho} = \mathbf{r}_2 - \mathbf{r}_1$ is the radius vector from particle 1 to particle 2, and $F_\rho(\rho)$ is the projection of force $\mathbf{F}_{21}$ on the direction of vector $\boldsymbol{\rho}$ and depends only on the distance ρ between the particles. An infinitely small change in the potential energy of the system

$$\mathrm{d}E_p = -(\mathbf{F}_{12}\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}_1 + \mathbf{F}_{21}\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}_2) = -\mathbf{F}_{21}\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\rho} = -F_\rho(\rho)\mathrm{d}\rho$$

If we assume that $E_p \to 0$ as $\rho \to \infty$, then

$$E_p(\rho) = \int_\rho^\infty F_\rho(\rho)\mathrm{d}\rho$$

This energy is often called the *mutual potential energy of two particles.*

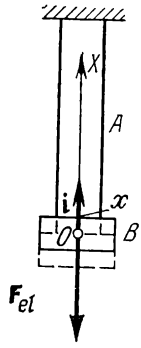


Figure 3.4.: Potential energy of an elastic body in axial tension or compression.

3.3.6

Example 4. *Potential energy of an elastic body (for instance, a spring) in axial tension or compression.* When an elastic body is deformed, conservative internal forces (elastic forces) are developed in the body that oppose deformation. According to Hookes law, the force $\mathbf{F}_{\text{el}}$ exerted by the deformed body A (Figure 3.4) on body B, causing the deformation, is proportional to the amount of deformation (stretch or compression):

$$\mathbf{F}_{\text{el}} = -kx\mathbf{i}.$$

Here x_i is the displacement vector of body B that characterizes the deformation of body A (in the undeformed state $x = 0$; in compression $x > 0$ and intension $x < 0$),and

$k > 0$ is a factor characterizing the elastic properties of body A.

The potential energy of an elastically deformed body (in the absence of deformation, i.e. at $x = 0$, this energy is assumed equal to zero)

$$E_p = \frac{kx^2}{2}.$$

3.4 Law of Conservation of Mechanical Energy

3.4.1

The *mechanical energy*, or *total mechanical energy*, is the energy of mechanical motion and interaction. The mechanical energy E of a system of particles is equal to the sum of their kinetic energy E_k and the potential energy E_p of interaction of these particles with one another and with external bodies:

$$E = E_k + E_p$$

An elementary increment of the mechanical energy of a system during the infinitely short time $\mathrm{d}t$ is equal to

$$\mathrm{d}E = \delta W_{\text{nonc}} + \frac{\partial E_p}{\partial t}\mathrm{d}t$$

where δW_{nonc} is the algebraic sum of the elements of work done in the time interval $\mathrm{d}t$ by all the internal and external *nonconservative* forces. The term $\left(\partial E_p / \partial t\right)\mathrm{d}t$ represents the change during the time interval $\mathrm{d}t$ in the potential energy of the system and, consequently, its total mechanical energy due to nonstationary external conservative forces (3.3.1).

3.4.2

If the system is *conservative* (3.1.7), $\delta W_{\text{nonc}} \equiv 0$ and $\partial E_p / \partial t = 0$, because, in this case, there are no nonconservative forces and the external conservative forces are stationary. Consequently, the mechanical energy of such a system $E = \text{const}$, i.e. the following law, called the *law of conservation of mechanical energy*, is valid: in the motion of a conservative system, its mechanical energy remains unchanged.

In particular, this law holds for closed conservative systems: the mechanical energy of a closed system does not change with time if all the internal forces acting in this system are conservative ones.

The law of conservation of mechanical energy is associated with the *uniformity of time*. This property of time is manifested in the fact that the laws of motion of a closed system (or a system located in a stationary external field) are independent of the choice of the zero time reference. For example, in the free fall of a body in a stationary conservative gravity field at the earths surface, the velocity of the body and the length of path travelled depend only on the length of time in free fall and initial velocity of the body, but not on the specific instant of time the body began to fall.

3.4.3

The mechanical energy of a closed nonconservative system is changed owing to the work done by all the nonconservative internal forces:

$$\mathrm{d}E = \delta W_{\text{nonc}}$$

Gyroscopic forces (3.1.7) do no work and make no contribution to δW_{nonc}, i.e. the existence of such forces in a system does not lead to changes in its mechanical energy.

The action of dissipative forces (3.1.7), for instance, the force of friction, leads to a gradual reduction in the mechanical energy of a closed system. This process is called the *dissipation of energy*. Consequently, a system whose mechanical energy continually decreases with time is called a *dissipative system*. In the dissipation of energy, the mechanical energy of the system is converted into other forms of energy (for example, into the energy of chaotic motion of molecules). The conversion of mechanical energy is accomplished in full agreement with a universal law of nature: the law of conservation of energy (9.2.7).

According to this law, energy can be converted from one form to another and redistributed within the system, but its total amount in a closed system must remain constant. It follows from the law of conservation and conversion of energy that the changes in energy of an open system, occurring in interaction of the system with the external medium (external bodies and fields), must be numerically equal and opposite in sign to the changes in the energy of the external medium. In other words, the change in the energy of a system upon its interaction with the external medium should be equal to the energy the system receives or yields up in the process being considered.

3.4.4

Forces of resistance and friction act in all real mechanical systems. Hence, these systems are nonconservative. In

certain cases, however, they can be assumed approximately conservative, and the law of conservation of mechanical energy can be applied to them. Such an approach is feasible if, in the process being considered, the work W_{nonc} done by all the nonconservative forces acting on the system is negligibly small in comparison to the mechanical energy E of the system, i.e. $|W_{\text{nonc}}/E| \ll 1$, so that $|\Delta E/E| \ll 1$, where $\Delta E = W_{\text{nonc}}$ is the change in the mechanical energy of the system.

3.4.5

The state of *mechanical equilibrium of a system* is one that can be disturbed only as a result of external force action applied to the system. In this equilibrium state all the particles of the system are at rest so that the kinetic energy of the system equals zero. The state of mechanical equilibrium is said to be *stable* if a small external action applied to the system leads to only a small change in its state. In this case, forces are developed in the system that tend to restore the equilibrium state. A state of mechanical equilibrium is said to be *unstable* if it can be disturbed by even an infinitely small external action on the system, which does not return again to the equilibrium state. In this case, forces are developed in the system that tend to further disturb the equilibrium state.

The law of conservation of mechanical energy enables the conditions of equilibrium of conservative systems to be formulated:

in states of stable equilibrium the potential energy curve of the system has minima, whereas in states of unstable

equilibrium, it has maxima.

3.4.6

On the basis of the law of conservation of mechanical energy, the region of possible configurations of a conservative system (3.3.1) can be found. The kinetic energy of the system $E_k \gg 0$. Hence, at a given value E of the mechanical energy of the system, the latter can only be in states that conform to the condition: $E_p \ll E$. Figure 3.5 illustrates the simplest case in which a particle has one-dimensional motion along axis OX in an external stationary conservative field. The potential energy of the particle is a function of only a single coordinate x, i.e. $E_p = E_p(x)$. The curve of this relation, shown in Figure 3.5, is called a *potential energy curve*.

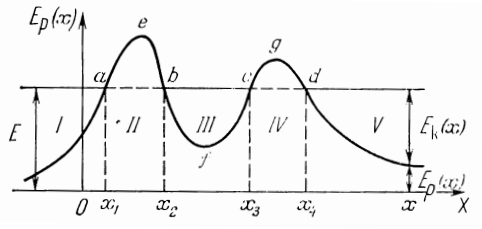


Figure 3.5.: Potential energy curve for the motion of a particle in an external stationary conservative field.

For a fixed value of the mechanical energy E of the particle, as shown in Figure 3.5, the particle can remain, in its

travel, in one of the following three regions:

$$x \leqslant x_1 \text{ (region I)},$$
$$x_2 \leqslant x \leqslant x_3 \text{ (region III), and}$$
$$x \geqslant x_4 \text{ (region V)}$$

These regions are separated from one another by the regions II and IV, which are the so-called *potential barriers aeb* and *cgd*, within whose limits the particle cannot exist. At the boundaries of the potential barriers (at points *a*, *b*, *c* and *d*), the particle reverses its direction of motion; in region I the particle can travel without limit to the left of boundary *a* of the barrier, and in region V, without limit to the right of boundary *d* of the barrier. In region III, the particle oscillates between points *b* and *c*; it is in a so-called *potential well bfc*.

3.5 Perfectly Elastic and Inelastic Collisions

3.5.1

An impact in which a considerable change in the velocities of the colliding bodies occurs in an extremely short time interval is called a *collision*. Examples of collisions are a ham mer striking a billet being forged that lies on the anvil, and a hammer striking the head of a nail being driven.

The *line of impact* is the common normal to the surfaces of the colliding bodies at their point of contact. If the centres of mass (2.3.3) of the colliding bodies lie on the line of impact at the instant of contact, the collision is said to be *central*. An example is the collision of two billiard balls.

The collision, or impact, is said to be *head-on*, or *straight-line*, if the velocities of the centres of mass of the colliding bodies are parallel, before the collision, to the line of impact. Otherwise, it is called an *oblique impact*, or *glancing collision*.

3.5.2

In a collision the bodies are deformed and instantaneous, but quite substantial, forces are developed. They are called *impact forces*. For a system of colliding bodies these forces are internal ones[1], i.e. they do not change the total momentum of the system. External forces, constantly exerted on the system (for instance, the gravity forces of the bodies) are usually very small compared to the impact forces. Therefore, even though the impulses of impact forces (2.4.2) in the duration τ of the collision are commensurable with the momenta (2.3.4) of the colliding bodies, the resultant impulse of all the constantly acting external forces during the same time interval τ is small compared to the momenta of the bodies. Accordingly, the work done on the system by the external forces during the time inter val t is small compared to the mechanical energy of the system. Hence, a system of bodies can be assumed, in the collision pro cess, to be an approximately closed system (2.2.4). This means that in calculating the results of the collision, use can be made of the laws of the conservation of momentum (2.7.1), of angular momentum (4.4.1) and of energy (9.2.7). If the bodies deform in the collision like perfectly elastic

[1] It is assumed that the colliding bodies are either free (2.2.3) or the constraints imposed on them are such that no impact constraint reactions are developed.

ones, the impact forces are conservative and the law of conservation of mechanical energy (3.4.2) is valid in the system.

3.5.3

The collision of two bodies is said to be *perfectly inelastic* if, after impact, they travel together as a single body. Sufficiently close to a perfectly inelastic collision are, for example, the impact of the pile-driving hammer with the end of the pile being driven, and the firing of a bullet into a wagon filled with sand, when the bullet remains embedded in the sand. Various processes occur in the colliding bodies in an inelastic collision (plastic deformation of the bodies, friction, etc.). As a result, the kinetic energy of the system is partly transformed into its internal energy (9.1.2).

If.two bodies of masses m_1 and m_2, travelling with translational motion at the velocities $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$, undergo a *perfectly inelastic head-on central collision*, they continue their translational motion together at the velocity

$$\mathbf{u} = \frac{m_1\mathbf{v}_1 + m_2\mathbf{v}_2}{m_1 + m_2}$$

Note. In the case of a perfectly inelastic collision that is neither head-on nor central, the preceding equation can be used to find the velocity of the centre of the mass of the bodies joined together in the collision. As the result of such a collision, how ever, the system may begin to rotate about its centre of mass in accordance with the law of conservation of angular momentum (4.4.1).

3.5.4

The change in the kinetic energy of a system of two colliding bodies in a perfectly inelastic head-on central collision is

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta E_k &= \frac{m_1 + m_2}{2}\mathbf{u}^2 - \frac{m_1}{2}\mathbf{v}_1^2 - \frac{m_2}{2}\mathbf{v}_2^2 \\ &= -\frac{m_1 m_2}{2(m_1 + m_2)}(\mathbf{v}_1^2 - \mathbf{v}_2^2) < 0\end{aligned}$$

In particular, if the second, body is at rest before the collision (for instance, a pile being driven by a pile driver, or a forging lying on the anvil), the relative reduction in the kinetic energy of the system in a perfectly inelastic head-on central collision is

$$-\frac{\Delta E_k}{E_{k_1}} = \frac{m_2}{m_1 + m_2}$$

In engineering, a perfectly inelastic head-on central collision (impact) is made use of to change the shape of bodies (smith and die forging, rivetting, etc.) or to move a body in a medium with high resistance to motion (driving nails, piles, etc.). It proves expedient in the first case to have the ratio $-\Delta E_k / E_{k_1}$ as near as possible to unity, i.e. it is necessary that $m_2 \gg m_1$ (the mass of the forged item and the anvil should be many times greater than that of the hammer). In the second case, on the contrary, it is necessary that the loss in kinetic energy in the collision (impact) be as low as possible, i.e. that $m_1 \gg m_2$ (the mass of the hammer should be many times greater than that of the nail being driven).

3.5.5

A collision is said to be *perfectly elastic* if it does not lead to any change in the mechanical energy of the system, i.e. if the bodies are perfectly elastic.

Example 1. A perfectly elastic head-on central collision of two bodies (for instance, balls) of masses m_1 and m_2, which travel before the collision with translational motion at the velocities $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ along axis OX, passing through their centres of mass (Figure 3.6 (a)). The velocities of the bodies after the collision, $\mathbf{u}_1$ and $\mathbf{u}_2$ (Figure 3.6 (b)), can be found from the laws of conservation of momentum and mechanical energy:

$$m_1\mathbf{u}_1 + m_2\mathbf{u}_2 = m_1\mathbf{v}_1 + m_2\mathbf{v}_2,$$
$$m_1\mathbf{u}_1^2 + m_2\mathbf{u}_2^2 = m_1\mathbf{v}_1^2 + m_2\mathbf{v}_2^2$$

Velocities $\mathbf{u}_1$ and $\mathbf{u}_2$ are directed along axis OX and their

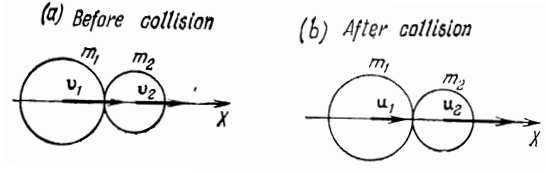


Figure 3.6.: A perfectly elastic head-on central collision of two bodies.

projections on this axis are

$$u_{1x} = \frac{(m_1 - m_2)v_{1x} + 2m_2v_{2x}}{m_1 + m_2}$$

and

$$u_{2x} = \frac{2m_1v_{1x} + (m_2 - m_1)v_{2x}}{m_1 + m_2}$$

In particular, if the masses of the bodies are the same, the bodies exchange velocities in a collision: $u_{1x} = v_{2x}$ and $u_{2x} = v_{1x}$.

If the mass of the second body is many times greater than that of the first body, then $u_{1x} \approx 2v_{2x} - v_{1x}$ and $u_{2x} \approx v_{2x}$.

3.5.6

Example 2. *Perfectly elastic oblique central collision.* If the bodies are smooth the impulse of friction forces in the collision can be neglected. In this case the tangential components of the velocities of the bodies are not changed, i.e. components perpendicular to the line of impact: $u_1\tau = v_1\tau$ and $u_{2\tau} = v_{2\tau}$. The normal components, directed along the line of impact, change in the same way as in a head-on collision:

$$u_{1n} = \frac{(m_1 - m_2)v_{1n} + 2m_2v_{2n}}{m_1 + m_2}$$

and

$$u_{2n} = \frac{2m_1v_{1n} + (m_2 - m_1)v_{2n}}{m_1 + m_2}$$

In particular, in the perfectly elastic oblique collision of a smooth ball with a fixed flat wall($m_2 \gg m_1$ and $u_2 =$

$v_2 = 0$): $u_{1\tau} = v_{2\tau}$ and $u_{1n} = -v_{1n}$, i.e. the ball rebounds from the wall according to the law of mirror reflection: the angle of reflection is equal to the angle of incidence. The magnitude of the velocity is conserved: $u_1 = v_1$. The vector $\Delta\mathbf{p}_1$ of the change in momentum of the ball in the collision is directed perpendicular to the wall:

$$\Delta\mathbf{p}_1 = m_1(\mathbf{u}_1 - \mathbf{v}_1) = -2m_1\mathbf{v}_{1n}$$

The impulse of impact force acting on the wall is equal to $2m_1\mathbf{v}_{1n}$.

4 Dynamics of Rotary Motion

4.1 Moment of Force and Angular Momentum

4.1.1

The moment of force, or force moment is a concept introduced in mechanics to characterize the external mechanical action exerted on a body that changes its rotary motion. Distinction is made between the moment of force about a fixed point and about a fixed axis.

The *moment of the force* **F** *about a fixed point O* (the *pole*) is the vector quantity **M**, equal to the vector product of the radius vector **r**, from point *O* to point *A* of force application (Figure 4.1), by the force vector **F**:

$$\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{r}\,\mathbf{F}]$$

The magnitude of the moment of force is $M = Fr\sin\alpha = Fl$, where α is the angle between vectors **r** and *F*, and $l = r\sin\alpha$ is the length of the perpendicular *OB* (Figure 4.1) dropped from point *O* to the line of action of the force. The

quantity l is called the *arm of the force* with respect to point O. If the point of application of force $\mathbf{F}$ is displaced along its line of action, the moment $\mathbf{M}$ of this force about the same fixed point O is not changed. If the line of action of the force passes through point O, the moment of the force about point O equals zero.

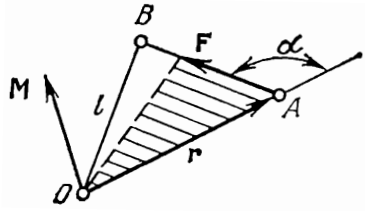


Figure 4.1.: The moment of force **M**.

4.1.2

The *principal*, or *resultant*, *moment* of a system of forces *about fixed point O* (*pole*) is the vector $\mathbf{M}$, equal to the geometric sum of the moments about point O of all n forces of the system:

$$\mathbf{M} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i \mathbf{F}_i]$$

where $\mathbf{r}_i$ is the radius vector from point O to the point of application of force $\mathbf{F}_i$.

It follows from Newtons third law (Section 2.5.1) that the moments of the internal forces of interaction between the

particles of a system about pole O are compensated for (cancelled out) pair wise: $[\mathbf{r}_i\mathbf{F}_{ik}] = -[\mathbf{r}_k\mathbf{F}_{ki}]$. Consequently, in calculating the resultant moment of forces, only the *external* forces exerted on the mechanical system being considered need be taken into account.

4.1.3

The *moment of force* $\mathbf{F}$ *about a fixed axis* a is the scalar quantity M_a, equal to the projection on this axis of vector $\mathbf{M}$, which is the moment of force $\mathbf{F}$ about arbitrary point O of axis a.

The value of moment M_a is independent of the choice of the position of point O along axis a.

Note. Sometimes the moment of a force about fixed axis a is understood to mean the vector quantity $\mathbf{M}_a = M_a\mathbf{i}_a$, where $\mathbf{i}_a$ is the unit vector of axis a. The vector $\mathbf{M}_a$ is the component of vector $\mathbf{M}$ of the moment of force about pole O, this component being directed along axis a.

If the line of action of the force intersects or is parallel to axis a, the moment of force about this axis is equal to zero.

Let A be the point of application of force $\mathbf{F}$, and O_1 be the foot of the perpendicular dropped from point A to the axis OZ being considered (Figure 4.2). It proves convenient to resolve force $\mathbf{F}$ into three mutually perpendicular components: axial component F_z, parallel to axis OZ; radial component $\mathbf{F}_n$, directed along vector $\boldsymbol{\rho} = \vec{O_1A}$, and tangential component $\mathbf{F}_\tau$ directed perpendicular to the axis a and perpendicular to vector $\boldsymbol{\rho}$.

The moment of force $\mathbf{F}$ about axis OZ is

$$M_z = [\boldsymbol{\rho}\mathbf{F}_\tau]_z \text{ and } \mathbf{M}_z = [\boldsymbol{\rho}\mathbf{F}_\tau]$$

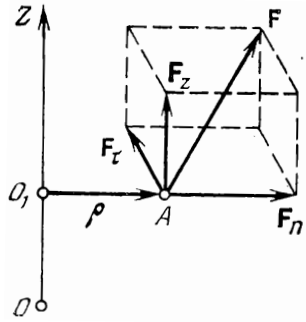


Figure 4.2.: Resolving the components of the moment of force **M**.

Since vectors $\boldsymbol{\rho}$ and $\mathbf{F}_\tau$ are perpendicular to each other

$$|\mathbf{M}_z| = |M_z| = \rho|\mathbf{F}_\tau|$$

The *principal*, or *resultant, moment* of a system of forces *about a fixed axis a* is equal to the algebraic sum of the moments of all the forces of the system about this axis.

4.1.4

The *angular momentum*, or *moment of momentum, of a particle about fixed point O* (*pole*) is the vector **L**. It is equal to the vector product of radius vector **r**, from point *O* to the location of the particle, by vector **p** of its momentum:

$$\mathbf{L} = [\mathbf{r}\,\mathbf{p}] = [\mathbf{r}m\mathbf{v}],$$

where m and **v** are the mass and velocity of the particle.

The *angular momentum of a system about fixed point O* is denoted by vector **L** and equals the vector sum of the angular momenta of all the particles of the system about the same point *O*:

$$\mathbf{L} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i \, \mathbf{p}_i] = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i m_i \mathbf{v}_i],$$

where m_i, $\mathbf{r}_i$ and $\mathbf{v}_i$ are the mass, radius vector and velocity of the i-th particle, and n is the total number of particles.

The *angular momentum of a system about fixed axis a* is the scalar quantity L_a, equal to the projection on axis a of vector **L**, the angular momentum of the system about some point *O* lying on this axis:

$$L_a = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i m_i \mathbf{v}_i]_a$$

The numerical value L_a of the angular momentum is independent of the choice of the position of point *O* along axis a.

Note. Sometimes the angular momentum of a system about a fixed axis a is understood to mean the vector quantity $\mathbf{L}_a = L_a \mathbf{i}_a$ where $\mathbf{i}_a$ is the unit vector of axis a.

4.1.5

The *angular momentum of a body rotating about a fixed point O* at the angular velocity is equal to:

$$\mathbf{L} = \int_{(m)} [\mathbf{r}\mathbf{v}] \mathrm{d}m = \int_{(m)} [\mathbf{r}[\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}]] \mathrm{d}m$$

where $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector from point O to an infinitely small (dement of the body of mass $\mathrm{d}m$, and $\mathbf{v} = [\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}]$ is the velocity of the element of the body. Since $[\mathbf{r}[\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r}]] = r^2\boldsymbol{\omega} - (\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r})\mathbf{r}$, vectors $\mathbf{L}$ and $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ do not coincide in direction in the general case:

$$\mathbf{L} = \boldsymbol{\omega}\int_{(m)} r^2\mathrm{d}m - \int_{(m)} (\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathbf{r})\mathbf{r}\mathrm{d}m$$

The angular momentum of a body hinged at point O and its angular velocity coincide in direction if the body rotates about one of its principal axes of inertia (4.2.4) passing through point O

$$\mathbf{L} = \mathbf{I}\boldsymbol{\omega}$$

where $\mathbf{I}$ is the moment of inertia (4.2.1) of the body about this principal axis.

4.1.6

The resultant moments $\mathbf{M}$ and $\mathbf{M}^*$ of a system of forces about two different fixed points O and O^* are related by the equation

$$\mathbf{M} = \mathbf{M}^* + [\mathbf{r}^*\mathbf{F}]$$

where $\mathbf{r}^*$ is the radius vector from origin O to point O^*, and $\mathbf{F}$ is the principal vector of the system of forces being considered. If $\mathbf{F} = 0$ the resultant moment of the system of forces is the same about any fixed point: $\mathbf{M}^* = \mathbf{M}$. This, precisely, is the property possessed by a *force couple*, or simply *couple*, i.e. a system of two forces, equal in magnitude and directed along two parallel straight lines in opposite directions. The shortest (perpendicular) distance

d between the lines of action of the forces is called the *arm of the couple*. The moment, or torque, of a force couple is directed perpendicular to the plane of the forces, and its magnitude is equal to $M = Fd$, where F is the magnitude of each of the forces of the couple.

The resultant moment $\mathbf{M}_C$ of all the forces acting on a mechanical system about the centre of mass (2.3.3) of this system is related to the resultant moment $\mathbf{M}$ of the same system of forces about fixed point O by the equation

$$\mathbf{M} = \mathbf{M}_C + [\mathbf{r}_C \mathbf{F}]$$

where $\mathbf{r}_C$ is a radius vector from origin O to point C, and $\mathbf{F}$ is the principal vector of the system of forces.

4.1.7

The value of the angular momentum of a mechanical system about its centre of mass C is the same for the absolute motion of the particles at the velocities (i.e. with respect to a fixed inertial frame of reference) and for the relative motion at the velocities $\mathbf{v}'_i = \mathbf{v}_i - \mathbf{v}_C$ (i.e. with respect to a frame of reference in translational motion with the origin of coordinates at point C):

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i m_i \mathbf{v}_i] = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}'_i m_i \mathbf{v}'_i] = \mathbf{L}_C$$

where $\mathbf{r}'_i = -\mathbf{r}_C$ is the radius vector of the i-th particle in a frame of reference travelling together with the centre of mass.

The relation between the values of the angular momentum $\mathbf{L}$ of a mechanical system about fixed point O and $\mathbf{L}_C$ about the systems centre of mass is of the form

$$\mathbf{L} = \mathbf{L}_C + [\mathbf{r}_C \mathbf{p}]$$

where $\mathbf{p} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i \mathbf{v}_i$ is the momentum of the system in its absolute motion.

4.2 Moment of Inertia

4.2.1

The *moment of inertia of a mechanical system* about fixed axis a is the physical quantity denoted by I_a and equal to the sum of the products of the masses of all n particles of the system by the squares of their normal distances from the axis:

$$I_a = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_i \rho_i^2$$

where m_i and ρ_i are the mass of the i-th particle and its normal distance from the axis.

The moment of inertia of a body about fixed axis a is

$$I_a = \int_{(m)} \rho^2 \mathrm{d}m = \int_{(V)} \rho^2 D \mathrm{d}V$$

where $\mathrm{d}m = D\mathrm{d}V$ is the mass of an infinitely small element of volume $\mathrm{d}V$ of the body, D is the density and ρ is the normal distance from the element $\mathrm{d}V$ to axis a.

If the body is homogeneous, i.e. its density is the same through out, then

$$I_a = D \int_{(V)} \rho^2 \mathrm{d}V$$

The moment of inertia I_a is a measure of inertness of a body in its rotary motion about fixed axis a (4.3.4), in the same way that its mass is a measure of inertness of the body in its translational motion.

4.2.2

The moment of inertia of a given body about some axis depends, not only on the mass, shape and size of the body, but also on the position of the body with respect to this axis. Ac cording to *Steiner's theorem of parallel axes*, the moment of inertia I of a body about an arbitrary axis is equal to the sum of its moment of inertia I_C about a parallel axis through the centre of mass (or of inertia) of the body plus the product of the mass m of the body by the square of the normal distance d between the two axes:

$$I = I_C + md^2$$

4.2.3

The moments of inertia of certain homogeneous regularly shaped bodies about certain axes are listed in Table 4.1.

Body	Position of axis a	Moment of inertia I_a
Hollow thin-walled circular cylinder of radius R and mass m	Axis of the cylinder	mR^2
Solid circular cylinder (or disk) of radius R and mass m	Axis of the cylinder	$mR^2/2$
Solid sphere of radius R and mass m	Axis through the centre of the sphere	$2mR^2/5$
Hollow thin-walled sphere of radius R and mass m	Axis through the centre of the sphere	$2mR^2/3$
Thin straight rod of length l and mass m	Axis perpendicular to the rod and through its centre along its length	$ml^2/12$
The same rod	Axis perpendicular to the rod and through one end of it	$ml^2/3$

Table 4.1.: The moments of inertia of certain homogeneous regularly shaped bodies about certain axes.

4.2.4

The *products of inertia of a body* about the axes of a rectangular Cartesian coordinate system are the quantities:

$$I_{xy} = \int_{(m)} xy\mathrm{d}m = \int_{(V)} xy\, D\mathrm{d}V$$
$$I_{xz} = \int_{(m)} xz\mathrm{d}m = \int_{(V)} xz\, D\mathrm{d}V$$
$$I_{yz} = \int_{(m)} yz\mathrm{d}m = \int_{(V)} yz\, D\mathrm{d}V$$

where x, y and z are the coordinates of an infinitely small element of the body of volume $\mathrm{d}V$, density D and mass m.

Axis OX is called the *principal axis of inertia of the body* if the products of inertia I_{xy} and I_{xz} are simultaneously equal to zero. Three principal axes of inertia can be passed through each point of the body. The axes are mutually perpendicular.

The moments of inertia of a body about the three principal axes of inertia, passed through an arbitrary point O of the body, are called the *principal moments of inertia of the body*.

The principal axes of inertia, passing through the centre of mass of the body, are called the *principal central axes of inertia of the body*, and the moments of inertia about these axes are called the *principal central moments of inertia of the body*. An axis of symmetry of a homogeneous body is always one of its principal central axes of inertia.

4.3 The Fundamental Law in the Dynamics of Rotary Motion

4.3.1

It follows from Newtons laws that the first derivative with respect to time t of the angular momentum $\mathbf{L}$ of a mechanical system about any fixed point 0 is equal to the resultant moment M^{ext} of all the external forces, applied to the system, about the same point O:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{L}}{\mathrm{d}t} = M^{\text{ext}}$$

This equation expresses the *law of the variation of angular momentum of the system*. It is valid, in particular, for a rigid body, hinged at point O and rotating about it. In this case, the equation expresses the *fundamental law of dynamics of a rigid body rotating about a fixed point*.

In terms of the projections on the axes of a fixed rectangular Cartesian coordinate system with its origin at point O, the law for the variation of the angular momentum is written in the form:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}L_x}{\mathrm{d}t} = M_x^{\text{ext}}, \ \frac{\mathrm{d}L_y}{\mathrm{d}t} = M_y^{\text{ext}}, \ \frac{\mathrm{d}L_z}{\mathrm{d}t} = M_z^{\text{ext}}$$

Here L_x, L_y, L_z, M^{ext_x}, M_x^{ext}, M_y^{ext} M_z^{ext} are the angular momenta of the system and the resultant moments of the external forces about the corresponding coordinate axes.

4.3.2

Example. The *regular precession of a gyroscope* due to its gravitational force. A *gyroscope (symmetrical gyroscope)* is a rigid body spinning (rotating rapidly) about its axis of symmetry that can change its position in space. A gyroscope has three degrees of freedom (1.5.6) if it is mounted at fixed point O, which lies on its axis and is called the *centre of suspension of the gyroscope*. If the centre of suspension coincides with the

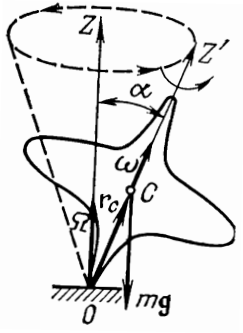


Figure 4.3.: Analysing the rotary motion of a heavy gyroscope or a top.

centre of gravity C (7.3.2) of the gyroscope, the gyroscope is said to be *balanced*: the force of gravity does not affect its state of rotation. Otherwise, it is said to be a *heavy gyroscope*, or top (Figure 4.3). Owing to the action of the moment of gravitational force about point O

$$M^{\text{ext}} = [\mathbf{r}_C m\mathbf{g}]$$

a heavy gyroscope rotates about this point so that its axis OZ' rotates uniformly about vertical axis OZ describing a conical surface (shown by dashed lines in Figure 4.3). Such motion of the gyroscope is called *regular precession*. If the angular velocity of precession $\Omega \ll \omega$ (where ω is the spin angular velocity or, simply, spin velocity of the gyroscope about its axis of symmetry OZ'), it can be assumed with some approximation that the angular momentum $\mathbf{L}$ of the gyroscope about point O is directed along axis OZ' of the gyroscope and equals

$$\mathbf{L} = I\boldsymbol{\omega}$$

where I is the moment of inertia of the gyroscope about axis OZ'. Hence

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{L}}{\mathrm{d}t} = [\mathbf{r}_C m\mathbf{g}] = \left[\frac{\mathbf{r}_C}{I\omega_{z'}}\mathbf{L}m\mathbf{g}\right] = [\boldsymbol{\Omega}\mathbf{L}]$$

where $\boldsymbol{\Omega} = -m\mathbf{r}_C g / I\omega_{z'}$, is the angular velocity of precession, and $\omega_{z'} = \omega$ in the case shown in Figure 4.3. The greater the spin angular velocity of the gyroscope the slower its precession.

4.3.3

The kinetic energy of a rigid body rotating about a fixed point at the angular velocity $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ is

$$E_k = \frac{I\boldsymbol{\omega}^2}{2}$$

where I is the moment of inertia of the body about the instantaneous axis of rotation (1.5.6).

An element of work done in the infinitely short time interval $\mathrm{d}t$ by force $\mathbf{F}$ acting on the body is

$$\delta W = \mathbf{M}\boldsymbol{\omega}\mathrm{d}t = \mathbf{M}\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi} = M_\omega \mathrm{d}\varphi$$

where $\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{r}\mathbf{F}]$ is the moment of force $\mathbf{F}$ about point O ($\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector from point O to the point of application of force $\mathbf{F}$), $\mathrm{d}\varphi = \omega \mathrm{d}t$ and $\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\varphi} = \boldsymbol{\omega}\mathrm{d}t$ are the angle of rotation and the vector of an element of rotation of the body in the time interval $\mathrm{d}t$, and M_ω is the moment of force $\mathbf{F}$ about an instantaneous axis of rotation ($\mathbf{M}_\omega$ equal to the projection of vector $\mathbf{M}$ on the direction of vector ω).

The change in the kinetic energy of a rotating rigid body during the time interval $\mathrm{d}t$ is equal to the work done by the external forces:

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = M_\omega^{\mathrm{ext}} \mathrm{d}\varphi$$

where is the resultant moment (4.1.3) of external forces about an instantaneous axis of rotation of the body.

4.3.4

If a rigid body rotates about fixed axis OZ at the angular velocity ω, its angular momentum about this axis is

$$L_z = I_z \omega_z \text{ and } \mathbf{L}_z = I_z \boldsymbol{\omega}$$

Here I_z is the moment of inertia of the body about axis OZ and does not change with time ($I_z = \text{const}$), and $|\omega_z| = \omega > 0$ ($\omega_z = \omega$ if vector $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ and the unit vector of axis OZ coincide in direction, otherwise $\omega_z = -\omega$).

The *fundamental law in the dynamics of a rigid body rotating about fixed axis OZ is*

$$I_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\omega}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{M}_z^{\text{ext}} \text{ or } \boldsymbol{\varepsilon} = \frac{1}{I_z}\mathbf{M}_z^{\text{ext}}$$

where $\boldsymbol{\varepsilon} = \mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\omega}/\mathrm{d}t$ is the angular acceleration of the body.

It is evident from the preceding equation that the moment of inertia of a rigid body about some fixed axis is a measure of inertness of the body in its rotation about the given axis: the greater the moment of inertia of the body, the less the angular acceleration it acquires under the action of the same moment of external forces.

4.3.5

The kinetic energy of a rigid body rotating about fixed axis OZ at the angular velocity ω is

$$E_k = \frac{1}{2} I_z \omega^2$$

An element of work done during the infinitely short time $\mathrm{d}t$ by force $\mathbf{F}$ applied to the body is

$$\delta W = \mathbf{M}_z \boldsymbol{\omega} \mathrm{d}t = M_z \mathrm{d}\varphi$$

where M_z is the moment of force $\mathbf{F}$ about the axis OZ of rotation (the unit vector of axis OZ coincides in direction with vector $\boldsymbol{\omega}$).

The change in the kinetic energy of a rigid body during the time interval $\mathrm{d}t$ is equal to the work done by the external forces during this interval:

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = M_z^{\text{ext}} \mathrm{d}\varphi$$

where M_z^{ext} is the resultant moment of external forces about the axis of rotation of the body.

4.3.6

The motion of a free rigid body satisfies the following two differential equations:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}(m\mathbf{v}_C) = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \text{ and } \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{L}_C}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{M}_C^{\text{ext}}$$

Here m is the mass of the body, $\mathbf{v}_C$ is the velocity of its centre of mass C, $\mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}}$ is the principal vector of external forces applied to the body (2.5.2), $\mathbf{M}_C^{\text{ext}}$ is the resultant moment of external forces about point C (4.1.6), and $\mathbf{L}_C$ is the angular momentum about the same point C (4.1.7).

The first equation describes translational motion of the free body at the velocity of its centre of mass (2.5.3). The second equation follows from the law of the variation of angular momentum (4.3.1) and describes the rotation of a rigid body about its centre of mass (1.5.9).

4.3.7

The kinetic energy of a free rigid body can be deter mined on the basis of Koenigs theorem (3.2.4):

$$E_k = \frac{mv_C^2}{2} + \frac{I_C\omega^2}{2}$$

where I_C is the moment of inertia of the body about an instantaneous axis of rotation passing through its centre of mass C, and ω is the angular velocity of the body. In

the general case, the instantaneous axis is displaced in the body and the moment of inertia I_C varies with time. The value of I_C is constant if the body is in plane motion (1.5.9).

Example. The kinetic energy of a homogeneous circular cylinder rolling down an inclined plane without slipping. The cylinder has plane motion because all of its points travel in vertical planes that are parallel to one another. The cylinder travels with translational motion at the velocity $\mathbf{v}_C$ directed along the inclined plane, and rotates about its axis ($I_C = mR^2/2$, where m and R are the mass and radius of the cylinder) at the angular velocity ω. From the condition that the cylinder rolls without slipping it follows that the instantaneous velocities of the points of contact between the cylinder and inclined plane equal zero, i.e. $\omega = v_C/R$. Hence, the kinetic energy of the rolling cylinder is

$$E_k = \frac{mv_C^2}{2} + \frac{I_C\omega^2}{2} = \frac{3}{4}mv_C^2.$$

4.4 Law of Conservation of Angular Momentum

4.4.1

The *law of the conservation of angular momentum* can be formulated as follows: the angular momentum of a closed system (2.2.4) about any fixed point remains constant with time, i.e.

$$\frac{d\mathbf{L}}{dt} \equiv 0 \text{ and } \mathbf{L} = \text{const}$$

Accordingly, the angular momentum of a closed system about its centre of mass (4.1.7) remains constant with time:

$$\frac{d\mathbf{L_C}}{dt} \equiv 0 \text{ and } \mathbf{L_C} = \text{const}$$

Like the laws of conservation of momentum and energy, the law of conservation of angular momentum is of significance far beyond the scope of classical mechanics. It belongs to the most Fundamental of physical laws because it is associated with a definite symmetry property of space: its isotropy. The *isotropy of space* is manifested in the fact that the physical properties and laws of motion of a closed system are independent of the direction chosen for the coordinate axes in an inertial frame of reference. This means that these properties and laws do not change when the closed system is turned as a whole through any angle in space.

According to modern concepts, not only particles and bodies can have an angular momentum, hut fields as well. Elementary particles and systems built from them (for instance, atomic nuclei) can have an angular momentum that is not related to their motion in space and is called their spin (Table **??**).

4.4.2

With respect to systems that can be described by classical (Newtonian) mechanics, the law of conservation of angular momentum can be regarded as a consequence of Newtons laws. For a closed mechanical system, the resultant moment of external forces about any fixed point (as

well as about the centre of mass of the system) is identically zero: $\mathbf{M}^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$ (consequently, $\mathbf{M}_C^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$, see (4.1.6), where $\mathbf{F} = \mathbf{F}^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$) and the law of conservation of angular momentum follows from (4.3.1):

$$\mathbf{L} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i m_i \mathbf{v}_i] = \text{const}$$

where m_i, $\mathbf{r}_i$ and $\mathbf{v}_i$ are the mass, radius vector and velocity of the i-th particle of the system, which consists of n such particles.

Accordingly (see (4.1.7) and (2.5.3)),

$$\mathbf{L}_C = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}'_i m_i \mathbf{v}'_i] = \sum_{i=1}^{n} [\mathbf{r}_i m_i \mathbf{v}_i] = \text{const}$$

where $\mathbf{r}'_i = \mathbf{r}_i - \mathbf{r}_C$, and $\mathbf{v}'_i = \mathbf{v}_i - \mathbf{v}_C$ and $\mathbf{r}_C$, $\mathbf{v}_C$ are the radius vector and velocity of the systems centre of mass.

4.4.3

If a system is not closed, but the external forces acting on it are such that their resultant moment about fixed point O is identically zero ($\mathbf{M}^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$), then, according to Newtons laws (4.3.1), the angular momentum of the system about the same point O remains constant with time: $\mathbf{L} = \text{const}$. This condition is practically complied with, for example, by a balanced gyroscope (4.3.2) with three degrees of freedom, if the moment of the friction force in its suspension is sufficiently small.

If the stand of the gyroscope, holding its centre of suspension at rest, is turned in any way, the axis of the gyroscope

retains its orientation with respect to a fixed inertial frame of reference.[1]

Usually $\mathbf{M}^{\text{ext}} \not\equiv 0$ and $\mathbf{L} \neq \text{const}$. But if the resultant moment of external forces about any fixed axis passing through point O is identically zero, the angular momentum of the system about this axis remains constant with time. For instance, if $M_z^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$, then $L_z = \text{const}$.

If the system rotates about fixed axis OZ and the resultant moment of external forces about this axis $M_z^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$, the angular momentum of the system about the axis of rotation remains constant with time:

$$I_z \omega = \text{const}$$

where ω and I_z are the angular velocity and moment of inertia of the system.

If the action of internal forces, as well as external forces that comply with the condition $M_z^{\text{ext}} \equiv 0$, leads to deformation of the system, changing its moment of inertia I_z, the angular velocity ω correspondingly increases or decreases.

4.4.4

Free axes of a body are ones about which a free rigid body (2.2.3) can rotate at constant angular velocity $\boldsymbol{\omega}$ in the absence of all external action. Such rotation of a body is said to be *free*, or *inertial rotation*. The free axes of a body coincide with its principal central axes of inertia (4.2.4). In the

[1] It is assumed that vector $\mathbf{L}$ is directed along the axis of the gyroscope. Otherwise, a free gyroscope has a precessional motion: its axis describes a circular conical surface whose vertex is at the centre of suspension and whose axis is directed along the vector $\mathbf{L} = \text{const}$.

general case, the values I_1, I_2 and I_3 of the principal central moments of inertia (4.2.4) differ. The free rotation of such a body (for ex ample, a homogeneous rectangular parallelepiped with edges of different length) is accomplished practically only about two free axes, corresponding to the extreme values of the principal central moments of inertia – the maximum and minimum values. The rotation of the body about its third principal central axis, corresponding to the intermediate value of the moment of inertia of the body, proves to be unstable: even very small external action is capable of leading to substantial deviation of the instantaneous axis of rotation from its initial direction in the body.

If the values of two principal central moments of inertia of a body are equal: $I_1 = I_2 \neq I_3$, stable free rotation of such a body (for instance, a homogeneous circular cylinder) is possible only about the free axis corresponding to the third, differing value I_3 of the moment of inertia. For a homogeneous circular cylinder such a free axis is its axis of symmetry. But if a long thin cylinder is rotated by means of a string secured to one end, stable rotation of the cylinder can be accomplished about the free axis corresponding to the maximum value of its moment of inertia. This free axis is perpendicular to the axis of symmetry of the cylinder.

5 Fundamentals of the Special Theory of Relativity

5.1 Postulates of the Special Theory of Relativity

5.1.1

The *special theory of relativity* (sometimes called the *restricted relativity theory*) is the modern physical theory of space and time. The special relativity theory and quantum mechanics (**??**) serve as the theoretical basis for all modern physics and engineering (for example, nuclear physics and nuclear technology). The special relativity theory is often called *relativistic theory*, and specific phenomena described by this theory are called *relativistic effects*. Relativistic effects are manifested, as a rule, at velocities of bodies close to that of light in free space ($c = 3 \times 10^8$ m/s) and called *relativistic velocities*. Relativistic mechanics refers to the mechanics of motion at relativistic velocities and is based on the special theory of relativity.

As in classical Newtonian mechanics it is assumed in special relativity theory that time is uniform (3.4.2) and that space is homogeneous (2.7.1) and isotropic (4.4.1).

5.1.2

The special theory of relativity is based on two main principles accepted as the initial postulates.

The *first postulate* is a generalization of Galileos mechanical principle of relativity (2.8.4) to cover any physical processes.

This postulate, called the *principle of relativity*, or *Einstein's relativity principle*, states: all physical phenomena proceed in the same way, under the same conditions, in all inertial frames of reference (2.1.2). In other words, the principle of relativity contends that physical laws are independent (invariant) with respect to the chosen inertial frame of reference; equations expressing these laws have the same form in all inertial frames of reference.

Consequently, it is impossible to ascertain, by means of any physical experiments whatsoever, conducted in a closed system of bodies (2.2.4), whether the system is at rest or is travelling at uniform velocity in a straight line with respect to some inertial frame of reference. All inertial frames of reference are equally justified in physics. It is impossible, on the basis of physical experiments, to select from the host of inertial reference frames any "preferred" or "absolute" frame of reference possessing any qualitative distinctions from other inertial reference frames.

5.1.3

The *second postulate* expresses the *principle of the invariance of the velocity of light*: the velocity of light in free space is independent of the motion of the source of light. It is the same in all directions and in all inertial frames of reference, being one of the most basic physical constants. Experiments show that c, the velocity of light in free space, is the limiting velocity in nature. The velocity of any particles and bodies, as well as the velocity of propagation of any interactions or signals, cannot exceed c.

These specific laws governing the process of light propagation in free space enable this real physical process to be made use of in establishing a procedure for the *chronometry of a frame of reference*, i.e. for the synchronization of clocks located at various points in space and travelling together with the frame of reference being considered (5.2.3).

5.1.4

The postulates of the special theory of relativity contradict the concepts of the properties of space and time that are accepted in classical mechanics and on which the Galilean transformations are based (2.8.1). In particular, this refers to the contention, considered to be "self-evident" in Newtonian mechanics, that the passage of time is identical in all inertial frames of reference. From this it follows that the time interval between any two events is of an absolute nature. For instance, if two events occur simultaneously according to the clock in one inertial frame of reference, then, according to classical concepts, they also occur simul-

taneously according to the clock of any other inertial frame.

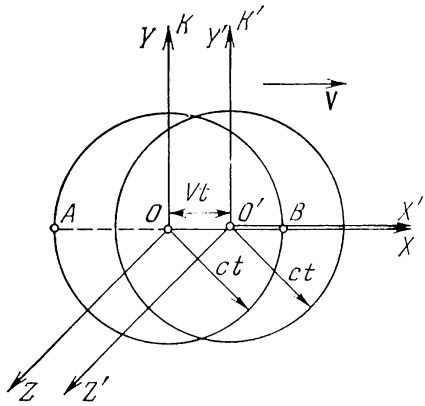


Figure 5.1.: Consequences of constancy of speed of light as a postulate in theory of realtivity.

The above-mentioned contradiction can be illustrated by the following example (Figure 5.1). We have two inertial frames of reference: fixed frame K and frame K' which travels along the OX axis at constant velocity V. Assume that a flash of light is produced at point O at the instant of the zero time reference in both frames K and K' ($t = t' = 0$), when their origins O and O' of coordinates coincide. By the instant of time $t > 0$, light, propagating in free space at the velocity c, reaches points at the surface of a hollow sphere in the frame K. This sphere has its centre at point O and its radius equals ct.

It can be assumed that in frame K' the light flash occurred at the instant of time $t' = O$ at point O'. Hence, according to the postulates of the special theory of relativity, by the instant of time $t' = t$, light in frame K' reaches points at the surface of a hollow sphere of the same radius ct as in the frame K but with its centre at point O'. At this instant, however, point O' is not at point O, but at a distance of Vt from this point. Hence, any attempt to combine the postulates of the special theory of relativity with classical conceptions of absolute time that elapses identically in all frames of reference leads to an absurdity: the light flash must *simultaneously* reach points in space that belong to two different hollow spheres.

5.2 Simultaneity of Events. Synchronization of Clocks

5.2.1

The concept of the simultaneity of two or several events is extensively employed in making various physical measurements. For example, to determine the length l of a rod, arranged along the axis OX of reference frame K and travelling with respect to this frame, it is necessary to note the values of the coordinates $x_2(t)$and $x_1(t)$ of the ends of the rod *simultaneously*, i.e. at the same instant of time t. Then

$$l = | x_2(t) - x_1(t) |$$

The instant of time at which some event occurs (for instance, the launching or touchdown times of a spaceship) is determined by noting a clocks reading that is *simultaneous*

with the event being considered. This can be simply done by means of a clock located at the place where the event occurs. Hence, there should be many clocks located at various points in space in each frame of reference. Obviously, these clocks should be in agreement with one another, i.e. run *synchronously*: their readings should be identical at each instant of time t.

5.2.2

The synchronism of clocks located adjacently, i.e. at the same place in space, can be checked by the coincidence of their readings at each arbitrary instant of time. The synchronism of clocks that are separated in space at the points A and B, distant from each other, could be checked in a similar manner if we had at our disposal standard time signals that could propagate *instantaneously* from A to B. Experiments indicate, however, that this method is unfeasible because the velocity of any signal cannot exceed the velocity of light in free space.

We can, however, proceed in the following manner. We can convey the clock from B to A, check whether it is synchronous with the clock located at A, and then convey the clock carefully back to B. Then we can check whether the clock brought back to B runs at the same rate as the clock left at A by transmitting time signals from A to B after definite equal time intervals according to the clock at A. But it cannot be established by this procedure whether a shift in the zero time reference has occurred in the clock reading while it was being conveyed back to B, i.e. whether the clock brought back to B is now fast or slow with respect to

the clock at A by a constant amount Δt.

5.2.3

The problem of the synchronism of clocks separated in space at points A and B can be solved only by an unambiguous agreement (or definition) about when these clocks are to be regarded as synchronous. Einstein made use of a real physical process – the propagation of light in free space – as the basis for such a definition. He proceeded from the facts that the velocity of light in free space is the maximum possible velocity at which signals can be transmitted in nature and that it is identical in all directions and in all inertial frames of reference.

Assume that according to the clock at point A the light signal is transmitted from this point at the instant of time t_1 and, after being reflected at point B, returns to A at the instant of time t_3. Then, by definition, the clock at B is in synchronism with that at A if they run at the same rate and if, at the instant the light signal reaches B, the clock located there indicates the time $t_2 = (t_1 + t_3)/2$.

5.2.4

According to the special theory of relativity, the passage of time may differ in different inertial frames of reference. Consequently, the time interval between any two definite events is relative: it can change in going over from one inertial reference frame to another. In particular, the simultaneity of two events occurring at different points separated in space is also relative. Events occurring simultaneously

in one inertial frame of reference are not at all simultaneous in other inertial frames that are travelling with respect to the first frame. In some frames of reference one of these events occurs before the other event; in other frames it occurs after the other event.

Thus, in the example illustrated in Figure 5.1 (5.1.4), the arrival of the light flash at points A and B are events that occur simultaneously in the fixed frame of reference A. In the travelling frame of reference K' these events are not simultaneous. The light flash reaches A, receding from the light source O', later than it reaches B, approaching the source O'.

Events connected by a cause-and-effect relationship, i.e. by causality, cannot occur simultaneously in any frame of reference whatsoever, because any effect is due to some process initiated by the cause. At the same time, no process (physical, chemical, biological, etc.) can proceed instantaneously. Therefore, relativity does not contradict causality in any way. In any inertial frame of reference an event that is an effect always occurs later than the event causing this effect.

5.3 Lorentz's Transformations

5.3.1

It follows from the postulates of the special theory of relativity, as well as from the homogeneity (2.7.1) and isotropy (4.4.1) of space and the uniformity of time (3.4.2), that the relations between the coordinates and times of the same event in two inertial frames of reference are expressed by

the *Lorentz transformations*, rather than the Galilean transformations (2.8.1) used in classical (Newtonian) mechanics. According to the principle of relativity and the above-mentioned properties of the symmetry of space and time, the Lorentz transformations should he linear.

5.3.2

The Lorentz transformations are in their simplest form if the like axes of the Cartesian coordinates of the fixed (K) and moving (K') inertial frames of reference are pairwise parallel to each other and if frame K' travels with respect to frame K at the constant velocity V along axis OX (Figure 2.3, see (2.8.1)). If, in addition, the zero time reference in both frames ($t = 0$ and $t' = 0$) is taken as the instant when the origins O and O' of coordinates of the two systems coincide, then the Lorentz transformations are of the form

$$
\begin{aligned}
x' &= \frac{x - Vt}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}}}, & x &= \frac{x' + Vt}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}}} \\
y &= y', & y' &= y \\
z &= z', & z' &= z \\
t &= \frac{t - Vx/c^2}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}}}, & t' &= \frac{t + Vx'/c^2}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}}}
\end{aligned}
$$

where c is the velocity of light in free space.

5.3.3

The Lorentz transformations show that not only the spatial coordinates of an event being considered are changed in going over from one inertial frame of reference to another, hut the corresponding instants of time as well. But a definite interrelation exists between the spatial coordinates x', y' and z' of an event and the time instant t' it occurs in an arbitrary inertial frame of reference K'. Hence, the quantity $\left[(x')^2 + (y')^2 + (z')^2 - c^2(t')^2\right]$ is independent of the velocity V of frame K', i.e. it is identical in all inertial frames of reference:

$$(x')^2 + (y')^2 + (z')^2 - c^2(t')^2 = (x)^2 + (y)^2 + (z)^2 - c^2(t)^2$$

The coordinate x' and time t' cannot be imaginary. It follows, therefore, from the Lorentz transformations that the velocity of relative motion of any two inertial frames of reference cannot exceed the velocity of light in free space $(V \leqslant c)$.

5.3.4

According to Einsteins principle of relativity (5.1.2), physical laws must comply with the condition of *relativistic invariance (Lorentz invariance)*. This requirement implies that equations expressing physical laws retain their form in going over from one inertial frame of reference to another in accordance with the Lorentz transformations.

The Lorentz transformations reduce to the Galilean transformations (2.8.1) at $V \ll c$ or, more precisely, in the limit as $V/c \to 0$, i.e. as $c \to \infty$. In other words, the Galilean

transformations and classical (Newtonian) mechanics based on them are founded on the assumption of instantaneous propagation of interaction. Such an approximate approach is permissible only in considering the laws of mechanical motion of bodies at velocities a great many times less than the velocity of light in free space.

5.4 Relativity of Lengths and Time Intervals. Time Interval Between Two Events

5.4.1

It follows from the Lorentz transformations (5.3.2) that the linear dimension of a body travelling with respect to an inertial frame of reference is reduced in the direction of motion. This change in the longitudinal size of a body in motionis called the *Lorentz-FitzGerald contraction*. Assume l_0 to he the length of a rod at rest in reference frame K'. If

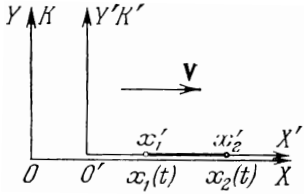


Figure 5.2.: Length contraction in relative motion.

the rod is located along axis $O'X'$ (Figure 5.2), then $l_0 = x'_2 - x'_1$, where x'_2 and x'_1 are the coordinates of the ends

of the rod. The length l of the same rod in reference frame K, with respect to which it travels along axis OX at the velocity V, is equal to the difference in the coordinates of the ends of the rod, measured at the same instant of time t:

$$\begin{aligned} l &= x_2(t) - x_1(t) \\ &= (x_2' - x_1')\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}} \\ &= l_0\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}} \end{aligned}$$

Transverse dimensions of a body are independent of its velocity and are identical in all inertial frames of reference:

$$y_2 - y_1 = y_2' - y_1', \text{ and } z_2 - z_1 = z_2' - z_1'$$

Thus, the linear dimensions of a body are relative. They are maximal in the inertial frame of reference with respect to which the body is at rest. These are said to be the bodys *proper dimensions*.

5.4.2

The Lorentz-FitzGerald contraction is a kinematic effect of the special theory of relativity. It is not due to the effect of any kind of longitudinal forces compressing the body along its direction of motion. This contraction becomes appreciable only at velocities approaching that of light in free space. It follows from the contraction formula that bodies cannot travel at velocities $V \geqslant c$ because at $V = c$ the longitudinal dimension of the body (in the direction

of motion) becomes zero, and at $V > c$ it would have to become imaginary.

5.4.3

It is evident from the Lorentz transformations that in the theory of relativity we can specify a definite "instant of time" only with respect to a single definite inertial frame of reference. Thus, for instance, a single "instant of time" in reference frame K (a single definite value of time t in this frame) corresponds to many values of time t in frame K', depending upon the values of coordinate x:

$$t' = \frac{t - Vx/c^2}{\sqrt{1 - \dfrac{V^2}{c^2}}}$$

Likewise, a single "instant of time" in frame K', i.e. a single definite value of time t', corresponds to many values of time t in frame K, depending upon the values of coordinate x':

$$t = \frac{t' + Vx'/c^2}{\sqrt{1 - \dfrac{V^2}{c^2}}}.$$

5.4.4

Another important consequence of the Lorentz transformations is the relativity of the time interval between any two events (for example, the beginning and end of some process), i.e. the dependence of this time interval on the choice of the inertial frame of reference. Assume that two events,

1 and 2, occur in the moving inertial frame of reference K' at the same point A, fixed in frame K' (i.e. $x'_2 = x'_1$), at the instants of time t'_1 and t'_2. Thus, the time interval between the events is $\tau_0 = t'_2 - t'_1$.

With respect to fixed inertial frame of reference K, point A travels with the same velocity V as does frame K'. Hence in frame K events 1 and 2 occur at different points in space, having the coordinates x_1 and x_2, and $x_2 - x_1 = V\tau$, where $\tau = t_2 - t_1$ is the time interval between events 1 and 2 according to the clock in frame K. It follows from the Lorentz transformations that

$$\tau = t_2 - t_1 = \frac{t'_2 - t'_1}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}}} = \frac{\tau_0}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{V^2}{c^2}}}$$

Thus, the time interval between two events is minimal in the inertial frame of reference with respect to which both events occur at the same point. The time measured by a clock travel ling together with some object is said to be the *proper time* of the object.

5.4.5

The consequence of the Lorentz transformations that is dealt with in the preceding subsection is evidence of the existence of the relativistic effect of the slowing of time, called *time dilation*, in a moving inertial frame of reference

as compared to a fixed one. A clock travelling at the velocity V with respect to a given inertial frame runs slower by a factor of $\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2}$ than a fixed clock. Correspondingly, in agreement with the relativity principle, all physical processes in a moving frame of reference proceed at a slower rate than in a fixed frame.

The time dilation effect becomes appreciable only at extremely high velocities V, close to that of light in free space. This effect has been demonstrated, for example, by experiments conducted with muons (**??**). The muon is an unstable elementary particle. The mean proper lifetime of muons (according to a clock in the inertial frame of reference with respect to which they are at rest) $\tau_0 = 2.2 \times 10^{-6}$ s. Muons are created in the upper layers of title atmosphere by the action of primary cosmic rays, and they travel with respect to the earth at velocities V close to c. If there was no relativistic effect of time dilation, a muon would be capable of travelling an average distance, with respect to an observer on the earth, of $\tau_0 c = 660$ m through the atmosphere. In other words, muons could not reach the earths surface. Actually, they are registered by instruments installed at the surface of the earth, because the mean lifetime of a travelling muon, according to the clock of the observer on the earth, $\tau = \tau_0/\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2} \gg \tau_0$, and the path travelled by a muon during this time, $\tau V \gg 660$ m.

5.4.6

The relativistic effect of time dilation in a spaceship travelling with respect to the earth makes it feasible to under take space flights of almost unlimited length and journeys

"into the future". According to the relativity principle, all processes in a spaceship, including the aging process of the astronauts, proceed in agreement with the same laws as on the earth. But in the spaceship time must be measured by a clock travelling together with it at the velocity V with respect to the earth.

If V is close to c the clock in the ship runs considerably slower than earth clocks (at the space-launch complex), by a factor of $1/\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2}$. For example, at $\beta = V/c = 0.99999$ the rates of the spaceship and earth clocks differ by a factor of 224. Consequently, in a time interval of $\tau_0 = 10$ years in such a spaceship, one can make a space flight taking $\tau = 2240$ years according to earth clocks, aging only 10 years during the flight. In this flight the spaceship can travel a tremendous distance from the earth: $l = V\tau = \beta c\tau = 2239.98$ light years[1]. The closer V is to c, the greater the distance l travelled by the spaceship with respect to the earth in the same interval τ_0 of proper time in the spaceship, i.e. the longer the space flight that the astronauts can make during their lifetime.

If an astronaut completes a space flight at a velocity V close to c by returning to the earth, he will find that people remaining on the earth (including his twin brother) has aged more than he has during the flight. If V differs from c by a sufficiently small amount, when $(1 - V^2/c^2)^{-1/2} \gg 1$, the astronaut can, during the flight, outlive all his contemporaries and find him self, upon his return, among future generations.

[1] A light year is the distance travelled by light in free space in one year: 1 light year = 9.4605×10^{15} m.

5.4.7

It would seem, on the face of it, that, on the basis of the relativity principle, we should arrive at a conclusion exactly the opposite of that given in the preceding subsection. The clock on the earth, travelling at the velocity $-\mathbf{V}$ with respect to the spaceship, should run slower than the clock in the ship. Therefore, the time required for the flight should be longer for the astronaut, and not for the people left on the earth. Hence, the twin that made the flight should age more than his brother.

We have thus found that the difference between the readings of the clocks at the space-launch complex and in the ship is positive according to (5.4.6), while, on the other hand, it is negative. This absurd result is called the *clock*, or *twin, paradox*. Actually, no clock paradox exists. It arose due to improper application of the relativity principle. This principle contends that not all frames of reference are equally justified, but only all *inertial* frames of reference. But the frame of reference of the spaceship, in contrast to that of the earth, is not an inertial one all throughout the flight. During launching, turning around and in braking orbit when approaching the earth, the spaceship travels with acceleration (or deceleration).

Consequently, the problem concerning the running of the clock at the launching complex which is always at rest with respect to a single inertial frame, and that of the clock in the spaceship, is, in principle, not a symmetrical one. Hence, the earth and ship frames of reference are not equally justified in the given problem. The reasoning in (5.4.6) is the correct one because it is based on the use of an inertial (the

earth) frame of reference. Accordingly, the reasoning given in (5.4.7), leading to the clock paradox, is incorrect. In the second case, the general theory of relativity should be applied, rather than the special theory. When this is done, it is found that, from the point of view of the astronaut as well, his clock runs slower than the clock at the launching complex.

5.4.8

The *interval*, or *space-time interval*, between two events, measured in the inertial frame of reference K' is the quantity

$$s'_{12} = \sqrt{c^2(t'_{12})^2 - (l'_{12})^2}$$

where $t'_{12} = t'_2 - t'_1$ is the time interval between the two events being considered (according to the clock in frame K'), and $l'_{12} = \sqrt{(x'_2 - x'_1)^2 + (y'_2 - y'_1)^2 + (z'_2 - z'_1)^2}$ is the distance between the points at which events **1** and **2** occur, also measured in frame of reference K'.

It follows from the Lorentz transformations that the interval between two given events, **1** and **2**, is invariant with respect to the choice of the inertial frame of reference, i.e. it does not change in transferring from moving inertial frame K' to fixed frame K:

$$s'_{12} = s_{12} = \text{inv}, \text{ where } s_{12} = \sqrt{c^2 t_{12}^2 - l_{12}^2}$$

If $s_{12}^2 > 0$, i.e. if s_{12} is a real number, the interval s_{12} is said to be *timelike*.

The interval s_{12} is said to be *spacelike* if $s_{12}^2 < 0$, i.e. s_{12} is an imaginary number.

5.4.9

It follows from the invariance of the interval with respect to the choice of the inertial frame K' that in all frames K' the values of t'_{12} and l'_{12} for the given two events, 1 and 2, satisfy the equation of a hyperbola:

$$c^2(t'_{12})^2 - (l'_{12})^2 = s^2_{12}$$

If $s^2_{12} > 0$ the relation between t'_{12} and l'_{12} in various inertial frames of reference K' travelling with respect to fixed frame K at any possible velocities $(0 \geqslant V < c)$, can be represented graphically as the two branches I and II of a hyperbola (Figure 5.3). Consequently, the sign of the time interval

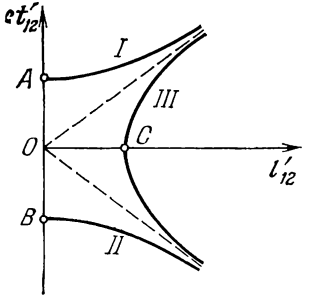


Figure 5.3.: The invariance of interval between two inertial frames.

between events 1 and 2, related by a timelike interval, is absolute. It is independent of the choice of the frame of reference: in all frames K' the second event always occurs either after the first, i.e. $t'_{12} > 0$ (branch I) or always before

the first, i.e. $t'_{12} < 0$ (branch II). The distance l'_{12} is relative; an inertial frame K' can be chosen in which $l'_{12} = 0$, i.e. events 1 and 2 occur at the same place (points A and B on the branches I and II of the hyperbola).

Two events related by causality should always correspond to a timelike interval or, in any case, one equal to zero ($s_{12} = 0$). This is due to the fact that the signal by means of which event 1 (the cause) leads to event 2 (the effect) cannot be propagated in space at a velocity exceeding that of light in free space:

$$l'_{12} \leqslant c(t'_2 - t'_1)$$

5.4.10

In the case of events related by a spacelike interval ($s^2_{12} < 0$), the sign of t'_{12} is relative: $t'_{12} > 0$ (upper part of hyperbola III in Figure 5.3) in certain inertial frames K' whereas in others $t'_{12} < 0$ (lower part of hyperbola III). Point C corresponds to the frame K' in which $t'_{12} = 0$, i.e. events 1 and 2 occur simultaneously.

5.5 Transformation of Velocities and Accelerations in Relativistic Kinematics

5.5.1

The velocities $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{v}'$ of a particle in two inertial frames of reference K and K' are

$$\mathbf{v} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}}{\mathrm{d}t} = v_x\mathbf{i} + \mathbf{v}_y\mathbf{j} + \mathbf{v}_z\mathbf{k}, \text{ and}$$
$$\mathbf{v}' = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}'}{\mathrm{d}t'} = v'_{x'}\mathbf{i}' + \mathbf{v}'_{y'}\mathbf{j}' + \mathbf{v}'_{z'}\mathbf{k}'$$

where $\mathbf{r} = x\mathbf{i} + y\mathbf{j} + z\mathbf{k}$ and $\mathbf{r}' = x'\mathbf{i}' + y'\mathbf{j}' + z'\mathbf{k}'$ are the radius vectors of the particle in frames K and K'. The projections of velocities $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{v}'$ on the axes of Cartesian coordinates of frames K and K' are:

$$v_x = \frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}, \qquad v_y = \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}, \qquad v_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}z}{\mathrm{d}t}$$
$$v'_{x'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}x'}{\mathrm{d}t'}, \qquad v'_{y'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}y'}{\mathrm{d}t'}, \qquad v'_{z'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}z'}{\mathrm{d}t'}$$

If the like axes of the Cartesian coordinates of frames K' and K are pairwise parallel, and frame K' travels with respect to frame K at the constant velocity V along axis OX (Figure 2.3, see (2.8.1)) and, in addition, if at the zero time references in frames K and K' ($t = 0$ and $t' = 0$), the origins O and O' of coordinates of these frames coincide, the Lorentz transformations in the form given in (5.3.2) are valid. It follows from these transformations that the relations between the projections of the velocities of the particle on the axes of the Cartesian coordinates of frames K and

K' are of the form:

$$v_x = \frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}, \qquad v_y = \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}, \qquad v_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}z}{\mathrm{d}t}$$
$$v'_{x'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}x'}{\mathrm{d}t'}, \qquad v'_{y'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}y'}{\mathrm{d}t'}, \qquad v'_{z'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}z'}{\mathrm{d}t'}$$

These equations express the *law of the composition of velocities in relativistic kinematics*. In the limit as $c \to \infty$ these equations lead to the ordinary law for the composition of velocities in classical mechanics (2.8.2):

$$v'_{x'} = v_x - V, \quad v'_{y'} = v_y, \quad v'_{z'} = v_z, \text{ and}$$
$$\mathbf{v}' = \mathbf{v} - \mathbf{V}$$

5.5.2

The relations between the squares of the magnitudes of vectors $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{v}'$ are

$$v^2 = c^2 \left[1 - \frac{\left[1 - (v'/c)^2\right]\left(1 - (V/c)^2\right)}{\left(1 + Vv'_{x'}/c^2\right)^2} \right]$$
$$(v')^2 = c^2 \left[1 - \frac{\left[1 - (v/c)^2\right]\left(1 - (V/c)^2\right)}{\left(1 - Vv_x/c^2\right)^2} \right]$$

In particular, if $v' = c$, then $v = c$ and vice versa. Hence, if the velocity of a particle with respect to some inertial frame of reference is equal to the velocity of light in free space, then it must have the same magnitude with respect to any other inertial frame regardless of the velocity of relative motion of these two frames. In other words, the

sum of two velocities, of which one is equal to c, is always equal to c. This law, detected in the motion of such elementary particles as photons (**??**) and the neutrino (Table **??**), demonstrates the limiting nature of the velocity of light in free space (5.1.3).

5.5.3

It is evident from the equations in the preceding subsection that a particle, travelling with respect to some inertial frame of reference at a velocity less than c, has a velocity with respect to any other inertial frame that is also less than c (for instance, if $v < c$, then $v' < c$, and vice versa). From this it follows, among other things, that no matter how close to c the velocities of two particles are, their relative velocity is always less than c. Assume, for example, that two particles are travelling toward each other along the axis OX of frame K at the respective velocities: $\mathbf{v}_1 = 0.8c\,\mathbf{i}$ and $\mathbf{v}_2 = -0.8c\,\mathbf{i}$. The velocity $\mathbf{u}_{21}$ of the second particle with respect to the first is not equal, as is assumed in classical mechanics, to the vector difference $\mathbf{v}_2 - \mathbf{v}_1 = -1.6c\,\mathbf{i}$ if only because the magnitude of this velocity exceeds c. The required velocity is equal to the velocity of the second particle with respect to inertial frame K', travelling together with the first particle ($\mathbf{V} = 0.8c\,\mathbf{i}$), i.e. $\mathbf{u}_{21} = \mathbf{v}'_2$. It follows from the equation in

(5.5.1) that

$$v'_{2x'} = \frac{v_{2x} - V}{1 - V v_{2x}/c^2} = -\frac{1.6c}{1 + 0.64} = 0.976c,$$
$$v'_{2y'} = v'_{2z'} = 0$$

i.e. $\mathbf{u}_{21} = -0.976c\,\mathbf{i}'$ and $|\,\mathbf{u}_{21}| < c$.

5.5.4

The projections of the acceleration of a particle on the axes of the Cartesian coordinates of two inertial frames of refer-

ence K and K' (5.5.1) are related by the following equations:

$$a'_{x'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}v'_{x'}}{\mathrm{d}t'} = a_x \left(\frac{\sqrt{1-(V/c)^2}}{1-\dfrac{Vv_x}{c^2}} \right)^3,$$

$$a'_{y'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}v'_{y'}}{\mathrm{d}t'} = \left[\left(1-\frac{Vv_x}{c^2} \right) a_y + \frac{Vv_y}{c^2} a_x \right] \frac{1-(V/c)^2}{\left(1-\dfrac{Vv_x}{c^2} \right)^3},$$

$$a'_{z'} = \frac{\mathrm{d}v'_{z'}}{\mathrm{d}t'} = \left[\left(1-\frac{Vv_x}{c^2} \right) a_z + \frac{Vv_z}{c^2} a_x \right] \frac{1-(V/c)^2}{\left(1-\dfrac{Vv_x}{c^2} \right)^3},$$

$$a_x = \frac{\mathrm{d}v_x}{\mathrm{d}t} = a'_{x'} \left(\frac{\sqrt{1-(V/c)^2}}{1+\dfrac{Vv'_{x'}}{c^2}} \right)^3,$$

$$a_y = \frac{\mathrm{d}v_y}{\mathrm{d}t} = \left[\left(1+\frac{Vv'_{x'}}{c^2} \right) a'_{y'} + \frac{Vv'_{y'}}{c^2} a'_{x'} \right] \frac{1-(V/c)^2}{\left(1+\dfrac{Vv'_{x'}}{c^2} \right)^3},$$

$$a_z = \frac{\mathrm{d}v_z}{\mathrm{d}t} = \left[\left(1-\frac{Vv'_{x'}}{c^2} \right) a'_{z'} + \frac{Vv'_{z'}}{c^2} a'_{x'} \right] \frac{1-(V/c)^2}{\left(1+\dfrac{Vv'_{x'}}{c^2} \right)^3},$$

5.6 Basic Law of Relativistic Dynamics

5.6.1

In contrast to classical mechanics, the mass of a particle is not constant in relativistic mechanics. It depends upon the velocity **v** of the particle. Its value m differs in two inertial frames of reference moving with respect to each other. The *dependence of mass on velocity* is expressed by the equation:

$$m = \frac{m_0}{\sqrt{1 - v^2/c^2}}$$

where m_0 is the *rest mass* of the particle, i.e. its mass measured in the inertial frame of reference with respect to which the particle is at rest, and c is the velocity of light in free space. The mass m is frequently called the *relativistic mass*.

The effect of the velocity of a particle on its mass becomes appreciable only at values of v close to c. For example, $m/m_0 = 1.005$ at $v/c = 0.1$ and $m/m_0 = 2.29$ at $v/c = 0.9$. It is evident from the law for the dependence of m on v that particles with a rest mass $m_0 \neq 0$ cannot travel at velocities greater than or equal to c (i.e. $v < c$). At the same time, particles whose rest mass equals zero [photons (**??**) and the neutrino (Table **??**)] cannot have a velocity other than c.

5.6.2

The momentum $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v}$ of a particle is a nonlinear function of its velocity:

$$p = \frac{m_0\mathbf{v}}{\sqrt{1 - v^2/c^2}}$$

Vector **p** is sometimes called the *relativistic momentum* of the particle (to distinguish it from the value $m_0\mathbf{v}$ of its

momentum in classical mechanics). It is obvious that at $v \ll c$, the momentum $\mathbf{p} = m\mathbf{v} \approx m_0\mathbf{v}$.

By virtue of the homogeneity of space (2.7.1), the *law of conservation of relativistic momentum* is valid in relativistic mechanics: the momentum of a closed system (2.2.4) does not change in the course of time.

Following from this law is the *law of conservation of relativistic mass*: in any processes that take place in a closed system, its total relativistic mass remains unchanged.

5.6.3

The *basic law of relativistic dynamics* is: the rate of change in the momentum of a particle is equal to the force $\mathbf{F}$ acting on it, i.e.

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{p}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{F}, \text{ or } \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\left(\frac{m_0\mathbf{v}}{\sqrt{1 - v^2/c^2}}\right) = \mathbf{F}$$

Note. If the particle is subject to the simultaneous action of several forces, $\mathbf{F}$ is understood to be the resultant force (2.2.2).

5.6.4

An element of work done by force $\mathbf{F}$ in the infinitely small displacement $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}$ of its point of application is

$$\delta W = (\mathbf{F}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}) = (\mathbf{F}\mathbf{v})\,\mathrm{d}t$$

Combining the basic law of relativistic dynamics (5.6.3) and the dependence of mass on the velocity (5.6.1) we obtain

$$\mathbf{F} = m\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} + \mathbf{v}\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t} \text{ and } \frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{mv}{c^2 - v^2}\frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

Hence

$$\begin{aligned}\delta W &= (\mathbf{F}\mathbf{v})\,\mathrm{d}t = m(\mathbf{v}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}) + v^2\,\mathrm{d}m \\ &= mv\,\mathrm{d}v + v^2\,\mathrm{d}m = c^2\,\mathrm{d}m\end{aligned}$$

5.6.5

The acceleration imparted to a particle by the force $\mathbf{F}$ is

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m} - \frac{\mathbf{v}}{m}\frac{\mathrm{d}m}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{1}{m}\left[\mathbf{F} - \frac{\mathbf{v}}{c^2}(\mathbf{F}\mathbf{v})\right]$$

Hence, in contrast to classical mechanics, the acceleration of a particle in relativistic mechanics does not, in general, coincide in direction with the force imparting the acceleration. Vector $\mathbf{a}$ is collinear with force $\mathbf{F}$ in only two cases:

(a) when force $\mathbf{F}$ is perpendicular to the velocity $\mathbf{v}$ of the particle (transverse force) so that $(\mathbf{F}\mathbf{v}) = 0$ and

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m_0}\sqrt{1 - \frac{v^2}{c^2}}$$

(b) when force $\mathbf{F}$ is parallel to the velocity vector $\mathbf{v}$ of the particle (longitudinal force) so that $\mathbf{v}(\mathbf{F}\mathbf{v}) = v^2\mathbf{F}$ and

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m}\left(1 - \frac{v^2}{c^2}\right) = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m_0}\left(1 - \frac{v^2}{c^2}\right)^{3/2}$$

A longitudinal force imparts to a particle an acceleration less by a factor of $1 - v^2/c^2$ than that imparted by a transverse force of the same magnitude. This is due to the fact that a transverse force changes the velocity of a particle only in direction (the magnitude v of the velocity and the relativistic mass are not changed), whereas a longitudinal force changes the magnitude of the velocity of a particle as well as its mass.

5.7 Mass-Energy Relation

5.7.1

The increment of the kinetic energy E_k of a particle is equal to the work done by the force $\mathbf{F}$ acting on the particle (5.6.4):

$$\mathrm{d}E_k = \delta W = c^2 \mathrm{d}m$$

where $\mathrm{d}m$ is the corresponding increment of relativistic mass of the particle. It follows that

$$E_k = (m - m_0)c^2 = m_0 c^2 \left[\frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - v^2/c^2}} - 1 \right]$$

where m_0 is the rest mass of the particle. Expanding $(1 - v^2/c^2)^{-1/2}$ into a Maclaurin series we obtain

$$E_k = m_0 c^2 \left[\frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{v}{c} \right)^2 + \frac{3}{8} \left(\frac{v}{c} \right)^4 + \dots \right]$$

At $v \ll c$ this equation reduces to the ordinary expression for the kinetic energy in classical mechanics:

$$E_k = \frac{m_0 v^2}{2} = \frac{m v^2}{2}$$

5.7.2

It follows from the first equation in the preceding subsection that an increase in the kinetic energy of a body should be accompanied by a corresponding increase in its relativistic mass m:

$$\mathrm{d}m = \frac{1}{c^2}\mathrm{d}E_k$$

Changes in other kinds of energy of a body are also associated with an increase in its relativistic mass. If, for example, in heating a body at rest its internal energy (9.1.2) is increased by the amount $\mathrm{d}U$, the mass m of the body, equal to its rest mass m_0, is increased by

$$\mathrm{d}m = \mathrm{d}m_0 = \frac{1}{c^2}\mathrm{d}U$$

In the general case, a change in the total energy E of the body by the amount $\mathrm{d}E$ is accompanied by a change in its relativistic mass by the amount

$$\mathrm{d}m = \frac{1}{c^2}\mathrm{d}E$$

Accordingly, the following universal relation exists between E and m:

$$E = mc^2 = \frac{m_0 c^2}{\sqrt{1 - \dfrac{v^2}{c^2}}}$$

this is known as the *mass-energy relation*: the total energy of a body (or system) is equal to the product of the relativistic

mass of the body (or system) by the square of the velocity of light in free space.

By virtue of the uniformity of time (3.4.2),the *law of the conservation of energy* is valid in relativistic mechanics as it is in classical mechanics: the total energy of a closed system (2.2.4) does not change in the course of time.

It follows from the mass-energy relation that the laws of the conservation of relativistic mass (5.6.2) and of the total energy are not independent laws.

5.7.3

The total energy of a particle or a system of particles (for instance, of an atomic nucleus, atom, molecule or body) at rest is equal to

$$E_0 = m_0 c^2$$

where m_0 is the rest mass; E_0 is called the *rest energy* of the particle or system. The values of m_0 and E_0 are independent of the choice of the inertial frame of reference. These quantities are constant characteristics of structureless (elementary) particles, similar, for example, to their electric charge and spin (Table **??**). The rest mass and rest energy of a system of particles depend upon the composition of the system and its internal state. For example, the rest mass of an excited nucleus (or atom) is greater than the rest mass of the same nucleus (or atom) in the ground state.

5.7.4

The total energy E of a particle and its momentum $\mathbf{p}$ are related by the equations:

$$\mathbf{p} = \frac{E}{c^2}\mathbf{v} \text{ or } \frac{E^2}{c^2} - p^2 = m_0^2 c^2 \text{ or } E = \sqrt{p^2 c^2 + m_0^2 c^4}$$

The values of the total energy, relativistic mass and momentum of a given particle, in contrast to its rest mass m_0, are relative, i.e. they are different in two inertial frames of reference K (E, m and $\mathbf{p}$) and K' (E', m' and $\mathbf{p}'$). But the difference between the square of the total energy of a particle divided by c^2 and the square of the momentum of the particle, like the interval between two events (5.4.8), does not depend upon the choice of the inertial frame of reference:

$$\frac{(E')^2}{c^2} - (p')^2 = \frac{E^2}{c^2} - p^2 = m_0^2 c^2$$

5.7.5

In going over from one inertial frame K to another K' that is travelling with respect to the first at the velocity $\mathbf{V} = \text{const}$ along the OX axis (Figure 2.3, see (2.8.1)), the projections of the momentum of the particle on the coordinate axes

and its total energy are transformed as follows:

$$p'_{x'} = \frac{p_x - \frac{VE}{c^2}}{\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2}}, \qquad p_x = \frac{p'_{x'} - \frac{VE'}{c^2}}{\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2}}$$
$$p'_{y'} = p_y, \qquad p_y = p'_{y'}$$
$$p'_{z'} = p_z, \qquad p_z = p'_{z'}$$
$$E' = \frac{E - Vp_x}{\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2}}, \qquad E = \frac{E' + Vp'_{x'}}{\sqrt{1 - V^2/c^2}}$$

5.7.6

It does not at all follow from the laws of conservation of relativistic mass (5.6.2) and of total energy (5.7.2) that the rest mass and rest energy of a closed system cannot change. For instance, the sum of the rest masses of free protons and neutrons is always greater than the rest mass of the atomic nucleus they form.

A quantity introduced to characterize systems held together with a margin of safety (for example, atomic nuclei, atoms and molecules) is the concept of the binding energy. The *binding energy of a system* is measured as the least amount of work that must be done to separate the system into its component parts (for instance, an atom into its nucleus and electrons). The binding energy of a system is

$$E_b = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_{0i}c^2 - M_0c^2$$

where m_0 is the rest mass of a system of n particles, and m_{0i} is the rest mass of the i-th. particle in the free state. The quantity

$$\Delta m = \sum_{i=1}^{n} m_{0i} - M_0 = \frac{E_b}{c^2}$$

is sometimes called the *mass defect of the system*.

6 Gravitation

6.1 Law of Universal

6.1.1

Isaac Newton's law of universal gravitation states that the force of mutual attraction between any two particles is directly proportional to the product of their masses and inversely proportional to the square of the distance between them. Such forces are called *gravitational forces*. If m_1 and m_2 are the masses of the particles being considered and $\mathbf{r}_1$ and $\mathbf{r}_2$ are the radius vectors of these particles, then, according to the law of universal gravitation, the force $\mathbf{F}_{12}$ attracting the first particle toward the second particle, and the force $\mathbf{F}_{21}$ attracting the second particle toward the first particle are equal in magnitude and opposite in direction; they are equal to:

$$\mathbf{F}_{12} = -G\frac{m_1 m_2}{r_{12}^3}\mathbf{r}_{12} \text{ and } \mathbf{F}_{21} = -G\frac{m_1 m_2}{r_{21}^3}\mathbf{r}_{21}$$

Here $\mathbf{r}_{12} = \mathbf{r}_1 - \mathbf{r}_2$ and $\mathbf{r}_{21} = \mathbf{r}_2 - \mathbf{r}_1$ are radius vectors from the second particle to the first and from the first to the second, respectively, and $r_{12} = r_{21} = |\mathbf{r}_{12}| = |\mathbf{r}_{21}|$ is the distance between the particles. The proportionality

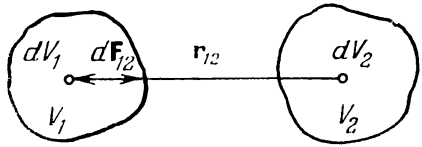


Figure 6.1.: The gravitational interaction between two bodies of arbitrary size and shape.

factor G is called the *constant of universal gravitation*, or the *gravitational constant*. In value the gravitational constant is equal to the force of mutual attraction of two particles of unit mass with a distance of unit length between them. It has been found from experiments that

$$G = (6.6720 \pm 0.0041) \times 10^{-11}\,\mathrm{N\,m^2/kg^2}$$

6.1.2

The gravitational interaction of two bodies of arbitrary size and shape (Figure 6.1) is described by the equation

$$\mathbf{F}_{12} = -G \int_{(V_1} \rho_1 \mathrm{d}V_1 \int_{(V_2} \frac{\rho_2}{r_{12}^3} \mathbf{r}_{12} \mathrm{d}V_2$$

where $\mathbf{r}_{12}$ is the radius vector from the infinitely small element $\mathrm{d}V_2$ of volume of the second body to the infinitely

small element dV_2 of volume of the first body, ρ_1 and ρ_2 are the densities of the two elements, and integration is carried out throughout the whole volume of both bodies.

The calculations of force $\mathbf{F}_{12}$ are substantially simplified in two cases:

(a) when there is a spherically symmetrical distribution of the masses in the two bodies, i.e. both bodies are of spherical shape and the density of each body depends only upon the distance to its centre (in particular, the bodies can be homogeneous);

(b) when one of the bodies is of negligibly small size with respect to the other body in which the distribution of its mass is spherically symmetrical.

In these cases

$$\mathbf{F}_{12} = -G\frac{m_1 m_2}{r_{12}^3}\mathbf{r}_{12}$$

where m_1 and m_2 are the masses of the bodies, and $\mathbf{r}_{12}$ is the radius vector connecting the centres of mass (2.3.3) of the second and first bodies.

6.1.3

As a first approximation, it can be assumed that the earth is of spherical shape and the distribution of its mass is spherical ly symmetrical. Hence the gravitational force $\mathbf{F}$, exerted by the earth on a body of mass m, is directed toward the centre of the earth and its magnitude is

$$F = G\frac{mM_\oplus}{r^2}$$

where $M_\oplus$ is the mass of the earth and r is the distance from the body to the earths centre (the size of any body on earth is negligibly small compared to the radius of the earth).

6.1.4

In application to such microscopic objects as elementary particles, gravitational interaction is practically of no importance whatsoever. It is found to be extremely weak in comparison to all other kinds of interaction: strong, electromagnetic and weak interaction ((**??**) through (**??**)). For example, the electric force of mutual repulsion of two electrons exceeds their gravitational force by over 10^{42} times! Even for ordinary macroscopic objects on the earth the forces of gravitational inter action are extremely small. Two homogeneous spheres, for instance, with a mass of 1000 kg each and a distance of one metre between their centres are attracted to each other with a force of only 7×10^{-5} N.

But, at the same time, gravitational forces are the determining factors in the motion of objects that are investigated in astronomy and astronautics (spaceships, planets and their satellites, planetary systems, stars, etc.). This is due, primarily, to the huge size of astronomical bodies and, in the second place, to the small electromagnetic forces of interaction of such bodies, which, as a whole, are practically electroneutral.

6.2 Gravitational Field

6.2.1

Gravitational interaction between bodies is due to the *gravitational field* set up by the bodies. A distinctive feature of a gravitational field is that a particle placed in this field is subject to a force proportional to the mass of the particle.

The force characteristic of a gravitational field is its *intensity*, the vector quantity $\mathbf{g}_f$, which is equal to the ratio of the force $\mathbf{F}$, exerted on the particle by the field in which it is placed, to the mass m of the particle:

$$\mathbf{g}_f = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m}$$

The intensity of a gravitational field is independent of the mass m of the particle. It is a function of the coordinates (x, y, z) of points of the field being considered. In the case of an unsteady field the intensity also depends upon the time t.

A gravitational field is steady, or stationary (2.2.1), if the body that sets it up is fixed in the frame of reference chosen to describe the field. The intensity of a steady gravitational field depends only upon the coordinates: $\mathbf{g}_f = \mathbf{g}_f(x, y, z)$.

It follows from Newtons second law (2.4.3) that the forces of ;i gravitational field impart an acceleration $\mathbf{a}$ to a free particle in the field. This acceleration equals the intensity of the field:

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{m} = \mathbf{g}_f$$

6.2.2

It follows from the law of universal gravitation (6.1.1) that the intensity of the gravitational field of a fixed particle of mass M, located at the origin of coordinates, equals

$$\mathbf{g}_f = -G\frac{M}{r^3}\mathbf{r}$$

where $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector of the point being considered in the field.

A gravitational field is a conservative, or potential, one (3.1.6) because the force acting on a particle of mass m brought into the field is a central force (3.3.4):

$$\mathbf{F} = m\mathbf{g}_f = -G\frac{mM}{r^2}\frac{\mathbf{r}}{r}$$

Correspondingly, the potential energy of a particle in such a field is equal to (3.3.4):[1]

$$E_p = \int_r^\infty F_r \mathrm{d}r = -GmM\int_r^\infty \frac{\mathrm{d}r}{r^2} = -G\frac{mM}{r}$$

It is equally correct to regard the quantity E_p as the potential energy of a particle of mass M in a gravitational field set up by a particle of mass m or, finally, as the *mutual potential energy of two particles* due to their gravitational interaction.

[1] Here and throughout (Section 6.2) and (Section 6.3) an infinitely distant point is chosen as the reference point for the potential energy, i.e. it is assumed that $E_p(\infty) = 0$.

6.2.3

A gravitational field complies with the *principle of super position of fields*: in superposing several (n) gravitational fields their intensities at each point in space are added vectorially, i.e. the intensity of the resultant field is

$$\mathbf{g}_f = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{g}_{fi}$$

where $\mathbf{g}_{fi}$ is the intensity of only the i-th field at the point being considered in space.

The intensity of the gravitational field of an arbitrary system consisting of n fixed particles is

$$\mathbf{g}_f = -G \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{m_i}{\rho_i^3} \boldsymbol{\rho}_i$$

where $\boldsymbol{\rho}_i = \mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_i$ is the radius vector from the i-th particle, whose radius vector is equal to $\mathbf{r}_i$, to the point in the field specified by radius vector $\mathbf{r}$. Consequently, the potential energy of a particle of mass m in this gravitational field is

$$E_p = -Gm \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{m_i}{\rho_i}$$

In particular, if the gravitational field is set up by a body whose mass M is distributed in a spherically symmetrical manner (6.1.2), then outside this body

$$\mathbf{g}_f = -G \frac{M}{r^3} \mathbf{r} \quad \text{and} \quad E_p = -\frac{GmM}{r}$$

where **r** is a radius vector from the centre of the body to the point being considered in the field. These equations are valid, for example, for the gravitational field of the earth.

6.2.4

By virtue of the conservative nature (potentiality) of the gravitational field (3.1.6), its energy characteristic, the potential, ran be introduced. The *potential of a gravitational field* is the scalar φ, equal to the ratio of the potential energy $E_p$of a particle, placed at the point being considered in the field to the mass m of the particle:

$$\varphi = \frac{E_p}{m}$$

The potential φ is independent of the mass m of the particle; it is a function of the coordinates of points of the gravitational, held. For example, the potential of a gravitational field set up by a fixed particle of mass M is

$$\varphi = -\frac{GM}{r}$$

where r is the distance from the source of the field to the point being considered.

The potential of a gravitational field set up by an arbitrary system of n fixed particles is

$$\varphi = -\sum_{i=1}^{n} G\frac{m_i}{\rho_i}$$

where ρ_i is the distance from a particle of mass m_i to the point being considered in the field. Thus, in superposing

gravitational fields, their potentials are added together algebraically, i.e. the potential φ at any point of a resultant field is equal to the algebraic sum of the potentials at the same point for all the superposed fields taken separately;

$$\varphi = -\sum_{i=1}^{n} \varphi_i$$

Note. In applying this equation it is necessary that the same reference point be chosen for the potentials φ_i of all the fields being superposed: $\varphi_i(\infty) = 0$ (see the footnote to (6.2.2)).

6.2.5

An element of work done by the forces of a gravitational field in an infinitely small displacement $\mathrm{d}r$ of a particle of mass m in this field is:

$$\mathrm{d}W = (\mathbf{F}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}) = m(\mathbf{g}_f \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r})$$

But, on the other hand, the work $\mathrm{d}W$ is equal to the decrease in the potential energy of the particle in the gravitational field:

$$\mathrm{d}W = -\mathrm{d}E_p = -m\mathrm{d}\varphi$$

Consequently, the potential and intensity of a gravitational field are related by the equation:

$$\mathrm{d}\varphi = -(\mathbf{g}_f \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}) = -(g_{fx}\mathrm{d}x + g_{fy}\mathrm{d}y + g_{fz}\mathrm{d}z)$$

where g_{fx}, g_{fy} and g_{fz} are the projections of vector $\mathbf{g}_f$ on the axes of rectangular Cartesian coordinates. Since

$$\mathrm{d}\varphi = \frac{\partial\varphi}{\partial x}\mathrm{d}x + \frac{\partial\varphi}{\partial y}\mathrm{d}y + \frac{\partial\varphi}{\partial z}\mathrm{d}z$$

then

$$\frac{\partial \varphi}{\partial x} = -g_{fx}, \quad \frac{\partial \varphi}{\partial y} = -g_{fy}, \quad \frac{\partial \varphi}{\partial z} = -g_{fz},$$

Hence

$$\mathbf{g}_f = -\left(\frac{\partial \varphi}{\partial x}\mathbf{i} + \frac{\partial \varphi}{\partial y}\mathbf{j} + \frac{\partial \varphi}{\partial z}\mathbf{k} +\right) = -\operatorname{grad}\varphi = -\boldsymbol{\nabla}\varphi$$

i.e. the intensity of a gravitational field is numerically equal and opposite in direction to the gradient of the potential of the field.

The relation between (p and gf can also be written in the form

$$\mathrm{d}\varphi = -\mathbf{g}_f \mathrm{d}l \cos\alpha = -g_{fl}\mathrm{d}l \quad \text{or} \quad g_{fl} = -\frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}l}$$

where α is the angle between vectors $\mathbf{g}_f$ and $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}$, $\mathrm{d}l = |\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}\,|$, and g_{fl} is the projection of vector $\mathbf{g}_f$ onto the direction of vector $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}$. Thus, the projection of the intensity vector of a gravitational field onto some direction is numerically equal and opposite in sign to the change in the field potential per unit length in the same direction.

6.2.6

The non-relativistic theory of gravitation discussed above end based on Newtons law of universal gravitation is only approximate. It describes with sufficient accuracy only comparatively weak gravitational fields, having a potential $|\varphi| \ll c^2$, where $c^2 = 9 \times 10^{16}\,\mathrm{m^2/s^2}$ is the square of the velocity of light in free space. It is, in particular, applicable

to the gravitational lieIds of the earth and sun because the absolute values of the potentials of these fields at the surfaces of the earth and sun are equal to 6.3×10^7 and 1.9×10^{11} m^2/s^2.

6.2.7

The *modern* (relativistic) *theory of gravitation*, which is m unified theory of space, time and gravitation, was formulated by Albert Einstein. He called it the *general theory of relativity*. The existence of a close relationship between space and time had already been indicated in his special theory of relativity. This relationship is evident in the Lorentz transformations (5.3.2) and the invariance of the interval between two events (5.4.8). It was found necessary, in describing physical processes, l.o employ a four-dimensional space-time continuum, in which the position of a point is specified by three space coordinates mid the time coordinate ct.

According to the relativistic theory of gravitation, the geometrical properties (metric) of the space-time continuum depend upon the distribution of gravitating masses and their motion in space. Bodies setting up a gravitational field "distort" real three-dimensional space and differently change the passage of time at various points in this space. This means that the bodies cause a deviation of the metric of space-time from that of the "flat" space-time described by Euclidean geometry and dealt with in the special theory of relativity. Therefore, the motion of a body in a gravitational field can be regarded as inertial motion, but in a "distorted" (non-Euclidean) space-time continuum. Accordingly, a par-

ticle, subject to the action of a gravitational field, travels neither in a straight line nor at uniform velocity in a real three-dimensional space.

It was shown in the relativistic theory of gravitation that the principle of superposition (6.2.3) does not hold for arbitrary gravitational fields. This principle, as well as the whole non-relativistic theory of gravitation, is sufficiently accurate only in weak fields ($|\varphi| \ll c^2$) and for motion in these fields at low velocities $v \ll c$.

6.3 Kepler's Laws. Space Velocities

6.3.1

The motion of the planets of the solar system along their orbits around the sun complies with the three laws of Kepler. These laws can be derived from Newtons law of universal gravitation, dealing, as a first approximation, with the sun and planets as particles. In the central force field of gravitation of the sun, a planet of mass m is subject to the action of the gravitational force

$$\mathbf{F} = -G\frac{mM_\odot}{r^3}\mathbf{r}$$

where $M_\odot$ is the mass of the sun and $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector of the planet from the centre of forces O, which is taken as the origin of coordinates.

The moment of force $\mathbf{F}$ about the centre of forces is $\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{r}\,\mathbf{F}] \equiv 0$. Hence, the angular momentum $\mathbf{L}$ of the planet about the same point O does not change with time (4.3.1):

$$\mathbf{L} = [\mathbf{r}\,m\,\mathbf{v}] = \text{const}$$

Consequently, the planet travels along a plane path, (orbit), whose plane is perpendicular to vector $\mathbf{L}$. According to (1.3.6), $\mathbf{L} = \left[\mathbf{r}\, m\, \mathbf{v}_\varphi\right]$, where $\mathbf{v}_\varphi$ the transverse velocity of the planet. Therefore, the orbital motion of the planet satisfies the condition

$$r^2 \frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{L}{m} = \text{const}$$

where r and φ are the polar coordinates of the planet.

A second condition is imposed by the law of conservation of mechanical energy: $E_k + E_p = E = \text{const}$. According to (1.3.6) and (6.2.2):

$$E_k = \frac{mv^2}{2} = \frac{m}{2}\left[\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}r}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2 + \left(r\frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2\right]$$
$$= \frac{m}{2}\left[\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}r}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{L}{mr}\right)^2\right]$$

and

$$E_p = -G\frac{mM_\odot}{r}$$

so that the second condition is of the form

$$\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}r}{\mathrm{d}t}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{L}{mr}\right)^2 - \frac{2GM_\odot}{r} = \frac{2E}{m}$$

6.3.2

The equation of the path of the planet (in the polar coordinates r and φ) is

$$r = \frac{p}{1 + e\cos\varphi}$$

where $p = L^2/Gm^2M_\odot$ and $e = \sqrt{(2EL^2/G^2m^3M_\odot^2) + 1}$. The total mechanical energy of the planet $E < 0$, so that $e < 1$ and the path (orbit) of the planet is an ellipse.

Kepler's first law states that all the planets of the solar system travel along elliptic orbits of which the sun occupies one focus. It follows from the first condition (6.3.1) that the areal velocity (1.3.6) of the planet is constant:

$$\sigma = \frac{1}{2}r^2\frac{\mathrm{d}\varphi}{\mathrm{d}t} = \frac{L}{2m} = \text{const}$$

Kepler's second law states that the radius vector of a planet sweeps out equal areas in equal lengths of time.

6.3.3

According to Kepler's second law, the orbital period, or period of revolution, T of a planet about the sun is equal to the ratio of the area A of the orbit to the areal velocity σ:

$$T = \frac{A}{\sigma} = \frac{\pi ab}{\sigma} = \text{const}$$

where $a = p/(1-e^2)$ and $b = a\sqrt{1-e^2}$ are the major and minor semi-axes of the elliptic orbit. Thus

$$T^2 = \frac{\pi^2 p}{L^2/4m^2}a^3 = \frac{4\pi^2}{GM_\odot}a^3 = \text{const}$$

This equation is an expression of *Kepler's third law*: the squares of the periods of revolution of the planets about the sun are proportional to the cubes of the major semi-axes of the elliptic orbits of these planets.

6.3.4

The *orbital velocity* is the minimum velocity that it is necessary to impart to a body to convert it into an artificial satellite of the earth. It is also called the *circular orbital velocity* because it is equal to the velocity of an artificial satellite in circular orbit about the earth in the absence of air friction of the atmosphere. The orbital velocity is

$$v_1 = \sqrt{\frac{GM_\oplus}{r}}$$

where $GM_\oplus$ is the mass of the earth, and r is the radius of the circular orbit. At the earths surface $v_1 = 7.9\,\mathrm{km/s}$.

6.3.5

The *escape velocity* is the minimum velocity that it is necessary to impart to a body to enable it, without any additional forces, to overcome the earths gravitational attraction and become an artificial satellite of the sun. It is also called the *parabolic velocity* because it launches the body on a parabolic orbit in the earths gravitational field (in the absence of air friction of the atmosphere). The escape velocity

$$v_2 = \sqrt{\frac{2GM_\oplus}{r}}$$

where r is the radius from the launching site of the body to the centre of the earth. At the earths surface $v_2 = 11.2\,\mathrm{km/s}$.

6.3.6

The *solar escape velocity* is the minimum velocity that it is necessary to impart to a spacecraft, launched at the earths surface, to overcome the suns gravitational attraction and leave the solar system. This velocity is $v_1 = 16.7\,\mathrm{km/s}$.

7 Motion in non-inertial Frames of Reference

7.1 Kinematics of Relative Motion

7.1.1

It is assumed in classical (Newtonian) mechanics that distances and time intervals remain unchanged in going over from one frame of reference to any other frame that is in motion in even the most arbitrary manner with respect to the first frame. For example, assume that K is an inertial frame with origin at point O^* and S is a *non-inertial* frame with its origin at point O (Figure 7.1).

In the general case, the motion of frame S with respect to frame K can be regarded as the sum of two motions: translational motion of point O at the velocity $\mathbf{v}_0$ and rotation about this point at the angular velocity $\mathbf{\Omega}$. Radius vectors $\mathbf{r}^*$ and $\mathbf{r}$ of arbitrary particle M, measured in frames K and S, are related by the equation

$$\mathbf{r}^* = \mathbf{r}_0^* + \mathbf{r}$$

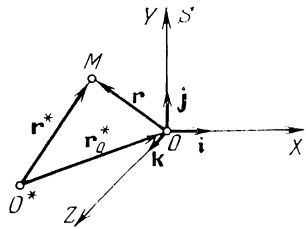


Figure 7.1.: Inertial and non-inertial frames of reference.

where $\mathbf{r}_0^*$ is the radius vector of point O measured in frame of reference K.

7.1.2

The motion of particle M with respect to any inertial frame of reference K, conditionally assumed to be fixed, is called the *absolute motion* of particle M. The motion of the same particle with respect to the non-inertial frame of reference S is said to be *relative motion*.

The *relative velocity* $\mathbf{v}_r$ of particle M, i.e. its velocity with respect to frame S, equals

$$\mathbf{v}_r = \frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}\mathbf{i} + \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}\mathbf{j} + \frac{\mathrm{d}z}{\mathrm{d}t}\mathbf{k}$$

where x, y and z are the Cartesian coordinates of particle M, and $\mathbf{i}$, $\mathbf{k}$ and $\mathbf{k}$ are the unit vectors of the coordinate axes in frame S.

The *absolute velocity* of particle M, i.e. its velocity $\mathbf{v}$ in

the frame of reference K, equals

$$\mathbf{v} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}^*}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{v}_0 + x\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{i}}{\mathrm{d}t} + y\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{j}}{\mathrm{d}t} + z\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{k}}{\mathrm{d}t} + \mathbf{v}_r$$

where $\mathbf{v}_0 = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}_0^*/\mathrm{d}t$ is the absolute velocity of point O. Since the unit vectors of moving frame S can change in frame of reference K only due to the rotation of frame S about point O at the angular velocity $\mathbf{\Omega}$,

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{i}}{\mathrm{d}t} = [\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{i}], \quad \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{j}}{\mathrm{d}t} = [\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{j}], \quad \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{k}}{\mathrm{d}t} = [\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{k}]$$

and

$$\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}_t + \mathbf{v}_r$$

where $\mathbf{v}_t = \mathbf{v}_0 + [\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{k}]$ is the *velocity of transportation* of particle M. It is also called the *bulk*, or *drift*, *velocity* and is equal to the absolute velocity of the point of moving frame of reference S (i.e. rigidly fixed in this frame) in which particle M is located at the given instant of time.

7.1.3

The *relative acceleration* $\mathbf{a}_r$ of particle M (its acceleration with respect to frame S) equals

$$\mathbf{a}_r = \frac{\mathrm{d}^2x}{\mathrm{d}t^2}\mathbf{i} + \frac{\mathrm{d}^2y}{\mathrm{d}t^2}\mathbf{j} + \frac{\mathrm{d}^2z}{\mathrm{d}t^2}\mathbf{k}$$

The *absolute acceleration* of particle M, i.e. its acceleration with respect to frame K, equals

$$\mathbf{a} = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}}{\mathrm{d}t} = \mathbf{a}_t + \mathbf{a}_C + \mathbf{a}_r$$

Here

$$\mathbf{a}_t = \frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}_0}{\mathrm{d}t} + \left[\frac{\mathrm{d}\boldsymbol{\Omega}}{\mathrm{d}t}\mathbf{r}\right] + [\boldsymbol{\Omega}[\boldsymbol{\Omega}\mathbf{r}]]$$

is the *acceleration of transportation* of particle M. It is equal to the absolute acceleration of the point in moving frame S in which particle M is located at the given instant of time, and

$$\mathbf{a}_C = 2[\boldsymbol{\Omega}\mathbf{v}_r]$$

is the *Coriolis acceleration* of particle M. The Coriolis acceleration has its maximum value if the relative velocity $\mathbf{v}_r$ of the particle is perpendicular to the vector $\boldsymbol{\Omega}$ of angular velocity of the moving frame of reference. It is equal to zero if the angle between vectors $\mathbf{v}_r$ and $\boldsymbol{\Omega}$ equals zero or π, or if even one of these vectors equals zero.

7.2 Inertial Forces

7.2.1

Newtons laws of motion are not valid in non-inertial frames of reference. In particular, a particle can change the slate of its motion with respect to non-inertial frame S without any action being exerted on the particle by other bodies. A ball, for instance, suspended by a string from the ceiling of a railway coach of a train travelling at uniform velocity in a straight line, deviates backward when the motion of the train is accelerated and frontward when the motion is decelerated, i.e. it begins to move with respect to a non-inertial frame of reference attached to the coach. But no horizontal forces act on the ball when it deviates.

7.2.2

The fundamental law of dynamics for a particle in non-inertial frames of reference can be derived from Newtons second law and the relation between the absolute and relative accelerations of a particle. It follows from (7.1.3) that the product of the mass m of a particle by its relative acceleration equals

$$m\mathbf{a}_r = m\mathbf{a} - m\mathbf{a}_t - m\mathbf{a}_C$$

According to Newtons second law, formulated to apply to the absolute motion of a particle, i.e. its motion with respect to inertial frame K,

$$m\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{F}$$

where $\mathbf{F}$ is the vector sum of all forces acting on the particle. Hence, the *fundamental equation of dynamics of a particle's relative motion* is of the form:

$$m\mathbf{a}_r = \mathbf{F} - m\mathbf{a}_t - m\mathbf{a}_C$$

This equation can be reduced to a form similar to the fundamental law of dynamics for the absolute motion of a particle:

$$m\mathbf{a}_r = \mathbf{F} + \mathbf{I}_t + \mathbf{I}_C$$

The vector quantities $\mathbf{I}_t = -m\mathbf{a}_t$ and $\mathbf{I}_C = -m\mathbf{a}_C$ have the dimensionality of force and are called the *inertial force of transportation* and the *Coriolis inertial force*, respectively.

7.2.3

It follows from (7.1.3) that in the general case the inertial force of transportation is the sum of three terms:

$$\mathbf{I}_t = -m\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}_0}{\mathrm{d}t} - m\left[\frac{\mathrm{d}\mathbf{\Omega}}{\mathrm{d}t}\mathbf{r}\right] - m[\mathbf{\Omega}[\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{r}]]$$

The last term on the right-hand side of this equation

$$\mathbf{I}_{cf} = -m[\mathbf{\Omega}[\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{r}]]$$

is called the *centrifugal force of inertia*, or simply the *centrifugal force*, because this vector is perpendicular to the instantaneous axis of rotation (to vector $\mathbf{\Omega}$) of the non-inertial frame S and its direction is away from this axis. Numerically the centrifugal force equals

$$I_{cf} = -m\Omega^2\rho$$

where ρ is the distance from a particle of mass m to the instantaneous axis of rotation of the frame of reference.

The inertial force of transportation coincides with the centrifugal force when the non-inertial frame of reference travels with translational motion at constant velocity ($\mathbf{v}_0 = \text{const}$) and rotates at constant angular velocity ($\mathbf{\Omega} = \text{const}$).

7.2.4

The Coriolis inertial force is

$$I_C = 2m[\mathbf{v}_r\mathbf{\Omega}]$$

This force acts on the particle only when the non-inertial frame of reference rotates and the particle moves with respect to this frame. Thus, for example, particles of water in rivers of the Northern Hemisphere that flow meridionally are subject to the action of a Coriolis inertial force. This force is perpendicular to the velocity of flow of the river and leads to under mining the right bank in the direction of flow.

The Coriolis inertial force does no work in the relative motion of a particle because the force is perpendicular to the velocity of relative motion of the particle. Hence, the Coriolis inertial force is an example of the gyroscopic forces (3.1.7).

7.2.5

The action of inertial forces on a particle in a non-inertial frame of reference are real and can be measured in this frame by, for example, a spring dynamometer. But, in contrast to ordinary forces of interaction between bodies, it is impossible lo indicate for inertial forces the action of what specific bodies on the particle being considered they express. This feature of inertial forces is due to the fact that the very occurrence of the vector quantities $\mathbf{I}_t$ and $\mathbf{I}_C$ in the fundamental equation of the dynamics of relative motion results only from the non-inertial nature of the frame of reference used to describe the relative motion of the particle. The addition of the inertial forces $\mathbf{I}_t$ and $\mathbf{I}_C$ to the force $\mathbf{F}$, which characterizes the action on the particle of all the other bodies, enables the fundamental equation of the dynamics of relative motion to be written in a form

that resembles the expression for Newtons second law in an inertial frame of reference.

There can be no closed systems of bodies in non-inertial frames of reference because the inertial forces are always external forces for any of the bodies in the system. Therefore, the laws of conservation of momentum (2.7.1), of angular momentum (4.4.1) and of energy (3.4.2) are not valid in non-inertial frames of reference.

7.3 Relative Motion in a Frame of Reference Fixed to the Earth. Gravity Force and Weight of a Body

7.3.1

A frame of reference fixed in the earth is non-inertial lor two reasons: firstly, due to the diurnal, or daily, rotation of the earth at constant angular velocity $\mathbf{\Omega}$ (where $\Omega = 2\pi$ rad per 24 hours $= 7.3 \times 10^{-5}$ rad/s) and, in the second place, due to the effects of the gravitational field of the sun, moon, planets and other astronomical bodies on the earth. This gravitational field is practically uniform within the limits of the earth and imparts the same acceleration of translational motion to the terrestrial frame of reference and all bodies moving with respect to this frame. This acceleration is $\mathbf{a}_0 = \mathrm{d}\mathbf{v}_0/\mathrm{d}t = \mathbf{g}_f$, where $\mathbf{g}_f$ is the intensity of the field (6.2.1).

It follows from the equations in (7.2.2) and (7.2.3) that the equation of relative motion of a particle of mass m in a

frame of reference fixed to the earth is of the form

$$m\mathbf{a}_r = \mathbf{F} + \mathbf{F}_{gr} + \mathbf{I}_{cf} + \mathbf{I}_C$$

where $\mathbf{I}_{cf}$ and $\mathbf{I}_C$ are the centrifugal and Coriolis inertial forces. $\mathbf{F}_{gr}$ is the gravitation al attraction of the earth for the particle (6.1.3), and $\mathbf{F}$ is the sum of all the other forces acting on the particle, with the exception of the gravitational forces.

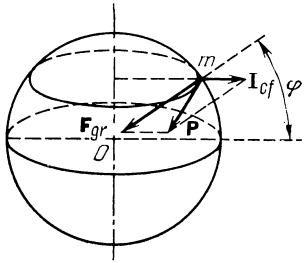


Figure 7.2.: The Coriolis force in a non-inertial frame of reference.

7.3.2

The *gravity force of a body* is the force P, applied to the body and equal to the vector sum of the force $\mathbf{F}_{gr}$ of gravitational attraction of the earth for the body (6.1.3) and the centrifugal inertial force $\mathbf{I}_{cf}$ due to the diurnal rotation of the earth (Figure 7.2):

$$\mathbf{P} = \mathbf{F}_{gr} + \mathbf{I}_{cf}$$

i.e.

$$\mathbf{P} = -G\frac{mM_\oplus}{r^3}\mathbf{r} - m[\mathbf{\Omega}[\mathbf{\Omega}\mathbf{r}]]$$

Here m and $M_\oplus$ are the masses of the body and the earth, $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector drawn from the centre of the earth to the place where the body is located, $\mathbf{\Omega}$ is the angular velocity of diurnal rotation of the earth, and G is the gravitational constant (6.1.1).

The gravity force causes an unsupported or unfastened body to fall to the earth. It equals the force with which the body presses against a horizontal support (or pulls on a vertical suspension) due to the gravitation attraction of the earth. It can be measured in the terrestrial frame of reference by means of a spring dynamometer. The point of application of the gravity force acting on a body, i.e. the point of application of the resultant of all the gravity forces acting on all the particles of the body is called the *centre of gravity of the body*. It coincides with its centre of mass (2.3.3).

7.3.3

The gravity force of a body is independent of its velocity of relative motion. It is proportional to the mass m of the body and can be presented in the form

$$\mathbf{P} = m\mathbf{g},$$

where $\mathbf{g}$ is the *acceleration due to gravity*, or *free fall acceleration* (see (7.3.5)). At a given place on earth, vector $\mathbf{g}$ is the same for all bodies and changes for other places.

The gravity force of a body coincides with the gravitational attraction of the earth for the body only at the earths North and South poles because there the centrifugal inertial force $\mathbf{I}_{cf} = 0$. The greatest difference between the gravity force and the gravitational attraction is observed at the equator, where the force $\mathbf{I}_{cf}$ reaches its maximum value and is opposite in direction to $\mathbf{F}_{gr}$. Even at the equator, however, the gravity force and the force of gravitational attraction differ by only 0.35 per cent. At all points of the earths surface, except the equator and the poles, forces $\mathbf{P}$ and $\mathbf{F}_{gr}$ fail to coincide in direction as well (Figure 7.2), but the maximum angle between them does not exceed 6 minutes of arc. The gravity force decreases with the altitude. Near the earths surface this decrease is approximately 0.034 per cent per kilometre above the surface.

7.3.4

The acceleration $\mathbf{g}$ near the earths surface varies from $9.78\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$ at the equator to $9.83\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$ at the North and South poles. This is due, in the first place, to the dependence of the centrifugal inertial force on the geographical latitude of the location and, in the second, to the non-spherical shape of the earth, which is slightly flattened at the poles of its axis of rotation, having the shape of an ellipsoid of rotation, or spheroid (the polar and equatorial radii of the earth are $R_p = 6357\,\mathrm{km}$ and $R_e = 6378\,\mathrm{km}$). The *standard value of free fall acceleration*, accepted in establishing a system of units and for barometric computation, is $9.806\,65\,\mathrm{m/s^2}$.

7.3.5

The *free fall of a body* is its motion due to the action of the gravitational held alone.

The free fall acceleration of a body falling to the earth, mea sured in a non-inertial frame of reference rotating together with the earth, can he found by the motion equation (7.3.1) by putting $\mathbf{F} = 0,\ \mathbf{F}_{gr} + \mathbf{I}_{cf} = m\mathbf{g}$ and $I_C = 2m[\mathbf{v}_r\boldsymbol{\Omega}]$. Then

$$\mathbf{a}_r = \mathbf{g} + 2[\mathbf{v}_r\boldsymbol{\Omega}]$$

If $\mathbf{v}_r = 0,\ \mathbf{a}_r = \mathbf{g}$.

Consequently, vector $\mathbf{g}$ is equal to the free fall acceleration of the body, measured with respect to the terrestrial frame of reference at the instant when the relative velocity of the body equals zero. For this reason, vector $\mathbf{g}$ is called the *free fall acceleration*.

If the relative velocity of a freely falling body $\mathbf{v}_r = 0$, its acceleration with respect to the earth is not $\mathbf{g} : \mathbf{g} = \mathbf{a}_r + 2[\mathbf{v}_r\boldsymbol{\Omega}]$. At velocities $v_r < 680\,\mathrm{m/s}$, however, the values of $\mathbf{g}$ and $\mathbf{a}_r$ differ by less than one per cent. It can therefore be assumed in many cases that with respect to an observer on the earth free fall of a body is caused only by the gravity force acting on and imparting the acceleration g to the body. In a similar manner the action of the Coriolis inertial force on a freely falling body can be treated as a comparatively small perturbation. Thus, for instance, a freely falling body is deviated by the Coriolis force to the east of the direction assumed by a plumb line, i.e. from the direction of the vector $\mathbf{P} = m\mathbf{g}$. This deviation for a body falling freely without any initial velocity from the height h is equal, at

the latitude φ, to

$$s = \frac{2}{3}\Omega h\sqrt{\frac{2h}{g}}\cos\varphi$$

If, for example, $h = 160\,\text{m}$ and $\varphi = 45^\circ$, $s = 1.55\,\text{cm}$.

7.3.6

The *weight of a body* is the force $\mathbf{Q}$ with which it acts, due to the earths gravity, on a support or suspension that prevents it from falling freely. It is assumed that the body and its support (or suspension) are fixed with respect to the frame of reference in which the weight is determined. The force $-\mathbf{Q}$ is exerted by the support or suspension on the body. It follows from the fundamental equation of dynamics of relative motion (7.2.2), where $\mathbf{a}_r = \mathbf{a}_C = 0$ and $\mathbf{F} = \mathbf{F}_{gr} - \mathbf{Q}$, that

$$\mathbf{Q} = \mathbf{F}_{gr} + \mathbf{I}_t$$

where $\mathbf{F}_{gr}$ is the force of gravitational attraction of the earth for the body, and $\mathbf{I}_t$ is the inertial force of transportation due to the non-inertial nature of the frame of reference.

Example 1. The weight of a body in a frame of reference fixed to the earth is equal to the gravity force of the body (7.3.2):

$$\mathbf{Q} = \mathbf{F}_{gr} + \mathbf{I}_{cf} = \mathbf{P}$$

Example 2. The weight of a body in a frame of reference attached to a lift (elevator) which travels with translational motion with respect to the earth with the acceleration $\mathbf{a}_0$:

$$\mathbf{Q} = \mathbf{P} - m\mathbf{a}_0$$

If the lift falls freely, $\mathbf{a}_0 = \mathbf{g}$, the free fall acceleration, and the weight of the body in the lift is $\mathbf{Q} = 0$, i.e. the body is in the state of weightlessness.

7.3.7

Weightlessness, or zero gravity, is the state of a mechanical system in which the external gravitational field acting on the system does not cause any pressure of the parts against one another or their deformation. Such a state occurs in a mechanical system complying with the following three conditions:

(a) no other external forces, except those of the gravitational field, act on the system;

(b) the size of the system is such that within its limits the external gravitational field can be regarded as being uniform; and

(c) the system is in translational motion.

The state of weightlessness is characteristic, for instance, of bodies in a spaceship because, during the main part of its path in a gravitational field, it is in free flight, i.e. coasting with the engines turned off.

7.4 Principle of Equivalence

7.4.1

The inertial forces acting on bodies in a non-inertial frame of reference are proportional to the masses of the bodies

and, other conditions being equal, impart the same relative accelerations (7.1.3) to them. In other words, all bodies free of external action travel in an "inertial force field", i.e. with respect to a non-inertial frame of reference, in absolutely the same way, provided that the initial conditions of their motion are also the same. A similar behaviour is observed for bodies travelling with respect to an inertial frame of reference and

subject to the action of the forces of a gravitational field. At each point in the field these forces, like the inertial forces, are proportional to the masses of the bodies and impart the same free fall acceleration to them. This acceleration is equal to the field intensity (6.2.1) at the point being considered. In a non-inertial frame of reference, for example, fixed to a lift (elevator) travelling with uniform acceleration vertically upward at the acceleration of transportation $\mathbf{a}_0 = \text{const}$, all free bodies fall in the absence of a gravitational field with the same relative acceleration $\mathbf{a}_r = -\mathbf{a}_0$. Free bodies behave in exactly the same way in the same lift when it travels at uniform velocity in a uniform gravitational field of the intensity $\mathbf{g}_f = -\mathbf{a}_0$. Thus, on the basis of experiments conducted on the free fall of bodies within a tightly closed lift, it is impossible to establish whether the lift is travelling at uniform velocity in a gravitational field of the intensity $\mathbf{g}_f = \mathbf{a}_r$ (in particular, the lift may also be at rest in this held) or whether it is travelling with constant acceleration of transportation $\mathbf{a}_t = -\mathbf{a}_r$ in the absence of a gravitational field.

7.4.2

The *local equivalence principle* states that the gravitational field in a limited region of space is equivalent to an "inertial force held" in a properly chosen non-inertial frame of reference. The region of space should be small enough so that the gravitational held in it can be assumed to be uniform.

The equivalence principle is not to be understood as a statement of the identity of inertial forces and Newtons gravitational forces that act between bodies. As a matter of fact, the intensity of a true gravitational held, set up by bodies, decreases as the bodies recede farther and farther away, and approaches zero at infinity. Gravitational fields "equivalent" to inertial forces do not comply with this condition. For example, the intensity of a gravitational held, "equivalent" to the centrifugal inertial forces in a rotating frame of reference increases without limit at points farther and farther away from the axis of rotation. The intensity of a held "equivalent" to the inertial forces of transportation in a frame of reference having translational motion is the same at all points of the held.

7.4.3

A true gravitational held, in contrast to one "equivalent" to inertial forces, exists in both non-inertial and inertial frames of reference. No possible choice of a non-inertial frame of reference can completely eliminate a true gravitational held, i.e. compensate for it throughout space by means of a "field of inertial forces". This follows in any

case, even if only from the different behaviour of "fields of inertial forces" and true gravitational fields at infinity. A true gravitational field can be eliminated only locally, i.e. for a small region of space within whose limits the field can he assumed uniform, and for a short time interval during which the field can be assumed constant. The non-inertial frame of reference corresponding to this operation should travel with an acceleration of transportation equal to the free fall acceleration of bodies in the region of the true gravitational field being considered. Thus, in a space ship in free flight in a gravitational field, the gravitational forces of attraction are compensated for by the inertial forces of transportation and do not lead to the relative motion of bodies in the ship.

Part II.

Fundamentals of Molecular Physics and Thermodynamics

8 Ideal Gases

8.1 Subject Matter of Molecular Physics. Thermal Motion

8.1.1

The branch of physics called *molecular physics* deals with the dependence of the structure and physical properties of bodies on the nature of the motion of and the interaction be tween the particles making up these bodies.

Molecular physics is based on the *molecular-kinetic theory* of the structure of matter. According to this theory all bodies consist of submicroscopic particles – atoms, molecules or ions – in continuous chaotic motion, which is called *thermal motion*. Experimental confirmations of the molecular-kinetic theory are: the Brownian movement (11.7.1), the transport phenomenon in various aggregate states of matter and other phenomena.

8.1.2

The molecular-kinetic theory of the structure of matter is used to advantage in various branches of physics. A great variety of physical phenomena that proceed due to the interaction and motion of particles of matter are dealt with in this theory from a unified point of view. This theory, for example, enables the mechanism of elasticity in solids (**??**) to be understood, reveals the cause of internal friction in gases (10.8.4) and liquids, explains the difference between real gases (12.1.2) and ideal gases (8.4.1), and elucidates the mechanism of electrical conduction in conductors of electric current of various kinds, and the electrical and magnetic properties of matter.

8.1.3

The thermal motion of particles of matter in various states of aggregation is not the same. It depends upon the forces of attraction or repulsion between the atoms, molecules and ions.

There are practically no attractive forces between the atoms and molecules in sufficiently dilute gases. This is due to the fact that the particles of such gases are located at distances from one another exceeding the range of molecular action (12.2.3). The particles of such gases travel at uniform velocity and in a straight line until they collide with one another or with the walls of the container. These collisions are of a random nature. Each molecule in the volume of the gas may collide with any of the nearby particles, changing the direction of its motion in any arbitrary man-

ner. The collision of a molecule (or atom) of the gas with a wall may occur at any angle θ where $-\pi/2 \leqslant \theta \leqslant \pi/2$. As a result, the thermal motion of molecules of gas is a purely random one and, on the average, the same number of molecules are travelling at any instant of time in any arbitrary direction within the gas.

8.1.4

Solid crystalline bodies are characterized by considerable forces of interaction between their particles (atoms, molecules and ions). The joint action of the forces of attraction and repulsion between the particles (12.1.3) leads to the vibration of the particles of solids about their equilibrium positions, which are called the *sites*, or *points, of the crystal lattice* (**??**). Intermolecular interaction and violations of periodicity in crystals (40.1.1) make these vibrations anharmonic (**??**).

8.1.5

The thermal motion of molecules of a liquid is of a kind intermediate between the two preceding types of motion (8.1.3) and (8.1.4). For a definite length of time the molecules of a liquid vibrate about a.certain equilibrium position and are in a temporarily settled state. At the end of this time the equilibrium position of the molecules is displaced and a new settled arrange ment is formed. Simultaneously, a slow displacement of the molecules and their vibrations occur within small volumes of the liquid (see also (13.2.3)).

8.2 Statistical and Thermodynamic Methods of Investigation

8.2.1

There is a huge number of atoms (or molecules) in any body. For instance, in 1 cm^3 of a gas whose properties are close to those of an ideal gas there are 2.7×10^{19} molecules at standard conditions. In the condensed states, liquid and solid, the amount is of the order of 10^{22} particles per cm^3. If we assume that each atom (or molecule) obeys Newtons second law (2.4.1) it is obviously quite impossible, not only to solve the differential equations of motion of the separate particles, but even to write these equations. Therefore, the behaviour of a separate molecule (or atom) of a body, for example, its path and the sequence of changes in its state, cannot be investigated by the methods used in classical mechanics.

8.2.2

The macroscopic properties of systems consisting of a very great number of particles are studied by the *statistical method*. It is based on the application of probability theory to definite models of the structure of the systems being investigated. The branch of theoretical physics in which the physical properties of systems are studied by the statistical method is called *statistical physics (statistical mechanics)*. Special laws, known as statistical laws are manifested in the joint behaviour of large numbers of particles. Certain *average values of the physical quantities* can be found for a

system consisting of a great many particles. These values characterize the set of particles as a whole. In gases, for instance, there are average values of the velocity of thermal motion of the molecules (10.3.6) and of their energy (10.2.4). In a solid there is an average energy per degree of freedom of the vibrational motion of its particles (**??**), etc. All properties of a system of particles are due, not only to the individual properties of the particles themselves, but to the features of their joint motion and average values of their dynamic characteristics (average velocities, average energies, etc.).

In addition to statistical laws, there are also dynamical laws, describing the motion of separate particles. The relationship between dynamical and statistical laws is manifested in the fact that the laws of motion of individual particles have an effect of the description of a system of particles, which is being investigated by the statistical method.

8.2.3

Another procedure for studying physical phenomena is the *thermodynamic method*, which is not concerned with either the internal structure of the substances making up the bodies (or systems) being investigated or with the nature of the motion of the separate particles. The thermodynamic method is based on the study of the various conversions of energy that occur in a system. The conditions of these conversions and the relations between the various kinds of energy enable the physical properties of systems to be studied in a great variety of processes in which the systems participate. The branch of physics in which research in the

physical properties of systems is conducted by means of the thermodynamic method is called *thermodynamics (phenomenological thermodynamics)*. Thermodynamics is based on two experimentally established principles, or laws, of thermodynamics (9.3.1) and (11.3.2), as well as the Nernst. heat theorem, or third law of thermodynamics (11.8.2).

8.3 Thermodynamic Variables. Equations of State. Thermodynamic Processes

8.3.1

Thermodynamics deals with *thermodynamic systems*. There are macroscopic items (bodies and fields) that can interchange energy with one another as well as with the external medium, i.e. bodies and fields that are external with respect to the given system.

8.3.2

The physical quantities introduced to describe the state of a thermodynamic system are called *thermodynamic variables*, or *parameters (state variables)*, of the system. Usually the pressure, specific volume and temperature are taken as the thermo dynamic variables.

The *pressure* p is a physical quantity equal to the force acting on unit area of a bodys surface in the direction normal to the surface:

$$p = \frac{\mathrm{d}F_n}{\mathrm{d}A}$$

where $\mathrm{d}F_n$ is the numerical value of the normal force acting

on an infinitely small part of the surface of the body, the area of this part being $\mathrm{d}A$.

The *specific volume* v is the reciprocal of the density ρ of a body: $v = 1/\rho$. The specific volume of a homogeneous body is equal to the volume of unit mass of the body.

8.3.3

The concept of temperature is of significance for equilibrium states of a thermodynamic system (8.3.4). An *equilibrium state (state of thermodynamic equilibrium)* is a state of a system which does not change with time (*steady state*), the steady nature of the state not being due to processes occurring in the external medium. An equilibrium state is set up in a system subject to constant external conditions and is maintained in the system for an arbitrary length of time. The temperature is the same in all parts of a thermodynamic system that is in a state of thermodynamic equilibrium. If two bodies with different temperatures come into contact, internal energy (9.1.2) is transferred from the body at the higher temperature to that at the lower temperature. The process ceases when the temperatures of the two bodies become equal.

8.3.4

The temperature of an equilibrium system is a measure of the intensity of thermal motion of its molecules (or atoms or ions). In an equilibrium system of particles that obeys the laws of classical statistical mechanics (8.2.2), the average kinetic energy of the thermal motion of the particles is

proportional to the absolute temperature (10.2.5).

Temperature can only be measured indirectly, making use of the fact that many physical properties of bodies, lending themselves to direct measurement, depend on the temperature. A change in the temperature of a body leads to changes in its length and volume, density, electric resistance, elastic properties, etc. A change in any of these properties can be used to measure temperature. For this purpose, it is necessary for a certain body, said to be *temperature-indicating*, that the functional dependence of the given property on the temperature be known. Temperature scales based on temperature-indicating bodies are said to be *empirical*.

In the *international centigrade (Celsius)* scale, temperature is measured in °C and is denoted by t (degree centigrade or degree Celsius). It is assumed that at a standard pressure of $1.013\,25 \times 10^5$ Pa (**??**) the melting point of ice and the boiling point of water are equal to 0 °C and 100 °C.

In the thermodynamic (absolute) temperature scale, the temperature is measured in kelvins (K) and is denoted by T.

The relation between the absolute temperature and the temperature measured by the Celsius scale is:

$$T = 273.15 + t$$

The temperature $T = 0\,\mathrm{K}$ (or $t = -273.15\,^\circ\mathrm{C}$) is called absolute zero temperature (the impossibility of reaching absolute zero is discussed in (11.8.4)).

8.3.5

The state variables of a system are classified as being either external or internal. *External state variables* are physical quantities depending upon the position in space and various properties of bodies that are external with respect to the given system. For a gas, for instance, the volume V of the vessel in which the gas is contained is an external variable because the volume depends upon the position of external bodies: the walls of the vessel. For a dielectric in an electric field, the intensity of the field, set up by certain external sources, is an external variable. If a liquid is held in an open vessel, the atmospheric pressure, for example, is an external variable.

The *internal variables of a system* are physical quantities that depend both on the position of bodies external with respect to the system, and on the coordinates and velocities of the particles that make up the system. Internal variables of a gas, for instance, are its pressure and energy because they depend upon the coordinates and velocities of the moving molecules and on the density of the gas.

8.3.6

The state variables of a system that is in equilibrium (8.3.3) are not independent. The internal variables of such a system depend only on its external variables and on the temperature. The equilibrium state of a simple system[1] of

[1] An example of a simple system is a gas in the absence of external fields. Mixtures of chemically homogeneous gases of constant composition, chemically pure liquids, etc. arc also simple systems.

given chemical composition and mass M is determined by specifying two variables: the volume V and the temperature T. The equation of state (thermal equation of state) of a simple system is the functional dependence of the equilibrium pressure p in the system on the volume and temperature

$$p = f(V, T)$$

The equation of state is obtained experimentally in thermo dynamics. In statistical physics (8.2.2), it is derived theoretically. This constitutes the interrelation between the statistical (8.2.2) and thermodynamical (8.2.3) methods of investigation.

8.3.7

If any of the external variables of the system is changed, the state of a thermodynamic system is changed. This is called a *thermodynamic process*. A thermodynamic process is said lo be equilibrium (an *equilibrium, quasi-static process*) if the system passes at an infinitely slow rate through a continuous succession of infinitely close thermodynamic equilibrium states (8.3.3). All processes that do not comply with these conditions are said to be *non-equilibrium* ones. Real processes are non-equilibrium ones because they proceed at a finite rate. But the slower they proceed, the closer they are to equilibrium processes

Isoprocesses are thermodynamic processes that proceed in a system of constant mass with a constant value of one of the state variables.

An *isothermal process* proceeds at constant temperature ($T = \text{const}$).

An *isochoric (isovolumic) process* proceeds at constant volume ($V = \text{const}$).

An *isobaric process* proceeds at constant pressure ($p = \text{const}$).

An *adiabatic process* is a thermodynamic process that occurs in a system without heat exchange (9.2.4) with external bodies (see also (9.5.10)).

8.3.8

State functions are physical quantities characterizing the state of a system. Variation in the state functions during thermodynamic processes is independent of the kind of process that occurs. State functions are uniquely determined by the values of the variables of the initial and final states of the system. The simplest state functions of a system are its internal energy U (9.1.2) and its entropy S (11.4.2).

8.4 Equation of State of an Ideal Gas

8.4.1

An *ideal*, or *perfect, gas* is one whose molecules do not interact with one another at a distance and are of vanishingly small size. In real gases (12.1.2) the molecules are subject to the forces of intermolecular interaction (12.1.3).

In collisions with one another and in striking the walls of the vessel the molecules of an ideal gas behave as perfectly elastic spheres (1.1.4) of diameter d (*elective diameter of the molecule*), which depends upon the chemical nature

of the gas. The existence of an effective diameter d (where $d \approx 10^{11}$ m) signifies that forces of mutual repulsion (12.1.3) act between the molecules. Intermolecular forces of attraction (12.1.3) decrease drastically with an increase in the distance r between molecules and are practically negligible at $R_m > 10^9$ m. In real gases at low densities the average distance $\langle r \rangle$) between molecules exceeds R_m and, to a good approximation, they can be regarded as ideal. Hydrogen, helium, oxygen and nitrogen are assumed to be ideal gases at densities corresponding to standard conditions.

8.4.2

For a given mass of an ideal gas, the ratio of the product of the numerical values of pressure and volume to the absolute temperature is a constant value (*Clapeyron equation*):

$$\frac{pV}{T} = C = \text{const}$$

The numerical value of the *gas constant* C depends upon the choice of the units of measurement of p, V and T.

If v is the specific volume of the gas (8.3.2) and M is its mass, then $V = Mv$ and the Clapeyron equation assumes the form

$$pv = \frac{C}{M}T = BT$$

where $B = C/M$ is the *specific gas constant* referred to unit mass.

8.4.3

From the definition of the mole (**??**), it is evident that moles of different gases contain the same number of molecules. This is called *Avogadro's number* N_A (**??**).

The *molar mass* μ of a gas or any body is the physical quantity equal to the ratio of the mass of the gas (or any body) to the number of moles N it contains: $\mu = M/N$.

The molar mass is proportional to the relative mass of the molecules of a gas: $\mu = 10^{-3} m/m_0$, where m is the mass of the molecules of the given gas and m_0 is the atomic mass unit based on the carbon scale (**??**). The coefficient 10^{-3} is required because molar mass is measured in kg/mol in the SI (International System of Units).

The *molar volume* V_μ is the physical quantity equal to the ratio of the volume V of a gas to the number of moles N it contains: $V_\mu = V/N$. The mass of a mole is numerically equal to μ and therefore $V_\mu = \mu v$, where v is the specific volume (8.3.2).

8.4.4

The equation of state for a mole of ideal gas is

$$\frac{pV_\mu}{T} = \mu B = R \quad \text{or} \quad pV_\mu = RT$$

Here R is the *universal gas constant*, being the gas constant per mole of gas. The universal nature of R follows from *Avagadro's law*, which states that moles of all ideal gases occupy the same volume at the same pressure and the same temperature. Under standard conditions ($T =$

273.15 K*and*p =1.0132 $\times 10^5$ Pa = 1 atm = 760 mm Hg) a mole of any gas has a volume of $V_\mu = 22.415 \times 10^{-3}$ m^3. From this we can calculate the numerical values of R for various systems of units (**??**).

If a volume V of gas has the mass M kg, i.e. if it contains M/μ moles, then $V = M/\mu \times V_\mu$ and the equation of state of the gas assumes the form called the *Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation*:

$$pV = \frac{M}{\mu} RT$$

8.4.5

Boltzmann's constant k is a physical quantity equal to the ratio of the universal gas constant R to Avogadros number N_A, i.e. $k = R/N_a$. The values of k in various systems of units are listed in **??**.

The equation of state of an ideal gas, expressed by means of Boltzmanns constant, is of the form

$$p = \frac{kN_A}{V_\mu} = kn_0 T$$

where $n_0 = N_A/V_\mu$ is the number of gas molecules in unit volume (molecule concentration).

At constant temperature, the pressure of a gas is proportional to the concentration of its molecules (or to the density of the gas).

9 First law of Thermodynamics

9.1 Total and Internal Energy of a System

9.1.1

An arbitrary thermodynamic system (8.3.1), in any thermodynamic state (8.3.3), has a *total energy* E , which is the sum of:

(a) the kinetic energy E_k^{Mech} of mechanical motion of the system as a whole (or of its macroscopic parts);

(b) the potential energy E_p^{Ext} (3.3.1) of the system in all external force fields (for instance, electromagnetic or gravitational fields); and

(c) the internal energy U:

$$E = E_k^{\text{Mech}} + E_p^{\text{Ext}} + U$$

9.1.2

The *internal energy* of a body or of a thermodynamic system (8.3.1) is the energy depending only upon the thermodynamic state of the body (or system). For a fixed (stationary) system, not located in any external force fields, the internal energy coincides with the total energy. The internal energy also coincides with the rest energy of a body (or system) (5.7.3) and includes the energy of all the types of internal motion of a body (or system) and the energy of interaction of all the particles (atoms, molecules, ions, etc.) making up the body (or system).

For example, the internal energy of a gas consisting of poly atomic molecules (ammonia, carbon dioxide, etc.) consists of:

(a) kinetic energy of thermal translational and rotary motion of the molecules;

(b) kinetic and potential energy of vibration of the atoms and molecules;

(c) potential energy due to intermolecular interactions;

(d) energy of the electron shells of the atoms and ions;

(e) kinetic energy and potential energy of interaction of the nucleons (**??**) in the nuclei of the atoms.

Terms (d) and (e) do not ordinarily change in processes that proceed at not very high temperatures so that ionization and excitation play no essential role. Under these conditions, terms (d) and (e) are not taken into account in the

internal energy balance. Term (c) is also neglected for an ideal gas (8.4.1).

9.1.3

The internal energy is a single-valued function of the thermodynamic state of a system. The value of the internal energy in any state is independent of the process by means of which the system reached this state. The change in internal energy in the transition of a system from state **1** to state **2** equals $\Delta U = U_2 U_1$ and is independent of the kind of transition **1** → **2** that occurs. If the system accomplishes a cycle (11.1.1) the total change in its internal energy is equal to zero:

$$\oint \mathrm{d}U = 0$$

As is well known, such a relation mathematically signifies that an element of change in the internal energy $\mathrm{d}U$ is a complete (exact) differential. This property is also possessed by the entropy (11.4.2) and other state functions (8.3.8) (cf. (9.2.5)).

9.1.4

In a system that is in a state of thermodynamic equilibrium the internal energy depends only upon the temperature and the external variables (8.3.5). In particular, for a simple system (8.3.6) of constant mass M, the internal energy is a function of the temperature T and volume V of the system (*calorific equation of state* of a simple system):

$$U = \varphi(V, T).$$

Example 1. The internal energy of an ideal gas (8.4.1) depends only on its absolute temperature and is proportional to the mass M of the gas:

$$U = \oint_0^T C_V \mathrm{d}T + U_0 = M \left(\oint_0^T c_V \mathrm{d}T + u_0 \right)$$

where C_V and $c_V = C_V/M$ are the heat capacity (9.5.1) and specific heat (9.5.2) of the gas at constant volume (in an isochoric process) (8.3.7), $u_0 = U_0/M$ is the internal energy of unit mass of the gas at $T = 0\,\mathrm{K}$. For monatomic gases at ordinary temperatures C_V is independent of T, and $U = C_V T + U_0$.

Example 2. The internal energy of a van der Waals gas (12.2.1) is:

$$U = \oint_0^T C_V \mathrm{d}T - \frac{M^2}{\mu^2} \frac{a}{V} + U_0$$

where M is the mass of the gas, μ is its molar mass (8.4.3), and a is the van der Waals coefficient (12.2.3).

9.1.5

In thermodynamics, the internal energy is determined to an accuracy of the constant term U_0, whose value depends upon the choice of the reference point for the quantity U, i.e. from a state with zero internal energy. The quantity U_0 plays practically no role in thermodynamical calculations in which the changes ΔU of internal energy, independent of U_0, are determined (see also (8.1.2)).

9.2 Heat and Work

9.2.1

An energy exchange between a thermodynamic system and external bodies takes place in two ways: either by doing work or by means of heat exchange.[1] The amount of energy transferred to the system by external bodies in force inter action between the system and the bodies is called *work* done on the system. The amount of energy transferred to the system by external bodies by heat transfer is called the *quantity of heat* imparted to the system.[2]

9.2.2

If the thermodynamic system is fixed (stationary), a neces sary condition to do work is displacement of the external bodies interacting with it, i.e. it is necessary to change the external state variables of the system (8.3.5). In the absence of external force fields, energy exchange between the lixed system and the external medium may take place by doing work when the volume and shape of the system are changed. According to the law of conservation of energy, the work W' done on the system by external forces is numerically equal and opposite in sign to the work W that the system does on the external medium, i.e. against the

[1] A discussion of the third way of energy exchange – mass transfer – is beyond the scope of the present handbook.

[2] Sometimes the term "heat" is employed in place of the term "quantity of heat" if this leads to no confusion. It should be indicated, however, that heat, generally speaking, is to be under stood as a form of energy transfer (9.2.4)).

external forces:

$$W' = -W$$

9.2.3

Expansion work is the work done by the system in over coming the external pressure. An element of expansion work $\delta W = p_{\text{ext}} \mathrm{d}V$, where p_{ext} is the uniformly distributed external pressure, and dV is an element of change of the systems volume. If the expansion process is an equilibrium (quasistatic) one (8.3.7), $p_{\text{ext}} = p$, where p is the pressure in the system. Then $\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V$.

The significance of the different ways used in denoting the elements of change δW and $\mathrm{d}U$ is explained in (9.4.3) and (9.1.3). The work done in equilibrium expansion of system from volume V_1 to volume V_2 is

$$W = \int_{V_1}^{V_2} p\mathrm{d}V$$

Example. The work done by a gas in a vessel with a weightless movable piston (Figure 9.1). The pressure of the gas $p > 0$ and, therefore, in its expansion $(\mathrm{d}V > 0)$ the gas performs positive work $(\delta W > 0)$. In compressing the gas ($\mathrm{d}V < 0$ and $\delta W < 0$) the positive work is done on the p_{ext} gas by the forces of external pressure. Here the gas does negative work. The graphical representation of work is discussed in (9.4.2).

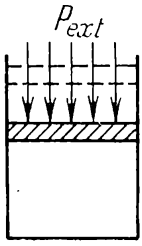


Figure 9.1.: The work done by a gas in a vessel with a weightless movable piston.

9.2.4

Heat exchange takes place between bodies (or parts of bodies) heated to different temperatures. There are three types of heat exchange: convection, conduction and radiation (radiative heat exchange).

Convective heat exchange is the transfer of energy in the form of heat between the unequally heated parts of gases or liquids or between gases, liquids and solids. Convective heat exchange in liquids takes place by motion of parts of the liquid with respect to one another or with respect to solids. For instance, in a radiator of a hot-water heating system, energy of the hot water flowing through the radiator is transferred by convection to the less heated walls of the radiator.

The phenomenon of *heat conduction* consists in the transfer of energy in the form of heat from one part of a nonuniformly heated body to another part. Thus, for example,

energy is transferred through the walls of a heating radiator from the more heated inner surfaces to the less heated outer surfaces.

Radiative heat exchange takes place without direct contact of the bodies exchanging energy and consists in the emission and absorption of the energy of an electromagnetic field by the bodies. An immense amount of energy is delivered from the sun to the earths surface by radiative heat exchange.

9.2.5

Work and heat are the energy characteristics of processes for changing the state of thermodynamic systems and are meaningful only when such processes occur. Depending upon the kind of process the system undergoes in its transition from state **1** to state **2**, it is necessary to perform different amounts of work and to deliver different quantities of heat to the system.

A comparison with (8.1.3) (on the change in the internal energy in processes) indicates that work and heat are not forms of energy and it is incorrect to speak of a "stockpile of work" or a "reserve of heat" in a body. For the same reasons, an element of the quantity of heat δQ and an element of work δW are not complete differentials (cf. (9.1.3)).

9.2.6

The performance of work on a system can change any type of its energy. For example, when a gas is rapidly compressed in a vessel by means of a moving piston (9.2.3),

the work done by external forces on the gas increases the internal energy of the gas. In the inelastic collision of two bodies (3.5.3), a part of the work is expended to change the kinetic energy of the bodies (3.2.2) and a part to change their internal energy.

If energy is delivered to a system in the form of heat, it is used only to increase the internal energy of the system. This is due to the fact that in any kind of heat exchange (9.2.4), energy is transferred directly between chaotically moving particles of the bodies. This changes their internal energy. In the process of heat conduction, for instance, in a nonuniformly heated rigid body the particles of the body located in its more heated parts transmit some of their energy to particles located in its less heated parts. The result is an equalization of the internal energies of the various parts of the body, an equalization of their temperatures and the discontinuation of the heat conduction process.

It follows from the aforesaid that there is a qualitative difference and lack of equivalence between work and heat as a form of energy transmission. Frequently, these two forms of transmitting energy exist simultaneously. For example, in heating a gas in a vessel with a moving piston, the volume of the gas is increased and work is done against the external pressure simultaneously.

9.2.7

A thermodynamical system is said to be *closed* (or *isolated*) if there is no exchange of energy in any form between it and the external medium. Such systems comply with the *law of conservation of energy*: the total energy of the system

remains unchanged regardless of the processes that occur within it.

9.2.8

A thermodynamical system is said to be *adiabatically isolated* (i.e. *thermally isolated*) if no heat exchange takes place between it and the external medium. Such a system can per form work on external bodies. Moreover, external forces can do work on the system. An example of such a system is a cylinder with a moving piston, filled with gas and surrounded all over by a dense layer of heatproof felt. The absence of heat exchange with the external medium does not exclude the possibility of the gas doing expansion work (9.2.3), or the external pressure doing compression work on the gas.The properties of a system approximate those of an adiabatically isolated one if the change in its state is so rapid that there is no time, during the process, for heat exchange with the external medium. (For example, rapid expansion of a compressed gas released from a gas cylinder when the outlet valve is opened for a short time.)

9.3 First Law of Thermodynamics

9.3.1

The *first law of thermodynamics* states that the change in the internal energy ΔU_{1-2} of a system that occurs in the process 1 2 of transition of the system from state **1** to state **2** is equal to the sum of the work W'_{1-2} done by external forces on the system and the quantity of heat Q_{1-2} transmitted

to the system:

$$\Delta U_{1-2} = W'_{1-2} + Q_{1-2}$$

where $W'_{1-2} = -W_{1-2}$ and W_{1-2} is the work done by the system to overcome external forces in the process $1 \to 2$. Hence

$$Q_{1-2} = \Delta U_{1-2} + W_{1-2}$$

The quantity of heat transferred to a system is expended in changing the internal energy of the system and in the work done by the system to overcome the external forces.

For an element of the quantity of heat δQ an element of work δW and an infinitely small change δU of the internal energy, the first law of thermodynamics assumes the form

$$\delta Q = \mathrm{d}U + \delta W.$$

9.3.2

If $\delta Q > 0$, then heat is being transferred to the system; if $Q < 0$, then heat is being removed from the system. In the finite process $1 \to 2$, elements of the quantity of heat can have both signs, and the total quantity of heat Q_{1-2} in the process $1 \to 2$ is equal to the algebraic sum of the quantities of heat transferred during all the parts of this process:

$$\delta Q_{1-2} = \int_1^2 \delta Q$$

It is customary to consider $\delta W > 0$ when the system performs work on external bodies, and $\delta W < 0$ when work is performed by external bodies on the system. The work

W_{1-2} done by the system in the finite process **1** → **2** is equal to the algebraic sum of the amounts of work δW performed by the system during all the parts of this process:

$$W_{1-2} = \int_1^2 \delta W$$

9.3.3

If the system for instance, the working medium (11.1.1) in a periodic-action engine completes a cycle **1** → **1** (11.1.1), then $\Delta U_{1-1} = 0$ and $W_{1-1} = Q_{1-1}$. It is impossible to build an operating engine that could perform more work than the energy transferred to the system from outside. Such an engine is called a *perpetual motion machine of the first kind*. The impossibility of constructing a perpetual motion engine of the first bind is also a statement of the first law of thermodynamics.

9.4 Graphical Representation of Thermodynamic Processes and Work

9.4.1

The equation of state (8.3.6) of a thermodynamic system enables the value of any state variable, for example p, to be determined from any values of two other variables, such as V and T. Therefore, thermodynamic processes can be graphically represented in various two-dimensional coordinate systems. In addition to the most extensively used pV diagrams, pT and VT diagrams are also used.

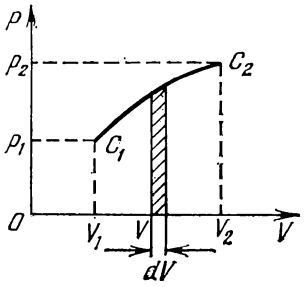


Figure 9.2.: Graphical representation of an equilibrium process.

In Figure 9.2, the thermodynamic process in the pV diagram is represented by the curve C_1C_2, and the points $C_1(p_1, V_1)$ and $C_2(p_2, V_2)$indicate the initial and final states of the thermodynamic system.

Only equilibrium processes (8.3.7) can be represented graphically. State variables for the whole body (or system) cannot be specified for non-equilibrium processes (8.3.7) because they differ at different parts of the body (or system). Hence such graphical representation of non-equilibrium processes is impossible.

9.4.2

An element of work δW done by a system (9.2.3) in an equilibrium process (8.3.7) can be measured by the area of the trapezoid having one curvilinear side, hatched in Figure 9.2. The work W_{1-2} done by the system in the process

C_1C_2 is equal to

$$W_{1-2} = \int_{V_1}^{V_2} p\mathrm{d}V$$

and is measured by the area that is bounded by the curve representing process C_1C_2,the axis of abscissas and the ordinates p_1 and p_2 of points C_1 and C_2. The amount of work W_{1-2} done depends on how the system passes from state C_1 to state C_2, i.e. upon the kind of process C_1C_2 the system undergoes in changing its state. In the pV diagram of Figure 9.3 the amounts of work done by the system in the processes $C_1L_1C_2$, $C_1L_2C_2$ and $C_1L_3C_2$, and equal to WL_1, WL_2 and WL_3, respectively, are measured by three areas that differ in size: $WL_1 > WL_2 > WL_3$.

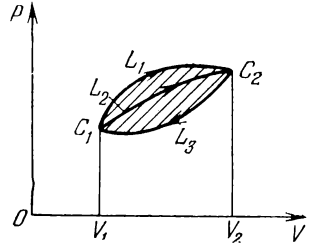


Figure 9.3.: Finding work done via graphical representation.

After the system has completed the cycle (11.1.1) $C_1L_1C_2L_3C_1$ the total amount of work $W_{C_1-C_1}$ is not equal to zero. The positive expansion work in process $C_1L_1C_2$ exceeds the negative work done in the compression process $C_2L_3C_1$.

The resultant positive work is measured by the hatched area in Figure 9.3.

9.4.3

The work W and the quantity of heat Q are not state functions (8.3.8). In various processes $\mathbf{1} \to \mathbf{2}$, in which the state of a system is changed, various quantities of heat are transferred to the system, and various amounts of work are done. Elements of the changes in the physical quantities δQ and δW are not complete differentials (9.1.3).

9.5 Heat Capacity of Matter. Applying the First Law of Thermodynamics to Isoprocesses in an Ideal Gas

9.5.1

The *heat capacity* C of a body is a physical quantity, numerically equal to the ratio of the quantity of heat δQ transferred to the body to the change $\mathrm{d}T$ in the temperature of the body in the thermodynamic process being considered:

$$C = \frac{\delta Q}{\mathrm{d}T}$$

The value of C depends upon the mass of the body, its chemical composition, thermodynamic state and the process in which the heat δQ is transferred to it.

9.5.2

The *specific heat* c is the heat capacity per unit mass of a substance. For a homogeneous body $c = C/M$, where M is the mass of the body.

The *molar heat capacity* C_μ is the heat capacity of a single mole (**??**) of the substance: $C_\mu = \mu\, c$, where μ is the molar mass (8.4.3) of the substance.

9.5.3

The element of the quantity of heat δQ that must be transferred to a body to change its temperature from T to $T + \Delta T$ is

$$\delta Q = C\mathrm{d}T$$

For a homogeneous body $\delta Q - Mc\,\mathrm{d}T = (M/\mu)C_\mu \mathrm{d}T$, where M is the mass of the body, μ is its molar mass and M/μ is the number of moles in the body.

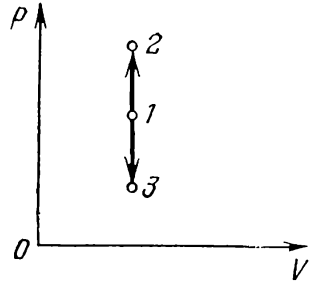


Figure 9.4.: Finding work done via graphical representation.

9.5.4

For equilibrium (8.3.7) iso processes in gases (8.3.7), the first law of thermodynamics (9.3.1) is of the form

$$\frac{M}{\mu}C_{\mu}\mathrm{d}T = \mathrm{d}U + p\mathrm{d}V$$

In the isochoric process (8.3.7) of heating or cooling a gas (straight lines 1-2 and 1-3 in Figure 9.4), no element of work $\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V$ is done (because $\mathrm{d}V = 0$). The whole quantity of heat transferred to the gas is expended in changing its internal energy: $\delta Q = \mathrm{d}U$. If C_{V_μ} is the molar heat capacity at constant volume,

$$\frac{M}{\mu}C_{V_\mu}\mathrm{d}T = \mathrm{d}U + p\mathrm{d}V \qquad (\star)$$

Within a definite temperature range it can be assumed that $C_{V_\mu} \approx \text{const}$ (for greater detail see (10.7.4)) and that the change in the internal energy of the gas ΔU_{1-2}, as its temperature is changed from T_1 to T_2, is equal to $\Delta U_{1-2} = U_2 - U_1 = (M/\mu)C_{V_\mu}(T_2 - T_1)$ and is due to the quantity of heat Q_{1-2} transferred to the gas in the isochoric process:

$$Q_{1-2} = \frac{M}{\mu}C_{V_\mu}(T_2 - T_1) \qquad (\star\star)$$

At $T_2 > T_1$, $Q_{1-2} > 0$ and a definite quantity of heat is transferred to gas; at $T_2 < T_1$, $Q_{1-2} < 0$ and a definite quantity of heat is conducted away from the gas.

9.5.5

For an ideal gas, equations $(\star)$ and $(\star\star)$ express the change in its internal energy in *any process* for changing the state of the gas in the temperature range $(T_2 - T_1)$. The internal energy of an ideal gas depends only on its chemical composition, mass and temperature.

In real gases (12.1.2) the internal energy includes the potential energy of interaction between the molecules (9.1.2), which depends upon the distance between them. This part of the internal energy of a real gas is changed with changes in its volume. Therefore, equations $(\star)$ and $(\star\star)$ express the change in the internal energy of a real gas only when it is heated or cooled in an isochoric (constant-volume) process.

9.5.6

In an arbitrary equilibrium process (8.3.7) that takes place in an ideal gas, the first law of thermodynamics assumes the form

$$\frac{M}{\mu} C_\mu \mathrm{d}T = \frac{M}{\mu} C_{V_\mu} \mathrm{d}T + p\mathrm{d}V$$

where C_μ is the molar heat capacity of an ideal gas in the given process. The isobaric process (8.3.7) of heating (straight line 1-2 in Figure 9.5) or cooling (straight line 1-3 in Figure 9.5) a gas can be carried out, for instance, in a vessel (cylinder) closed by a movable piston subject to a constant external pressure. An clement of work 6IF done

by an ideal gas in an isobaric process is

$$\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V = \frac{M}{\mu}R\mathrm{d}T$$

in which use is made of the expression $\mathrm{d}V = (M/\mu)(R/p)\mathrm{d}T$ from the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4) at $p =$ const. The universal gas constant R (8.4.4) is numerically

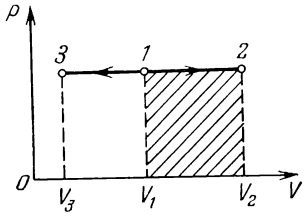


Figure 9.5.: Finding work done via graphical representation.

equal to the work done by one mole of an ideal gas when it is heated isobarically by one degree:

$$R = \frac{\delta W}{(M/\mu)\mathrm{d}T}$$

The work W_{1-2} done by the gas in isobaric expansion 1-2 is

$$W_{1-2} = \int_{V_1}^{V_2} p\mathrm{d}V = p(V_2 - V_1)$$

It is represented by the hatched area in Figure 9.5. For an ideal gas the work W_{1-2} is also equal to

$$W_{1-2} = \frac{M}{\mu}R(T_2 - T_1).$$

9.5.7

The element of the quantity of heat δQ transferred to the gas in the isobaric process is

$$\delta Q = \frac{M}{\mu} C_{p\mu} \mathrm{d}T$$

where $C_{p\mu}$ is the molar heat capacity at constant pressure. If the quantity $C_{p\mu}$ can be assumed constant in the temperature range $(T_2 - T_1)$ then the quantity of heat Q_{1-2} transferred to (or conducted away from) the gas is

$$Q_{1-2} = \frac{M}{\mu} C_{p\mu} (T_2 - T_1).$$

9.5.8

The molar heat capacities $C_{p\mu}$ and $C_{V\mu}$ of a gas are related by the *Mayer equation*

$$C_{p\mu} - C_{V\mu} = R$$

For specific heats c_p and c_V, the Mayer relation is of the form

$$c_p - c_V = \frac{R}{\mu}$$

where μ is the molar mass (8.4.3) of the gas.

For the heat capacities C_p and C_V

$$C_p - C_V = \frac{M}{\mu} R$$

where M is the mass of the gas and M/μ is the number of moles it contains.

The Mayer relation indicates that in heating a gas isobarically by one degree a greater quantity of heat must be transferred to the gas than in isochoric heating by the same amount. This difference between the quantities of heat should be equal to the work done by the gas in its isobaric expansion.

9.5.9

The isothermal process (8.3.7) of expanding (or compressing) a gas takes place in heat exchange (9.2.4) between the gas and the external medium at a constant temperature difference. For this to be feasible, the heat capacity (9.5.1) of the external medium should be sufficiently great and the process of expansion (or compression) should proceed extremely slowly. First-order phase transitions (12.3.3), such as boiling and condensation, are isothermal processes if they proceed at constant external pressure.

In an isothermal process in an ideal gas the internal energy of the gas remains unchanged (9.5.5) and the whole quantity of heat Q_{1-2} transferred to the gas is expended in the work W_{1-2} done by the gas to overcome the external forces:

$$Q_{1-2} = W_{1-2} = \int_{V_1}^{V_2} p\mathrm{d}V = \frac{M}{\mu} RT \int_{V_1}^{V_2} \frac{\mathrm{d}V}{V} = \frac{M}{\mu} RT \ln \frac{V_2}{V_1}$$

Here $\frac{M}{\mu}$ is the number of moles contained in mass M of the gas, T is the constant temperature of the gas, and V_1 and V_2 are the initial and final volumes of the gas. If the gas

isothermally expands $(V_2 > V_1)$, heat is being transferred to it $Q_{1-2} > 0$)and it is doing positive work $(W_{1-2} > 0)$ represented by the hatched area in Figure 9.6. In isothermal

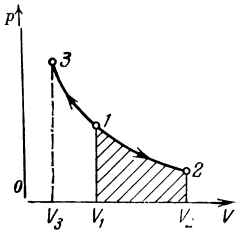


Figure 9.6.: Finding work done via graphical representation.

compression of the gas (process 1-3 in Figure 9.6), the work done by the gas is negative $(W_{1-3} < 0)$. Positive work $(W'_{1-3} = -W_{1-3} > 0)$ is being done by the external forces to compress the gas. In compression, a certain quantity of heat is conducted away from the gas $(Q_{1-3} < 0)$. The heat capacity of a substance in an isothermal process equals infinity ($\mathrm{d}T = 0$ and $\delta Q \neq 0$).

9.5.10

An adiabatic process (8.3.7) proceeds under the condition that $\delta Q = 0$. It is essential that the condition $Q = 0$ does not define this process, because it does not specify the absence of heat exchange with the external medium. It only indicates that the algebraic sum of the quantities of heat transferred to and conducted away from the gas in

various parts of the process equals zero. In an adiabatic process, work is done by an ideal gas at the expense of its internal energy:

$$\delta W = -\mathrm{d}U = -\frac{M}{\mu} C_{V\mu} \mathrm{d}T$$

where $C_{V\mu}$ is the molar heat capacity of the gas at constant volume, M/μ is the number of moles contained in mass M of the gas, and $\mathrm{d}T$ is an element of change in the temperature of the gas. If the gas adiabatically expands ($\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V > 0$), it is cooled ($\mathrm{d}T < 0$). In adiabatic compression the gas is heated: $\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V < 0$ and $\mathrm{d}T > 0$.

9.5.11

The *adiabatic*, or *Poisson*, *equation*: $pV^{\varkappa} = \text{const}$, is valid for an equilibrium adiabatic process (8.3.7).

Making use of the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4), the relation between p and T, and also between V and T, in an adiabatic process can be found from the adiabatic equation:

$$pT^{\frac{\varkappa}{\varkappa-1}} = \text{const} \quad \text{and} \quad VT^{\frac{1}{\varkappa-1}} = \text{const}$$

In these equations the dimensionless quantity $\varkappa = C_{p\mu}/C_{V\mu} = c_p/c_V > 1$ is the *adiabatic exponent*. The full curve in Figure 9.7, called an *adiabat* or *adiabatic curve*, represents an adiabatic process in a pV diagram. The dashed curve on this diagram, called an *isotherm*, represents an isothermic process at the temperature corresponding to the initial state 1 of the gas. In an adiabatic process the pressure varies with

the volume more rapidly than in an isothermic process (the curve is steep er). In adiabatic expansion the temperature of the gas and its pressure decrease faster than in the corresponding isothermal expansion. In adiabatic compression of the gas its pressure increases at a higher rate than in the corresponding isothermal compression. The reason is that the increased pressure is due both to the decrease in the volume of the gas and to the increase in its temperature.

9.5.12

The work W_{1-2} done by the gas in the adiabatic process **1** → **2** is measured by the hatched area in Figure 9.7. The

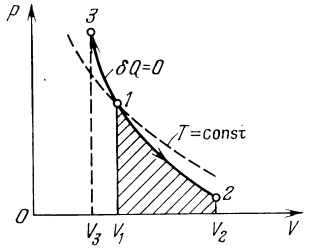


Figure 9.7.: Finding work done via graphical representation.

amount of work W_{1-2} done in an adiabatic process is expressed by

In these equations M/μ is the number of moles contained in mass M of the gas, $C_{V\mu}$ is the molar heat capacity at constant volume, $\varkappa$ is the adiabatic exponent, and p, V

and T are the state variables of the gas in the states **1** and **2** as indicated.

9.5.13

Table 9.1 lists summarized information on the isoprocesses in gases.

Thermodynamic Process	Isochoric	Isobaric	Isothermal	Adiabatic
Basic Condition	$V = \text{const}$	$p = \text{const}$	$T = \text{const}$	$\delta Q = 0$
Relationship between state variables	$\frac{p}{T} = \text{const}$	$\frac{V}{T} = \text{const}$	$pV = \text{const}$	$pV^{\varkappa} = \text{const}$ $pT^{\varkappa/(\varkappa-1)} = \text{const}$ $VT^{1/(\varkappa-1)} = \text{const}$
Work done in the process	$\delta W = 0$ $W = 0$	$\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V$ $W = p(V_2 - V_1)$	$\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V$ $W = \frac{M}{\mu} RT \ln \frac{V_2}{V_1}$	$\delta W = p\mathrm{d}V = -\mathrm{d}U$ $W = -\Delta U = C_V(T_2 - T_1)$
Quantity of heat transferred in the process	$\delta Q = C_V \mathrm{d}T$ $Q = C_V(T_2 - T_1)$	$\delta Q = C_p \mathrm{d}T$ $Q = C_p(T_2 - T_1)$	$\delta Q = \delta W$ $Q = W$	$\delta Q = 0$ $Q = 0$
Change in internal energy	$\mathrm{d}U = \delta Q$ $U = Q$	$\mathrm{d}U = C_V \mathrm{d}T$ $U = C_V(T_2 - T_1)$	$\mathrm{d}U = 0$ $\Delta U = 0$	$\mathrm{d}U = -\delta W = C_V \mathrm{d}T$ $\Delta U = -W = C_V(T_2 - T_1)$
Heat capacity	$C_V = \frac{M}{\mu} \frac{R}{\varkappa - 1}$	$C_p = \frac{M}{\mu} \frac{\varkappa R}{\varkappa - 1}$	$C_T = \infty$	$C_{ad} = 0$

Table 9.1.: A table of isoprocesses.

10 Kinetic Theory of Gases

10.1 Certain Information on Classical Statistical Physics

10.1.1

The *kinetic theory of gases* deals with the structure and physical properties of gases and is based on the statistical method of investigation (8.2.2). Besides those mentioned in (8.2.1), the following propositions form the foundation for *classical statistical physics*.

10.1.2

A system of particles complies with the laws of conservation of energy (9.2.7), momentum (2.7.1) and of angular momentum (4.4.1). A system of charged particles complies with the law of conservation of electric charge (14.1.3).

10.1.3

All physical processes in a system of particles proceed *continuously* in space and time. A space-time description of any physical phenomena in classical mechanics and classical statistical physics assumes the possibility of continuous variation of all physical quantities that characterize the state of the system. For instance, the velocity and energy of any particle can vary continuously due to the action of various forces.

10.1.4

Each particle in a system is regarded as being "tagged]]. It can be distinguished from all other such particles (*distinguishability of identical particles in classical statistical physics*).

10.1.5

Any particle of a system can have arbitrary values for its coordinates and momenta (or velocities) independently of the values of these quantities for other particles of the system. If an infinitely small volume $\mathrm{d}x\,\mathrm{d}y\,\mathrm{d}z$ is chosen in the coordinate system XYZ, any particle can be located within this volume regardless of the presence in this volume of any arbitrary number of other particles. Likewise, any particle may be located within an arbitrary element of "volume" $\mathrm{d}p_x\,\mathrm{d}p_y\,\mathrm{d}p_z$ of momentum space (or $\mathrm{d}u_x\,\mathrm{d}u_y\,\mathrm{d}u_z$ of velocity space) regardless of the presence in these "volumes" of any arbitrary number of other particles. This implies that any particle can have momentum components along the coordinate axes within the limits from p_x to $p_x + \mathrm{d}p_x$, from p_y

to $p_y + \mathrm{d}p_y$ and from p_z to $p_z + \mathrm{d}p_z$ (and, respectively, velocity components of the particle along the coordinate axes within the limits from u_x to $u_x + \mathrm{d}u_x$, u_y to $u_y + \mathrm{d}u_y$, u_z to $u_z + \mathrm{d}u_z$). The minimum values of the volumes $\mathrm{d}x\,\mathrm{d}y\,\mathrm{d}z$ and $\mathrm{d}p_x\,\mathrm{d}p_y\,\mathrm{d}p_z$ are not restricted in any manner.

(10.1.2) and (10.1.3) apply not only to classical statistical physics, they are characteristic of all of classical physics. Sections (10.1.4) and (10.1.5) apply only to classical statistical physics; they do not hold for quantum statistics (**??**).

10.2 Basic Equation of the Kinetic Theory of Gases

10.2.1

The pressure of a gas (8.3.2) in a vessel is the result of the collisions of the gas molecules with the walls of the vessel. The pressure of a gas is the macroscopic effect of the thermal motion of molecules (8.1.1). As the molecules of the gas strike the walls of the vessel (8.4.1) they impart their momentum (2.3.4) to the walls. This change in momentum of the molecules exerts the pressure on the walls. For an ideal gas the collisions between the molecules within the vessel has no effect on the pressure exerted by the gas on the walls. Owing to the chaotic nature of thermal motion of the molecules (8.1.3) the pressure of the gas is the same on all the walls and, by definition (8.3.2), is the average force exerted normal to unit area of the wall surface.

10.2.2

The *basic equation of the kinetic theory of gases* is

$$pV = \frac{2}{3}E_k$$

where p is the pressure of the gas, V is its volume and $E_k = \sum_{i=1}^{N} \frac{m_i u_i^2}{2}$ is total kinetic energy of translational motion of all the N molecules of gas in the vessel.

10.2.3

In a homogeneous gas $m_i = m$, i.e. the mass of each molecule is the same, hut their velocities u_i differ (10.3.1), and

$$E_k = \frac{m}{2}\sum_{i=1}^{N} u_i^2$$

It proves expedient to introduce the root-mean-square velocity v_{rms} of translational motion of gases:

$$v_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^{N} u_i^2}$$

where N is the total number of molecules in volume V of the gas. The root-mean-square velocity pertains to the whole population of molecules, but is meaningless in application to a single molecule or to a small number of molecules. Making use of v_{rms} the expression for E_k assumes the form

$$E_k = \frac{1}{2}Nmv_{\text{rms}}^2 \quad \text{and} \quad pV = \frac{1}{3}Nmv_{\text{rms}}^2 = \frac{1}{3}Mv_{\text{rms}}^2$$

where $M = Nm$ is the mass of the gas.

The basic equation for the pressure of a gas is

$$p = \frac{2}{3}E_{k_0} = \frac{1}{3}n_0 m v_{\text{rms}}^2 = \frac{1}{3}\rho v_{\text{rms}}^2$$

where $E_{k_0} = E_k/V$, $n_0 = N/V$ is the number of molecules in unit volume, and $\rho = n_0 m$ is the density of the gas.

10.2.4

From a comparison of the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4) with the basic equation (10.2.3) $RT = \mu v_{\text{rms}}^2/3$ it follows that

$$v_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{3RT}{\mu}} = \sqrt{\frac{3RT}{mN_A}} = \sqrt{\frac{3kT}{m}} = 1.73\sqrt{pv}$$

where k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5), m is the mass of a molecule, N_A is Avogadros number (**??**), p is the pressure of the gas, and v is its specific volume.

10.2.5

The *average kinetic energy of translational motion of the molecules in an ideal gas* is

$$v_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{3RT}{\mu}} = \sqrt{\frac{3RT}{mN_A}} = \sqrt{\frac{3kT}{m}} = 1.73\sqrt{pv}$$

The average kinetic energy $\langle E_k^m \rangle$ is proportional to the absolute temperature and is independent of any other variables (Figure 10.1). The absolute, or thermodynamic, tem-

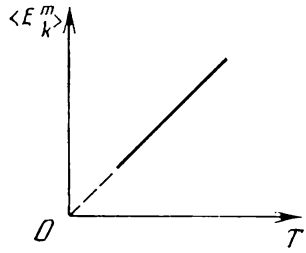


Figure 10.1.: The relation of average kinetic energy and absolute temperature.

perature is a measure of the average kinetic energy of translational motion of the molecules in an ideal gas. This consequence of the kinetic theory of gases is not valid in the region of ultra-low temperatures, close to absolute zero (8.3.4).

10.3 Maxwell's Molecular Velocity and Energy Distribution Law (Maxwell's Distribution Law)

10.3.1

The *law of the distribution of molecular velocities for an ideal gas*, theoretically established by Maxwell, determines the number dn of molecules of a homogeneous monatomic ideal gas, out of the total number n_0 of its molecules in unit volume, that has a velocity, at a given temperature, lying within the range from u to $u + \mathrm{d}u$. This law is valid

for gases in a state of thermodynamic equilibrium (8.3.3). The velocity distribution of the molecules of such a gas is a steady-state value. The Maxwellian distribution is based on pairwise collisions of the randomly moving gas molecules. This assumes uniform distribution of the molecules throughout the volume of the vessel, i.e. constant density of the gas.

10.3.2

In its most customary form, the law of the distribution of molecular speeds (magnitudes of the molecular velocities) is presented as

$$\mathrm{d}n = n_0 \left(\frac{m}{2\pi kT}\right)^{3/2} \exp\left(-\frac{mu^2}{2kT}\right) 4\pi u^2 \mathrm{d}u$$

Here u is the magnitude of the molecular velocity (speed of a molecule), m is the mass of a molecule, k is Boltzmanns constant, and T is the absolute (thermodynamic) temperature. Molecular velocity distribution curves for various temperatures $T_1 < T_2 < T_3$ are shown in Figure 10.2. As is evident from these curves, the most probable velocity u_p (10.3.4) increases with temperature and the fraction of molecules travelling at this velocity decreases.

10.3.3

Another form of the Maxwellian distribution is

$$\mathrm{d}n = n_0 \left(\frac{m}{2\pi kT}\right)^{3/2} \exp\left(-\frac{mu^2}{2kT}\right) \mathrm{d}u_x \mathrm{d}u_y \mathrm{d}u_z$$

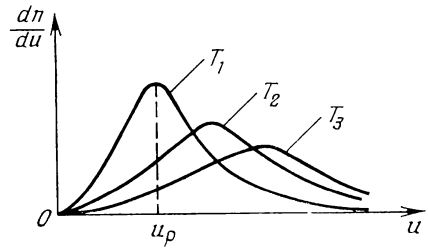


Figure 10.2.: Molecular velocity distribution for various temperatures.

where u_x, u_y and u_z are projections of the molecular velocity on the coordinate axes. Owing to the random nature of thermal motion of the molecules (8.1.1), distributions of the molecules according to the projections u_i of their velocities on the coordinate axes $(i = x, y, z)$ are mutually independent. Hence

$$\mathrm{d}n = n_0 f(u_x)\, f(u_y)\, f(u_z)\mathrm{d}u_x\mathrm{d}u_y\mathrm{d}u_z$$

where

$$f(u_i) = \left(\frac{m}{2\pi kT}\right)^{3/2} \exp\left(-\frac{mu_i^2}{2kT}\right) \quad (i = x,\, y,\, z)$$

is a distribution function of the projections of the molecular velocities.

The Maxwellian distribution is isotropic. This is evident from the fact that the function $f(u_x, u_y, u_z)$ depends only upon the speed (magnitude of the velocity), and because the function $f(u_i)$ is the same along all the axes.

10.3.4

The law of the distribution of molecular velocities (10.3.2) can be used to determine the *most probable velocity* u_p of the molecules, which corresponds to the maximum of the function

$$f(u) = \frac{dn}{du} = 4\pi n_0 \left(\frac{m}{4\pi kT}\right)^{1/2} \exp\left(-\frac{mu^2}{2kT}\right)$$

The condition

$$\left[\frac{d}{du}\left(\exp\left(-\frac{mu^2}{2kT}\right)u^2\right)\right]_{u=u_p} = 0$$

yields

$$u_p = \sqrt{\frac{2kT}{m}} = \sqrt{\frac{2RT}{\mu}} = v_{rms}\sqrt{\frac{2}{3}}$$

10.3.5

A third form of the law of the distribution of molecular velocities is

$$dn = \frac{4n_0}{\sqrt{\pi}} \exp\left(-\frac{u^2}{u_{p^2}}\right)\left(\frac{u}{u_p}\right)^2 \frac{du}{du_p}$$

The fraction dn/n_0 of the molecules of a gas having velocities lying within the range from u to $u + du$ is numerically equal to the hatched area dS under the curve in Figure 10.3, which represents the dependence of $(u_p/n_0)\,(dn/du)$ on u/u_p:

$$dS = \left(\frac{u_p}{n_0}\frac{dn}{du}\right)\frac{du}{u_p} = \frac{dn}{n_0}$$

The area under the curve in Figure **??**, i.e. bounded by the curve and the axis of abscissas, is equal to unity. This area represents the fraction of the molecules having all possible velocity values from 0 to ∞.

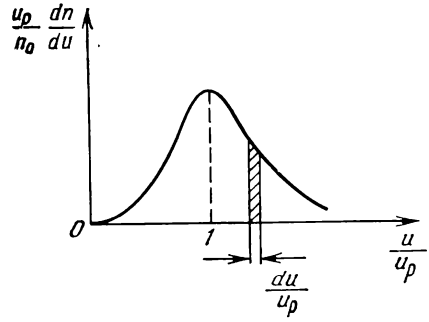


Figure 10.3.: A velocity distribution curve for molecules.

10.3.6

The arithmetic mean velocity $\langle u \rangle$ of translational motion of the molecules in an ideal gas, calculated by means of the distribution law (10.3.2), is

$$\langle u \rangle = v_{\text{rms}} \sqrt{\frac{8}{3\pi}} = \sqrt{\frac{8RT}{\pi\mu}} = \sqrt{\frac{8kT}{\pi m}} = 1.60\sqrt{pv}$$

10.3.7

The energy distribution of the molecules in an ideal gas determines the fraction $\mathrm{d}n_{E^m}/n_0$ of molecules, of their total number n_0, having kinetic energies $E_k^{\mathrm{m}} = mu^2/2$ lying within the range from E_k^{m} to $E_k^{\mathrm{m}} + \mathrm{d}E_k^{\mathrm{m}}$:

$$\mathrm{d}n_{E^m} = \frac{2n_0}{\sqrt{\pi}} (kT)^{-3/2} \exp\left(-\frac{E_k^{\mathrm{m}}}{kT}\right) \sqrt{E_k^{\mathrm{m}}}\,\mathrm{d}E_k^{\mathrm{m}}$$

Here $\mathrm{d}n_{E^m}/n_0 = f(E_k^{\mathrm{m}})\,\mathrm{d}E_k^{\mathrm{m}}$, where $f(E_k^{\mathrm{m}})$ is the distribution function for the molecular energies in an ideal gas.

Example. The average kinetic energy $\langle E_k^{\mathrm{m}} \rangle$ of a molecule in an ideal gas is

$$\begin{aligned}\langle E_k^{\mathrm{m}} \rangle &= \int_0^\infty E_k^{\mathrm{m}} f(E_k^{\mathrm{m}})\,\mathrm{d}E_k^{\mathrm{m}} \\ &= \frac{2}{\sqrt{\pi}(kT)^{3/2}} \int_0^\infty E_k^{\mathrm{m}} \exp\left(-\frac{E_k^{\mathrm{m}}}{kT}\right) \sqrt{E_k^{\mathrm{m}}}\,\mathrm{d}E_k^{\mathrm{m}} \\ &= \frac{3}{2}kT\end{aligned}$$

(cf. (10.2.4)).

10.3.8

The relative motion (7.1.2) of two particles with the masses m_1 and m_2 is equivalent to the motion of a single particle with the reduced mass $m_{\mathrm{red}} = m_1 m_2/(m_1 + m_2)$. For a homogeneous gas $m_1 = m_2 = m$ and $m_{\mathrm{red}} = m/2$. The distribution of molecules according to their relative velocities establishes the fraction $\mathrm{d}n_{u_{\mathrm{rel}}}/n_0$ of molecules, of their

total number n_0, having relative velocities u_{rel} lying within the range from u_{rel} to $u_{\text{rel}} + \mathrm{d}u_{\text{rel}}$:

$$\mathrm{d}n_{u_{\text{rel}}} = n_0 \left(\frac{m}{4\pi kT}\right)^{3/2} \exp\left(-\frac{mu_{\text{rel}}^2}{4kT}\right) 4\pi u_{\text{rel}}^2 \mathrm{d}u_{\text{rel}}$$

Here $\mathrm{d}n_{u_{\text{rel}}}/n_0 = f(u_{\text{rel}})\mathrm{d}u_{\text{rel}}$, where

$$f(u_{\text{rel}}) = 4\pi \left(\frac{m}{4\pi kT}\right)^{3/2} \exp\left(-\frac{mu_{\text{rel}}^2}{4kT}\right) u_{\text{rel}}^2$$

is the relative velocity distribution of the molecules in an ideal gas.

Example. The *average relative velocity* $\langle u_{\text{rel}} \rangle$ of the molecules is

$$\langle u_{\text{rel}} \rangle = \int_0^\infty u_{\text{rel}} f(u_{\text{rel}})\, \mathrm{d}u_{\text{rel}} = \sqrt{2}\sqrt{\frac{8kT}{\pi m}} = \sqrt{2}\langle u \rangle$$

where $\langle u \rangle$ is the arithmetic mean velocity of the molecules (10.3.6).

10.4 Particle Distribution in a Potential Force Field (Boltzmann Distribution)

10.4.1

Gases are ordinarily in the potential (conservative) gravitational fields of the earth (6.2.1). If there were no such gravitational field, the atmospheric air would be dispersed in the universe. If, on the other hand, there were no thermal motion, the molecules of atmospheric air would drop

to the earth. Gravity and thermal motion lead to a steady state of gases, in which their concentration and pressure decrease with an increase of their altitude above the earths surface.

10.4.2

If a gas (or other system of particles) is located in an external potential (conservative) force field (3.1.6), the distribution of the particles throughout the volume is described by the *Boltzmann distribution law*. This law establishes the number of particles $\mathrm{d}n(x, y, z)$ that have coordinates within the ranges from x to $x + \mathrm{d}x$, from y to $y + \mathrm{d}y$, and from z to $z + \mathrm{d}z$. In other words, $\mathrm{d}n(x, y, z)$ is the number of molecules contained in the element of volume $\mathrm{d}V = \mathrm{d}x\mathrm{d}y\mathrm{d}z$. The Boltzmann distribution law is of the form

$$\mathrm{d}n\,(x, y, z) = \text{const}\ \exp\left(-\frac{E_{\mathrm{p}}^{\mathrm{m}}}{kT}\right)\mathrm{d}x\,\mathrm{d}y\,\mathrm{d}z$$

where $E_{\mathrm{p}}^{\mathrm{m}}(x, y, z)$ is the potential energy of a particle in the external force field, k is Boltzmanns constant, and T is the absolute temperature. The value of the constant in the preceding equation is determined from the normalization condition:

$$\int \mathrm{d}n = n_0$$

where n_0 is the total number of particles in unit volume.

Example. For particles of mass m, located in the earths gravitational field, $E_{\mathrm{p}}^{\mathrm{m}} = mgh$ (3.3.3), where g is the acceleration due to gravity (7.3.3), and h is the altitude. At each

altitude there is a Maxwellian molecular velocity distribution (10.3.1). The number of molecules contained in the volume $\mathrm{d}V$ is

$$\mathrm{d}n\,(x,y,z) = \text{const}\exp\left(-\frac{mgh}{kT}\right)\mathrm{d}V.$$

The gas density $\rho = m\mathrm{d}n/\mathrm{d}V$ decreases with an increase in the altitude according to the exponential law

$$\rho = \text{const}\exp\left(-\frac{mgh}{kT}\right)$$

The value of the constant can be determined from the condition $\rho = \rho_0 = \text{const}$ at $h = 0$. The density of the gas or its pressure varies according to the *barometric height formula*

$$\rho = \rho_0 \exp\left(-\frac{mgh}{kT}\right) \quad \text{and} \quad p = p_0 \exp\left(-\frac{mgh}{kT}\right)$$

10.4.3

The *Maxwell-Boltzmann law*, or *distribution*, describes the distribution of the coordinates and velocities of gas mole cules subject to the action of an arbitrary potential (conservative) force field:

$$\mathrm{d}n = \text{const}\exp\left(-\frac{p_x^2+p_y^2+p_z^2}{2mkT}\right)\mathrm{d}p_x\mathrm{d}p_y\mathrm{d}p_z$$
$$\times \exp\left(-\frac{E_{\mathrm{p}}^{\mathrm{m}}(x,y,z)}{kT}\right)\mathrm{d}x\mathrm{d}y\mathrm{d}z$$

where $\mathrm{d}n$ is the number of molecules contained in six-dimensional space within the element of volume $\mathrm{d}\Gamma = \mathrm{d}x\mathrm{d}y\mathrm{d}z\,\mathrm{d}p_x\mathrm{d}p_y\mathrm{d}p_z$, and $E_{\mathrm{p}}^{\mathrm{m}}(x, y, z)$ is the potential energy of a molecule in the external force field at a point with the coordinates x, y and z, and the projections p_x, p_y and p_z of the momenta on the axes. The Maxwell-Boltzmann law is the product of two distribution functions. One of them describes the distribution with respect to coordinates, and the other with respect to momenta (or velocities).

10.5 Mean Free Path of Molecules

10.5.1

Gas molecules have finite dimensions (8.4.1) and are continuously colliding with one another in thermal motion. Between two successive collisions, molecules travel at uniform velocity in a straight line over certain distances called their free paths λ. The mean free path $\langle\lambda\rangle$ is the average distance that a molecule travels without a collision. The mean free path is a characteristic of the whole totality of gas molecules at given values of p and T.

10.5.2

In unit time each molecule undergoes a mean number of collisions $\langle z\rangle$ (*average collision frequency*) equal to

$$\left\langle z^2 \right\rangle = \pi d^2 n_0 \langle u_{\mathrm{rel}}\rangle = \sqrt{2}\pi d^2 n_0 \langle u\rangle$$

Here d is the effective diameter of the molecule (8.4.1), n_0 is the number of molecules in unit volume of the gas, $\langle u_{\mathrm{rel}}\rangle$

is their average relative velocity (10.3.8), and $\langle u \rangle$ is their arithmetic mean velocity (10.3.6).

10.5.3

The average distance travelled by a molecule in unit time is numerically equal to $\langle u \rangle$. Therefore $\langle u \rangle = \langle \lambda \rangle \langle z \rangle$. The mean free path $\langle \lambda \rangle$ is

$$\langle \lambda \rangle = \frac{\langle u \rangle}{\langle z \rangle} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2} d^2 n_0}$$

At constant temperature, n_0 is proportional to the pressure p of the gas (8.4.5). Hence, for a given gas the mean free path is inversely proportional to the pressure:

$$p_1 \langle \lambda_1 \rangle = p_2 \langle \lambda_2 \rangle = \text{const}$$

in which the subscripts 1 and 2 refer to two states of the gas.

10.5.4

If molecules are ejected from some source of particles and a beam is formed by means of a diaphragm, the free path distribution law is valid for the molecules of the beam:

$$N = N_0 \exp\left(-\frac{x}{\langle \lambda \rangle}\right)$$

where N is the number of molecules in the beam that have travelled a distance x without collisions, and N_0 is the number of molecules in the beam at $x = 0$, i.e. at the output of the diaphragm.

10.6 Principle of the Equipartition of Energy. Internal Energy of an Ideal Gas

10.6.1

The *number of degrees of freedom* of a body is the minimum number of coordinates (number of independent coordinates) that it is necessary to specify in order to completely determine the position of the body in space.

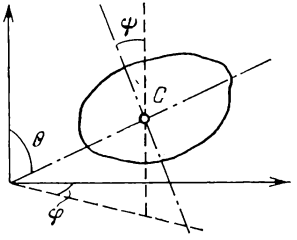


Figure 10.4.: Degrees of freedom for a particle.

A particle, for instance, travelling along one of the coordinate axes has a single degree of freedom. The same particle travelling in a plane has two degrees of freedom. The position of a particle travelling freely in space is determined by three degrees of freedom: the coordinates x, y and z. A rigid body (1.1.4) has six degrees of freedom: its position in space is determined by the three coordinates of its centre of mass (2.3.3), two angles, θ and φ, determining the direction of a certain axis, fixed in the body and passing through its centre of mass (Figure 10.4), and, in addition,

angle ψ, determining the direction of a second axis, fixed in the body and perpendicular to the first axis. Changes in the three coordinates of the centre of mass at given constant angles θ, φ and ψ correspond to translational motion of the rigid body. The coordinates of the centre of mass are the three degrees of freedom of translational motion. Changes in the angle θ, φ or ψ at a constant position of the centre of mass lead to rotation of the rigid body. Hence, the correspond ing degrees of freedom are said to be rotary. Additional degrees of freedom of oscillatory, or vibratory, motion (10.6.5) are introduced to determine the position in space of an imperfectly rigid body, whose various parts can be displaced with respect to one another.

10.6.2

In many problems a *molecule of a monatomic gas* can be regarded as a particle (cf. (8.4.1)). This is based on the fact that practically all the mass of such an atom is concentrated in its nucleus (**??**), which is of extremely small size. The molecule of monatomic gas has three degrees of freedom of translational motion. Its average kinetic energy $\left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle$ is equal to the kinetic energy of molecules travelling at a velocity equal to the root-mean-square velocity v_{rms} (10.2.4):

$$\left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = \frac{3}{2} kT$$

Owing to the random nature of thermal motion of the molecules, this energy is uniformly distributed between the three degrees of freedom. Hence, on an average each degree of freedom of translational motion of a monatomic

molecule accounts for the same amount of kinetic energy $\left\langle E^{m}_{k_0} \right\rangle = \left\langle E^{m}_{k} \right\rangle /3 = kT/2$, where k is Boltzmanns constant and T is the absolute temperature.

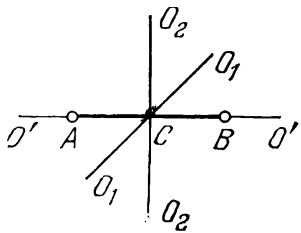


Figure 10.5.: Degrees of freedom of A diatomic molecule.

10.6.3

As a first approximation, a molecule of a diatomic gas consists of two atoms, A and B, rigidly held together by an incompressible, undeformable bond (Figure 10.5). In addition to the three degrees of freedom of translational motion, the centre of mass C (2.3.3) of such a molecule has two more degrees of freedom of rotary motion about axes $O_1 - O_1$ and $O_2 - O_2$. Rotation about the third axis $O' - O'$ makes no contribution to the molecules energy because the moment of inertia (4.2.1) of the atoms with respect to this axis is negligibly small. Thus, a diatomic molecule has five degrees of freedom. Molecules consisting of three or more atoms have six degrees of freedom: three translational and three rotary degrees (Figure 10.6).

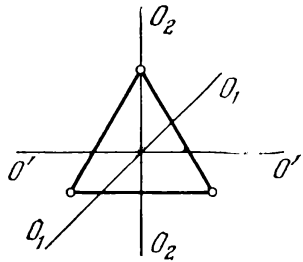


Figure 10.6.: Degrees of freedom of molecules with three or more atoms.

10.6.4

The principle of equipartition of energy states that on an average each degree of freedom of a molecule accounts for the same amount of kinetic energy, equal to $kT/2$. If a molecule has i degrees of freedom its average kinetic energy $\left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = ikT/2$.

The principle of equipartition of energy leads to the conclusion that all degrees of freedom of the molecule are equally justified: each makes the same contribution to its average energy. This conclusion actually has only a limited field of application, and has been revised for quantum statistics (**??**).

10.6.5

In real molecules, which are not absolutely rigid, vibratory degrees of freedom make a contribution to the energy of

the molecule in accordance with the principle of equipartition of energy (10.6.4). Each vibratory degree of freedom accounts, not only for kinetic energy $\langle E_{\mathrm{k}}^{\mathrm{m}} \rangle$ but for potential energy $\left\langle E_{\mathrm{p}}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle$ as well. For harmonic vibrations (**??**), $\left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = \left\langle E_{\mathrm{p}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle$. According to (10.6.4)

$$\left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = \left\langle E_{\mathrm{p}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = \frac{1}{2} kT$$

where $\left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle$ and $\left\langle E_{\mathrm{p}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle$ are the average kinetic and potential energies of a molecule per vibratory degree of freedom.

The average value $\langle E_0^{\mathrm{m}} \rangle$ of the total energy of a molecule per vibratory degree of freedom is

$$\langle E_0^{\mathrm{m}} \rangle = \left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle + \left\langle E_{\mathrm{p}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = 2 \left\langle E_{\mathrm{k}_0}^{\mathrm{m}} \right\rangle = kT$$

This equation is valid for harmonic vibrations of particles (atoms, molecules or ions) in the crystal lattice sites of solids (8.1.4).

10.6.6

The internal energy (9.1.2) of a polyatomic gas constitutes the kinetic energy of all kinds of motion of its particles. For one mole of such a gas

$$U = \langle E_{\mathrm{k}}^{\mathrm{m}} \rangle N_A = \frac{i}{2} k N_A T = i \frac{RT}{2}$$

where N_A is Avogadros number (**??**), i is the number of degrees of freedom of the molecule (10.6.4), and R is the universal gas constant (8.4.4).

10.7 Heat Capacity of Monatomic, Diatomic and Polyatomic Gases

10.7.1

The molecules of a monatomic gas have three degrees of freedom (10.6.2) and, according to(10.6.6), the internal energy of one mole of such a gas is $U = 3kN_AT/2$.

The molar heat capacity of such a gas at constant volume (9.5.4) is

$$\begin{aligned} C_{V\mu} &= \frac{\mathrm{d}U}{\mathrm{d}T} = \frac{3}{2}N_Ak = \frac{3}{2}R \\ &= 1246.5\frac{\mathrm{J}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}} \\ &\approx 3\frac{\mathrm{cal}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}} \quad \text{because} \quad R \approx 2\frac{\mathrm{cal}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}} \end{aligned}$$

For a polyatomic gas whose molecules have i degrees of freedom

$$\begin{aligned} C_{V\mu} &= \frac{iR}{2} = 4.16i\frac{\mathrm{J}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}} \\ &\approx i\frac{\mathrm{cal}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}} \end{aligned}$$

10.7.2

The molar heat capacity $C_{p\mu}$ at constant pressure ((9.5.7) and (9.5.8)) of a gas whose molecules have i degrees of

freedom is

$$C_{p\mu} = \frac{(i+2)R}{2} = 4.16(i+2)\frac{\mathrm{J}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}}$$
$$\approx (i+2)\frac{\mathrm{cal}}{\mathrm{mol\,K}}$$

The principle of equipartition of energy (10.6.4) leads to the conclusion that the heat capacity of a gas depends upon the number of degrees of freedom of its molecules, but does not depend on the temperature. Experimental data disprove these conclusions of the classical theory of heat capacity. Investigations indicate that the heat capacity of gases increases and decreases with temperature.

10.7.3

A theoretical explanation of experimental data on the dependence of heat capacity on temperature in a wide temperature range is given in the quantum theory of heat capacity. This theory takes into account the following results obtained in a quantum-mechanical description of the properties of diatomic and polyatomic molecules:

(a) Of the four parts that comprise the energy Em of the molecule[1] (**??**), i.e.

$$E^{\mathrm{m}} = E_t^{\mathrm{m}} + E_e^{\mathrm{m}} + E_v^{\mathrm{m}} + E_r^{\mathrm{m}}$$

only E_t^{m} the energy of translational motion of the molecules centre of mass (2.3.3), varies continuously

[1] This ignores the nuclear energy of the molecule, which has no influence on the heat capacity of molecules.

(not by discrete amounts). The values of all other kinds of internal energy of molecules are quantized and thereby assume only a discrete series of values (**??**). This refers to the following kinds of energy: E_e^{m}, the energy of motion of the electrons of the molecule; E_v^{m}, the energy of vibrational motion of the nuclei in the molecule; and E_r^{m}, the energy of rotary motion of the molecule.

(b) As a first approximation, the kinds of internal motion of the molecule can be assumed independent of one another. Thus, at small amplitudes of vibration of the nuclei, the changes in the moments of inertia (4.2.1) of the molecule due to vibration can be neglected, as can the effect of the vibrational motion in the molecule on its rotation.

(c) No changes in the energy of motion of the electrons occur when a substance is heated by one degree at ordinary temperatures. Adjacent energy levels of the electrons in the molecule are separated by energy of the order of several eV, correspond ing to temperatures of several tens of thousands of degrees (10.7.6). Therefore, the energy of motion of electrons in the molecule can be neglected in dealing with the heat capacities of monatomic and polyatomic gases up to the very highest temperatures.

10.7.4

As a first approximation, the vibrational motion of the nuclei in the molecule is described as the vibration of a har-

monic oscillator (**??**), whose mass m is equal to the reduced mass of a system of vibrating atoms, $m = m_1 m_2/(m_1 + m_2)$, where m_1 and m_2 are the masses of the atoms. Then the energy of vibrational motion of the molecule equals

$$E_v^{\mathrm{m}} = h\nu_0 \left(n + \frac{1}{2}\right)$$

where n is the quantum number and assumes integral values: $n = 0, 1, 2, \ldots$, ν_0 is the natural frequency of vibrations (**??**), and h is Plancks constant (Appendix II). The energy of a harmonic oscillator, equal to $h\nu_0/2$ at $n = 0$, is conserved at any arbitrarily low temperatures, and even at $T \to 0$ (**??**). The difference ΔE_v^{m} between the energies of two adjacent vibrational energy levels, $\Delta E_v^{\mathrm{m}} = h\nu_0$, is independent of the quantum number. Valid at room and lower temperatures is the condition: $\Delta E_v^{\mathrm{m}} \gg kT$. No changes are observed in the energy of vibrational motion of molecules at such temperatures. In calculating the heat capacity of gases under such conditions, vibrational degrees of freedom of the molecule can be neglected. In the general case, vibrational motions make contributions to the internal energy U_v (9.1.2) and the heat capacity $C_{V\mu}$ (9.5.2). For one mole

$$U_v = \frac{N_A h\nu}{2} \frac{\left(\exp\left(\frac{h\nu}{2kT}\right) + \exp\left(-\frac{h\nu}{2kT}\right)\right)}{\left(\exp\left(\frac{h\nu}{2kT}\right) - \exp\left(-\frac{h\nu}{2kT}\right)\right)}$$

$$C_{V\mu_v} = \frac{N_A k}{4} \left(\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right)^2 \left(\frac{\exp\left(\frac{h\nu}{2kT}\right) - \exp\left(-\frac{h\nu}{2kT}\right)}{2}\right)^{-2}$$

where T is the absolute temperature, k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5) and N_A is Avogadros number (Appendix II). At high temperatures $(T \gg h\nu/k)$

$$U_v \approx N_A kT = RT, \quad C_{V\mu v} \approx N_A k = R$$

These results coincide with those of classical theory which follow from the principle of the equipartition of energy (10.6.4). Under these conditions the energy of the oscillator can be assumed to vary continuously because $\Delta E_v^m \ll kT$. At sufficiently low temperatures $(T \ll h\nu/k)$

$$U_v \approx \frac{N_A h\nu}{2} + N_A h\nu \exp\left(-\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right)$$

$$C_{V\mu_v} \approx N_A k \left(\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right)^2 \exp\left(-\frac{h\nu}{kT}\right)$$

As $T \to 0$, the energy $U_v \to N_A h\nu/2$. This quantity is called the *zero-point vibrational energy* of the system (**??**). As $T \to 0$, the heat capacity $C_{V\mu v} \to 0$ in accordance with the third law of thermodynamics (11.8.4). The dependence $C_{V\mu v} = f(T)$ for diatomic gases is shown in Figure 10.7.

10.7.5

As a first approximation, the rotary motion of diatomic molecules can be dealt with as the motion of a rigid dumbbell which rotates about its centre of mass with the moment of inertia $I = m_1 m_2 r_0^2/(m_1 + m_2)$, where $m = m_1 m_2/(m_1 + m_2)$ is the reduced mass of the molecule (m_1 and m_2 are the masses of the two atoms), and r_0 is the distance between

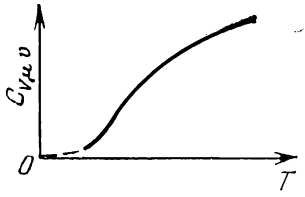


Figure 10.7.: The dependence $C_{V\mu v} = f(T)$ for diatomic gases.

the atoms in the molecule. The energy of such a system is

$$E_{\mathrm{r}}^{\mathrm{m}} = \frac{h^2}{8\pi I} J(J+1)$$

where J is a quantum number that assumes the values $J = 0, 1, 2, \ldots$ difference $\Delta E_{\mathrm{r}}^{\mathrm{m}}$ between the energies of two adjacent rotational energy levels is

$$\Delta E_{\mathrm{r}}^{\mathrm{m}} = \frac{2h^2}{8\pi^2 I}(J+1)$$

The value of $\Delta E_{\mathrm{r}}^{\mathrm{m}}$ is less than $E_{\mathrm{v}}^{\mathrm{m}}$ by a factor of 800 to 1000.

At ordinary temperatures $\Delta E_{\mathrm{r}}^{\mathrm{m}} \ll kT$ for diatomic and certain polyatomic gases (water vapour, methane, etc.), and the quantization of the energy of rotary motion of the molecules can be ignored. Under these conditions, the principle of equipartition of energy (10.6.4) can be applied in calculating the contribution of rotary motion to the heat capacity.

The contribution of rotary motion of diatomic molecules to the internal energy and heat capacity per mole equals:

(a) At high temperatures $(T \gg h^2/8\pi^2 kI)$

$$U_r \approx N_A kT\left(1 - \frac{h^2}{24\pi^2 IkT}\right), \quad \text{and} \quad C_{V\mu r} \approx N_A k = R$$

The heat capacity $C_{V\mu r}$ at high temperatures has a value following from the principle of equipartition of energy (10.6.4).

(b) At low temperatures $(T \ll h^2/8\pi^2 kI)$

$$U_r \approx \frac{3h^2 N_A}{4\pi^2 I}\exp\left(-\frac{h^2}{4\pi^2 IkT}\right),$$
$$C_{V\mu r} \approx 3\left(\frac{h^2}{4\pi^2 I}\right)\frac{N_A}{kT^2}\exp\left(-\frac{h^2}{4\pi^2 IkT}\right)$$

as $T \to 0$, the heat capacity $C_{V\mu r} \to 0$ (10.7.4). The general shape of the curve representing the dependence $C_{V\mu r} = f(T)$ is the same as that in Figure 10.7.

As the gas cools, the reduction in the energy of its molecules leads to a reduction in the number of molecules transferring to higher rotational energy levels. At sufficiently low temperatures, the rotation of the molecules in a gas practically cannot be excited, and rotational degrees of freedom make no contribution to the heat capacity of the gas. The heat capacities of all gases at low temperatures become the same as for monatomic gases whose molecules have no rotational degrees of freedom.

10.7.6

At extremely high temperatures, of the order of tens of thousands of degrees, the heat capacity is increased. This is associated with the fact that the value of kT under such conditions becomes comparable, in order of magnitude, with $\Delta E_{\mathrm{e}}^{\mathrm{m}}$, the change in the energy of the electrons in their transition from lower to higher energy levels. Moreover, at high temperatures the processes of dissociation and ionization of the gases make contributions to their heat capacities.

10.8 Transport Phenomena in Gases

10.8.1

Transport phenomena unite a group of processes pertain ing to non-uniformities in the density, temperature or velocity of ordered motion of various layers of a substance. The equalization of these non-uniformities leads to transport phenomena. Transport phenomena include diffusion, internal friction and heat conduction.

10.8.2

Transport phenomena in gases and liquids consist of ordered directional mass transport in these substances (diffusion), momentum transport (internal friction) and internal energy transport (heat conduction). In gases these phenomena violate the completely random motion of the molecules and Maxwells molecular velocity distribution (10.3.2). Deviations from the Maxwell law can be explained by the

directional transport of the physical characteristics of the substance in such phenomena. In the simplest cases of one-dimensional transport phenomena, the physical quantities that govern them depend on only a single Cartesian coordinate.

10.8.3

Diffusion is the spontaneous interpenetration and mixing of the particles of two adjoining gases, liquids or solids. In chemically pure gases at constant temperature, diffusion occurs owing to differing densities in various parts throughout the volume bf the gas. In a mixture of gases, diffusion is caused by the difference in the densities of the various gases at various parts of the volume of the gas mixture.

In a chemically homogeneous gas the phenomenon of diffusion consists in the transport of a mass of the gas from places with higher density to places with lower density. This phenomenon obeys *Fick's law*:

$$m_{\text{sec}} = -D \frac{\mathrm{d}\rho}{\mathrm{d}x}$$

Here m_{sec} is the *specific mass flow* and is numerically equal to the mass that passes by diffusion in unit time through a plane surface of unit area located perpendicular to the direction the substance is being transported, ρ is the density of the gas, and D is the *diffusion coefficient*. The derivative $\mathrm{d}p/\mathrm{d}x$ is numerically equal to the density gradient, i.e. the change in density per unit length. The diffusion coefficient is numerically equal to the specific mass flow at unit density

gradient. The minus sign in Ficks law indicates that mass transport takes place in the direction of decreasing density. Another form of Ficks law is

$$j = -D \frac{\mathrm{d}n_0}{\mathrm{d}x}$$

where $j = m_{\text{sec}}/m$ is the density of the molecular flow in diffusion, i.e. the number of molecules diffusing in unit time through the surface indicated in the first form of Ficks law, n_0 is the molecular concentration, equal to the number of molecules per unit volume, and m is the mass of one molecule, so that $\rho = n_0 m$.

The expression obtained in the kinetic theory of gases for the diffusion coefficient is

$$D = \frac{1}{3} \langle u \rangle \langle \lambda \rangle$$

where $\langle u \rangle$ is the arithmetic mean velocity of thermal motion of the molecules (10.3.6), and $\langle \lambda \rangle$ is the mean free path (10.5.1).

10.8.4

Internal friction (*viscosity*) is the occurrence of friction forces between layers of a gas or liquid that flow parallel to one another at different speeds. A layer flowing faster exerts an accelerating force on a slower layer. On the other hand, a slow layer retards a faster flowing layer of fluid. The forces of internal friction (viscosity) are directed tangent to the contacting surfaces of the layers. The cause of viscosity (as internal friction in gases and liquids is more commonly

called) is the superposition of ordered motion of layers of fluid at various velocities $\mathbf{v}$ and the thermal random motion of the molecules at velocities depending upon the temperature.

The random motion of the molecules transfers them from layer B flowing at the velocity $\mathbf{v}_2$ into layer A flowing at the velocity $\mathbf{v}_1$(Figure 10.8). This leads to transport of momenta $m\mathbf{v}$ of ordered motion of the molecules. When $\mathbf{v}_1 > \mathbf{v}_2$, the molecules that entered layer A from layer B have their velocities of ordered motion accelerated by collisions with the molecules from the new layer. This slows down the velocities of ordered motion of the molecules in layer A. On the other hand, molecules passing from faster layer A to slower layer B have higher momenta $m\mathbf{v}_1$ so that the inter-molecular collisions in layer B accelerate the motion of its molecules.

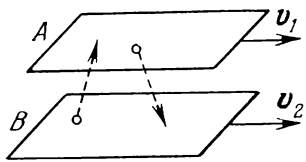


Figure 10.8.: The random motion of the molecules transfers them between layer of a fluid.

The phenomenon of viscosity is described by the *Newtonian friction law*:

$$\tau = -\eta \frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}n}$$

where τ is the *friction stress*, i.e. the physical quantity equal numerically to the force of internal friction acting per unit area of the surface of the layer, $\mathrm{d}v/\mathrm{d}n$ is the velocity gradient, i.e. the variation in the velocity of layer motion per unit length in the direction of the inner normal $\mathbf{n}$ to the layer surface. The internal frictional force is opposite in direction to the derivative of the gas velocity vector $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to $\mathbf{n}$. The quantity η is called the *coefficient of dynamic viscosity* (or just the *viscosity*). It is numerically equal to the friction stress at a velocity gradient equal to unity.

The *coefficient of kinematic viscosity* is the quantity $\nu = \eta/\rho$, where ρ is the density of the substance. The coefficient of dynamic viscosity is calculated by the equation

$$\eta = \frac{1}{3}\langle u\rangle \langle \lambda\rangle \rho$$

where $\langle u\rangle$ is the arithmetic mean velocity of thermal motion of the molecules (10.3.6), and $\langle\lambda\rangle$ is their mean free path (10.5.1). The coefficient of dynamic viscosity is independent of the pressure (or density) of the gas since $\langle\lambda\rangle \propto 1/\rho$. This can be explained by the fact that in an isothermal increase in the density of a gas, for example, by two times, the number of carriers of momenta is doubled, but each molecule (or atom) travels only one half the distance without a collision and carries only one half as much momentum. Hence, all in all, momenta transport remains unchanged.

10.8.5

The third transport phenomenon, *heat conduction*, occurs under the condition that a difference in temperature exists in a body in a certain direction. For instance, the two

opposing walls of a vessel holding a gas can have different temperatures that are maintained by external sources. Then the gas molecules at various locations throughout the volume have different average kinetic energies (10.2.4). Under such conditions, the random thermal motion of the molecules leads to directional energy transport (or transfer) in the form of heat (9.2.6). Molecules passing from the heated parts of the volume of gas to the colder parts yield some of their average kinetic energy to the surrounding molecules in the process of molecular collisions. Slow molecules, on the contrary, increase their average kinetic energy, in passing from the less heated to the more heated parts of the gas, owing to collisions with molecules having higher velocities.

In one-dimensional heat conduction, when the temperature of the gas depends only on a single coordinate $T = T(x)$, energy transfer in the form of heat proceeds along the OX axis according to the *Fourier law* of heat conduction (Fourier heat equation):

$$q_{\text{sec}} = -K\frac{\mathrm{d}T}{\mathrm{d}x}$$

where q_{sec} is the *specific rate of heat flow*, a physical quantity numerically equal to the energy transmitted in the form of heat in unit time through a plane surface of unit area located perpendicular to the direction of energy transport. The quantity K is called the *thermal conductivity*. It is numerically equal to the specific rate of heat flow at the temperature gradient $\mathrm{d}T/\mathrm{d}x$ (the change in temperature over unit length) equal to unity. The minus sign in the Fourier law indicates that in heat conduction energy is transported

in the direction of decreasing temperatures.

According to the kinetic theory of gases, the thermal conductivity is equal to

$$K = \frac{1}{3} \langle u \rangle \langle \lambda \rangle c_V \rho$$

where c_V is the specific heat at constant volume (9.5.4). The other quantities are defined in (10.8.4). It follows from the last equation that the thermal conductivity is independent of the gas density. The reasons are similar to those given in (10.8.4) to explain why η is independent of the density.

10.8.6

The laws of transport phenomena, given in the subsections (10.8.3), (10.8.4) and (10.8.5), can be written in another form:

$$\mathrm{d}M = D \frac{\mathrm{d}\rho}{\mathrm{d}x} \mathrm{d}S \, \mathrm{d}t$$

$$\mathrm{d}F = \eta \frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}x} \mathrm{d}S \, \mathrm{d}t$$

$$\mathrm{d}Q = K \frac{\mathrm{d}T}{\mathrm{d}x} \mathrm{d}S \mathrm{d}t$$

Here $\mathrm{d}M$ is the mass transported in diffusion during the time $\mathrm{d}t$ through the element of area $\mathrm{d}S$, located perpendicular to the direction of diffusion; $\mathrm{d}Q$ is the amount of energy transported in the form of heat during the time $\mathrm{d}t$ through the same element of area $\mathrm{d}S$, located perpendicular to the OX axis; and $\mathrm{d}F$ is the force of internal friction (viscous force) exerted on an element of surface of the layer having the area $\mathrm{d}S$. The other quantities are defined in the subsections mentioned above.

Phenomenon	Transported physical quantity	Transport equation	Formula for th transport coefficien
Diffusion	Mass	$\mathrm{d}M = D\,\frac{\mathrm{d}\rho}{\mathrm{d}x}\,\mathrm{d}S\,\mathrm{d}t$	$D = \frac{1}{3}\langle u\rangle\langle\lambda\rangle$
Internal friction (viscosity)	Momentum	$\mathrm{d}F = \eta\,\frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}x}\,\mathrm{d}S\,\mathrm{d}t$	$\eta = \frac{1}{3}\langle u\rangle\langle\lambda\rangle\,\rho$
Heat conduction	Energy in the form of heat	$\mathrm{d}Q = K\,\frac{\mathrm{d}T}{\mathrm{d}x}\,\mathrm{d}S\,\mathrm{d}t$	$K = \frac{1}{3}\langle u\rangle\langle\lambda\rangle\,c_V\rho$

Table 10.1.: Information on transport phenomena.

10.8.7

Simple relations exist between the transport coefficients:

$$\eta = \rho\,D, \quad \frac{K}{\eta c_V} = 1$$

If any one of the transport coefficients is known the others can be found by these formulas (for known values of ρ and c_V). When the coefficients are known, such vital characteristics of a gas can be determined as the mean free path (10.5.1) of its molecules and the effective diameter of the molecules (8.4.1). Information on transport phenomena is listed in Table 10.1.

10.9 Properties of Rarified Gases

10.9.1

A gas in said to be *rarified* (a *dilute gas*) if its density is so low that the mean free path $\langle\lambda\rangle$ of the molecules is com parable

Characteristic	Vacuum			
	Low	Medium	High	Ultrahigh
Pressure	760 to 1	1 to 10^{-3}	10^{-3} to 10^{-7}	10^{-8} and less
Number of molecules in unit volume (per m^3)	10^{25} to 10^{22}	10^{22} to 10^{19}	10^{19} to 10^{13}	10^{13} and less
Dependence of coefficients K and η on the pressure	None	Pressure dependence is determined by the parameter $\langle\lambda\rangle / d$	Directly proportional to pressure	Heat conduction and viscosity are practically absent

Table 10.2.: Properties of gas in different vacuums.

to the linear dimensions d of the vessel confining the gas. Such a state of a gas is also called a *vacuum*. The degrees of vacuum of gases are classified as ultrahigh ($\langle\lambda\rangle \gg d$), high ($\langle\lambda\rangle > d$), medium ($\langle\lambda\rangle \leqslant d$) and low ($\langle\lambda\rangle \gg d$). The properties of rarified gases differ from those of non-rarified gases only for the first three of these degrees of vacuum. This is evident from Table 10.2 which lists certain characteristics for the various degrees.

10.9.2

In the stale of a high vacuum ((10.9.1)) a reduction in the density of a rarified gas leads to a corresponding decrease in the number of particles without changing X). This, consequently, reduces the number of carriers of momentum or internal energy in viscosity and heat conduction. The trans-

port coefficients in these phenomena are directly proportional to the gas density (cf. (10.8.4) and (10.8.5)). Internal friction is essentially absent in highly rarified gases. Instead, only external friction exists between the moving gas and the walls of the vessel. This is due to the fact that the molecules change their momentum only in interacting with the walls. Under these conditions, as a first approximation, the friction stress is proportional to the density of the gas and velocity of its motion (cf. Sect. (10.8.4)). The specific rate of heat flow in highly rarified gases is proportional to the temperature difference and to the gas density (cf. Sect. (10.8.5)).

10.9.3

A steady state of a rarified gas, contained in two vessels connected by a narrow tube, is possible under the condition of equality of the counterflow of particles passing between the vessels: $n_1 \langle u_1 \rangle = n_2 \langle u_2 \rangle$, where n_1 and n_2 are the numbers of molecules per cm^3 in the two vessels, and $\langle u_1 \rangle$ and $\langle u_2 \rangle$ are their arithmetic mean velocities (10.3.6).

If T_1 and T_2 are the gas temperatures in the two vessels, the preceding condition for a steady state can be rewritten in the form of an equation that expresses the *Knudsen effect*:

$$\frac{p_1}{p_2} = \sqrt{\frac{T_1}{T_2}}$$

where p_1 and p_2 are the pressures of the rarified gas in the two vessels.

11 Second Law Of Thermodynamics

11.1 Cycles. The Carnot Cycle

11.1.1

A *cycle* is a succession of thermodynamic processes (8.3.7) as a result of which the system returns to its initial state. In pV, pT and other thermodynamic diagrams, equilibrium cycles (8.3.7) are represented in the form of closed curves, because two identical states, the beginning and end of the cycle, correspond to the same point of the diagram. A thermodynamic system that accomplishes a cycle and exchanges energy with other bodies is called the *working medium*, or *substance*. This medium is usually a gas.

11.1.2

The arbitrary equilibrium cycle $C_1aC_2bC_1$ Figure 11.1, using an ideal gas, can be divided into the process of expansion of the gas from state C_1, to state C_2 (curve C_1aC_2) and

the process of compressing the gas from state C_2 to state C_1 (curve C_2bC_1). In expansion the gas does positive work W_1 measured by the area under the curve C_1aC_2 (the area of the figure $V_1C_1C_2V_2$ see Sect. (9.4.2). The gas is compressed by external forces that do positive work $W_2' = -W_2$ measured by the area under the curve C_1bC_2 (the area of the figure $V_1C_1bC_2V_2$). Since $W_1 > W_2'$ (Figure 11.1), the gas does the *positive* work $W = W_1 + W_2 = W_1W_2'$ in the cycle. This work is measured by the hatched area, bounded by the curve $C_1aC_2bC_1$ of the process.

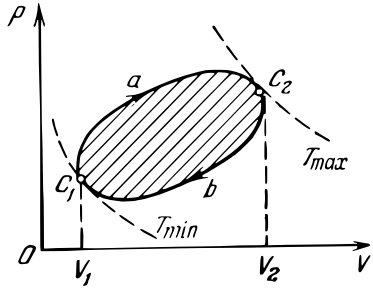


Figure 11.1.: An arbitrary equilibrium of a cycle.

11.1.3

A *direct cycle* is one in which the system does positive work $W = \oint p\,\mathrm{d}V > 0$.In a pV diagram a direct cycle is represented by a closed curve along which the working medium passes in the clockwise direction Figure 11.1. An example of a direct cycle is that accomplished by the working medium

in a heat engine. In such an engine the working medium (11.1.1) receives energy in the form of heat (9.2.1) from external sources and gives a part of it up in the form of work (9.2.1) (see Sect. (11.1.5)).

11.1.4

A *reverse cycle* is one in which the system does negative work $W = \oint p\,dV < 0$. In a pV diagram a reverse cycle is represented by a closed curve along which the working medium passes in the counterclockwise direction. An example of a re verse cycle is that accomplished by the working medium in a refrigerator. In such a device the working medium receives energy in the form of work and transmits energy in the form of heat from a cold body to a hotter one (see Sect. (11.1.5)).

11.1.5

Since the total change in the internal energy of a gas in a cycle is equal to zero (9.1.3), the first law of thermo dynamics (9.3.1) for such a process is of the form

$$Q = \Delta U + W = W$$

where Q is the total quantity of heat delivered to the gas in the cycle, and W is the work done by the gas in this cycle.

In a direct cycle (11.1.3) $Q > 0$ and $A > 0$,and the gas does work owing to the heat delivered to it. In a reverse cycle (11.1.4) the work done *on the gas* is $W' = -W$ (where $W > 0$) and a quantity of heat equivalent to this work is removed from the gas.

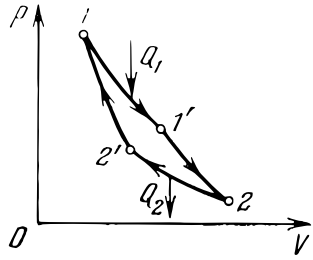


Figure 11.2.: The Carnot cycle.

11.1.6

The *Carnot cycle* is the one shown in Figure 11.2. The *direct Carnot cycle* consists of four consecutive processes: isothermal expansion $1-1'$ at the temperature T_1 (where $T_1' = T_2$) adiabatic expansion $1'-2$, isothermal compression $2-2'$ at the temperature T_2 (where $T_2' = T_2$), and adiabatic compression $2'-1$.

11.1.7

In practice a direct Carnot cycle could be carried out by means of a gas enclosed in a vessel with a movable piston. In the process $1-1'$ the gas is in thermal contact with a *heat source (heater)* at the constant temperature T_1[1]. From the heater the gas receives a certain quantity of heat Q_1 (where $Q_1 > 0$). It is assumed that this does not change the temperature of the heater. This is possible, strictly speaking,

[1]For instance, a large tank filled with water.

only if the heater has an infinite heat capacity. In the process $1' - 2$ the gas is thermally isolated and its expansion is adiabatic[2] (9.5.10). In the process $2 - 2'$ the gas is brought into thermal contact with a *cooler (heat sink)* having the constant temperature T_2 (where $T_2 < T_1$). Here the gas is isothermically compressed and gives off the quantity of heat Q_2 to the cooler (assuming that Q is the quantity of heat received by the gas from the cooler). The heat capacity of the cooler is assumed to be infinitely high. In the state $2'$ the gas is again thermally insulated and contracts adiabatically to its initial state 1.

11.1.8

The work done by the gas in an equilibrium (8.3.7) direct Carnot cycle is

$$W = Q = Q_1 + Q_2 = Q_1 - |Q_2|$$

It is evident from the equation that $W < Q_1$ i, i.e. the work done by the working medium (11.1.1) in the Carnot cycle is less than the energy received from the heater by the amount of energy given up to the cooler in the form of heat. This is valid for an arbitrary process: the work W done in the cycle is always less than the sum Q_{del} of all the quantities of heat delivered to the working medium from heaters.

The operation of heat engines is based on the direct Carnot cycle.

[2] For instance, the cylinder with the gas is covered with a thick layer of felt.

11.1.9

The *thermal efficiency* η is the ratio of the work W done by the working medium in a direct cycle to the sum Q_{del} of all quantities of heat delivered in this cycle to the working medium by heaters:

$$\eta = \frac{W}{Q_{\text{del}}}$$

The quantity η characterizes the economy of operation of a heat engine.

11.1.10

The thermal efficiency of a direct equilibrium Carnot cycle carried out with an ideal gas is

$$\eta_c = \frac{Q_1 + Q_2}{Q_1} = \frac{T_1 - T_2}{T_1} = 1 - \frac{T_2}{T_1}$$

The value of η_c depends only on the ratio of the temperatures of the cooler (T_2) and the heater (T_1).

11.1.11

The *reverse Carnot cycle* is shown in Figure 11.3. In isothermal compression, carried out in the process $1' - 1$, the quantity of heat Q_1 is removed from the gas at the temperature T_1, which remains constant. In the process of isothermal expansion $2' - 2$ at the temperature $T_2 < T_1$,the quantity of heat Q_2 is delivered to the gas. In the reverse Carnot cycle $Q_1 < 0$, $Q_2 > 0$ and the work W done by the gas in one

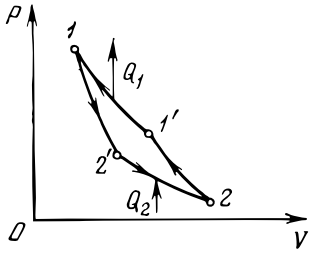


Figure 11.3.: The reverse Carnot cycle.

cycle is negative: $W = (Q_1 + Q_2) < 0$. This conclusion is valid for any reverse cycle. If the working medium carries out a reverse cycle, energy can be transferred in the form of heat (9.2.1) from a cold body to a hotter one at the expense of the corresponding work done by external forces. This principle is used in all refrigerating devices. The less the work $W' = W$ done by external forces to extract the quantity of heat Q_2 from a cold body, the higher the economical efficiency (coefficient of performance) of a refrigerator:

$$Q_2 = W_1 - Q_1 = W - \frac{W}{\eta} = -\frac{1-\eta}{\eta} W$$

where η is the thermal efficiency of the direct cycle between the same temperatures T_1 and T_2 (11.1.3) and (11.1.4).

11.2 Reversible and Irreversible Processes

11.2.1

A thermodynamic process is said to be reversible (*reversible process*) if the thermodynamic system (8.3.1), in carrying out the process first in the direct and then in the exactly re versed order, returns, together with all the external bodies with which it interacts, to its initial state. In other words, in a reversible process the thermodynamic system returns to its initial state without leaving any changes in the surrounding medium. A necessary and sufficient condition for the reversibility of a thermodynamic process is the equilibrium (8.3.3) of all the consecutive states in the process. Here all corresponding states of the thermodynamic system in the direct and reverse processes are absolutely identical.

Example 1. The mechanical motion of a body in a vacuum in the complete absence of friction is a reversible process. Assume, for instance, that a body under these conditions is thrown with a certain initial velocity into a gravitational field (6.2.1) at a definite angle to the horizon. After describing a parabolic path the body drops to the earth at a certain place. Now, if the body is thrown from this place at the same angle and the same initial velocity, but in the opposite direction, it describes the same path in the opposite direction and drops to the earth at the initial point. Any intermediate states of the moving body in the forward and reverse motions are entirely identical. The *reversibility of mechanical motions* indicates their symmetry with respect to the interchanging of the future by the past, i.e. with respect to the reversal of the sign of the time. The reversibility of mechanical motions follows from the differential equations of motion (2.4.4). When the sign of the

time is changed, this changes the sign of the velocity as well, but the acceleration, in the motion equations, retains its sign.

Example 2. Another reversible process is the undamped vibrations of a body suspended in a vacuum on a perfectly elastic spring (**??**). The body-spring system is a conservative one (3.1.7). Its mechanical vibrations do not change the energy of thermal random motion of its particles. Only changes in the configuration and velocity of the system lead to a change of its state. But these changes are completely repeated after each period T (**??**) of vibration. Hence, the conditions for the reversibility (11.2.1) of the process are complied with.

11.2.2

Any process that does not comply with the conditions for reversibility is said to be irreversible (*irreversible process*).

Example 1. The direct process of braking a moving body by means of friction forces is an irreversible process. If these forces are the only ones acting on the body, its velocity is reduced and it finally stops. The energy of mechanical motion of the body as a whole is reduced and is expended in increasing the energy of random motion of particles of the body and the surrounding medium. The internal energy (9.1.2) of the body and the medium is increased; they are heated by the action of the friction forces. The direct process dealt with here proceeds spontaneously; it is carried out without any processes taking place in surrounding bodies. For the reverse process to occur, returning the system to its initial state, it would be necessary

for the braked and stopped body to start moving again by cooling it and the surrounding medium. As is evident from experiments, the thermal random motion of particles of a body cannot spontaneously lead to the initiation of ordered motion of all the particles of the body as a whole. To accomplish such motion it is necessary to provide for an *additional compensating process* in which the body and surrounding medium are cooled to the initial temperature. In this process, the quantity of heat Q is given up to the cooler and the work $A' = Q$ is performed on the body.

Thus, the consecutive performance of such direct and reverse processes returns the body-medium system to its initial state, but the states of external bodies are changed. Hence, all processes accompanied by friction are irreversible ones.

Example 2. The direct process of heat exchange (9.2.4) between two bodies having different temperatures is a spontaneous one. The reverse process, heating one body by cooling another that initially has the same temperature as the first body, cannot proceed spontaneously. To accomplish this process, a refrigerating device (11.1.11) is required. The process of heat exchange at a finite temperature difference is an irreversible one.

11.3 Second Law of Thermodynamics

11.3.1

The reference in the preceding section to experiments that prove the irreversibility of the processes of heat exchange and motion with friction (11.2.2) was no chance one. The

first law of thermodynamics (9.3.1) cannot describe thermodynamic processes comprehensively. An essential limitation of the first law is that it cannot be used to predict in which direction a thermodynamic process will proceed. Any process that does not violate the law of conservation of energy is feasible from the point of view of the first law of thermodynamics. Among others, (he spontaneous transfer of energy in the form of heat from a cooler body to a hotter body is also possible. Also feasible is a process whose only result would be the obtaining of a certain quantity of heat from a body and the conversion of this heat into an equivalent amount of work. A periodic-action device, based on the first law of thermodynamics, which performs work by cooling a single source of heat (for instance, the internal energy of large bodies of water), is called a *perpetual motion machine of the second kind*.

11.3.2

The *second law of thermodynamics* is the experimentally established statement of the impossibility of building a perpetual motion machine of the second kind (11.3.1). The two most common statements of the second law, equivalent to each other, are:

(a) no process is possible whose sole result is the conversion of all the heat received from a certain body into an equivalent amount of work;
(b) no process is possible whose sole result is the transfer of energy in the form of heat from a cold body to a hotter one.

11.3.3

It follows from the second law of thermodynamics that work and heat are not equivalent forms of transferring energy. The conversion of orderly motion of a body as a whole into the random motion of its particles is an irreversible process, proceeding without compensating processes (11.2.2). The conversion of random motion of the particles of a body into ordered motion of the body as a whole requires the provision of some simultaneous compensating process.[3]

Example 1. In the isothermal expansion of an ideal gas work is done that is fully equivalent to the quantity of heat delivered (o the gas (9.5.9). The heat received by the gas is completely converted into an equivalent amount of work. But the gas does not return to its initial state. It expands and its specific volume is increased. The conversion of heat into work[3] is not the sole result of the isothermal expansion of an ideal gas.

Example 2. In a heat engine based on the direct Carnot cycle (11.1.8), work is done owing to the heat delivered from the heater. But a part of the quantity of heat obtained is given up to the cooler (11.1.7). Hence, the work done in a cycle is not equivalent to the whole quantity of heat delivered to the working medium. Example 3. In refrigerating devices operating on the reverse Carnot cycle (11.1.11), a certain quantity of heat is transferred from a cold body to a hotter one. But external forces do work to accomplish this and, consequently, a compensating process is being carried out.

[3]Such a process is sometimes, not quite correctly, called the “conversion of heat into work”.

11.3.4

The *Carnot theorem* states that the thermal efficiency (11.1.9) of the reversible Carnot cycle does not depend upon the composition of the working medium and is always expressed by the formula (11.1.10):

$$\eta_C = \frac{Q_1 + Q_2}{Q_1} = \frac{T_1 - T_2}{T_1}$$

The thermal efficiency $\eta_{C\,\mathrm{ir}}$ of the irreversible Carnot cycle is always less than the thermal efficiency $\eta_{C\,\mathrm{rev}}$ of the reversible Carnot cycle, carried out at the same temperatures T_1 and T_2: $\eta_{C\,\mathrm{ir}} < \eta_{C\,\mathrm{rev}}$.

The thermal efficiency of any reversible cycle cannot be higher than that η_C, of a reversible Carnot cycle being accomplished by means of a heater and cooler having the temperatures T_1 and T_2:

$$\eta_{\mathrm{rev}} \leqslant \eta_C = \frac{T_1 - T_2}{T_1}$$

11.3.5

The Carnot theorem (11.3.4) is used to establish the *thermodynamic temperature scale*. It follows from the first equation in the preceding subsection that $T_2/T_1 = -Q_2/Q_1$ or, since $Q_2 < 0$,

$$\frac{T_2}{T_1} = \frac{|Q_2|}{Q_1}$$

In order to compare the temperatures T_1 and T_2 of two bodies it is necessary to carry out a reversible Carnot cycle in which these bodies are the heater and cooler. Then,

according to the ratio of the numerical values of the quantities of heat delivered to and received from the bodies, the ratio of their temperatures is determined. The result of such a comparison of temperatures does not depend upon the chemical composition of the working medium (11.3.4). Therefore, the thermodynamic temperature scale is independent of the properties of the temperature-indicating substance (8.3.4) and, in this respect, has great generality. However, since all real thermodynamic processes are irreversible, the comparison of temperatures by the above-mentioned procedure is unfeasible; it has only a theoretical significance.

11.4 Entropy and Free Energy

11.4.1

The ratio of the quantity of heat Q, received by a body in an isothermal process, to the temperature T of the body giving up the heat is called the *reduced quantity of heat* $Q*$, i.e. $Q* = Q/T$. In heating a body $(Q > 0)$, $Q*$ is positive; in cooling $(Q < 0)$, $Q*$ is negative.

The reduced quantity of heat delivered to a body in an infinitely small portion of an arbitrary process, is equal to $\delta Q/T$ where T is the temperature of the corresponding heater.[4] The reduced quantity of heat ($Q*_{1-2}$for the arbitrary portion $1 \to 2$ of the process C_1C_2 is

$$Q*_{1-2} = \int_{C_1}^{C_2} \frac{\delta Q}{T}$$

[4]In the case of a reversible process, T coincides with the temperature of the body that is carrying out the process.

11.4.2

The reduced quantity of heat $Q*_{\text{rev}}$ delivered to a body in any reversible cycle equals zero:

$$Q*_{\text{rev}} = \oint_{\text{rev}} \frac{\delta Q}{T} = 0$$

Here T is the temperature at which an element of the quantity of heat δQ is delivered to the body. It follows from the equation in the preceding subsection that the function $\delta Q/T$ is a complete differential of a certain function S [in contrast to δQ, which is not a complete differential (9.4.3)]:

$$\mathrm{d}S = \left(\frac{\delta Q}{T}\right)_{\text{rev}}$$

The single-valued state function (9.1.3) S, whose complete differential is determined by the preceding equation, is called the *entropy* of a body. It is evident from this equation that $\mathrm{d}S$ and δQ have the same sign. Consequently, from the way in which the entropy varies it is possible to determine in which direction heat exchange (9.2.4) takes place. In heating a body $(\delta Q > 0)$ its entropy increases $(\mathrm{d}S > 0)$. If a body is cooled $(\delta Q < 0)$, its entropy decreases $(\mathrm{d}S < 0)$.

Example. The complete differential of the entropy of an ideal gas is expressed by the equation

$$\mathrm{d}S = \left(\frac{\delta Q}{T}\right)_{\text{rev}} = \frac{M}{\mu} C_{V\mu} \frac{\mathrm{d}T}{T} + \frac{M}{\mu} R \frac{\mathrm{d}V}{V}$$

where M is the mass of the gas, μ, is its molar mass (8.4.3), $C_{V\mu}$ is its molar heat capacity at constant volume (9.5.4), R

is the universal gas constant (8.4.4), T is its temperature, and V is its volume. This result is obtained on the basis of the first law of thermodynamics (9.3.1) for δQ, with the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4) taken into account.

The change $\Delta S_{1\to 2}$ in the entropy of an ideal gas going over from state 1 to state 2 does not depend upon the kind of pro cess $1 \to 2$ used in this transition:

$$\Delta S_{1\to 2} = S_2 - S_1 = \frac{M}{\mu}\left(C_{V\mu}\ln\frac{T_2}{T_1} + R\ln\frac{V_2}{V_1}\right)$$

11.4.3

Certain of the most important properties of the entropy of closed systems (2.2.4) are:

(a) The entropy of a closed system in a reversible Carnot cycle (11.1.6) does not change:

$$\Delta S_{\text{rev}} = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad S = \text{const}.$$

(b) The entropy of a closed system increases in an irreversible Carnot cycle:

$$\Delta S_{\text{ir}} > 0$$

(c) In any processes that occur in a closed system its entropy never decreases:

$$\Delta S_{\text{rev}} \geqslant 0$$

In an element of change in the state of a closed system, the entropy does not decrease: $\Delta S_{\text{rev}} \geqslant 0$.

The equality sign pertains to reversible processes and the greater-than sign to irreversible ones. Item (c) is one of the statements of the second law of thermodynamics.

11.4.4

The following relation is valid for an arbitrary process occurring in a thermodynamic system (8.3.1):

$$\delta Q \leqslant T\mathrm{d}S$$

where T is the temperature of the body that transfers the energy δQ to the thermodynamic system in the process of an infinitely small change in the state of the system. Making use of an equation of the first law of thermodynamics (9.3.1) for δQ, the preceding inequality can be rewritten in the form

$$T\mathrm{d}\,S \geqslant \mathrm{d}U + \delta W$$

combining the first and second laws.

11.4.5

For a reversible process

$$\delta W = -(\mathrm{d}U - T\mathrm{d}\,S)$$

or

$$\delta W = -\,\mathrm{d}(U - TS) - S\,\mathrm{d}T = -\mathrm{d}F - S\,\mathrm{d}T$$

where $F = U - TS$ is called the *free energy*. The free, or available, energy is the difference of two state functions (8.3.8) and is therefore also a state function of the thermodynamic system.

If the system carries out a reversible isothermal process, $\mathrm{d}T = 0$ and $\delta W_{\text{isot}} = -\mathrm{d}F$. When the system passes from state 1 to state 2 in a reversible isothermal process,

$$W_{\text{isot}} = F_1 - F_2$$

The decrease in free energy is the measure of the work done by a system (or body) in a reversible isothermal process.

11.4.6

It follows from the equation $U = F + TS$ that the internal energy of a body (or system) is equal to the sum of the free energy F and the *bound energy* TS. The bound, or unavailable, energy is the part of the internal energy of a body (or system) that cannot be transferred in the form of work in an isothermal process. In this sense, this part of the internal energy is "depreciated". The more the entropy of the body (or system), the more the bound energy. Therefore, the entropy of a body (or system) serves as a measure of the "depreciation" of its energy.

11.5 Statistical Interpretation of the Second Law of Thermodynamics

11.5.1

The statement of the second law of thermodynamics on the impossibility of a decrease in the entropy in an isolated system (11.4.3) can be interpreted statistically, on the basis of the molecular-kinetic theory of the structure of matter, by means of Boltzmanns relation:

$$S = k \ln P + \text{const.}$$

where S is the entropy of the system, k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5), and P is the thermodynamic probability of the state.

11.5.2

The *thermodynamic probability* P of a state of a body (or system) is equal to the number of all possible kinds of coordinate and velocity distributions of its particles corresponding to the given thermodynamic state (8.3.3). By definition, P is a whole number not less than unity $(P \geqslant 1)$.The Boltzmann relation (11.5.1) leads to the following statistical interpretation of the second law of thermodynamics: the thermodynamic prob ability of a state of a closed system cannot decrease, regardless of the processes that occur in it. In any process that proceeds in a closed system and brings it from state 1 to state 2, the change ΔP in the thermodynamic probability is either positive or zero: $\Delta P = P_2 - P_1 \geqslant 0$.

In a reversible process $\Delta P = 0$, i.e. the thermodynamic probability P is constant. If the process is irreversible, $\Delta P > 0$ and P increases. This means that an irreversible process transfers the system from a less probable state to a more probable one and, in the limit, to an equilibrium state (8.3.3).

11.5.3

Being a statistical law, the second law of thermodynamics describes the laws of random motion of a great number of particles making up a closed system. In systems that consist of a relatively small number of particles, fluctuations (11.6.1) are observed. They are deviations from the second law of thermodynamics.

11.5.4

The second law of thermodynamics, established for closed systems on the earth, cannot be applied to the whole infinite universe. Such an application leads to the conclusion that the temperatures of all bodies in the universe equalize. This is incorrect from both the philosophical and physical points of view. According to this erroneous conclusion, all forms of motion, except random thermal motion, will cease and the universe will then reach a state of so-called "heat death". Actually, owing to the infinity of the universe, fluctuations (11.6.1) are inevitable in certain of its parts. These violate thermal equilibrium. The duration and magnitude of the fluctuations can be extremely great. It has been proven that there can be no equilibrium state, corresponding to "heat death", for the infinite universe.

11.6 Fluctuations

11.6.1

Substantial deviations of certain physical quantities, characterizing a system, from their average values may occur in systems consisting of a comparatively small number of particles. Such deviations are called *fluctuations* of physical quantities. For instance, in highly rarified gases the density at various places in the volume of the gas may differ from the aver age density corresponding to the equilibrium state for definite p and T values. Chance deviations of the temperature T, pressure p and other physical quantities may occur in exactly the same way.

11.6.2

If M is the true value of a physical quantity, and $\langle M \rangle$ is its average value, then the quantity ΔM, where $\Delta M = M - \langle M \rangle$, and its average value $\langle \Delta M \rangle = \langle M - \langle M \rangle \rangle$ cannot be measures of the fluctuation of the quantity M. The quantity ΔM is not constant with time, and the quantity

$$\langle \Delta M \rangle = \langle M \rangle \langle M \rangle = 0^{5}$$

This last equation follows from the fact that the deviation of the quantity M from $\langle M \rangle$ occurs in both directions, towards values larger than the average and towards values smaller than the average, with equal frequency.

11.6.3

A measure of the fluctuations of the physical quantity M is the mean square of the difference ΔM. It is called the *mean square fluctuation*:

$$\left\langle \Delta(M^2) \right\rangle = \left\langle (M - \Delta M)^2 \right\rangle = \left\langle M^2 \right\rangle - (\langle M \rangle)^{2}{}^{6}$$

The mean square fluctuation is essentially positive or zero: $(\langle (\Delta M)^2 \rangle \geqslant 0$.

The *absolute fluctuation* is the quantity $\sqrt{\langle (\Delta M)^2 \rangle}$, which also characterizes the deviation of M from $\langle M \rangle$. A small

[5] Used here is the statement that the mean value $\langle M \rangle$ of a constant quantity coincides with the quantity.

[6] This last equation, following from the rules of algebraic operations with average values, underlines the fact that the average value $\langle M^2 \rangle$ of the square of a quantity should not be confused with the square of the average value $(\langle M \rangle)^2$.

absolute fluctuation signifies that large deviations of M from $\langle M \rangle$ occur very rarely.

The *relative fluctuation* δ_M is the ratio of the absolute fluctuation to the average value $\langle M \rangle$ of a physical quantity:

$$\delta_M = \frac{\sqrt{\langle (\Delta M)^2 \rangle}}{\langle M \rangle}$$

The relative fluctuations in the concentration of particles (or density) of a gas, and in its pressure and temperature, decrease with an increase in the number N of gas molecules contained in the vessel:

$$\delta_\rho = \frac{\sqrt{\langle (\Delta \rho)^2 \rangle}}{\langle \rho \rangle} \propto \frac{1}{\sqrt{N}}$$

$$\delta_p = \frac{\sqrt{\langle (\Delta p)^2 \rangle}}{\langle p \rangle} \propto \frac{1}{\sqrt{N}}$$

$$\delta_T = \frac{\sqrt{\langle (\Delta T)^2 \rangle}}{\langle T \rangle} \propto \frac{1}{\sqrt{N}}$$

When $N = N_A$ (Avogadros number, see Appendix II), δ_ρ, δ_p and δ_T have values of the order of 10^{-14}.

If a system consists of N independent particles, the relative fluctuation of an additive state function (9.1.3) of the system is inversely proportional to the square root of N:

$$\delta_M \propto \frac{1}{\sqrt{N}}$$

11.6.4

The following are examples of fluctuations of physical quantities.

Example 1. In measuring the temperature by means of a gas thermometer filled with an ideal gas (8.4.1), the thermometer readings are not constant owing to fluctuations of temperature. The variations in temperature measured by the thermometer cannot be less than the absolute fluctuation of the thermometer indication, equal to $\sqrt{\langle\,(\Delta T)^2\,\rangle}$, i.e. $\Delta t \geqslant \sqrt{\langle\,(\Delta T)^2\,\rangle}$. The absolute fluctuation can be determined by the formula in (11.6.3):

$$\sqrt{\langle\,(\Delta T)^2\,\rangle} \propto \frac{\langle\,T\,\rangle}{\sqrt{N}}$$

Thus

$$\Delta t \geqslant \sqrt{\langle\,(\Delta T)^2\,\rangle} \propto \frac{\langle\,T\,\rangle}{\sqrt{N}}$$

If the gas thermometer contains 10^{-8} mole of gas, i.e. $N = 6.02 \times 10^{15}$, then the minimum changes in temperature Δt that can he detected by the instrument, are of the order of magnitude $\Delta t \approx 10^{-10}\,\langle\,T\,\rangle$. This value indicates the limit of sensitivity of the gas thermometer.

Real variations in temperature, commonly encountered in experiments, are incommensurably larger than Δt.

Example 2. Electrical fluctuations in circuits restrict the limits of sensitivity of radio receiving equipment. Among others, fluctuations in the number of electrons emitted by the incandescent cathode lead to fluctuations in the current supplied to the vacuum tube. This is called *shot*,

or *Schottky, noise*. A measure of the shot noise is the mean square fluctuation of the current:

$$\left\langle (\Delta I)^2 \right\rangle \approx \frac{eI_0}{t}$$

where e is the charge of the electron, and I_0 is the average current over the time t during which it is measured. Here $t \gg \tau$, where τ is the time of flight of the electron in the tube.

11.7 Brownian Movement

11.7.1

The *Brownian movement* is the continuous haphazard zigzag motion of small particles suspended in a gas or liquid and can be observed in a microscope. The Brownian movement is caused by fluctuations (11.6.1) in the pressure exerted by the molecules of gas or liquid on the surfaces of the minute suspend ed particles. As a result of pressure fluctuations the Brownian particles are subject on all sides to the action of unbalanced forces which cause their complex motions that are observed.

11.7.2

Under constant external conditions, no changes are observed in the motions of the Brownian particles and they continue indefinitely. This is testimony to the continuous nature of random thermal motion of the molecules to which the displacements of the Brownian particles are due. The

velocity v and energy E of motion of these particles depend upon their size, but not on their chemical composition. The values of v and E increase with the temperature and with a reduction in the viscosity of the gas or liquid.

11.7.3

It has been experimentally established that Brownian particles can move upwards, rising in the fluid. This occurs when the molecules of the gas (or liquid) transmit an uncompensated momentum directed upwards to the particle. This increases the potential energy of the particle at the expense of the kinetic energy of the molecules surrounding it, thereby leading to localized cooling of the gas or liquid. This means that the mechanical energy of the Brownian particle has increased by cooling a single source of heat, the liquid or gas, thereby contradicting the second law of thermodynamics (11.3.2). In this manner, Brownian movement is proof of the limited application of the second law of thermodynamics and of its statistical nature (11.5.1).

11.7.4

The motions of Brownian particles are completely chaotic. Therefore, the average displacement $\langle x \rangle$ of a particle along an arbitrary direction equals zero. Then mean square displacement $\langle x^2 \rangle$ is proportional to the time t of observation of the particle and is expressed by *Einstein's equation*:

$$\left\langle x^2 \right\rangle = 2\,Dt$$

where D is the diffusion coefficient of the Brownian particles. For spherical particles of radius r

$$D = \frac{RT}{6\pi\eta r N_A}$$

Here T is the absolute temperature, R is the universal gas constant (8.4.4), η is the coefficient of viscosity of the liquid or gas (10.8.4), and N_A is Avogadros number (Appendix II).

11.8 Third Law of Thermodynamics

11.8.1

As a single-valued state function of a system entropy is introduced by means of a differential relation (11.4.2). Hence, the entropy can be determined up to an arbitrary constant, which cannot be found from the first and second laws of thermo dynamics. It is consequently impossible to determine the absolute value of the entropy.

11.8.2

An experimental investigation of the properties of substances at ultra-low temperatures led to the establishment of the *third law of thermodynamics*. This law, also called the *Nernst heat theorem*, states that the change in entropy equals zero in any isothermal process conducted at absolute zero:

$$\Delta S_{T\to 0} = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad S = S_0 = \text{const}$$

regardless of the changes in any other state variables (for example, volume, pressure, and intensity of the external

force field). The third law does not enable the absolute value of the entropy to be determined. But the fact that the entropy is constant as $T \to 0$ permits this constant value to be employed as the reference point for entropy values. This enables the change in entropy to be determined in processes being investigated.

11.8.3

Planck extended Nernsts heat theorem by stating that the entropy of a system equals zero at absolute zero temperature. If $E_0, E_1, \ldots, E_n$ is a sequence of energy levels (**??**) of a system, then at absolute zero temperature the system in equilibrium is in a quite definite lowest state with energy exactly equal to E_0. Here the thermodynamic probability P of the state (11.5.2) is equal to unity $(P = 1)$ and, according to Boltzmanns relation (11.5.1),

$$S_0 = k \ln P = 0$$

11.8.4

The heat capacity $C_{V\mu}$ at constant volume (9.5.4) for all bodies vanishes at $T = 0\,\mathrm{K}$. As a matter of fact, if the temperature of a system is sufficiently low, so that the average kinetic energy kT of a particle (10.6.4) is substantially less than the difference ΔE between the lowest and first energy levels $(\Delta E > kT)$, then the thermal excitation of the system is insufficient to transfer it from the state with the energy E_0 to one with the energy E_1 Therefore, at ultra-low temperatures the system should be in a state having the least energy E_0. The internal energy U_0 of the system (9.1.2) is

equal to E_0, i.e. $U_0 = E_0$. Hence the heat capacity of the system at constant volume

$$C_{V\mu} = \left(\frac{\mathrm{d}U}{\mathrm{d}T}\right)_V = \left(\frac{\mathrm{d}E_0}{\mathrm{d}T}\right)_V = 0 \quad \text{as} \quad T \to 0$$

The coefficient of cubic expansion (**??**) also vanishes at absolute zero temperature.

It follows from the third law that a process in which a body could be cooled to absolute zero temperature is impossible (*principle of the unattainability of absolute zero temperature*, sometimes called the *Nernst principle*).

12 Real Gases And Vapours

12.1 Forces of Intermolecular Interaction

12.1.1

The properties of gases that are not highly rarified differ from those of ideal gases, which comply with the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4). Experiments indicate that the specific heat capacities (9.5.2), coefficients of viscosity (10.8.4) and other quantities have different values for real gases than for ideal gases.

12.1.2

A *real gas* is one in which forces of molecular interaction exist between the molecules.

A *vapour* is a real gas in states close to that in which it condenses.

12.1.3

The forces of intermolecular interaction decrease rapidly with an increase in the distances between the molecules (*short-range forces*). At intermolecular distances exceeding 10^{-9} m, these forces can be neglected. Forces of interaction between molecules can be subdivided into *forces of attraction* and *forces of repulsion*. Both types act simultaneously. Otherwise it would be impossible to deter mine the volume of liquids or solids: their constituent particles would either fly apart in all directions or would stick together, forming the minimum possible volume.

12.1.4

The forces of mutual attraction and repulsion depend differently on the distance r between the molecules. At distances commensurable with the linear dimensions of atoms and small inorganic molecules (10^{-10} m),repulsive forces $\mathbf{F}_1$ predominate; at distances r of the order of 10^{-9} m forces of mutual attraction $\mathbf{F}_1$ prevail. If $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector to the point where molecule A is located from a point where molecule B is located and acts on molecule A with the forces $\mathbf{F}_1$ and $\mathbf{F}_2$, then

$$\mathbf{F}_1 = F_{1r}\frac{\mathbf{r}}{r} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{F}_2 = F_{2r}\frac{\mathbf{r}}{r}$$

Projections F_{1r} and F_{2r} of forces $\mathbf{F}_1$ and $\mathbf{F}_3$ on the direction of $\mathbf{r}$ depend upon r in the following way

$$F_{1r} = \frac{b}{r^3} \quad \text{and} \quad F_{2r} = -\frac{a}{r^7}$$

where a and b are factors that depend on the structure of the molecules and the type of intermolecular interaction. The curves in Figure 12.1 show the dependence of F_{1r} and F_{2r} on r. Forces of repulsion are conventionally accepted as positive and at tractive forces as negative (Figure 12.1).

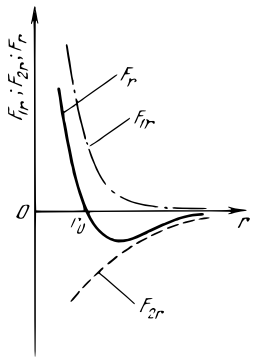


Figure 12.1.: Forces of attraction and repulsion for two molecules.

The resultant force is

$$\mathbf{F} = \mathbf{F}_1 + \mathbf{F}_2 = F_r \frac{\mathbf{r}}{r}$$

and $F_r = F_{1r} + F_{2r}$. The dependence of F_r on r is also shown in Figure 12.1.

12.1.5

At $r = r_0$, forces $\mathbf{F}_1$ and $\mathbf{F}_2$ counterbalance each other and $\mathbf{F} = 0$. At $r > r_0$ force $\mathbf{F}_2 > \mathbf{F}_1$ at $r < r_0$ force $\mathbf{F}_2 < \mathbf{F}_1$.

Thus r_0 is the equilibrium distance between the molecules and where they would be with respect to each other if there were no thermal motion.

12.1.6

The element of work δW done by the resultant force $\mathbf{F}$, when the distance between the molecules is increased by the amount $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}$, is equal to the decrease in the mutual potential energy E_p of the two molecules (3.3.1):

$$\delta W = (\mathbf{F},\, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{r}) = F_r\, \mathrm{d}r = \mathrm{d}E_p$$

Integrating with respect to r from r to ∞:

$$\int_{E_p}^{E_{p\infty}} \mathrm{d}E_p = -\int_r^{\infty} F_r\, \mathrm{d}r \quad \text{and} \quad E_p - E_{p\infty} = \int_r^{\infty} F_r\, \mathrm{d}r$$

At $r = \infty$ the molecules do not interact and $E_p - E_{p\infty} = 0$. Hence,

$$E_p = \int_r^{\infty} F_r\, \mathrm{d}r$$

This integral can be calculated graphically from the known dependence of F_r on r (Figure 12.1). It is proportional to the area bounded by the curve $F_r = F_r\,(r)$, the r axis and the value of r (where $r = \text{const}$) for which E_p is being calculated. At $r > r_0$, the energy $E_p < 0$ because $F_r < 0$; at $r = r_0$, the energy E_p reaches its minimum value: $E_p = E_{\min}$. This follows from the equation

$$\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}E_p}{\mathrm{d}r}\right)_{r=r_0} = F_r(r_0) = 0.$$

A system consisting of the interacting molecules, in a state of stable equilibrium ($r = r_0$),possesses minimum potential energy. At $r < r_0$, the energy E_p begins to increase, becomes positive and then rises drastically due to the rapid increase in the repulsive forces as r drops (Figure 12.2).

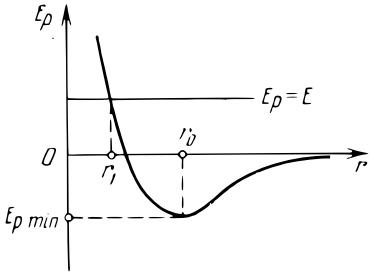


Figure 12.2.: Energy E_p and distance.

12.1.7

The value $E = E_{p\min}$, the minimum potential energy of interaction of molecules, is the criterion for various states of aggregation of matter.

If $|E|_{p\min} \ll kT$, the substance is in a gaseous state. When $|E|_{p\min} \gg kT$, it is in the solid state. The condition $|E|_{p\min} \approx kT$ corresponds to the liquid state. Here kT is twice the average energy per degree of freedom of thermal motion of the molecules (10.6.4).

12.1.8

Van der Waals forces are weak[1] forces of attraction that act between molecules at distances of the order of 10^{-9} m (12.1.4). They are the reason for the correction of the internal pressure in the Van der Waals equation of state for a real gas (12.2.4). Distinction is made between three types of Van der Waals forces of attraction.

(a) Orientational forces of attraction $\mathbf{F}_{or}$ are due to the fact that asymmetric polar molecules (18.1.4) have constant dipole moments p_e (18.1.4). The result of interaction of these dipole moments is the attraction force $\mathbf{F}_{or}$. This force is opposed by the thermal motion of the molecules. Calculations indicate that

$$\mathbf{F}_{or} \propto -\frac{p_e^4}{kT}\frac{1}{r^7}$$

where r is the distance between the molecules, k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5), and T is the absolute temperature.

(b) *Induction forces* of attraction are exerted when a neutral molecule of a real gas is in an electric field set up by another molecule, both molecules having high polarizability (18.1.3). If the molecules are sufficiently close together, the action of the electric field of the second molecule develops an induced dipole moment $\mathbf{p}_e = \epsilon_0 \beta \mathbf{E}$ (18.1.4) in the first molecule, where β is the polarizability of the molecule (18.1.3), and $\mathbf{E}$ is

[1] Weak in the sense of their small magnitude compared to the forces of attraction that provide for the formation of stable molecules (12.1.9).

the strength of the electric field set up by the second molecule. To constant factors

$$\mathbf{F}_{in} \propto -\beta p_e^2 \frac{1}{r^7}$$

(c) The vibration of electrons in one molecule (or atom) can excite vibration in another molecule (or atom). The vibrations of the electrons in the two molecules are in phase with each other, leading to attraction between the molecules (or atoms). The resulting resonance forces of attraction are called *dispersion forces*. They play the main role in the interaction of non polar molecules (18.1.3). The force of dispersion attraction is

$$\mathbf{F}_d \propto -\beta \frac{e^4 h \nu_0}{k^2} \frac{1}{r^7}$$

where e is the charge of the electron, h is Plancks constant, $\nu_0 = (1/2\pi)\sqrt{k/m}$ is the frequency of vibration of the atoms (**??**), k is the coefficient of the quasi-elastic force (**??**), and m is the mass of the atom.

Dispersion forces owe their name to the analogy between the origin of these forces and dispersion phenomena occurring when electromagnetic waves propagate through matter (**??**).

12.1.9

The attraction force $\mathbf{F}_r$ between two molecules, shown in Figure 12.1, is the resultant of all the kinds of attraction enumerated in (12.1.8). The potential energy of Van der Waals attraction amounts to (0.4 to 4) $\times 10^3$ J/mol.

In addition to the electromagnetic interaction, a special kind of quantum interaction exists between molecules at distances $r < 10^{-10}$ m. This interaction leads either to the development of repulsive forces between the molecules (12.1.4), or to strong attraction of adjacent atoms (or groups of atoms) and the formation between them of ionic and covalent chemical bonds ((**??**) and (**??**)). The result of such bonds is the formation of stable molecules. The potential energy of chemical bonds exceeds the energy of Van der Waals attraction and ranges from (0.4 to 4) $\times 10^4$ J/mol.

12.1.10

Being internal forces (2.2.4), the forces of interaction in a system of two molecules cannot change the total energy E of the system, which is the sum of the kinetic energy E_k of the molecules and their mutual potential energy E_p. Hence

$$\mathrm{d}E = \mathrm{d}E_k + \mathrm{d}E_p = 0 \quad \text{or} \quad \mathrm{d}E_k = \mathrm{d}E_p = F_r \mathrm{d}r$$

Use is made here of the equation in (12.1.6). When the molecules are brought closer together $(\mathrm{d}r < 0)$, to the distance r_0 (Figure 12.1), the potential energy E_p decreases and the kinetic energy E_k accordingly increases. This occurs at the expense of the positive work done by the resultant force of mutual attraction between the molecules (12.1.4) ($F_r < 0$ when $r > r_0$). As the molecules are brought still closer, they do work in overcoming the resultant force of mutual repulsion ($F_r > 0$ when $r < r_0$). This reduces the kinetic energy of the molecules. At the instant they are closest together ($r = r_1$ in Figure 12.2) all of the kinetic energy of the molecules has been completely expended in

doing work to overcome the repulsive forces: $E_k = 0$ and the total energy E is equal to the potential energy E_p, i.e. $E = E_p$ (Figure 12.2).

If all the state variables of real gases are maintained constant with the exception of the temperature, the distance r_1 decreases when the gas is heated. This decrease is very small, however, even at high temperatures. This is due to the extremely steep increase in the repulsive forces F_1 as r is decreased (Figure 12.1). Thus the distance r_1 is the effective diameter d of the molecule (8.4.1). The finite dimensions of molecules of real gases are explained by the action of repulsive forces between the molecules.

12.2 Van der Waals Equation of State

12.2.1

A *Van der Waals gas* is a model of a real gas in which the molecules are dealt with as perfectly rigid spheres of diameter d (12.1.10), with forces of mutual attraction acting between them. The finite size of the spheres signifies that the repulsive forces between the molecules of a real gas are also taken into account.

12.2.2

The molecules of a real gas, each having a volume of $\tilde{v} = \pi d^3/6$, do not move around as freely in a vessel as the "point" molecules of an ideal gas. Therefore, in the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4) $pV = RT$, the total volume V of a vessel holding one mole of the gas should be replaced

by the "free" volume

$$V'_\mu = V_\mu - b$$

where b is Van der Waalss correction for the intrinsic volume of the molecules. Correction b is equal to four times the volume of all the molecules contained in one mole of the gas:

$$b = 4N_A\tilde{v}$$

where N_A is Avogadros number (Appendix II), and $\tilde{v}$ is the volume of a single molecule.

12.2.3

The forces of mutual attraction between the molecules are taken into account for a Van der Waals gas by introducing a correction for the pressure in the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4). Owing to the short-range nature of the attraction forces (12.1.3), each molecule interacts only with particles that are located at distances $r \leqslant R_m$, where R_m is the *range of molecular action*, with a magnitude of the order of 10^{-9} m. A sphere of radius R_m is called the *sphere of molecular action*.

The forces of attraction of a molecule within the bulk of the gas to other molecules are mutually counterbalanced and have no effect on the motion of the given molecule. If the molecule is within a layer of gas that borders on a wall of the vessel, it is subject to an uncompensated force of attraction directed inward, into the bulk of the gas. Consequently, in its collision with a wall, such a molecule imparts less momentum to the wall (10.2.1), and the pressure p exerted by a real gas on the walls is reduced in comparison

to the pressure p of an ideal gas having the same density at the same temperature,

$$p = p_{id} - p^* \quad \text{or}$$
$$p_{id} = p + p^*$$

where $p*$ is the Van der Waals correction due to the forces of mutual attraction and is called the *internal pressure*. The internal pressure p^* is inversely proportional to the square of the volume of the vessel occupied by one mole of the gas:

$$p^* = \frac{a}{V_\mu^2}$$

where a is the Van der Waals coefficient and depends upon the chemical nature of the gas.

12.2.4

The Van der Waals equation describes the state of a real gas and differs from the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation (8.4.4) in that the corrections b and $p*$ have been introduced ((12.2.2) and (12.2.3)). For a single mole of gas it is of the form

$$\left(p + \frac{a}{V_\mu^2}\right)(V_\mu - b) = RT$$

12.2.5

The Van der Waals equation for an arbitrary mass of real gas, having the molar mass p (8.4.3), is

$$\left(p + \frac{M^2}{\mu^2}\frac{a}{V^2}\right)\left(V - \frac{M}{\mu}b\right) = \frac{M}{\mu}RT$$

This equation is valid for gases that are not too highly compressed. In highly rarefied gases $V_\mu \gg B$, $p^* \ll p$ and the Van der Waals equation does not differ from the Mendeleev-Clapeyron equation.

12.3 Isothermals of Real Gases. Phase Transitions

12.3.1

The curve representing the dependence of the molar volume of a gas on the pressure at constant temperature is called the *isothermal*, or *isotherm*, of a real gas. Isothermals of carbon dioxide gas are shown in Figure 12.3. At temperatures T below $T_C = 340\,\mathrm{K}$, all the isothermals have horizontal steps along which, in addition to the constant temperature, the pressure is also constant while the molar volume varies. The difference $V_D V_B$ of the molar volumes over the horizontal steps decreases as the temperature is raised Figure **??**. At $T = T_c$ this difference vanishes. The temperature $T = T_c$, corresponding to the condition $V_D V_B = 0$, is called the *critical temperature*. The isothermal of a real gas at $T = T_c$ is called the critical isothermal. On this isothermal points D and B merge into point C, which

is called the *critical point*. The state variables (8.3.2) of the gas at the critical point are the critical variables $V_{\mu c}$, p_c and T_c.

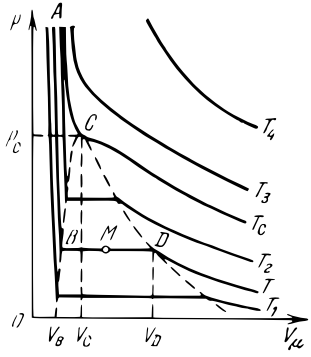


Figure 12.3.: Isothermals of carbon dioxide gas.

Critical point C is an inflection point on the critical isothermal. Consequently, the tangent to the isothermal at this point is parallel to the OV_μ axis.

12.3.2

Any subcritical isothermal $(T < T_c)$ is a curve representing the continuous transition of the substance from the gaseous to the liquid state. It consists of three portions: TD, DB and BA, each of which represents different states of the substance. Over the portion TD the substance is in the gaseous state, portion DB corresponds to the transition of

the substance from the gaseous to the liquid state. Over the portion BA of the isothermal, the substance is a liquid. This portion is almost vertical owing to the low compressibility of liquids. Points D and B of the horizontal portion of the isothermal correspond to the beginning and end of condensation in isothermal compression of a real gas. On the contrary, in isothermal expansion of the liquid, points B and D are the beginning and end of the boiling process. Point B corresponds to the state of a *boiling liquid*, point D to *dry saturated vapour*. The mixture of the boiling liquid and dry saturated vapour that exists at any point M of portion BD is called wet vapour (Figure 12.3).

12.3.3

In thermodynamics a *phase* is a totality of all the parts of a system, having the same chemical composition and being in the same state. Wet vapour, for instance, is a two-phase system consisting of boiling liquid and dry saturated vapour.

Shown in Figure 12.4 are two boundary curves BC and DC which connect points B and D (Figure 12.3) at various temperatures. Curves BC and DC converge at critical point C. Boiling curve BC separates the single-phase liquid region I from the two- phase wet vapour region II. The curve BC is one representing the beginning of the *first-kind phase* transition of the substance from the liquid to the gaseous state. The boundary curve DC separates the two-phase region II from the single-phase region III in which the substance is in the gaseous state.

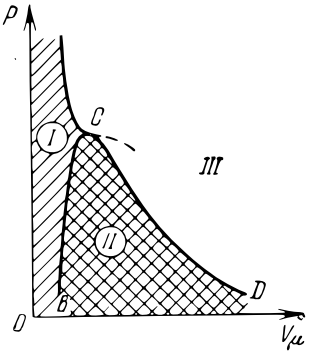


Figure 12.4.: Phases.

12.3.4

The two-phase region II cannot exist at pressures above the critical one p_c (12.3.1) at which the substance can be in either of two states, gaseous or liquid. No pressure can convert gas at a temperature above the critical T_c into the liquid state by isothermal compression. The critical temperatures of many gases are very low: $T_c \approx 5\,\mathrm{K}$ for helium and 33 K for hydrogen. This makes the liquefaction of such gases quite difficult.

12.3.5

Besides the difference in the molar volumes of boiling liquid and dry saturated vapour, the specific heat of vaporizalion (13.6.4) also vanishes when a substance is in the

critical state, as does the surface tension (13.4.5). The difference between the liquid and gaseous states of a substance completely disappears when it is in the critical state.

12.3.6

The Van der Waals equation (12.2.4) is a cubic equation with respect to the molar volume V, having factors that depend upon the pressure, temperature and the chemical nature of the gas. This equation has either one or three real roots, in accordance with the numerical values of p and T. Shown in Figure 12.5 are the isothermals of a real gas that complies with the Van der Waals equation. The isothermals correspond to the different temperatures $T_1 < T_2 < T_3 < T_c < T_5 < T_6$. All the subcritical isothermals have a hatched portion where each pressure corresponds to three different states, which are represented by the three points, B , E and G, of the isothermal.

The wave-shaped portion $BDEFG$ of the isothermal in Figure **??** more accurately represents the transition of the substance from (lie gaseous to the liquid state than the horizontal portions of experimentally plotted isothermals (dash straight lines BG). The portion BD of the isothermal corresponds to a *superheated liquid*, which can be obtained if the beginning of boiling is delayed at point B. The portion GF of the isothermal represents the state of *supersaturated vapour*, occurring upon slow isothermal compression in the absence of condensation centres. If such centres (dust specks or ions) are introduced into the supersaturated vapour, extremely rapid condensation of the vapour takes place. Over the portion DEF, the molar volume increases

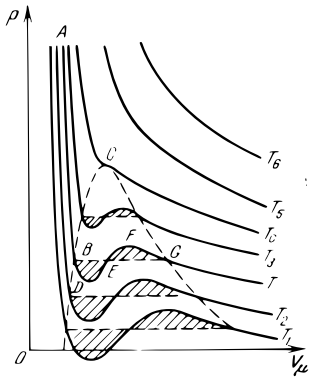


Figure 12.5.: Isothermals of a real gas that compling with the Van der Waals equation.

(decreases) as the pressure is increased (decreased). Such states of matter are impossible. The horizontal steps BG cut the portions $BDEFG$ of the isothermals in such manner that the hatched areas $BDEB$ and $EFGE$ in Figure **??** are equal to each other (*Maxwell's equal area rule*).

12.3.7

The values of the critical variables p_c, $V_{\mu c}$ and T_c (12.3.1) can be expressed in terms of the coefficients a and b in the Van der Waals equation (12.2.4) and the universal gas constant R (8.4.4):

$$p_c = \frac{1}{27}\frac{a}{b^2}, \quad V_{\mu c} = 3b, \quad \text{and} \quad T_c = \frac{8}{27}\frac{a}{bR}$$

12.4 Superfluidity Of Helium

12.4.1

Helium is a kind of substance which, after going over from the gaseous to the liquid state at standard atmospheric pressure and a temperature of 4.22 K, remains in the liquid state no matter how close to absolute zero (11.8.4) it is cooled.

12.4.2

At the temperature 2.19 K a second-order phase transition occurs: liquid helium I, existing at temperatures $T > 2.19\,\mathrm{K}$, undergoes the transition to liquid helium II, which exists at $T < 2.19\,\mathrm{K}$.

A *second-order phase transition* is a transformation of matter that is not associated with the evolution or absorption of heat as in a first-order transition. In second-order phase transitions the heat capacity, coefficient of thermal expansion and certain other characteristics of substances vary with discontinuous jumps. Some examples of second-order phase transitions are the transition of iron at the Curie point (**??**) from a ferro-magnetic substance into a paramagnetic one (**??**) and the transition of certain metals and alloys at extremely low temperatures to the superconductive state (**??**).

12.4.3

Superfluidity, a phenomenon observed *in liquid helium II*, is the practically complete absence of viscosity when such

helium flows through narrow capillary tubes (13.5.5). The coefficient of viscosity (10.8.4) of helium II is less than 10^{-12} Pa s, while that of helium I close to the temperature 4.22 K is of the order of 10^{-6} Pa s.

12.4.4

According to the *two-fluid theory*, liquid helium II is a mixture of a superfluid component and a normal component. The superfluid component moves without friction and does not participate in the transfer of energy in the form of heat (9.2.1). The normal component moves with friction and does participate in energy transfer.

12.4.5

The theory of superfluidity is based on quantum mechanics (**??**). In the first place, quantum mechanics was required to explain why helium is the only nonfreezing liquid at ultra-low temperatures and standard pressure. The zero-point vibrations (**??**) of the light-weight atoms of helium are sufficiently intensive and do not allow the weak forces of attraction between the helium atoms to form a crystalline structure at ordinary pressures.

The present-day theory of superfluidity is based on a study of the energy spectrum of helium at ultra-low temperatures. Under these conditions the continuous energy spectrum can be regarded as the totality of quasi-particles with the energies $h\nu_i$, where h is Plancks constant and ν_i is the phonon frequency (**??**) corresponding to these quasi-particles. The quasiparticles cannot be identified with the

real atoms of helium. They represent the motion of the whole system of helium atoms, and the energy values of the quasi-particle describe the energy spectrum of the whole quantum system, i.e. the liquid helium as a whole.

At low temperatures the excited state of the helium constitutes sound waves that are quasi-particles in the normal part of helium II. Associated with the quasi-particles are the store of internal energy and the presence of friction in the liquid helium. But states are possible in helium II t hat correspond to its superfluid part, in which quasi-particles are not advantageous from the energy point of view and do not arise. As a result of the strong interaction between the particles of the superfluid part of helium II a bound body is formed in which no thermal excitations are generated: the superfluid part of helium II has no store of internal energy and is not subject to viscosity. At absolute zero temperature, there should actually not be any normal part in helium II; all of the helium should be superfluid. As the helium is heated, the number of phonons increases as does the share of the normal part of helium II. But until the temperature reaches 2.19 K, a superfluid part of helium II, with its characteristic properties, still remains. At the temperature 2.19 K, helium II is converted into helium I and all the special properties of helium II disappear.

13 Liquids

13.1 Certain Properties of Liquids

13.1.1

Liquids are bodies that have a definite volume, but assume the shape of the vessel that holds them. On the thermal motion in liquids, see (8.1.5). The nature of the thermal motion in liquids determines the similarity of their properties with those of both solids and gases. Like solids, liquids are almost incompressible. This property is associated with the strong intermolecular interaction of the particles in liquids. When liquids are compressed, the distances between the molecules are reduced and the repulsive forces that impede compression in crease drastically (12.1.4). Liquids have relatively high densities and, like solids, resist, not only compression, but tension as well (**??**). This is manifested in the fact that the Van der Waals isothermals enter the region of negative pressures (the isothermal at $T = T_1$ in Figure 12.5). The resemblance of the properties of liquids and real gases at high temperatures and low densities is

observed, for instance, in that the surface tension of liquids (13.4.5) and the specific heat of vaporization (13.6.4) are reduced as the temperature is raised. Besides, the densities of dry saturated vapour (12.3.2) and of boiling liquid (12.3.2) approach each other as the temperature is increased.

13.1.2

The similarity between liquids and solids is confirmed by *X*-ray diffraction analysis (**??**). At temperatures close to that of solidification, the arrangement of the particles in liquids is similar to the ordered arrangement of particles that is typical of solidified liquids. The mutual arrangement of neighbouring particles in liquids resembles the ordered arrangement of neighbouring particles in crystals. In liquids, however, this ordered arrangement is observed only within small volumes. At distances $r > (3 \text{ to } 4)\, d$ from a certain selected "central" molecule, order is no longer evident (here d is the effective diameter of the molecule, see (8.4.1)). Such order in the arrangement of the particles is called *short-range order in liquids*.

13.1.3

X-ray patterns of liquids do not differ from those of polycrystalline bodies (**??**) consisting of extremely fine crystals (having linear dimensions of the order of 10^{-9} m) that are randomly oriented with respect to one another in so-called *cybotaxic regions*. Within the boundaries of these regions the particle distribution is ordered, but the kind of order changes from one cybotaxic region to another. In the course

of time, intensive thermal motion at temperatures that are not too low rapidly alters the arrangement and structure of the cybotaxic regions.

13.2 Frenkel's Hole Theory of the Liquid State

13.2.1

The most important parameter determining the structure and physical properties of liquids is the specific volume. In melting a crystalline body the specific volume increases only slightly, by approximately 10 per cent. Such an increase in the specific volume takes place in a solid subject to negative pres sure equal to the ultimate strength (**??**) of the solid. This enables a liquid to be dealt with as a body whose integrity has been violated at various places. In melting crystalline bodies, their particles acquire higher mobility. This is due to the vital property of *fluidity of liquids*, as well as the violation of long-range order in crystals and the emergence of short-range order in liquids (13.1.2). Moreover, owing to the high mobility of the particles, microscopic gaps or microvoids, which shall be called *holes*, appear in liquids. The thermal motion in liquids causes the holes to disappear at random at certain places and to appear simultaneously at others. This is equivalent to chaotic movement of the holes.

13.2.2

The hole theory of the structure of liquids is inapplicable to liquids subject to high external pressures of the order of

thousands of atmospheres, at which the compressibility of liquids is comparable to that of solids. At high temperatures* close to the critical one[1], the structure and properties of a liquid are close to those of a gas for which the concept of holes is meaningless. Hence, the hole theory is inapplicable for liquids under these conditions.

13.2.3

It follows from the nature of thermal motion in liquids (8.1.5) that the molecules vibrate about a certain equilibrium position for the length of time τ, after which this equilibrium position is displaced with a jump over a distance of an order of magnitude equal to the average distance $\langle d \rangle$ between adjacent molecules:

$$\langle d \rangle \approx \sqrt[3]{\frac{1}{n_0}} = \sqrt[3]{\frac{\mu}{N_A \rho}}$$

where n_0 is the number of molecules in unit volume, N_A is Avogadros number (Appendix II), ρ is the density of the liquid, and μ is its molar mass. For water, for example, $\rho = 10^3\,\mathrm{kg/m^3}$, $\mu = 0.018\,\mathrm{kg/mol}$ and $\langle d \rangle \approx 3 \times 10^{-10}\,\mathrm{m}$.

13.2.4

The *relaxation time* is the average time $\langle \tau \rangle$ that a molecule of the liquid remains in a temporarily settled state close to a certain equilibrium position. As the temperature is

[1] Substances with an exceptionally low critical temperature are not considered here.

raised $\langle\tau\rangle$ decreases rapidly (13.2.5). This explains the high mobility of molecules in a liquid at high temperatures and the low viscosity of liquids under these conditions.

13.2.5

The expenditure of a certain amount of *activation energy* E is required for a molecule to pass from one equilibrium position to another (13.2.4). Such a passage is regarded as overcoming a potential barrier of height E (**??**) because to accomplish the passage the potential energy of the molecule should increase by the amount E. Only after this can it pass over to a new equilibrium position. The whole process turns out to be possible because high energy is concentrated on some of the molecules as a result of collisions in thermal motion. It is transferred to them by other molecules. The dependence of the relaxation time (13.2.4) on E and the absolute temperature is of the form

$$\langle\tau\rangle = \tau_0 \exp\left(\frac{E}{kT}\right)$$

where k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5) and τ_0 is the average period of vibrations of the molecule about its equilibrium position.

13.2.6

When a liquid is subject to the action of an external force for the length of time $t \gg \langle\tau\rangle$ the particles of the liquid are displaced mainly in the direction of this force. This reveals the fluidity of the liquid. But if $t \ll \langle\tau\rangle$ a particle has no

opportunity to change its equilibrium position during the time of force action. At this the liquid manifests elastic properties, resisting changes in both volume and shape.

During the time $\langle \tau \rangle$ a particle of liquid is displaced, on an average, over the distance $\langle d \rangle$, the average velocity $\langle v \rangle$ of dis placement of the molecules is determined by the equation

$$\langle v \rangle = \frac{\langle d \rangle}{\langle \tau \rangle} \quad \text{or} \quad \langle v \rangle = \frac{\langle d \rangle}{\langle \tau_0 \rangle} \exp\left(-\frac{E}{kT}\right)$$

The average velocity of motion of molecules in liquids is quite considerable, as a rule, but an order of magnitude less than the average velocities of molecules of the vapour of the same sub stance at the same temperatures.

13.3 Diffusion and Viscosity Phenomena in Liquids

13.3.1

If conditions required for transport phenomena (10.8.1) arise, diffusion, heat conduction and viscosity are observed in liquids. The difference between transport phenomena in liquids and similar phenomena in gases affects the transport coefficients and their dependence on the characteristics of properties of the liquids.

13.3.2

For a chemically homogeneous liquid the diffusion coefficient D (10.8.3) is calculated by the equation

$$D = \frac{1}{6} \frac{\langle d \rangle^2}{\tau_0} \exp\left(-\frac{E}{kT}\right)$$

The quantities are defined in Sects. (13.2.3), (13.2.4) and (13.2.5). The diffusion coefficient grows rapidly with temperature. This is due, for the most part, to the sharp drop in the relaxation time $\langle d \rangle$ (13.2.4). Besides, the quantity $\langle d \rangle$ (13.2.3) increases somewhat with the temperature T.

13.3.3

When the temperature approaches the critical value (12.3.1), the average velocity $\langle v \rangle$ of the particles of the liquid approaches the average velocity of molecules of a real gas and the values of the diffusion coefficient D for liquids become close to those for gases.

At temperatures much lower than the critical one, the diffusion coefficients for liquids are extremely small compared to those for the corresponding vapours or gases at ordinary pressures. For example, $D \approx 1.5 \times 10^{-9}\,\mathrm{m^2/s}$ for water at $T = 300\,\mathrm{K}$, while for the vapour of water (steam) in air at the same temperature and at standard atmospheric pressure $D \approx 2 \times 10^{-5}\,\mathrm{m^2/s}$.

13.3.4

At temperatures close to the critical one [2], the thermal motion in liquids acquires features that differ from those described in (8.3.5) and approach those of thermal motion in gases. Under these conditions the internal friction (viscosity) in liquids is of the same nature as in gases (10.8.4).

At temperatures close to the melting point, the viscosity of liquids cannot be accounted for in the same way as for gases. The mechanism by means of which viscosity arises is a complex one. The coefficient of dynamic viscosity η (10.8.4) for liquids may be related to the *mobility* u_0 *of the molecule*. This is defined as the velocity u gained by a molecule subject to an external force F equal to unity: $u_0 = u/F$. The relation between η and u_0 is an inversely proportional one: $\eta \propto 1/u_0$.

In its turn $u_0 \propto D/kT$, where D is the diffusion coefficient, T is the absolute temperature, and k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5). Consequently, $\eta \propto T/D$ or $\eta \propto T \exp(E/kT)$, where E is the activation energy (13.2.5). As the temperature is raised the viscosity of liquids drops rapidly, especially in the region of low temperatures. At high pressures the viscosity of liquids increases rapidly with pressure. This is due to the increase in the activation energy (13.2.5) and the corresponding increase in the relaxation lime (13.2.4).

13.4 Surface Tension of Liquids

[2] See the footnote on page 307.

13.4.1

A molecule of a liquid in the surface layer is subject to uncompensated, inwardly directed forces of attraction exerted by the rest of the liquid. As a result, the surface layer exerts a high *internal pressure* on the whole liquid. It is of the order of tens of thousands of atmospheres.

13.4.2

Particles of the surface layer of a liquid have a higher potential energy than those inside the liquid. The reason for this is that in order to emerge from inside the liquid to its surface the molecules must do work to overcome the inwardly directed forces of internal pressure (13.4.1). This work increases the potential energy of the molecules that reach the surface.

The work W that must be performed to increase the area of the surface layer of a liquid isothermally is equal to

$$W = \langle (F_S - F_V) \rangle \, N,$$

where $\langle (F_S - F_V) \rangle$ is the average difference between the free energy (11.4.5) per molecule at the surface F_S and within the bulk F_V of the liquid, and N is the number of molecules in the surface layer of the liquid.

13.4.3

The condition of minimum potential energy of a liquid, required to maintain its stable equilibrium, is complied with when the liquid has its minimum possible free surface area.

The state of stable equilibrium of a liquid incompressible body corresponds to the minimum ratio of its surface area to its volume. Therefore, small drops of liquid suspended in air are of spherical shape. A liquid tends to reduce the area of its free surface. Consequently, the surface layer resembles a stretched elastic film in which tensile forces act (see also (**??**)).

13.4.4

The work done in the isothermal formation of unit sur face area is called the *surface tension* σ of the given liquid at the boundary with another phase (12.3.3):

$$\sigma = \frac{W}{A} = \langle (F_S - F_V) \rangle \frac{N}{A} = \langle (F_S - F_V) \rangle n_1$$

where $n_1 = N/A$ is the number of molecules per unit area of the surface layer. The surface tension is also calculated by the equation

$$\sigma = \frac{\Delta F}{\Delta A}$$

where ΔF is the change in the free energy of the surface layer, and ΔA is the change in the surface area.

The surface tension σ depends upon the chemical composition of the liquid and its temperature. It decreases when the temperature is raised and vanishes at the critical temperature (12.3.1). The surface tension can be reduced by adding *surface-active substances* to the liquid. This is due to the fact that such substances are adsorbed on the surface layer of the liquid and reduce the free energy of this layer (11.4.5).

13.4.5

13.4.5 There is an essential difference between the surface layer of a liquid and an elastic film (13.4.3). The surface tension of liquids does not depend upon the surface area and tends to reduce this area to zero. The tension of an elastic film is proportional to its deformation and equals zero at a definite finite area of the film's surface.

This peculiarity in the properties of liquid films is associated with the change in the number of molecules in the surface layer when these films are stretched (or compressed). But the average distances between the molecules and the forces of intermolecular interaction determined by these distances do not change. This is why the magnitude of the surface tension is independent of the area of the free, surface of the liquid.

13.4.6

If the surface of a liquid is bounded by a wetted perimeter (13.5.1), then the quantity a is equal to the force acting on unit length of the wetted perimeter, perpendicular to this perimeter. This force lies in a plane tangent to the free surface of the liquid.

13.5 Wetting and Capillary Phenomena

13.5.1

The free surface of a liquid, curved adjacent to the wall of the vessel holding the liquid, is called the *meniscus*. The

line along which the meniscus contacts the wall is called the *wetted perimeter*. The meniscus is characterized by the *contact angle* θ between the wetted surface of the wall and the meniscus at their point of contact. When $\theta < \pi/2$ (Figure 13.1 (a)), the liquid is said to *wet* the wall(to be a *wetting* liquid); when $\theta > \pi/2$ (Figure 13.1 (b)) the liquid *does not wet* the wall and is a *nonwetting* liquid.

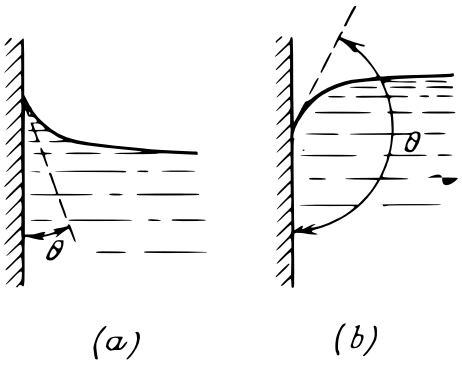


Figure 13.1.: Angle of contact and wetting in liquids.

Wetting (nonwetting) is said to be ideal when $\theta = 0$ ($\theta = \pi$). Here the meniscus is of spherical shape and is concave or convex. The absence of both wetting and nonwetting corresponds to the condition $\theta = \pi/2$, in which case the liquid has a plane free surface.

13.5.2

The formation of a meniscus is due to the interaction of the molecules with one another and with the particles of the rigid body (wall). Molecule A of the surface layer, located close to the wall of the vessel and having a sphere of molecular action (12.2.3) of radius R_m (range of molecular action) (Figure 13.2), is subject to the resultant force of attraction exerted on it by all the other molecules of the liquid ($\mathbf{F}_1$) and by all the particles of the wall ($\mathbf{F}_2$). Force $\mathbf{F}_2$ is perpendicular to the wall. This follows from considerations of symmetry.

The direction of force $\mathbf{F}_1$ depends upon the shape of the meniscus and the position of molecule A with respect to the wall. For example, if the meniscus is flat (13.5.1) and molecule A is right at the wall, force $\mathbf{F}_1$ is directed at an angle of 45° to the wall (Figure 13.3). Molecule A can be in equilibrium only when the resultant force $\mathbf{F} = \mathbf{F}_1 + \mathbf{F}_2$ is perpendicular to the surface of the liquid.[3] Otherwise, molecule A would move along this surface.

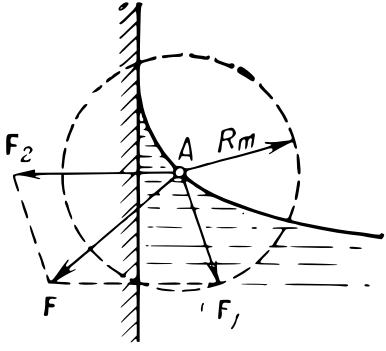


Figure 13.2.: Range of molecular attraction.

13.5.3

The shape of the meniscus is determined by the three possible directions of force $\mathbf{F}$:

(a) force $\mathbf{F}$ is parallel to the surface of the wall, the liquid has a plane surface and $\theta = \pi/2$ (Figure 13.4 (a));

(b) force $\mathbf{F}$ is directed towards the wall; the forces of

[3] Here we ignore the gravity force acting on molecule A because it is negligibly small compared to forces $\mathbf{F}_1$ and $\mathbf{F}_2$.

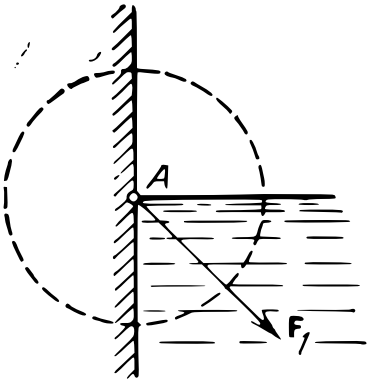


Figure 13.3.: Range of molecular attraction.

attraction exerted by the wall on molecule A exceed the forces of attraction exerted on the molecule by all the other molecules of the liquid. The liquid has a concave meniscus with $\theta < \pi/2$, i.e. the liquid wets the wall (Figure 13.4 (b));

(c) force **F** is directed towards the liquid; the forces of attraction exerted by the molecules of the liquid on molecule A prevail over those exerted on it by the particles of the wall. The meniscus is convex with $\theta > \pi/2$, i.e. the liquid does not wet the wall (Figure 13.4 (c)).

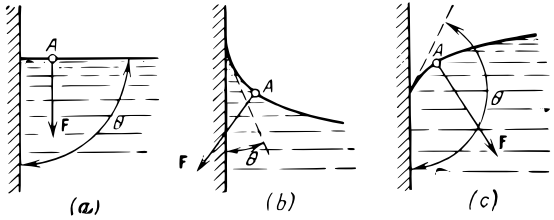


Figure 13.4.: The shape of meniscus.

13.5.4

The curved shape of the surface layer is the cause of the pressure Δp, additional to the external pressure, acting on the liquid. This additional pressure is due to the surface tension. This is similar to the way in which a stretched elastic envelope (like a rubber balloon) exerts pressure on the gas it contains.

The additional pressure exerted on a liquid with a surface layer of arbitrary shape is calculated by the equation

$$\Delta p = \sigma \left(\frac{1}{R_1} + \frac{1}{R_2} \right)$$

where σ is the surface tension (13.4.5), and R_1 and R_2 are the radii of curvature of any two mutually perpendicular normal sections[4] of the surface of the liquid at the point where molecule A is located. The radius of curvature R_1 (or

[4] A normal section of the surface through point A is the curve obtained as the intersection of the surface and a plane passed through the normal to the surface at this point. Radii R_1 and R_2 are called the principal radii of curvature of the surface layer.

R_2) is taken positive if its centre in the corresponding section is inside the liquid. Otherwise, the radius of curvature is taken to be negative. Thus, $\Delta p > 0$ when the meniscus is convex and $\Delta p < 0$ when it is concave. In the case of a plane surface $R_1 = R_2 = \infty$, and there is no additional pressure ($\Delta p = 0$). The preceding equation is called the Laplace theorem. For a spherical surface $R_1 = R_2 = R$ and $\Delta p = 2\sigma/R$. Such a surplus pressure exists, for instance, within a bubble of gas of radius R, located inside a liquid near the surface.

The surplus pressure inside a soap bubble of radius R is due to the action of both superficial layers of the thin spherical film of soap (inside and outside the bubble). Thus $\Delta p = 4\sigma/R$.

13.5.5

The level of a liquid in narrow cylindrical vessels (*capillary tubes*) of radius r differs from the level of the liquid in a larger vessel into which the capillary tube is placed vertically. The level in the capillary tube is higher (lower) than in the larger vessel by the amount h if the liquid wets (does not wet) the walls of the vessel. Here

$$h = \frac{2\sigma \cos\theta}{rg\rho}$$

where θ is the contact angle (13.5.1), ρ is the density of the liquid, and g is the acceleration due to gravity (7.3.3). This is called *Jurin's rule*.

If the liquid is in a narrow slit of constant width δ between two parallel plates, the meniscus is of cylindrical

shape having the radius $\delta/2$ and the level in the slit is above (for a wetting liquid) or below (for a nonwetting liquid) the level in the vessel in which the plates are immersed by the amount

$$h = \frac{2\sigma \cos\theta}{\delta g \rho}$$

13.5.6

The pressure of saturated vapour (12.3.2) above the curved surface of a liquid depends upon the shape of the meniscus. If the meniscus is concave (convex), the pressure of the saturated vapour is less (greater) than that above a plane surface by the amount Δp_{ms}:

$$\Delta p_{\text{ms}} = \frac{\rho}{\rho_1 - \rho} \Delta p$$

where ρ is the density of the saturated vapour, ρ_1 is the density of the liquid, and Δp is the additional pressure due to the curvature of the surface (13.5.4).

13.6 Vaporization and Boiling of Liquids

13.6.1

Vaporization, or *evaporation*, is the process of vapour formation at the free surface of a liquid. It takes place at any temperature and increases as the temperature is raised. There are molecules in the surface layer of a liquid that have high velocities and kinetic energies of thermal motion. The escape of such molecules from the surface into

the space above the liquid is the explanation for evaporation with the consequent reduction of the store of internal energy and cooling of the liquid. A measure of the process of vaporization is the *rate of evaporation* u, which is the amount of liquid converted into vapour in unit time. The rate u depends upon the external pressure and the motion of the gaseous phase above the free surface of the liquid. Thus

$$u = \frac{cA}{p_0}(p_v - p)$$

where c is a constant, A is the area of the free surface of the liquid, p_v is the pressure of saturated vapour, p is the pressure of the vapour above the free surface of the liquid being vaporized, and p_0 is the external barometric pressure.

13.6.2

Boiling is the process of intense vaporization of a liquid, not only from its free surface, but throughout the whole volume of the liquid within the bubbles of vapour that are produced in boiling. The bubbles of vapour in a boiling liquid rapidly increase in size, rise to the surface and burst. This causes the turbulence in a boiling liquid. The pressure p within a bubble of vapour located within the liquid is the sum of the external pressure p_0, the hydrostatic pressure pi of the overlying layers of liquid, and the additional pressure Δp due to the surface tension (13.5.4). Thus

$$p = p_0 + p_1 + \Delta p$$

and

$$p_1 = \rho g h, \quad \text{and} \quad \Delta p = \frac{2\sigma}{r}$$

where r is the radius of the vapour bubble, h is the distance from its centre to the surface of the liquid, and p and σ are the density and surface tension of the liquid.

The boiling of a liquid begins at the temperature at which the pressure p_v of the saturated vapour inside a bubble is at least as high as the pressure p (13.6.2):

$$p_v \geqslant p_0 + \rho g h + \frac{2\sigma}{r}$$

If this condition is not complied with, the bubble collapses and the vapour it contains is condensed.

13.6.3

With small radii r of the vapour bubbles, the pressure p_v should be quite high and it is necessary to heat the liquid to a high temperature before it starts boiling. If the liquid contains *centres of vaporization* (dust specks, bubbles of dissolved gases, etc.), boiling begins at a much lower temperature. This is due to the fact that the vapour bubbles that appear on the centres of vaporization are of such a size that the effect of the third member in the inequality of (13.6.2) can be neglected. More over, $\rho g h \ll p_0$ as a rule, so that the approximate condition for the beginning of boiling can be written in the form

$$p_v \approx p_0$$

The temperature of a liquid at which the pressure of its saturated vapour is equal to the external pressure is called the *boiling point* of the liquid.

13.6.4

When a liquid boils at constant pressure, its temperature remains constant. The quantity of heat transferred to a boiling liquid is completely expended in converting the molecules of the liquid into vapour. The heat r_b required to vaporize unit mass of a liquid heated to the boiling point is called the *heat of vaporization*. The value of r_b decreases as the boiling point is raised and vanishes at the critical temperature (12.3.1).

The change in the internal energy of a liquid (9.1.1) as a unit of its mass is converted into vapour at the boiling point is called the *internal heat of vaporization*.

13.6.5

The boiling of liquids and the condensation of vapour are examples of first-order phase transitions (cf. (12.4.2)). Typical of such phase transitions are the simultaneous constant values of pressure and temperature, but the changing ratio of the masses of the two phases (12.3.3). For a first-order phase transition to occur, the heat r_b (*specific latent heat of vaporization*) must be supplied to or taken away from the system. The heat r_b per unit mass is calculated by the *Clausius-Clapeyron equation*:

$$r_b = (v_2 - v_1)\, T \, \frac{\mathrm{d}p}{\mathrm{d}T}$$

where v_1 and v_2 are the specific volumes of the substance in the initial and final phases, T and p are the temperature and pressure of the phase transition.

13.6.6

It follows from the Clausius-Clapeyron equation for the boiling of liquids that

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}T}{\mathrm{d}p} = \frac{v_\mathrm{v} - v_1}{r_b}$$

where v_1 and v_v are the specific volumes of the liquid and vapour at the boiling point T. Since $v_\mathrm{v} > v_1$ and $r_b > 0$, $\mathrm{d}T/\mathrm{d}p > 0$, i.e. the boiling point increases with pressure. For instance, at the pressure $p = 1.25 \times 10^7$ Pa water can be heated without boiling to a temperature at which lead can be melted in the water. The melting point of lead is 900 K.

Part III.

Electrodynamics

14 Electric Charges. Coulomb's Law

14.1 Introduction

14.1.1

Electrostatics is the branch of the study of electricity that deals with the interaction and properties of a system of electric charges that are fixed with respect to the chosen inertial frame of reference (2.1.2).

There are two kinds of electric charges, *positive* and *negative*. Bodies having unlike charges attract one another; those having like charges repulse one another.

14.1.2

The electric charge of any system of bodies consists of a whole number of elementary charges, each equal to 1.6×10^{-19} C (where C is the abbreviation of coulomb, the unit of charge). The stable particle with the minimum rest mass (5.6.1) and a negative elementary charge is the *electron*. The rest mass of the electron is 9.1×10^{-31} kg. The stable parti-

cle with the minimum rest mass and a positive elementary charge is the *positron* (**??**).[1] Its rest mass is the same as that of the electron. Besides, there is a stable particle with a positive elementary charge called the *proton*. The rest mass of the proton is 1.67×10^{-27} kg. Electrons and protons are found in the atoms of all the chemical elements.

[1] Here we do not consider the instability of the positron, common in our world, that is associated with the annihilation of an electron-positron pair (**??**).

14.1.3

The *law of conservation of electric charge* states: the algebraic sum of the electric charges of bodies or particles that constitute an electrically isolated system remains constant re gardless of any processes that occur in the system.

New electrically charged particles may be formed in the system being considered. These may be electrons formed by the ionization of atoms or molecules (22.4.1), ions formed by the phenomenon of electrolytic dissociation, etc. If the system is electrically isolated, however, then the algebraic sum of the charges of all the newly formed particles of the system always equals zero. The law of the conservation of electric charge is one of the fundamental conservation laws, like the laws of conservation of momentum (2.7.1) and of energy (3.4.2).

14.1.4

Upon contact of two electrically neutral bodies, charges go over from one body to the other as a result of friction. In each of such two bodies there is no longer an equal number of positive and negative charges and the bodies become oppositely charged.

When a body is electrized by induction, the charges in it are no longer uniformly distributed. The charges are redistributed so that one part of the body has an excess of positive charges and the other part, of negative charges. If these two parts of the body are separated in some way, they will be oppositely charged.

14.2 Coulomb's Law

14.2.1

Coulomb experimentally established that the force of interaction F_{12} between two small charged spheres, with charges equal to q_1 and q_2 (14.1.1), is proportional to the product $q_1\, q_2$ and inversely proportional to the square of the distance r between the spheres:

$$F_{12} = k_1 \frac{q_1\, q_2}{r^2}$$

where k_1 is the proportionality factor $(k_1 > 0)$.

14.2.2

Central forces act on the charges along a straight line joining the centres of the charges. In the interaction of like charges the product $q_1 q_2 > 0$ and $F_{12} > 0$. This corresponds to mutual repulsion. For unlike charges $q_1 q_2 < 0$ and $F_{12} < 0$, which corresponds to mutual attraction. The vector form of the Coulomb law is

$$\mathbf{F}_{12} = k_1 \frac{q_1\, q_2}{r^2} \frac{\mathbf{r}_{12}}{r}$$

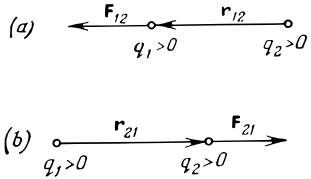


Figure 14.1.: Repulsive and attractive force between charges.

where $\mathbf{F}_{12}$ is the force exerted on charge q_1 by charge q_2, $\mathbf{r}_{12}$ is the radius vector joining charge q_2 to q_1 and $r = |\mathbf{r}_{12}|$.

The force $\mathbf{F}_{12}$, exerted on charge q_2 by charge q_1, equals

$$\mathbf{F}_{12} = k_1 \frac{q_1 q_2}{r^2} \frac{\mathbf{r}_{12}}{r}$$

where $\mathbf{r}_{21} = -\mathbf{r}_{12}$ is the radius vector joining charges q_1 and q_2 (Figure 14.1 (b)). Forces $\mathbf{F}_{12}$ and $\mathbf{F}_{21}$ are said to be *Coulomb forces*.

14.2.3

Coulombs law is valid for the interaction of *point electric charges* that are fixed in the given inertial frame of reference. Point charges are charged bodies whose linear dimensions d are very much smaller than the distance r between them $(d \ll r)$.

Coulomb's law states: the force of electrostatic interaction be tween two point electric charges is proportional to the product of the magnitudes of the charges, inversely proportional to the square of the distance between them and acts along the straight line joining them.

In the form given in Sect. (14.2.2) Coulombs law is also valid for the interaction of charged spheres of radii R_1 and R_2 if the charges q_1 and q_2 of the spheres are uniformly distributed over their surfaces or throughout their volumes. Radii R_1 and R_2 may be commensurable with the distance r between the centres of the spheres.

14.2.4

A Coulomb force (14.2.2) depends upon the properties of the medium in which the interacting charges are located. This dependence can be taken into consideration if we consider the factor k_1 in the formulas of Sects. (14.2.1) and (14.2.2) as the ratio of two factors:

$$k_1 = \frac{k}{\epsilon_r}$$

where k is a factor depending only on the choice of the system of units of measurement and ϵ_r is the dimensionless *relative permittivity*,or *dielectric constant*, of the medium and characterizes its electric properties. It is assumed here that the medium is boundless, homogeneous and isotropic, i.e. that its properties are the same throughout its volume and are independent of the direction. For a vacuum, ϵ_r is considered to equal unity.

14.2.5

For a medium with the relative dielectric constant ϵ_r, Coulombs law takes the form

$$F_{12} = k\,\frac{q_1\,q_2}{\epsilon_r\,r^2}$$

For charges q_1 and q_2 located in vacuum $(\epsilon_r = 1)$,

$$F_0 = k\,\frac{q_1\,q_2}{r^2}$$

From this follows the meaning of the relative dielectric con stant

$$\epsilon_r = \frac{F_0}{F}$$

14.2.6

The concept of ϵ_r, introduced in Sects. (14.2.4) and (14.2.5), has a meaning only under the conditions stipulated in Sect. (14.2.4). An ϵ_r-fold reduction of F is due to a phenomenon known as *electrostriction*, i.e. the deformation of a dielectric (18.1.1) from the effect of charged bodies. In their deformation, liquid and gaseous dielectrics are directly adjacent to the charged bodies and exert an additional mechanical action on them, reducing the Coulomb force (14.2.2). In solid dielectrics, charges q_1 and q_2 on the bodies may be located within certain cavities. This makes the calculation of forces $\mathbf{F}_{12}$ and $\mathbf{F}_{21}$ (14.2.2) considerably more difficult. These forces depend on the shapes of the cavities in which the charges q_1 and q_2 are located. In this case the interpretation of ϵ_r given in Sect. (14.2.5) cannot be correct.

14.2.7

In SI units (Appendix I) the factor k in the formulas of Sect. (14.2.5) are taken equal to

$$k = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}$$

and Coulombs law is written in the form

$$F = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\,\frac{q_1\,q_2}{\epsilon_r\,r^2}$$

This form of Coulombs law and of all laws following from it is said to be *rationalized*.

The quantity ϵ_0 is called the *permittivity of free space* or, according to the SI units, the *electric constant*. It is equal to $8.85 \times 10^{-12}\,\mathrm{C}^2\,\mathrm{m}^2/\mathrm{N}$ (Appendix II).

The product $\epsilon_0\epsilon_r$ is sometimes called the *absolute dielectric constant*, or *absolute permittivity* of the medium.

In the cgse system of units (Appendix I), Coulombs law is written in the following irrational form:

$$F = \frac{q_1\, q_2}{\epsilon_r\, r^2}$$

15 Electric Field Strength And Displacement

15.1 Electric Field. Field Strength

15.1.1

A *force field* is a form of matter that is studied in physics along with its study of other forms of matter known commonly as substances. The most basic feature of force fields is that various kinds of interaction are accomplished by means of them. A gravitational field (6.2.1), for instance, accomplishes gravitational interaction between bodies of various masses located in the field. All force fields have vital properties that characterize their material nature. Primarily this concerns their energy. There are no impassible barriers between a field and material substances; one can be converted into the other (**??**).

A physical field cannot be defined as space in which certain forces act. Space, like time, is a form of the existence of matter. The fact that a field exists in space by no means

infers that the field can be identified with space, because the form of existence of matter cannot be confused with the matter itself.

15.1.2

Coulomb interaction (14.2.2) between fixed electrically charged particles or bodies is accomplished through the *electrostatic field* set up by the charges. An electrostatic field is a *steady-state electric field*, i.e. one that does not change in the course of time, and is set up by fixed electric charges. This is one of the forms of an *electromagnetic field* by means of which interaction is accomplished between electrically charged particles (or bodies) that travel, in the general case, in some arbitrary way with respect to the chosen frame of reference.

A typical property of an arbitrary electric field, distinguishing it from all other physical fields, is the action it exerts on both travelling and fixed electric charges (charged particles and bodies).

15.1.3

The quantitative force characteristic of the action exert ed by an electric field on charged particles and bodies is the vector **E** of the *electric field strength* (formerly called the electric intensity). The electric field strength at a given point is the ratio of the force **F**, exerted by the field on a fixed point (14.2.3) *electric test charge* placed at the point of the field being considered, to the magnitude q_0 of the

charge:

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{\mathbf{F}}{q_0}$$

It is assumed that the test charge q_0 is so small that its presence does not lead to a redistribution in space of the charges that set up the field being investigated. In other words, the lest charge does not distort the field.

An electric field is said to be *uniform* (a *uniform electric field*) if the electric field, vector **E** has a constant magnitude and direction at any point of the field.

15.1.4

The strength of the electrostatic field of point charge q at a point located at the distance r from the charge is

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\frac{q}{\epsilon_r r^3}\,\mathbf{r} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{q}{\epsilon_r r^3}\,\mathbf{r} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

where **r** is the radius vector joining charge q and the point at which the field strength is to be calculated. Vectors **E** are directed at all points of the field radially away from charge q when $q > 0$, and directed radially toward the charge when $q < 0$.

The projection E_r of the field strength on the direction of radius vector **r** is

$$E_r = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\frac{q}{\epsilon_r r^2} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$E_r = \frac{q}{\epsilon_r r^2} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

These formulas are also used to calculate the strength of the field set up by a hollow sphere, having the charge q on its surface, at the distance r from the centre of the sphere whose radius equals R. Inside the hollow sphere $E_r = 0$.

15.1.5

The force **F** exerted by an electric field on an arbitrary charge q located at a given point in the field is

$$\mathbf{F} = q\,\mathbf{E}$$

where **E** is the field strength at the point where charge q is located and is distorting the field, i.e. making it different from the field set up before introducing charge q.

15.1.6

Electrostatic fields are represented graphically by employing *lines of force*.

Lines of force are imaginary curves drawn in such a way that their direction at any point (i.e. the direction of the tangent to the line at the point) coincides with that of the electric field vector. Lines of force are assumed to have the same direction as the corresponding electric field vectors. Lines of force do not intersect because at each point of the field vector **E** has only a single direction.

Lines of force are not identical with the paths of motion of light charged particles in an electrostatic field. Tangent at each point of the path of a particle is its velocity. Tangent to a line of force is the force acting on a charged particle. This, consequently, corresponds to the acceleration of the particle.

15.2 Principle of Superposition of Electric Fields

15.2.1

The basic problem of electrostatics can be formulated as follows: find the magnitude and direction of the electric field vector **E** for each point of a field from the given space distribution and magnitudes of the electric charges that are the source of the field.

15.2.2

When the field is set up by a system of fixed charges $q_1, q_2, \ldots q_n$ the resultant force **F** exerted on a test charge q_0 (15.1.3) at any point of the field being considered is equal to the vector sum of the forces exerted on charge q_0 by the fields set up by each of the charges q_i:

$$\mathbf{F} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{F}_i$$

According to Sect. (15.1.3), $\mathbf{F} = q_0\mathbf{E}$ and $\mathbf{F}_i = q_0\mathbf{E}_i$ where **E** is the strength of the resultant field, and $\mathbf{E}_i$ is the strength of the field set up by charge q_i. Following from the preceding formulas is the *principle of independent action of electric fields*, or the *principle of superposition of electric fields*:

$$\mathbf{E} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{E}_i$$

The strength of an electric field of a system of charges is equal to the vector sum of the strengths of the fields set

up by each charge separately. The strength of the resultant field is found by superposition of the strengths of the fields of the separate charges.

For charges distributed continuously in space (15.2.3), the principle of superposition of fields is of the form

$$\mathbf{E} = \int \mathrm{d}\mathbf{E}$$

where integration extends over all the continuously distributed sources of the fields, setting up electric fields with the strength

Example. A system of fixed point charges $q_1, q_2, \ldots q_n$ sets up an electrostatic field whose strength $\mathbf{E}$ equals

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0} \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{q_i}{\epsilon_r r_i^3} \mathbf{r}_i \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\mathbf{E} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{q_i}{\epsilon_r r_i^3} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

where $\mathbf{r}_i$ is the radius vector from point charge q_i to the point being investigated in the field. Any charged body on which the charge Q is discretely distributed (15.2.3) can be divided into extremely small parts, each having a point charge. Therefore, the preceding formula is of general significance for calculating electrostatic fields in a homogeneous, isotropic medium that fills the whole field.

15.2.3

Electric charges, the sources of electrostatic fields, can be distributed in space either *discretely* (*discrete charge distribu-*

tion) at various points in space, or *continuously* (*continuous charge distribution*). In the latter case, the charges are distributed either along a certain line, on the surface of some body or within a certain volume. The concept of charge density is introduced for continuous charge distribution. When the electric charge is distributed continuously along a line we have *linear charge density* τ:

$$\tau = \frac{\mathrm{d}q}{\mathrm{d}l}$$

where $\mathrm{d}q$ is the charge of an infinitesimal clement of length $\mathrm{d}l$. When the electric charge is distributed continuously over a certain surface, we speak of the *surface charge density* σ:

$$\sigma = \frac{\mathrm{d}q}{\mathrm{d}S}$$

where $\mathrm{d}q$ is the charge on an infinitesimal element of area $\mathrm{d}S$. When the electric charge is distributed continuously throughout some volume, we speak of the volume charge density ρ:

$$\rho = \frac{\mathrm{d}q}{\mathrm{d}V}$$

where $\mathrm{d}q$ is the charge in an infinitesimal element of volume $\mathrm{d}V$.

Example. The electrostatic field of an electric dipole. An *electric dipole* is a system of two charges of equal magnitude, but of opposite sign. These charges, q and $-q$ $(q > 0)$ are separated by the distance l which is small in comparison with the distance to the points being considered in the field. The *arm of the dipole* is the vector $\mathbf{l}$, directed along the dipole axis from the negative toward the positive charge

and equal to the distance between them (Figure 15.1). The product of the charge q of the dipole $(q > 0)$ hy the arm $\mathbf{l}$ is called the *electric dipole moment* $\mathbf{p}_e$:

$$\mathbf{p}_e = q\,\mathbf{l}$$

The strength E of the field of an electric dipole at an arbitrary point is:

$$\mathbf{E} = \mathbf{E}_+ + \mathbf{E}_-$$

where $\mathbf{E}_+$ and $\mathbf{E}_-$ are the strengths of the fields set up by the charges q and $-q$ (Figure 15.1). At point A, located on the dipole axis at the distance r from its middle (Figure 15.1) $(r \gg l)$, the strength of the field of a dipole equals:

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\frac{2\mathbf{p}_e}{\epsilon_r r^3} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{2\mathbf{p}_e}{\epsilon_r r^3} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

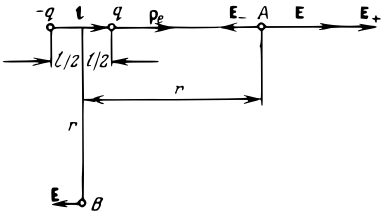


Figure 15.1.: Electric dipole moment.

At point B, located on a perpendicular erected at the middle of the dipole axis and at the distance r from the middle of the axis $(r \gg l)$

$$\mathbf{E} = -\frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\frac{\mathbf{p}_e}{\epsilon_r r^3} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\mathbf{E} = -\frac{\mathbf{p}_e}{\epsilon_r r^3} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

At the arbitrary point O sufficiently distant from the dipole $(r \gg l)$ (Figure 15.2), the magnitude of its field strength is:

$$\mathbf{E} = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\frac{p_e}{\epsilon_r r^3}\sqrt{3\cos^2\theta + 1} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\mathbf{E} = -\frac{p_e}{\epsilon_r r^3}\sqrt{3\cos^2\theta + 1} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

15.3 Electric Displacement. Ostrogradsky-Gauss Electric Flux Theorem

15.3.1

The electric field strength (15.1.3) depends upon the properties of the medium. In a homogeneous isotropic medium, the strength **E** is inversely proportional to ϵ_r ((**??**). Another characteristic of an electric field, along with its strength **E**, is the vector **D** of *electric displacement*, or *electric induction* (other names are dielectric displacement, dielectric flux density, displacement, electric displacement density and electric flux density). For a field in an electrically isotropic medium, the relation between **D** and **E** is of the form

$$\mathbf{D} = \epsilon_0 \epsilon_r \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$
$$\mathbf{D} = \epsilon_r \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

The general relation for **D**, valid for anisotropic media is given in (18.3.4).

Example. For the field of point electric charge q (14.2.3)

$$\mathbf{D} = \frac{1}{4\pi} \frac{q}{r^3} \mathbf{r} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$
$$\mathbf{D} = \frac{q}{r^3} \mathbf{r} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

The projection of **D** on the direction of radius vector **r**, from

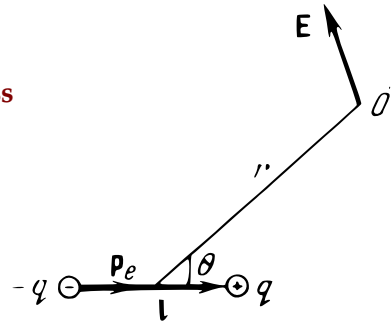


Figure 15.2.: Electric field strength due to a dipole at an arbitrary point O.

the point charge to the given point in the field, is

$$\mathbf{D} = \frac{1}{4\pi}\frac{q}{r^2} \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\mathbf{D} = \frac{q}{r^2} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

15.3.2

An *element* $\mathrm{d}\Phi_e$ of *electric displacement flux* through an element of surface with the area $\mathrm{d}S$ is the scalar physical quantity defined by the equation

$$\mathrm{d}\Phi_e = \mathbf{D}\cdot\mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = D\,\mathrm{d}S\cos\alpha = D_n\,\mathrm{d}S = D\,\mathrm{d}S_\perp$$

where $\mathbf{D}$ is the displacement vector (15.3.1), $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ is a unit vector normal to area $\mathrm{d}S$, $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \mathrm{d}S\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ is the vector of the element of surface $\mathrm{d}S$, $D_n = D\cos\alpha$ is the projection of vector $\mathbf{D}$ on the direction of vector $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$, $\mathrm{d}S_\perp = \mathrm{d}S\cos\alpha$ is the area of the projection of the element of surface $\mathrm{d}S$ on a plane perpendicular to vector $\mathbf{D}$, and α is the angle between vectors $\mathbf{D}$ and $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ (Figure 15.3)

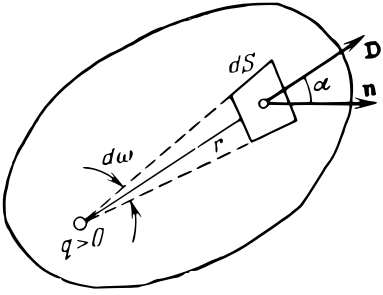


Figure 15.3.: Electric displacement flux.

When the electric field is set up by point charge q, the element of displacement flux $\mathrm{d}\Phi_e$ through the element of surface $\mathrm{d}S$ of the closed surface S, within which the point charge is located, is

$$\mathrm{d}\Phi_e = \frac{q}{4\pi}\,\mathrm{d}\omega$$

where $\mathrm{d}\omega$ is the solid angle subtended at point charge q by the element $\mathrm{d}S$ of surface S (Figure 15.3).

The total *displacement flux* Φ_e through the surface S is the summation or integration of all the elements of flux:

$$\Phi_e = \int_S \mathbf{D}\, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \int_S D\ \mathrm{d}S \cos\alpha$$
$$= \int_S D_n\ \mathrm{d}S = \int_S D\ \mathrm{d}S_\perp$$

where α is the angle between vectors $\mathbf{D}$ and $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$. Here all the vectors and normals to the elements $\mathrm{d}S$ of surface are directed toward the same side of surface S. In the case of a closed surface S (Figure 15.3), all the vectors n of the normals must be either outward or inward ones.[2]

[2] Only outward normals arc used in the following.

15.3.3

The *Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem* states that the displacement flux passing through an arbitrary closed surface is equal to or proportional to the algebraic sum of the electric charges $q_1, q_2, \ldots, q_k$ enclosed within the surface:

$$\oint_S \mathbf{D}\, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \oint_S D_n\ \mathrm{d}S = \sum_{i=1}^{k} q_i \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\oint_S \mathbf{D}\, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \oint_S D_n\ \mathrm{d}S = 4\pi \sum_{i=1}^{k} q_i \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

The displacement flux passing through an arbitrary closed surface that does not enclose any electric charges equals zero. The differential form of the Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem is one of Maxwells equations for an electromagnetic field (**??**)

15.3.4

The Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem for the electrostatic field in vacuum states that vector flux of electrostatic field strength in vacuum passing through an arbitrary closed surface is proportional to the algebraic sum of the electric charges enclosed within the surface:

$$\oint_S \mathbf{E}\,d\mathbf{S} = \frac{1}{\epsilon_0}\sum_{i=1}^{k} q_i \qquad \text{(in SI units)}$$

$$\oint_S \mathbf{E}\,d\mathbf{S} = 4\pi\sum_{i=1}^{k} q_i \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}$$

where ϵ_0 is the electric constant (14.2.7).

The Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem for the field in a dielectric is discussed in (18.3.3).

15.3.5

Together with the principle of superposition of fields (15.2.2), the Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem is applied to calculate electric field vectors **D**. This is done by choosing a closed surface in such a way that in the expression for the displacement flux, the quantity **D** can be placed outside the sign of the surface integral. This can be done for fields set up by the simplest symmetrically arranged charges (charged lines, plane, sphere, etc.).

16 Electric Field Potential

16.1 Work Done in Moving an Electric Charge in an Electrostatic Field

16.1.1

The work done in moving an electric charge q' in an electrostatic field of strength $\mathbf{E}$ (15.1.3) is independent of the shape of the path along which the charge is moved; it depends only upon the initial and final positions of the charge. In other words, electrostatic forces, like gravitational forces, are potential (conservative) forces (3.1.6). The work δW done by the force $\mathbf{F} = q'\,\mathbf{E}$ exerted on charge q' in moving it over the distance $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$, is equal to:

$$\delta W = F\ \mathrm{d}l \cos\varphi = q' E \cos\alpha\, \mathrm{d}l$$

where α is the angle between the directions of vectors $\mathbf{E}$ and $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$, and φ is the angle between the directions of the vectors $\mathbf{F}$ and $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$. The work done in a finite movement of

charge q' from point a to point b is equal to

$$W = q' \int_a^b E \cos\alpha \, \mathrm{d}l = q' \int_a^b \mathbf{E} \, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$$

where $\mathbf{E}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ is the scalar product of vectors $\mathbf{E}$ and $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$.

16.1.2

If the electric field has been set up by charge q, then

$$E = \frac{q}{4\pi\epsilon_0\epsilon_r r^2}, \quad \mathrm{d}l \cos\alpha = \mathrm{d}r$$

and the work done in the movement of charge q' from point a to point b in this field is equal to

$$W = \frac{qq'}{4\pi\epsilon_0\epsilon_r} \int_{r_1}^{r_2} \frac{\mathrm{d}r}{r^2} = \frac{qq'}{4\pi\epsilon_0\epsilon_r} \left(\frac{1}{r_1} - \frac{1}{r_2} \right)$$

where r_1 and r_2 are the distances of points a and b from charge q (Figure 16.1). The work W done by the electric forces of repulsion of like charges q and q' is positive when the-charges move away from each other, and negative when they move toward each other. The work done by electric forces of attraction of unlike charges (q and q' is positive when they move toward each other and negative when they move away from each other.

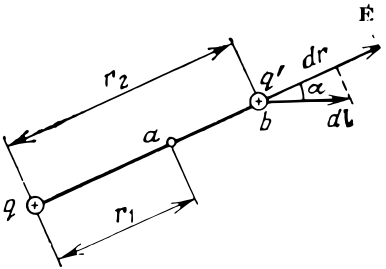


Figure 16.1.: The work done in the movement of charge q' from point a to point b in an electric field.

16.1.3

When an electric charge q' is moved in a field set up by a system of point charges $q_1, q_2, \ldots, q_n$, the charge q' is

subject to the force

$$\mathbf{F} = \mathbf{F}_1 + \mathbf{F}_2 + \ldots + \mathbf{F}_n$$

and the work W done by the resultant force is equal to the algebraic sum of the work done by the component forces:

$$W = W_1 + W_2 + \ldots + W_n = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{q_i q'}{4\pi\epsilon_0\epsilon_r} \left(\frac{1}{r_{i1}} - \frac{1}{r_{i2}} \right)$$

where r_{i2} and r_{i2} are the distances of charge q_i to the initial and final positions of charge q'. Each of the amounts of work W_i and the total work W depend upon the initial and final positions of the charge q', but are independent of the shape of its path.

16.1.4

Circulation of the field strength vector along the closed path or loop L is the line integral

$$\oint_L E \, \mathrm{d}l \cos\alpha = \oint_L \mathbf{E} \, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$$

This integral is numerically equal to the work done by electrostatic forces in moving a unit positive charge along a closed path. Since $r_{i1} = r_{i2}$ for a closed path, we have, according to Sect. (16.1.3), $\oint_L \mathbf{E} \, \mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = 0$, i.e. the above-mentioned work equals zero.

A force field of strength $\mathbf{E}$ that complies with such a condition is said to be a *conservative one*. An electrostatic field is conservative.

The differential form of the condition indicating the conservative nature of an electrostatic field is one of Maxwells equations for an electrostatic field (**??**).

16.2 Potential of an Electrostatic Field

16.2.1

The work δW (16.1.1) is equal to the decrease $\mathrm{d}E_p$ in potential energy (3.3.1) of the charge q' moving in an electrostatic field:

$$\delta W = -\mathrm{d}E_p,$$

and

$$W = \int_a^b q' E \mathrm{d}l \cos\alpha = -\Delta E_p = E_{1P} - E_{2P},$$

where E_{1P} and E_{1P} are the values of the potential energy of charge q' at points a and b, and α is the angle between the directions of vectors $\mathbf{E}$ and $\mathrm{d}l$ (Figure 16.1).

16.2.2

When point charge q' is moved by electrostatic forces in a field set up by charge q, the change $\mathrm{d}E_p$ in its potential energy in an infinitesimal displacement is

$$\mathrm{d}E_p = -\delta W = -\frac{qq'\,\mathrm{d}r}{4\pi\varepsilon\varepsilon_0 r^2}.$$

Upon a finite displacement of charge q' from point a to point b (Figure 16.1), the change ΔE_p in the potential energy

of the charge is

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta E_p &= E_{2p} - E_{1p} = \int_{r_1}^{r_2} \mathrm{d}E_p \\ &= \frac{qq'\,\mathrm{d}r}{4\pi\varepsilon\varepsilon_0 r_2} - \frac{qq'\,\mathrm{d}r}{4\pi\varepsilon\varepsilon_0 r_1} \qquad \text{(in SI units),} \\ \Delta E_p &= qq'\left(\frac{1}{\varepsilon_r r_2 - \varepsilon_r r_1}\right) \qquad \text{(in CGSE units.)}\end{aligned}$$

16.2.3

When point charge q' is moved in a field set up by a system of point charges $(q_1, q_2, \ldots, q_n)$, the change in the potential energy of charge q' is

$$\Delta E_p = q' \sum_{i=1}^{n} \left(\frac{q_i}{4\pi\varepsilon\varepsilon_0 r_{i2}} - \frac{q_i}{4\pi\varepsilon\varepsilon_0 r_{i1}}\right) \qquad \text{(in SI units),}$$

$$\Delta E_p = q' \sum_{i=1}^{n} \left(\frac{q_i}{\varepsilon_r r_{i2}} - \frac{q_i}{\varepsilon_r r_{i1}}\right) \qquad \text{(in CGSE units.)}$$

where r_{i1} and r_{i2} are the distances between charges q_i and q' before and after the displacement of the latter.

16.2.4

To find the absolute value of the potential energy of an electric charge at a given point of an electrostatic field, it is necessary to choose a reference point (3.3.4) for the potential energy. Integrating the equation in (16.2.2), we

obtain for the general case:

$$E_p = \frac{qq'}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r r} + C,$$

where C is an arbitrary constant. If we assume that $E_p = 0$ as $r \to \infty$, then $C = 0$ and the potential energy of charge q', located in the field of charge q at the distance r from this charge, equals

$$E_p = \frac{qq'}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r r} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$E_p = \frac{qq'}{\varepsilon_r r} \qquad \text{(in CGSE units.)}$$

For like charges q and q' the potential energy of their inter action (repulsion) is positive and increases (decreases) as the charges move closer together (away from each other). In attraction of unlike charges $E_p < 0$ and increases to zero as one of the charges approaches infinity. The curves showing the dependence of the potential energy of two point charges on the distance between them are given in Figure **??**.

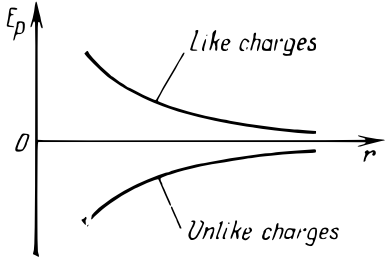


Figure 16.2.: The dependence of the potential energy of two point charges on the distance between them.

16.2.5

The potential energy E_p of charge q', located in a field set up by a system of point charges $(q_1, q_2, \ldots, q_n)$ is equal to the sum of the potential energies E_{ip} in the fields set up by each of the charges separately:

$$E_p = \sum_{i=1}^{n} E_{ip} = q' \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{q_i}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r r_i} \quad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

where r_i is the distance between charges q_i and q'.

16.2.6

The *potential of an electrostatic field* is an energy characteristic of the field, it is the ratio of the potential energy E_p of charge q' to the magnitude of the charge

$$V = \frac{E_p}{q'} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{q_i}{4\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r \pi r_i} \quad \text{(in SI units).}$$

This ratio is independent of the magnitude of the charge q′ and is numerically equal to the potential energy of a unit test charge (15.1.3) placed at the point being considered in the field.

Examples.

(1) The potential of an electrostatic field set up by one point charge q in a homogeneous and isotropic dielectric is

$$V = \frac{q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r r} \qquad \text{(in SI units),}$$

$$V = \frac{q}{\varepsilon_r r} \qquad \text{(in cgse units).}$$

(2) The potential of a field set up by a charged conductor (16.4.4) in a homogeneous and isotropic dielectric is

$$V = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r} \oint_S \frac{\sigma \, \mathrm{d}S}{r} \qquad \text{(in SI units),}$$

$$V = \frac{1}{\varepsilon_r} \oint_S \frac{\sigma \, \mathrm{d}S}{r} \qquad \text{(in cgse units).}$$

where σ is the surface charge density on the conductor (15.2.3) and dS is an element of surface of the conductor.

(3) The potential of an isolated conducting sphere of radius R, having the charge q, is

$$V = \frac{q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r R} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$V = \frac{q}{\varepsilon_r R} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

16.2.7

The work W done by electric forces in moving charge q' from point a to point b of an electrostatic field is

$$W = E_{1p} - E_{2p} = q'(V_1 - V_2) = q'\Delta V,$$

where E_{1p} and E_{2p} are the potential energies of charge q' at points a and b, V_1 and V_2 are the potentials of the field at the same points, and $\Delta V = V_1 - V_2$ is the *potential difference*. If point b is at infinity, $E_{2p} = 0$ and $V_2 = 0$. Then the work W_∞ required to move charge q' from point a to infinity is equal to

$$W_\infty = E_{1p} = q'V_1.$$

Owing to the arbitrary nature of point a subindex 1 can be discarded. Then

$$V = \frac{W_\infty}{q}.$$

Hence, the potential at a given point of an electrostatic field is numerically equal to the work done by electrostatic

forces in moving a unit positive charge from the point in the field to infinity. This work is also numerically equal to that done by external forces (acting against the forces of the electrostatic field) in moving a unit positive charge from infinity to the given point in the field.

16.2.8

In the study of electrostatic fields, all the problems require a knowledge of the potential difference between any points in a field rather than the absolute values of the potentials at these points. Therefore, the choice of a point of zero potential depends only on its convenience for solving the given problem. It frequently proves convenient to assume that the potential of the earth is equal to zero.

16.3 Relation Between the Potential and Strength of an Electrostatic Field

16.3.1

On the basis of the equations in sections (16.2.1) and (16.2.6), an element of work δW done in the infinitesimal displacement of charge q' in an electrostatic field is

$$\delta W = q' E \cos\alpha \mathrm{d}l = -\mathrm{d}E_p = -q' \,\mathrm{d}V, \quad \text{or}$$
$$E \cos\alpha \,\mathrm{d}l = -\mathrm{d}V; \quad \mathbf{E}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = -\mathrm{d}V.$$

But $\mathrm{d}l \cos\alpha = \mathrm{d}l_0$ where $\mathrm{d}l_0$ is an element of length of the line of force (15.1.6) (Figure 16.3). Hence, $E = -\,\mathrm{d}V/\mathrm{d}l_0$. The derivative $\frac{\mathrm{d}V}{\mathrm{d}l_0}$ is the rate of change of the potential

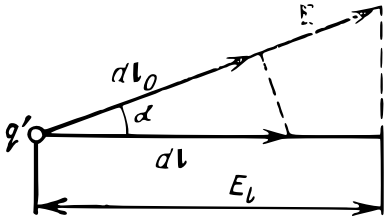


Figure 16.3.: The field E is numerically equal to the change in potential per unit length of a line of force.

along a line of force and is numerically equal to the change in potential per unit length of a line of force.

16.3.2

The projection E_l of vector $\mathbf{E}$ on the direction of motion $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ is equal to: $E_l = E\cos\alpha$. Therefore

$$E_l = -\frac{\mathrm{d}V}{\mathrm{d}t}.$$

It is obvious that $E_l \leqslant E$ and $\left|\mathrm{d}V/\mathrm{d}l\right| \leqslant \left|\mathrm{d}V/\mathrm{d}l_0\right|$. Hence, E_l and $\mathrm{d}V/\mathrm{d}l$ reach their maximum values when $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ is tangent to the line of force.

In the vicinity of a given point in an electrostatic field, the potential varies most rapidly in the direction of a line of force. The sense of vector $\mathbf{E}$ is toward the most rapid decrease in potential.

16.3.3

In a more general form the relation between the strength and potential of an electrostatic field is

$$\mathbf{E} = -\boldsymbol{\nabla} V,$$

where $\boldsymbol{\nabla} V$ is the potential gradient vector, directed toward the most rapid increase in the potential and numerically equal to its rate of change per unit length in this direction. If the potential V is regarded as a function of the three Cartesian coordinates of the given point in the field, then

$$\boldsymbol{\nabla} V = \frac{\partial V}{\partial x}\hat{\mathbf{i}} + \frac{\partial V}{\partial y}\hat{\mathbf{j}} + \frac{\partial V}{\partial z}\hat{\mathbf{k}}$$

where $\hat{\mathbf{i}}$, $\hat{\mathbf{j}}$ and $\hat{\mathbf{k}}$ are unit vectors along the OX, OY and OZ axes. The projections of the electrostatic field strength vector on the coordinate axes are related to the field potential by the equations:

$$E_x = -\frac{\partial V}{\partial x},\ E_y = -\frac{\partial V}{\partial y},\ E_z = -\frac{\partial V}{\partial z}.$$

16.3.4

When an electric charge is moved in a direction $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$, perpendicular to a line of force, i.e. perpendicular to vector $\mathbf{E}$, $E_l = 0$ and $\mathrm{d}V/\mathrm{d}l = 0$ (16.3.1), i.e. $V = \text{const}$. The potential is the same at all points of a curve orthogonal to a line of force.

The geometrical locus of all points having the same potential is called an *equipotential surface*. It follows from the aforesaid that equipotential surfaces are everywhere orthogonal to lines of force.

The work done in moving an electric charge along one and the same equipotential surface equals zero.

An infinite number of equipotential surfaces can be constructed about any system of electric charges. They are usually constructed so that the potential difference is the same between any two adjacent equipotential surfaces.

16.3.5

There are two methods for the graphical representation of electrostatic fields: by means of lines of force and by means of equipotential surfaces. If the arrangement of the

lines of force of an electrostatic field is known, equipotential surfaces can be constructed. Conversely, knowing the arrangement of the equipotential surfaces, the magnitude and direction of the field strength can be found for each point of the field, i.e. the lines of force can be constructed.

16.4 Conductors in an Electrostatic Field

16.4.1

Solid metal conductors contain current carriers. These are conduction electrons (free electrons) that can be moved by the external electric field through the volume of the conductor. Conduction electrons appear when a conducting metal goes over from a less condensed to a more condensed state, i.e. from the gaseous to the liquid or solid state. At this valence electrons (**??**) are collectivized; they are separated from "their" atoms and form a special *electron* gas.

16.4.2

The electrical properties of conductors under electrostatic conditions are determined by the behaviour of the conduction electrons in the external electrostatic field. In the absence of an external electrostatic field, the electric fields of the conduction electrons and the positive ions of the metal (**??**), the atomic cores, mutually compensate each other. When a metal conductor is placed into an external electrostatic field, this field redistributes the conduction electrons in the conductor so that at any point within the conductor the conduction electrons and the positive ions

compensate the external electrostatic field.

At any point inside a conductor located in an electrostatic field, the strength of the resultant steady-state electric field is equal to zero.

16.4.3

At the surface of the conductor the field strength vector $\mathbf{E}$ should be normal to the surface. If this were not so the tangential component $\mathbf{E}_\tau$ of vector $\mathbf{E}$ would cause the charges to move along the conductors surface, and this would contradict the fixed distribution of the charges. This leads to the following consequences:

(a) $\mathbf{E} = 0$ at all points inside the conductor; at all points on its surface $\mathbf{E} = \mathbf{E}_n$ (and $\mathbf{E}_\tau = 0$), where $\mathbf{E}_n$ is the normal component of the field strength vector;

(b) the whole volume of a conductor in an electrostatic field is equipotential, because, for any point within the conductor,

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}V}{\mathrm{d}l} = -E\cos\alpha = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad V = \text{const};$$

(c) the surface of the conductor is also equipotential (16.3.4), because for any line on the surface

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}V}{\mathrm{d}l} = -E_\tau = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad V = \text{const};$$

(d) in a charged conductor the uncompensated charges are located only on its surface. This follows from the

Ostrogradsky-Gauss electric flux theorem (15.3.3), according to which the total charge q inside a conductor and enclosed within a certain volume bounded by the arbitrary closed surface S is equal to

$$q = \Phi_e = \oint_S D \cos\alpha \, \mathrm{d}S = 0,$$

because $D = 0$ at all points on the surface.

16.4.4

When the electrostatic field is set up by a charged conductor the displacement and strength of this field close to the surface of the conductor are found by the equations

$$D_n = G \quad \text{and} \quad E_n = \frac{\sigma}{\varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r} \text{ (in SI units)},$$

where **n** is the outward normal to the conductors surface, σ is the surface charge density (15.2.3), ε_r is the relative permittivity (dielectric constant) of the medium (14.2.4) and ε_0 is the electric constant in SI units (14.2.7).

17 Capacitance

17.1 Capacitance of an Isolated Conductor

17.1.1

Upon an increase in the amount of electricity transmitted to an isolated conductor, the charges are distributed over the conductors surface with varying surface density. The way in which the charges are distributed depends only on the shape of the conductor, but not on the amount of electricity that was previously on the conductor. Each new portion of charges is distributed over the surface of the conductor similar to the preceding portion. It follows that, at any point on the conductors surface, the surface charge density σ (15.2.3) increases in proportion to the charge q on the conductor: $\sigma = kq$, where $k = f(x, y, z)$ is a function of the coordinates of the point being considered on the surface.

The potential of the field set up by a charged conductor

(16.2.6) is

$$V = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r}\oint_S \frac{\sigma\,\mathrm{d}S}{r} = \frac{q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r} = \oint_S \frac{k\,\mathrm{d}S}{r}.$$

For points on the surface S of the conductor this integral depends only on the size and shape of the conductors surface. Hence the potential V of the conductor is proportional to its charge q.

17.1.2

The ratio of the charge q of an isolated conductor to its potential V is called the *capacitance* of the given conductor:

$$C = \frac{q}{V} \qquad \text{or}$$

$$C = 4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r \left(\oint_S \frac{k\,\mathrm{d}S}{r}\right)^{-1} \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

The capacitance of an isolated conductor is numerically equal to the charge that changes the potential of the conductor by one unit.

The capacitance of an isolated conductor depends upon its shape and dimensions. For geometrically similar conductors, their capacitances are proportional to their linear dimensions.

The capacitance of an isolated conductor depends upon the dielectric properties of the surrounding medium. The capacitance of a conductor in a homogeneous isotropic medium is proportional to the relative permittivity (dielectric constant) (14.2.4) of the medium.

17.1.3

It follows from the equation for the potential of an isolated conducting sphere of radius R (16.2.6) that the *capacitance* of such a *sphere* is

$$C = 4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r R \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$
$$C = \varepsilon_r R \qquad \text{(in cgse units.)}$$

17.2 Mutual Capacitance. Capacitors

17.2.1

When there are other conductors close to conductor A the capacitance of the latter is greater than for an identical, but isolated, conductor. This is due to the fact that when the charge q is transferred to conductor A,charges are induced on the conductors surrounding it under the influence of the field set up by conductor A. The portions of the surrounding conductors nearest to the inducing charge q become oppositely charged (Figure 17.1). These charges weaken the field set up by charge q lower the potential of conductor A and increase its capacitance.

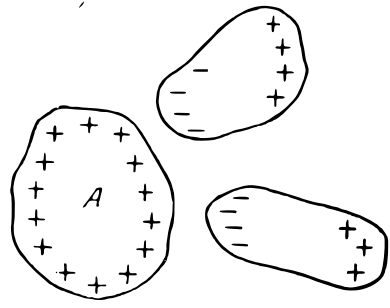


Figure 17.1.: Induced charges in conductors.

17.2.2

In a system of two conductors arranged close to each oilier, having charges q equal in magnitude but opposite in sign, a potential difference $V_1 - V_2$ is produced that is proportional

to q:

$$V_1 - V_2 = \frac{1}{C}\, q,$$

where $C = q/(V_1 - V_2)$ is the *mutual capacitance* of the two conductors.

The mutual capacitance of two conductors is numerically equal to the charge that it is necessary to transfer from one conductor to the other to change the potential difference between them by one unit.

17.2.3

The mutual capacitance C of two conductors depends upon their shapes, dimensions and relative positions. Moreover, C depends upon the dielectric properties of the medium surrounding the conductors. If the medium is homogeneous and isotropic, C is directly proportional to the relative permittivity (14.2.4) of the medium.

When one of the conductors is moved away to infinity, the potential difference $V_1 - V_2$ between them increases and their mutual capacitance is reduced, tending to the capacitance of the remaining isolated conductor.

17.2.4

A *capacitor* is a system of two charged conductors, insulated from each other and having charges of equal magnitude and opposite sign, provided that their shapes and relative position are such that the conductors set up a concentrated electrostatic field in a limited region of space. In the case of parallel-plate capacitors, the conductors are called *plates*.

The capacitance of a capacitor is the mutual capacitance of its plates (or, in the general case, conductors).

17.2.5

The capacitance of a *parallel-plate capacitor*, consisting of two metal plates, is

$$C = \frac{\varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r S}{d} \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$C = \frac{\varepsilon_r S}{4\pi d} \qquad \text{(in cgse units.)}$$

where ε_r is the relative permittivity of the medium filling the space between the plates, S is the area of each plate, and d is the distance between them. For a multiple-plate capacitor consisting of n plates, the formula for the capacitance contains $S(n-1)$ instead of S. The capacitance formula is valid only for small d values, when the lack of uniformity of the electrostatic field at the edges of the capacitor plates can be ignored.

17.2.6

A *spherical capacitor* consists of two concentric hollow metal spheres A and B, of radii r_1 and r_2 (Figure 17.2). The spheres are charged on their surfaces and set up fields only outside themselves (15.1.4). Hence, in the space between the spheres the field is set up only by the charge of sphere A. Outside the capacitor, the fields of the oppositely charged spheres A and B mutually eliminate each other.

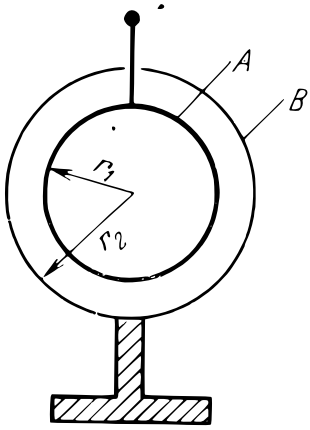


Figure 17.2.: A spherical capacitor.

The capacitance of a spherical capacitor is calculated by the formula

$$C = \frac{4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r\, r_1 r_2}{r_2 - r_1} \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$C = \frac{\varepsilon_r\, r_1 r_2}{r_2 - r_1} \qquad \text{(in cgse units.)}$$

As $r_2 \to \infty$ and $1/r_2 \to 0$, the inner sphere becomes an isolated one and $C = 4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r\, r_1$ (cf. (17.1.3)). For any finite values of r_1 and r_2

$$C = 4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r\, r_1 \frac{r_2}{r_2 - r_1} > 4\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r\, r_1,$$

i.e. the capacitance of a spherical capacitor is greater than that of an isolated hollow sphere.

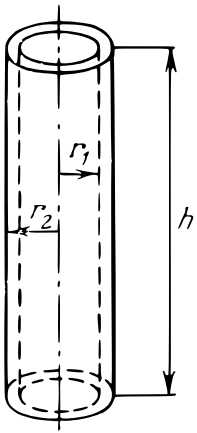


Figure 17.3.: A cylindrical capacitor.

17.2.7

A *cylindrical capacitor* consists of two hollow coaxial metal cylinders of height h and radii r_1 and r_2 (Figure 17.2). The formula for the capacitance of a cylindrical capacitor (or of a coaxial cable) is of the form

$$C = \frac{2\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r h}{\ln r_2/r_1} \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$C = \frac{\varepsilon_r h}{2\ln r_2/r_1} \qquad \text{(in cgse units.)}$$

17.2.8

All types of capacitors are characterized by their *breakdown voltage*, which is a potential difference across the plates at which an electric discharge (22.5.1) passes through the layer of dielectric in the capacitor. The breakdown voltage depends upon the properties of the dielectric, its thickness and the shape of the plates.

17.2.9

To obtain a high capacitance *capacitors can be connected in parallel*. This is done by connecting the plates of like charge together. Here the total capacitance C is

$$C = \sum_{i=1}^{n} C_i,$$

where C_i is the capacitance of the i-th capacitor.

17.2.10

When *capacitors are connected in series* their oppositely charged plates are connected together. The quantities added together in this case are reciprocals of the capacitance C_i of each capacitor:

$$C = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{1}{C_i}.$$

The resultant capacitance C is always less than the minimum capacitance of any capacitor in the bank. Upon a connection in series, the possibility of a breakdown (17.2.8)

of the capacitors is reduced because the potential difference across each capacitor is only a part of the total potential difference across the whole bank of capacitors.

18 Dielectrics In An Electric Field

18.1 Dipole Moments of Molecules of a Dielectric

18.1.1

Dielectrics are substances that do not conduct electric current. At not especially high temperatures and under conditions when dielectrics are not subject to very strong electric fields, these substances, in contrast to conductors, have no carriers of electric current.

18.1.2

The molecules of a dielectric are electrically neutral and contain an equal number of positive and negative charges. Nevertheless, the molecules do have electrical properties. As a first approximation, a molecule of a dielectric can be regarded as a dipole having the electric dipole moment $\mathbf{p}_e = q\mathbf{l}$ (15.2.3), where q is the magnitude of the total positive (and also total negative) charges, located, respectively,

at the centres of gravity of the charges, **l** is the distance between the centres of gravity of the positive and negative charges. As any dipole, a molecule of matter sets up an electric held in the surrounding space (15.2.3).

18.1.3

A dielectric is said to be *nonpolar* (a *nonpolar dielectric*) if the electrons of the atoms in its molecules are arranged symmetrically with respect to their nuclei (H_2, O_2, CCl_4, etc.). In such molecules the centres of gravity of the positive and negative charges coincide when there is no external electric held [$l = 0$ (18.1.2)] and the dipole moment $\mathbf{p}_e$ of the molecule is equal to zero. When a nonpolar dielectric is placed into an external electric held, the electron shells (**??**) in the atoms (or molecules) are deformed and the centres of gravity of the positive and negative charges are displaced with respect to each other ($l \neq 0$). At this an *induced electric dipole moment* appears in atoms (or molecules) of the dielectric. This moment is proportional to the strength **E** of the external electric held:

$$\mathbf{p}_e = \varepsilon_0 \alpha \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$\mathbf{p}_e = \alpha \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in cgse units.)}$$

where α is the *polarizability* of the molecule (or atom) and ε_0 is the electric constant in SI units (14.2.7).

The polarizability of a molecule depends only on its volume. It is important that α does not depend upon temperature. The thermal motion of the molecules in non-polar dielectrics has no effect on the induction of dipole mo-

ments in them. Molecules with such dipole moments are like *quasi-elastic (induced)* dipoles.

18.1.4

A *polar dielectric* is one in which the molecules (or atoms) have electrons arranged asymmetrically with respect to their nuclei (H_2O, HCl, NH_3, CH_3Cl, etc.). In such molecules the centres of gravity of the positive and negative charges do not coincide, but are at a practically constant distance I from each other. With respect to electrical properties, molecules of polar dielectrics are like *rigid dipoles* that have a *permanent dipole moment* $\mathbf{p}_e = \text{const}$.

18.1.5

A *permanent dipole* placed in a homogeneous external electrostatic field is subject to the action of a force couple (4.1.6) with the moment of force (torque) $\mathbf{M}$ equal to $\mathbf{M} = \mathbf{p}_e \times \mathbf{E}$.

The moment $\mathbf{M}$ of the force couple is perpendicular to the plane passing through vectors $\mathbf{p}_e$ and $\mathbf{E}$. From the tip of vector $\mathbf{M}$ rotation through the smaller angle from vectors $\mathbf{p}_e$ to $\mathbf{E}$ is seen to he counterclockwise. In Figure 18.1 the moment of force $\mathbf{M}$ is directed normal to the diagram into the page and tends to turn the dipole so that $\mathbf{p}_e$ and $\mathbf{E}$ are parallel to each other. In real molecules of polar dielectrics, the molecules are deformed in addition to the turning of the dipole axes into alignment with the field. This leads to the induction of a certain dipole moment (18.1.3).

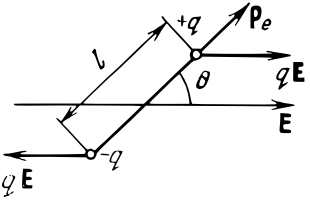


Figure 18.1.: A permanent dipole.

18.1.6

When a permanent dipole is placed into a non-homogeneous electric field, in which the field strength **E** varies along the length l of the dipole, then, in addition to the torque **M** (18.1.5), the dipole is subject to force **F**, which is equal to

$$\mathbf{F} = p_e \frac{\partial E}{\partial l},$$

or, in the more general form:

$$\mathbf{F} = p_{ex} \frac{\partial \mathbf{E}}{\partial x} + p_{ey} \frac{\partial \mathbf{E}}{\partial y} + p_{ez} \frac{\partial \mathbf{E}}{\partial z},$$

where p_{ex}, p_{ey} and p_{ez} are the projections of vector $\mathbf{p}_e$ on the axes of a Cartesian coordinate system. In particular, if vector **E** is directed along the OX axis and depends only on the coordinate x: $[E_x = E(x),\ E_y = E_z = 0$ and $\mathbf{E} = E_x \hat{\mathbf{i}}]$, then By the action of force **F** a free permanent dipole tends to move to a region of highest field strength.

18.1.7

The potential energy E_p of a permanent dipole in an external electric field is

$$E_p = -\mathbf{p}_e \, \mathbf{E} = -p_e E \cos\theta,$$

where $\mathbf{p}_e$ is the electric dipole moment, **E** is the field strength at the point where the dipole is located and θ is the angle be tween the dipole axis and vector **E**. The minus sign indicates that the stable portion of the dipole corresponds to the angle $\theta = 0$, at which the potential energy of the

dipole has its minimum value and vector $\mathbf{p}_e$ is directed along vector **E**.

18.2 Polarization of Dielectrics

18.2.1

When a polar dielectric (**??**) is not in an external electric field, the vectors of its dipole moments are chaotically oriented as a result of the random thermal motion of the molecules. Consequently, the sum of the dipole moments of all the molecules is equal to zero in any physically infinitesimal volume ΔV.[3]

No dipole moments of the molecules whatsoever can be induced (18.1.3) in a non-polar dielectric that is not in an external electric field.

[3] Here $\Delta V / ggv_0$, where v_0 is the volume of a single molecule, and an immense number of molecules are contained in volume ΔV.

18.2.2

When a *dielectric* is placed in an external electric field, it *is polarized*. This means that in any element of volume ΔV, the total dipole moment of its molecules is no longer equal to zero. A dielectric in such a state is said to be polarized (*polarized dielectric*). In accordance with the structure of the molecules (or atoms), distinction is made between the following three types of polarization:

(a) *Orientation polarization* of polar dielectrics (18.1.4). The external electric field tends to align the dipole moments of the permanent dipoles along the direction of the field (18.1.5). This is hindered by the random

thermal motion of the molecules which tends to disarrange the dipoles arbitrarily. The combined action of the field and thermal motion results in preferred orientation of the electric dipole moments along the field. This polarization increases with the strength of the electric field and with a drop in temperature.

(b) *Electronic polarization* in non-polar dielectrics (18.1.3). In the molecules of dielectrics of this type dipole moments directed along the field are induced (18.1.3) by the action of the external electric field. The thermal motion of the molecules has no effect on electronic polarization. In gaseous and liquid dielectrics, electronic polarization takes place practically simultaneously with orientational polarization.

(c) *Ionic polarization* in solid dielectrics having ionic crystal lattices (**??**), such as NaCl and CsCl. The external electric field causes displacement of all the positive ions in the direction of the field strength **E** and all the negative ions in the opposite direction.

18.2.3

A quantitative measure of the polarization of a dielectric is the polarization vector $\mathbf{P}_e$. The *polarization vector* (or simply the *polarization*) is the ratio of the electric dipole moment of a small volume ΔV of the dielectric to this volume:

$$\mathbf{P}_e = \frac{1}{\Delta V} \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbf{p}_{ei},$$

where $\mathbf{p}_{ei}$ is the electric dipole moment of the i-th molecule, and n is the total number of molecules in the volume ΔV. This volume should be so small that the electric field (15.1.2) within it can be assumed uniform. At the same time, the number n of molecules in it should be sufficiently large to allow statistical methods of investigation (8.2.2) to be applied.

18.2.4

For a homogeneous non-polar dielectric (18.1.3) in a uniform electric field

$$\mathbf{P}_e = n_0\, \mathbf{p}_e,$$

where n_0 is the number of molecules in unit volume, and $\mathbf{p}_e$ is the dipole moment of a single molecule. Making use of the formula for $\mathbf{p}_e$, (18.1.3) we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{P}_e &= n_0 \varepsilon_0 \alpha \mathbf{E} = \varepsilon_0 \chi_e \mathbf{E} && \text{(in SI units)}, \\ \mathbf{P}_e &= n_0 \alpha \mathbf{E} = \chi_e \mathbf{E} && \text{(in cgse units)}, \end{aligned}$$

where $\chi_e = n_0 \alpha$ is the *dielectric* (or *electric*) *susceptibility of the substance*.

18.2.5

For a homogeneous polar dielectric (18.1.4) in a uniform electric field, $\mathbf{P}_e = n_0 \langle \mathbf{p}_e \rangle$, where $\langle \mathbf{p}_e \rangle$ is the average value of the component along the field of the permanent dipole moment of the molecule. When a polar dielectric is in a

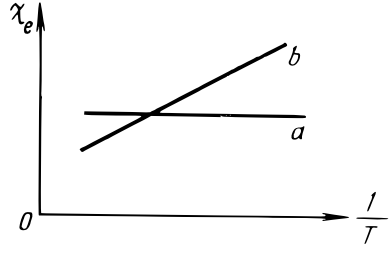


Figure 18.2.: Dependence of χ_e the susceptibility of the substance on absolute temperature on (a) non-polar and (b) polar molecules.

weak external electric field, the dielectric susceptibility is calculated by the *Debye-Langevin formula*:

$$\chi_e = \frac{n_0 p_e^2}{3\varepsilon_0 kT} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\chi_e = \frac{n_0 p_e^2}{3kT} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

Here k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5), and T is the absolute temperature. The remaining notation is given in (18.1.3). Shown in Figure 18.2 is the dependence $\chi_e = \chi_e(1/T)$ for non polar (a) and for polar (b) molecules. The straight line (b) does not pass through the origin of coordinates because orientational and electronic polarization (18.2.2) usually occur in polar molecules and the dielectric susceptibility consists of two parts: $\chi_e = \chi'_e + \chi''_e$ where χ'_e and χ''_e are expressed by the equations in Sections (18.2.4) and (18.2.5).

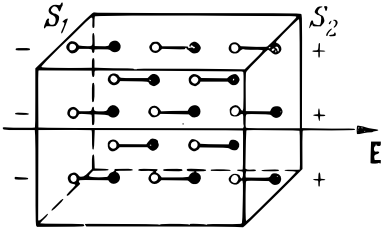


Figure 18.3.: The mutual compensation of the dipole charges of opposite sign alongside one another.

18.2.6

If a dielectric is in a uniform electric field, the electrical neutrality of any volume ΔV of the dielectric, containing a sufficiently large number of molecules, is provided for by the mutual compensation of the dipole charges of opposite sign alongside one another (Figure 18.3). In the thin layers at surfaces S_1 and S_2 of the dielectric, bounding its volume, *surface-bound polarization* charges appear as a result of the polarization of the dielectric. At the surface where the lines of force (15.1.6) of the external electric field enter the dielectric, negative charges of the ends of the dipole molecules appear. Positive charges appear at the opposite

surface. The surface density (15.2.3) σ_p of the polarization charges is calculated by the formula

$$\sigma_p = P_{en},$$

where P_{en} is the projection of vector $\mathbf{P}_e$ on the outward normal to the surface of the dielectric.

In a nonuniform electric field, the polarization of a dielectric is also nonuniform and the polarization vector $\mathbf{P}_e$ depends upon the coordinates. Hence, in addition to surface-bound charges, space polarization charges also appear. These are distributed with the volume charge density (15.2.3) ρ_p:

$$\rho_p = -\nabla \cdot \mathbf{P}_{en},$$

where $\nabla \cdot \mathbf{P}_{en} = \partial P_{ex}/\partial x + \partial P_{ey}/\partial y + \partial P_{ez}/\partial z$ is the divergence of the polarization vector.

18.3 Relation Between Displacement, Field Strength and Polarization Vectors

18.3.1

Distinction is made in substances between two kinds of charges: free and bound.

Bound charges are those included in the composition of atoms and molecules, as well as the charges of ions in crystalline solids with an ionic lattice (**??**). Charges not bound to the aforementioned particles of matter are said to be free. *Free charges* include:

(a) current-conducting charges in conducting media [conduction electrons in metals and semiconductors (16.4.1),

holes in semiconductors (**??**), ions in electrolytes and gases],

(b) surplus charges that are transmitted to a body by various means and violate its electrical neutrality. An example are charges imparted from outside onto the surface of a dielectric.

18.3.2

Generally, an electric held is set up in a dielectric by both free and bound charges. The held strength vector **E** characterizes the resultant held in the dielectric, set up by the two kinds of charges, and depends upon its electrical properties: the relative permittivity (dielectric constant) ε_r (14.2.4). But the primary source of an electric held in a dielectric is the free charges. As a matter of fact, a field of bound charges is set up in a dielectric as a result of its polarization when it is placed in an external electric held set up by free electric charges.

18.3.3

The information contained in Sections (18.3.1) and (18.3.2) call for a certain revision of the Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem (15.3.3). The algebraic sum of the charges $\sum_{i=1}^{k} q_i$, on the right hand side of the theorem is to be regarded as the algebraic sum of the free electric charges enclosed by surface S, i.e.

$$\sum_{i=1}^{k} q_i = q_{\text{free}},$$

and the theorem is then of the form

$$\oint_S \mathbf{D}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \oint_S D_n\,\mathrm{d}S = q_{\text{free}} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\oint_S \mathbf{D}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \oint_S D_n\,\mathrm{d}S = 4\pi q_{\text{free}} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

In this form the Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem is valid for an electric field either in homogeneous and isotropic or in non-homogeneous and anisotropic media (cf. (15.3.3)).

18.3.4

For an electric field in vacuum

$$\mathbf{D} = \varepsilon_0 \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{D} = \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

The flux of the field strength vector **E** through an arbitrary closed surface S in vacuum is

$$\oint_S \varepsilon_0 E_n\,\mathrm{d}S = q_{\text{free}} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\oint_S E_n\,\mathrm{d}S = 4\pi q_{\text{free}} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

In accordance with Section (18.3.2), the flux of vector **E** for a field in a substance is

$$\oint_S \varepsilon_0 E_n \, \mathrm{d}S = q_{\text{free}} + q_{\text{bound}} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\oint_S E_n \, \mathrm{d}S = 4\pi(q_{\text{free}} + q_{\text{bound}}) \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

The sum of bound charges q_{bound} within closed surface S is calculated by the equation

$$q_{\text{bound}} = -\oint_S P_{en} \, \mathrm{d}S,$$

where P_{en} is the projection of the polarization vector on the outward normal to surface $\mathrm{d}S$. Hence

$$\oint_S (\varepsilon_0 E_n + P_{en}) \, \mathrm{d}S = q_{\text{free}} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\oint_S (E_n + 4\pi P_{en}) \, \mathrm{d}S = 4\pi q_{\text{free}} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

A correlation with the general formulation of the Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem (18.3.3) enables a relation to be established between vectors **D**, **E** and $\mathbf{P}_e$:

$$D_n = \varepsilon_0 E_n + P_{en} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$D_n = E_n + 4\pi P_{en} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

or, by virtue of the arbitrary nature of outward normal

$$\mathbf{D} = \varepsilon_0 \mathbf{E} + \mathbf{P}_{en} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$\mathbf{D} = \mathbf{E} + 4\pi \mathbf{P}_{en} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

These formulas are generalizations of the formulas in Section (15.3.1). Making use of the results obtained in Section (18.2.3), we have for an isotropic homogeneous medium

$$\mathbf{D} = \varepsilon_0 \mathbf{E} + \varepsilon_0 \chi_e \mathbf{E} = \varepsilon_0 (1 + \chi_e) \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$\mathbf{D} = \mathbf{E} + 4\pi \chi_e \mathbf{E} = (1 + 4\pi \chi_e) \mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

Consequently,

$$\mathbf{D} = \varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r \mathbf{E}, \text{ where } \varepsilon_r = 1 + \chi_e \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$\mathbf{D} = \varepsilon_r \mathbf{E}, \text{ where } \varepsilon_r = 1 + 4\pi \chi_e \qquad \text{(in cgse units)}.$$

The quantity ε_r is the relative permittivity (dielectric constant) (cf. (14.2.4)).

For vacuum $\varepsilon_r = 1$ and $\chi_e = 0$.

The concept of ε_r introduced in Section (14.2.4) has a meaning only for isotropic homogeneous media.

18.4 Ferroelectric Materials

18.4.1

Ferroelectrics belong to a group of crystalline dielectrics. The first substance of this type to be investigated was Seignettes salt (potassium sodium tartrate) $NaKC_4H_4O_6 - 4\,H_2O$ and, consequently, they are sometimes called seignette-electrics. An other example of a ferroelectric is barium titanate $BaTiO_3$.

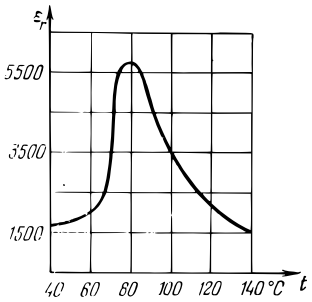


Figure 18.4.: Dependence of relative permittivity on temperature in ferroelectrics.

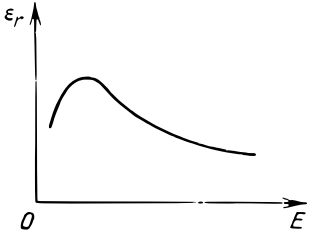


Figure 18.5.: Dependence of relative permittivity and the dielectric susceptibility on the field strength in ferroelectrics.

Typical of ferroelectrics is a drastic increase in the relative permittivity (dielectric constant) (14.2.4) in a definite temperature range (Figure 18.4).

18.4.2

The relative permittivity ε_r and the dielectric susceptibility χ_e (18.2.4) of ferroelectrics are functions of the field strength **E** in the substance (Figure 18.5). As a result, no linear relation between vectors $\mathbf{P}_e$ and **E** is observed in those substances. The dependence of the electric displacement **D** on the field strength is of a complex nature and a linear relation between **D** and **E** exists only at very high **E** values (Figure 18.6).

18.4.3

A monocrystal of a ferroelectric is divided into spontaneously polarized regions, called *domains* (cf. (**??**)). This *spontaneous polarization* of the domains is a result of the orientation of the dipole moments of the molecules in the domain in a definite direction. In the absence of an external electric field, the polarization vectors of the various domains are directed at random and for a large monocrystal or a polycrystal the total polarization is equal, on an average, to zero. When a ferroelectric is placed in an electric field, the electric moments of the domains are reoriented and the crystal acquires a total polarization not equal to zero.

18.4.4

Domains are formed in ferroelectrics within a definite temperature range, between the upper and lower *Curie points* θ_C^{up} and θ_C^{low} (cf. (**??**)). For Seignettes salt (also called Rochelle salt) (18.4.1), $\theta_C^{up} = 298\,\text{K}$ and $\theta_C^{up} = 258\,\text{K}$. At $T \geqslant \theta_C^{up}$ the forces of interaction between the dipoles cannot resist the thermal motion, the spontaneous polarization of the domains is violated and the ferroelectric is converted into an ordinary polar dielectric. The drastic increase in heat capacity of the substance indicates that a second-order phase transition (12.4.2)) occurs at the Curie point. A disordered phase exists above the Curie point θ_C^{up} and the dielectric is not polarized in the absence of an external field. At $T < \theta_C^{up}$ there is an ordered phase indicated by the spontaneous polarization in the domains.[4]

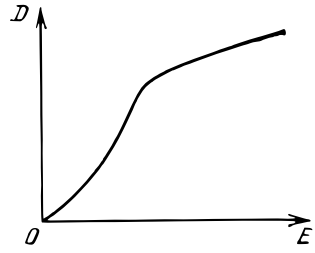


Figure 18.6.: The dependence of the electric displacement **D** on the field strength in ferroelectrics.

[4] A discussion of the phenomena that occur in ferroelectrics at $T = \theta_C^{low}$ and lead to the destruction of the domains is beyond the scope of the present handbook.

18.4.5

The phenomenon of *dielectric*, or *ferromagnetic, hysteresis* (lag) is observed in ferroelectrics. As is evident from Figure 18.7, with an increase in the strength of the external field, the magnitude of vector $\mathbf{P}_e$ increases and reaches saturation at point a. Then, as E is reduced to zero, a ferroelectric has *remanent polarization*, characterized by the value of the polarization vector $\mathbf{P}_{e0}$. Polarization completely disappears only after applying a depolarization electric field of the strength $-\mathbf{E}_c$ in the opposite direction. This is called the *coercive force*. Periodic reversal of polarization of a ferromagnetic material is accompanied by the consumption of electric energy, spent in heating the sub stance. The area

of the hysteresis loop is proportional to the electric energy that is converted into internal energy per unit volume of the ferroelectric per cycle.

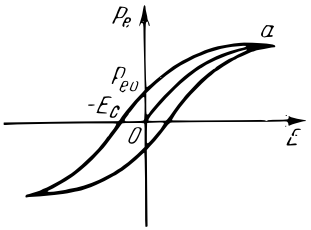


Figure 18.7.: The phenomenon of dielectric, or ferromagnetic, hysteresis in ferroelectrics.

19 Energy Of An Electric Field

19.1 Energy of a Charged Conductor and an Electric Field

[5]

19.1.1

The charging of an electric conductor requires the performance of work that must be done in overcoming the Coulomb forces of repulsion between like charges. This work increases the electrical energy of a charged conductor in the same sense as the potential energy in mechanics (3.3.1). The work δW done in bringing a charge $\mathrm{d}q$ from infinity to the conductor is

$$\delta W = V\,\mathrm{d}q = CV\,\mathrm{d}V,$$

where C and V are the capacitance and potential of the conductor.

[5] It is assumed in this chapter that the electric charges and charged bodies are in an isotropic, homogeneous, nonferromagnetic (18.4.1) medium.

The work required to charge a conductor from zero potential to the potential V is

$$W = \int_0^V CV \, \mathrm{d}V = \frac{CV^2}{2}.$$

Correspondingly, the energy of a *charged isolated conductor* (*intrinsic energy of a charged conductor*) is

$$E_e = \frac{CV^2}{2} = \frac{q^2}{2C} = \frac{1}{2} Vq.$$

The *energy of a charged capacitor* is

$$E_e = \frac{C(\Delta V)^2}{2} = \frac{q^2}{2C} = \frac{1}{2} \Delta V q.$$

where C and q are the capacitance and charge of the capacitor, and ΔV is the potential difference between oppositely charged plates of the capacitor.

19.1.2

The energy of a system of charges, distributed continuously throughout the volume of a dielectric or vacuum, and along the surfaces of charged conductors and an electrified dielectric, is

$$E = \frac{1}{2} \int_{S_{\text{char}}} V\sigma \, \mathrm{d}S = \frac{1}{2} \int_{v_{\text{char}}} V\rho \, \mathrm{d}v,$$

where σ and ρ are the surface and volume density of free charges, V is the potential of the resultant held of all the surface and volume charges at the points of the elements $\mathrm{d}S$

or dv of the charged surface or volume (to avoid confusion, volume is denoted here by the lower-case v). Integration is carried out over all charged surfaces S_{char} and throughout all charged volumes v_{char}. The effect of the dielectric is that with a constant distribution of the free charges the values of V differ for the different dielectrics. Thus, in a homogeneous isotropic dielectric that fills the whole field, S_{char} is ε_r-fold less than in vacuum.

19.1.3

The intrinsic energy of a charged conductor is, at the same time, the *energy* of its *electrostatic field*. Hence, for the uniform electrostatic field (15.1.3) of a parallel-plate capacitor (17.2.5) we have

$$E_e = \frac{1}{2}(\Delta V)^2 C = \frac{\varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r E^2}{2} Sd = \frac{\varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r E^2}{2} v \quad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$E_e == \frac{\varepsilon_r E^2}{8\pi} v \quad \text{(in cgse units).}$$

where $v = Sd$ is the volume of the electrostatic field between the capacitor plates. The energy of the field is proportional to its volume, and the energy per unit volume of the electrostatic field, called the *volume energy density* E_e^d at all points of a uniform field: is the same

$$E_e^d = \frac{E_e}{v} = \frac{\varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r E^2}{2} = \frac{ED}{2} \quad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$E_e^d = \frac{E_e}{v} = \frac{\varepsilon_r E^2}{8\pi} = \frac{ED}{8\pi} \quad \text{(in cgse units).}$$

19.1.4

In the case of nonuniform electrostatic fields, set up by arbitrary charged bodies, the volume energy density at each point of an isotropic medium is expressed by the formulas in the preceding subsection. But when the medium is electrically anisotropic, the volume energy density of the electric field is

$$E_e^d = \frac{1}{2}\,\mathbf{D}\,\mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in SI units.)}$$

$$E_e^d = \frac{1}{8\pi}\,\mathbf{D}\,\mathbf{E} \qquad \text{(in cgse units).}$$

19.1.5

The energy $\mathrm{d}E_e$ of an infinitesimal volume of an arbitrary electrostatic field in an isotropic medium is

$$\mathrm{d}E_e = E_e^d\,\mathrm{d}v = \frac{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r E^2}{2}\,\mathrm{d}v \quad \text{(in SI units).}$$

The total energy E_e of an electrostatic field is

$$E_e = \int_{v_{\text{field}}} \frac{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r E^2}{2}\,\mathrm{d}v$$

where integration is carried out throughout the whole volume v_{field} of the field.

19.1.6

The total energy of an electrostatic field set up by an arbitrary charged body is equal to the intrinsic energy of the

body (19.1.1):

$$E_e = \frac{CV^2}{2} = \int_{v_{\text{field}}} \frac{\varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r E^2}{2}\, \mathrm{d}v$$

This equation can be generalized for the case of an electrostatic field set up by an arbitrary system of charges. The total energy of such a system (19.1.2) coincides with the total energy of the electrostatic field set up by this system of charges:

$$\int_{v_{\text{field}}} E_e^d \, \mathrm{d}v = \frac{1}{2} \int_{s_{\text{char}}} V\sigma \, \mathrm{d}S + \frac{1}{2} \int_{v_{\text{char}}} V\rho \, \mathrm{d}v.$$

19.2 Energy of a Polarized Dielectric

19.2.1

The process of polarizing a homogeneous isotropic dielectric, placed in an external electric field, is accompanied by work done in deforming the electron shells in the atoms and molecules or in turning the dipole axes of the molecules into alignment with the field strength. Therefore, a polarized dielectric has a margin of electric energy.

19.2.2

The volume energy density of a polarized dielectric at a point with the field strength **E** equals:

$$\mathrm{d}E_{e\ \text{diel}}^d = \frac{\varepsilon_0(\varepsilon_r - 1)}{2} E^2 \quad \text{(in SI units).}$$

The volume energy density of a field with the same strength **E** in vacuum is

$$\mathrm{d}E^d_{e\ \mathrm{vac}} = \frac{\varepsilon_0 E^2}{2}.$$

The volume energy density of a field in a dielectric is $E^d_e = \varepsilon_0 \varepsilon_r E^2/2$, and according to the energy conservation law it equals

$$E^d_e = E^d_{e\ \mathrm{vac}} + E^d_{e\ \mathrm{diel}}.$$

20 Direct Electric Current

20.1 Concept of an Electric Current

20.1.1

Electrodynamics is the main branch of the science of electricity that deals with the phenomena and processes involved in the motion of electric charges or macroscopic charged bodies. The most vital concept in electrodynamics is that of electric current.

20.1.2

An *electric current* is any ordered motion of electric charges. An electric current produced in conductive media as the result of the ordered motion of free charges by the action of an electric field is called *conduction current*. Examples of conduction currents are the currents in metals and semiconductors, associated with the ordered motion of "free" electrons, and currents in electrolytes, which are the ordered displacement of ions of opposite signs.

A *convection current* is the ordered motion in space of charged macroscopic bodies. An example of such a current is that associated with the motion of the earth, having a surplus negative charge, along its orbit.

20.1.3

Upon ordered motion of electric charges in a conductor, the equilibrium distribution of charges is violated and the surface of the conductor is no longer an equipotential surface (16.4.3). On the surface of the conductor there is a tangential component of the field strength ($E_\tau \neq 0$) and there should be an electric field inside the conductor (cf. (16.4.3)). The electric current continues until all the points of the conductor become equipotential.

20.1.4

The conditions required for the initiation and existence of an electric current in a conducting medium are as follows:

(a) The availability of free *current carriers* – charged particles – in the medium, capable of ordered motion in it. In metals and semiconductors suitable particles are the conduction electrons (16.4.1); in liquid conductors (electrolytes) they are the positive and negative ions; in gases they are the oppositely charged ions and electrons.

(b) The existence in the given medium of an external electric field whose energy is spent in providing ordered motion of tin; electric charges. To maintain an

electric current, the energy of the electric field must be continuously replenished, i.e. *a source of electric energy* is required. This is a device that converts some kind of energy into the energy of an electric field.

20.1.5

The direction of ordered motion of the positive electric charges is conventionally taken as the direction of the electric current. As a matter of fact, in metallic conductors the current consists of the ordered motion of electrons, which move in the direction opposite to that of the current.

20.2 Current and Current Density

20.2.1

The *current strength* (or simply the *current*) I is a scalar quantity, the rate of flow of electricity. It is equal to the ratio of the charge $\mathrm{d}q$, conveyed through the surface[6] being considered during a small interval of time, to the amount of this time $\mathrm{d}t$:

$$I = \frac{\mathrm{d}q}{\mathrm{d}t}.$$

[6] In the case of conduction current, through the cross section of the conductor.

An electric current is said to be *direct* (*direct electric current*) if its magnitude and direction remain constant with time. For direct current

$$I = \frac{q}{t},$$

where q is the electric charge conveyed through the surface[7] being considered during the finite time interval from 0 to t.

[7] See the note above.

20.2.2

If the current is a direct one, the charges cannot accumulate or be depleted at any part of the conductor. A direct current circuit should be closed and comply with the condition $Q_{S_1} = Q_{S_2}$ where Q_{S_1} the total electric charge passing in unit time through surface S_1 into the volume of the conductor enclosed between the cross sections S_1 and S_2 and Q_{S_2} is the total electric charge emerging from this volume in unit time through surface S_2.

20.2.3

The current density determines the current direction at various points of the surface being considered and the distribution of the current over this surface. The *current density vector* $\mathbf{j}$ is opposite in direction to the motion of the electrons that carry the current in metals[8] and is numerically equal to the ratio of the current $\mathrm{d}I$ through an element of surface normal to the motion of the charged particles to the quantity $\mathrm{d}S'$, which is the area of this element of surface:

$$I = \frac{\mathrm{d}I}{\mathrm{d}S'}.$$

A more general relation between the current density $\mathbf{j}$ and an element of current $\mathrm{d}I$ is

$$\mathrm{d}I = \mathbf{j}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{S},$$

where $\mathbf{S} = \hat{\mathbf{n}}\,\mathrm{d}S$ is the vector of an element of surface, and $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ is the unit vector of the normal to surface $\mathrm{d}S$ and makes angle α with vector $\mathbf{j}$.

[8] In other conducting media vector $\mathbf{j}$ coincides in direction with that of the positively charged current carrier.

20.2.4

The current through an arbitrary surface S is

$$I = \int_S \mathbf{j}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{S} = \int_S j_n\,\mathrm{d}S,$$

where $j_n = j\cos\alpha$ is the projection of vector $\mathbf{j}$ on the direction of normal $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ (20.2.3), and integration is carried out over the whole area of surface S. If the conduction current is being calculated on the basis of the cross section of the conductor for which $j_n = j$, then

$$I = \int_S j\,\mathrm{d}S.$$

20.2.5

The density of direct current is the same over the whole cross section S of a homogeneous conductor. Here

$$I = j\,S.$$

In a direct current circuit, the current density of two cross sections S_1 and S_2 is inversely proportional to the cross-sectional areas:

$$\frac{j_1}{j_2} = \frac{S_2}{S_1}.$$

20.3 Fundamentals of the Classical Electron Theory of Electrical Conduction in Metals

20.3.1

The high electrical conduction of metals is due to the fact that metals contain an immense number of current carriers, the *conduction electrons*, which are formed of the valence electrons (**??**) of the atoms of metal. These electrons do not belong to any definite atom, but are *collective electrons*. According to the classical Drude-Lorentz electron theory, these electrons are regarded as an electron gas (16.4.1) that possesses all the properties of a monoatomic ideal gas (8.4.1).

The number of conduction electrons in unit volume of a monovalent metal is

$$n_0 = \frac{N_A}{m_a}\rho,$$

where N_A is Avogadros number (Appendix II), m_a is the atomic mass of the metal and ρ is its density. In order of magnitude $n_0 \approx (10^{28} \text{to } 10^{29})\ 1/\text{m}^3$.

In the absence of an electric held inside the metal the conduction electrons move at random and collide with the ions of the crystal lattice of the metal (**??**). It is assumed that the mean free path ($\langle\lambda\rangle$) of the electron (10.5.1) should be of the order of magnitude of crystal lattice constants of the metal, i.e. $\langle\lambda\rangle \approx 10^{-10}$ m.

The average kinetic energy of thermal motion of the electrons (10.2.4) is

$$\frac{mv_{\text{rms}}^2}{2} = \frac{3}{2}kT,$$

where m is the mass and v_{rms} is the root-mean-square velocity of the electrons (10.2.3). At the temperature $T = 273\,\text{K}$,

the velocity $v_{\text{rms}} \approx 10^3\,\text{m/s}$.

The arithmetic mean velocity $\langle u \rangle$ of thermal motion of the electrons (10.3.6) is of the same order of magnitude.

20.3.2

Electric current in a metal is initiated by the action of the external electric held (20.1.4), which leads to ordered motion of the electrons. The current density $\mathbf{j}$ is equal to the charge of all the electrons that pass in unit time through unit area of the conductors cross section,

$$\mathbf{j} = n_0 e \langle \mathbf{v} \rangle ,$$

where n_0 is the number of conduction electrons per unit volume, e is the magnitude of the charge of the electron, and $\langle \mathbf{v} \rangle$ is the average velocity of ordered motion of the electrons due to the action of the external field. At the highest current densities $\langle \mathbf{v} \rangle$ is $10^{-4}\,\text{m/s}$ and is negligibly small compared to the thermal velocities of the electrons (20.3.1).

20.3.3

A steady electric current is established in a circuit in the time $t = L/c$, where L is the length of the circuit and c is the velocity of light in vacuum. The time t coincides with the time required to establish a steady-state electric field along the circuit and the initiation of ordered motion of the electrons along the whole circuit. Therefore, electric current is started practically simultaneously with the closing of the circuit.

20.3.4

Ohm's law for current density (Ohm's law in differential form) is

$$\mathbf{j} = \varkappa \mathbf{E} = \frac{1}{\rho}\mathbf{E}.$$

The current density in a conductor is the product of the *electrical conductivity* $\varkappa$ by the electric field strength $\mathbf{E}$. The quantity $\rho = 1/\varkappa$ is called the *electrical resistivity*.

According to the classical electron theory, electrical conductivity and resistivity arc calculated by the formulas

$$\varkappa = \frac{n_0 e^2 \langle \lambda \rangle}{2m \langle u \rangle} \quad \text{and} \quad \rho = \frac{2m \langle u \rangle}{n_0 e^2 \langle \lambda \rangle},$$

where n_0 is the number of electrons in unit volume of the metal, $\langle u \rangle$ is the mean free path of the electron (10.5.1), $\langle u \rangle$ is the arithmetic mean velocity of thermal motion of the electrons (10.3.6), and e and m are the magnitude of the charge of the electron and its mass.

20.3.5

By the action of the field the electron acquires a velocity equal to $v_{\max}$ at the end of its mean free path. Upon collision with an ion at this point, the electron loses its velocity and the energy of ordered motion of the electron is converted into internal energy of the conductor, which is heated as the current passes through.

The *volume density E_h^d of the heating capacity of a current* is the amount of energy generated in unit volume of a

conductor in unit time. The *Joule-Lenz law* for the volume density of the healing capacity of a current is

$$E_h^d = \mathbf{j}\,\mathbf{E} = \varkappa E^2 = \frac{1}{\rho}E^2.$$

The *Joule-Lenz law in its differential form* states: the volume density of the heating capacity of a current is equal to the scalar product of the current density vector by the electric held strength vector.

The volume density of the heating capacity of a current is independent of the kind of collisions of the electrons with the crystal lattice points [elastic or inelastic collision (3.5.3)]. It follows from the laws of conservation of energy and momentum that the energy, ΔE transmitted to the ion upon a collision of the electron with an ion, is only a small part of the electrons energy E_{el}. In an inelastic collision

$$\frac{\Delta E}{E_{el}} = \frac{m}{m+M},$$

whereas in an elastic collision

$$\frac{\Delta E}{E_{el}} = \frac{4mM}{(m+M)^2},$$

where m is the mass of the electron and M is the mass of the ion. Practically, in either case,

$$\frac{\Delta E}{E_{el}} \approx \frac{m}{M} \approx 10^{-4}.$$

20.3.6

The *Wiedemann-Franz law* states that for all metals the ratio of the thermal conductivity K (10.8.5) to the electrical conductivity $\varkappa$ is directly proportional to the absolute temperature T:

$$\frac{K}{\varkappa} \approx 3 \left(\frac{k}{e}\right)^2 T,$$

where k is Boltzmanns constant (8.4.5) and e is the charge of the electron.

20.3.7

The classical electron theory of electrical conduction of metals has the following shortcomings:

(a) it cannot explain the experimentally observed linear relation, in a wide temperature range, between the resistivity ρ and the absolute temperature: $\rho \propto T$.

(b) it yields an incorrect value for the molar heat capacity of metals. This should be equal, according to this theory, to $9\,\mathrm{cal}/(\mathrm{mol\,K})$ and be the sum of the heat capacity of the ionic crystal lattice ($6\,\mathrm{cal}/(\mathrm{mol\,K})$) and the heat capacity of the monoatomic electron gas ($3\,\mathrm{cal}/(\mathrm{mol\,K})$). It is known, however, from the experimentally established Dulong and Petit law (**??**) that the molar heat capacity of metals differs only slightly from that of other solids and is approximately $6\,\mathrm{cal}/(\mathrm{mol\,K})$. It is impossible on the basis of classical theory to explain the absence of an electron component of heat capacity of metals;

(c) the experimental value of the resistivity ρ and the theoretical value of the arithmetic mean velocity $\langle u \rangle$ of the electrons lead, in formulas of Section (20.3.4), to a value of the mean free path $\langle \lambda \rangle$ of the electron that exceeds the crystal lattice constant of the metal by two orders of magnitude. This contradicts the assumptions of the classical electron theory of the electrical conduction of metals.

21 Direct Electric Current

21.1 Extraneous Forces

21.1.1

A metallic conductor has an electrostatic held that is set up by the electrons and positive ions of the crystal lattice. This is a held of Coulomb forces (14.2.2). Coulomb interaction between the charges in a metal leads to such an equilibrium distribution of charges that the electric held inside the conductor equals zero and the whole conductor is equipotential (16.4.3). Consequently, an electrostatic Coulomb held cannot be the cause of the steady-state process of ordered motion of electrons, i.e. it cannot generate and maintain a direct (constant) current.

21.1.2

Extraneous forces are non-electrostatic forces whose action exerted on the conduction electrons in the conductor initiates their ordered motion and maintains a direct (constant)

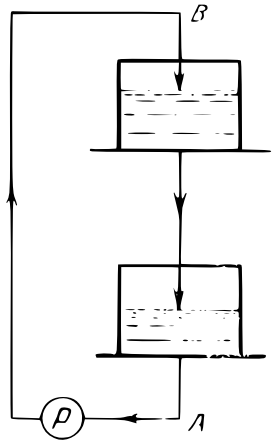


Figure 21.1.: An analogy of a hydraulic system for movement of charges.

electric current in the circuit. In contrast to Coulomb forces, extraneous forces do not join unlike charges; they lead to their separation and maintain a potential difference at the ends of the conductor.

Extraneous forces are the cause of the non-electrostatic electric held, existing in the conductor and providing for ordered motion of the charges from points with a higher potential to points with a lower potential. A steady-state electric held of extraneous forces is set up by *sources of electrical energy* (galvanic cells, electric generators, etc.).

21.1.3

In a closed hydraulic system maintaining constant liquid circulation (refer to (Figure 21.1), the liquid moves from point A to point B against the force of gravity due to the influence of external forces exerted by the pump P. The pump generates a consistent difference in hydrostatic pressure between points B and A, prompting the liquid to flow against gravity from B to A. A source of electrical energy plays a similar role in a direct current circuit. Owing to the electric field set up by extraneous forces and existing inside the source, the electric charges move within the source against the forces of the electrostatic field. This maintains a potential difference at the ends of the external circuit that is required for a direct current to flow. At the expense of the energy consumed in the source, work is done to obtain ordered motion of the electric charges.

In a direct current generator, for example, the work of the extraneous forces (21.1.2) is done at the expense of

the mechanical energy required to drive the rotor of the generator.

21.2 Ohm's Law and the Joule-Lenz Law

21.2.1

At any point inside a portion of a conductor that contains a source of electrical energy there is an electrostatic field of Coulomb forces with the strength $\mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}}$ and an electric field of extraneous forces with the strength $\mathbf{E}_{\text{extr}}$.

According to the principle of superposition of fields (15.2.2) the strength of the resultant field is

$$\mathbf{E} = \mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}} + \mathbf{E}_{\text{extr}}.$$

Ohms law for current density (20.3.4),

$$\mathbf{j} = \frac{1}{\rho}\,(\mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}} + \mathbf{E}_{\text{extr}}),$$

enables the following relation to be obtained for portion 1-2 of a homogeneous conductor of cross-sectional area S:

$$I\int_1^2 \rho\,\frac{\mathrm{d}l}{S} = \int_1^2 \mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} + \int_1^2 \mathbf{E}_{\text{extr}}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l},$$

where I is the current in the conductor, $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ is a vector with the magnitude $\mathrm{d}l$, equal to an element of conductor length, and is directed tangent to the conductor toward the current density vector, and S is the cross-sectional area of the conductor.

21.2.2

The integral $\int_1^2 \mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ is numerically equal to the work done by the Coulomb forces in moving a unit positive charge from point 1 to point 2. According to (16.3.1)

$$\int_1^2 \mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = V_1 - V_2,$$

where V_1 and V_2 are the potentials at points 1 and 2 of the conductor.

The *electromotive force* (emf) $\mathcal{E}_{12}$, acting over the portion 1-2 of the circuit, is the name given to the linear integral

$$\mathcal{E}_{12} = \int_1^2 \mathbf{E}_{\text{extr}}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}.$$

The electromotive force $\mathcal{E}_{12}$ is numerically equal to the work done by the extraneous forces in moving a unit positive charge along the conductor from point 1 to point 2. This work is done at the expense of the energy consumed in the source.

The *voltage* (or *voltage drop*) U_{12} across the portion 1-2 is the physical quantity numerically equal to the work done by the resultant field of Coulomb and extraneous forces in moving a unit positive charge along the circuit from point 1 to point 2. Thus

$$U_{12} = \int_1^2 (\mathbf{E}_{\text{Coul}} + \mathbf{E}_{\text{extr}})\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = \int_1^2 \mathbf{E}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l},$$

or

$$U_{12} = (V_1 - V_2) + \mathcal{E}_{12}.$$

The voltage across the ends of the circuit coincides with the potential difference only when no emf is applied to this portion. The integral

$$R_{12} = \int_1^2 \rho \frac{\mathrm{dl}}{S},$$

is the *resistance* R_{12} in the portion of the circuit between sections 1 and 2. For a homogeneous cylindrical conductor (wire), $\rho = \text{const}$, $S = \text{const}$

$$R_{12} = \rho \frac{l_{12}}{S},$$

where l_{12} is the length of the conductor between cross sections 1 and 2.

21.2.3

The generalized Ohm's law for an arbitrary portion of a circuit is

$$IR_{12} = U_{12} = (V_1 - V2) + \mathcal{E}_{12}.$$

The product of the current by the resistance of a portion of the circuit is equal to the potential difference across this portion plus the emf of all sources of electrical energy connected in the given portion of the circuit. In this form Ohms law is applicable both for *passive portions* of the circuit, not containing sources of electrical energy, as well as for *active portions* that contain such sources.

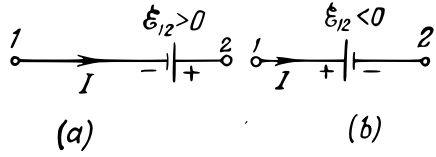


Figure 21.2.: The sign rule for emf sources of electrical energy in a circuit.

21.2.4

The *sign rule* for the emf of sources of electrical energy included in portion 1-2 states that if the current inside the source is from the cathode to the anode, i.e. the strength of the field of extraneous forces coincides in direction with the current in this portion of the circuit, then, in calculations, the emf $\mathcal{E}_{12}$ of this source is considered positive. If the current inside the source is from the anode to the cathode, the emf $\mathcal{E}_{12}$ this source is considered negative (Figure 21.2).

21.2.5

In a closed series electric circuit, the current is the same at all cross sections, and such a circuit is a portion with coinciding ends (points 1 and 2 coincide). In this circuit $V_1 - V_2$ and $R_{12} = R$, the total resistance of the whole circuit.

Ohms law for a closed electric circuit is

$$IR = \mathcal{E}$$

where $\mathcal{E}$ is the algebraic sum of all the emfs applied in the circuit.

If a closed circuit consists of a source of electrical energy with an emf $\mathcal{E}$ and internal resistance r, and the resistance of the external part of the circuit equals R, Ohms law is of the form

$$I = \frac{\mathcal{E}}{R + r}$$

The potential difference across the terminals of the source is equal to the voltage across the external part of the circuit:

$$V_1 - V_2 = RI = \mathcal{E} - Ir.$$

If the circuit is open and has no current $(I = 0)$, the potential difference across the terminals of the source is equal to its emf:

$$V_1 - V_2 = \mathcal{E}.$$

A voltmeter connected in parallel with portion 1-2 of a direct current (d.c.) electric circuit measures the potential difference across the ends of this portion, and not the voltage:

$$R_V I_V = V_1 - V_2,$$

where R_V and I_V are the resistance of the voltmeter and its current (Figure 21.3). This follows from the generalized Ohms law (21.2.3) as written for portion 1-2 of the voltmeter circuit, in which there is no emf (see also Sect. (21.3.5)).

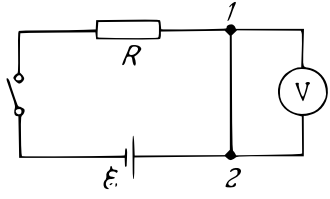


Figure 21.3.: Generalized Ohm's law for a portion of the voltmeter circuit.

21.2.6

In a d.c. electric circuit with fixed conductors, the work done by the extraneous forces is completely consumed in heating the conductors (20.3.5). The energy E, evolved in

a circuit during the time t throughout the whole volume of the conductor, is equal to E - IUt, where / is the current and U is the voltage. The quantity of heat Q ((9.2.1)) in calories, cor responding to this energy and evolved in the conductor, is

$$E = IU\,t,$$

where I is the current and U is the voltage. The quantity of heat Q (9.2.1) in calories, corresponding to this energy and evolved in the conductor, is

$$Q = 0.24\,IU\,t.$$

All the other quantities are expressed in SI units (Appendix I). The *Joule-Lenz* law states that the quantity of heat generated by current in a conductor is proportional to the current, voltage and time that the current flows. Other expressions of the Joule-Lenz law are:

$$Q = 0.24\,I^2 R\,t = 0.24\frac{U^2}{R}t.$$

21.3 Kirchhoff's Laws

21.3.1

The analysis of *complex (branched) circuits* consists in finding the currents in the various portions of the circuit in accordance with their given resistances and applied emfs.

21.3.2

A *branch point*, or *junction*, in a branched circuit, or network, is a point where there are more than two possible directions of the current (Figure 21.4).

Kirchhoff's first law (point rule) states that the algebraic sum of the currents that meet at any junction of a network equals zero:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n} I_i = 0,$$

where n is the number of conductors joined at the branch point and I_i is the current at the point. Currents flowing toward the branch point are considered positive; those flowing away are considered negative.

Kirchhoff's second law (mesh rule) states that in any closed loop (mesh of a network), arbitrarily chosen in a branched circuit (network), the algebraic sum of the products of the currents I_i by the resistances R_i of the corresponding portions of the loop is equal to the algebraic sum of the emfs in the loop. Thus

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n_1} I_i R_i = \sum_{i=1}^{n_1} \mathcal{E}_i$$

where n_1 the number of portions into which the loop is divided by branch points (junctions). In applying the mesh rule, a definite direction around the loop is chosen (either clockwise or counter clockwise). Currents coinciding in direction with the chosen one are considered positive. The emfs of the sources of electrical energy are considered pos-

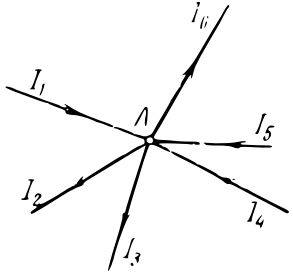


Figure 21.4.: Analysing a branched circuit.

itive if they produce currents whose direction coincides with the chosen one.

21.3.3

The following procedure is employed to analyse a complex (branched) d.c. circuit:

(a) The directions of the currents are arbitrarily assigned in all the portions of the circuit.

(b) For m branch points (junctions), $m-1$ independent equations are written on the basis of Kirchhoff's first law.

(c) Arbitrary closed loops are separated out and, alter choosing the direction for going around each loop, a system of equations is written on the basis of Kirchhoffs second law. In a branched circuit consisting of p portions (branches) between adjacent branch points and m branch points (junctions), the number of independent equations based on the mesh rule equals $p-m+1$. In selecting the loop, it is necessary for each new loop to contain at least one portion (branch) not included in the previously considered loops.

21.3.4

To *shunt an ammeter* means to connect an additional resistor R_{sh}, in parallel to the ammeter. This is done so that the ammeter, having the resistance R_0 and designed to measure a maximum current of I_0, can be applied to measure currents I that exceed current I_0 (Figure 21.5). The required

resistance of the shunt is found according to Kirchhoffs laws: $I = I_0 + I_{sh}$ and $I_0 R_0 = I_{sh} R_{sh}$ from which R_{sh} is eliminated:

$$R_{sh} = \frac{I_0 R_0}{I - I_0}$$

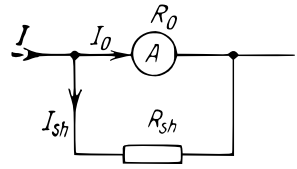


Figure 21.5.: Analysing shunting of ammeter.

21.3.5

A potential difference $V_1 - V_2 = U$ across a portion of a circuit is to be measured by a voltmeter designed for a maximum measurement of U_0 volts (21.2.5) at a maximum permissible current of I_0 (with $U_0 = I_0 R_0$)and this potential difference exceeds U_0 (i.e. $U > U_0$). This can be done by connecting an additional *resistor* R_a in series with the voltmeter (Figure 21.6). The required additional resistance is determined from the equation $U = (R_0 + R_a) I_0$, from which

$$R_a = \frac{U}{I_0} - R_0$$

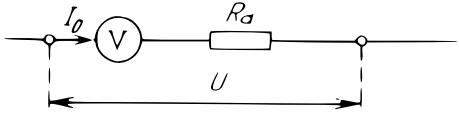


Figure 21.6.: Additional resistor for a voltmeter.

22 Electric Current In Liquids And Gases

22.1 Faraday's Laws of Electrolysis. Electrolytic Dissociation

22.1.1

Liquids are conductors of electric current (*electrolytes*, *ion conductors*) provided that ordered motion of ions can be accomplished in them by the action of an external electric fields.

The ordered motion of ions in conducting liquids takes place in an electric field set up by *electrodes*, which are conductors connected to the terminals of a source of electrical energy. The positive electrode is called the *anode*, the negative electrode, the *cathode*. Positive ions, called *cations*, are the ions of metals and hydrogen, and move toward the cathode. Negative ions, called *anions*, are the ions of acid radicals and of the hydroxyl group, and move toward the anode. Electric current in electrolytes is accompanied by

the phenomenon of *electrolysis*. This is the deposition on the electrodes, or the liberation at them, of the components of the substances contained in the electrolyte or of other substances produced by secondary reactions.

22.1.2

Faraday's first law of electrolysis states that the mass M of a substance deposited on or liberated at an electrode is directly proportional to the electric charge Q passing through the electrolyte. Thus

$$M = kQ = kIt$$

if direct current I is passed during the time t through the electrolyte.

The proportionality factor k is called the *electrochemical equivalent* of the substance. It is numerically equal to the mass of the substance liberated when a unit electric charge passes through the electrolyte and depends upon the chemical nature of the substance.

22.1.3

Faraday's second law of electrolysis states that the electrochemical equivalents of the elements are directly proportional to their chemical equivalents:

$$k = C\,k_{ch}$$

where C is a certain constant universal for all the elements, and k_{ch} is the chemical equivalent and is equal to

$$k_{ch} = \mathrm{d}3\frac{m_a}{z}.$$

Mere m_a is the atomic mass of the element (in kg/mol), and z is its valency.

Hence, $k = \frac{1}{F}\frac{m_a}{z}$, where $F = \mathrm{d} - 3/C$ is *Faraday's constant* (Appendix II).

22.1.4

Faraday's united law of electrolysis, enables the physical meaning of F to be cleared up: at $M = m_a/z$, Faradays constant $F = Q$. The amount of substance equal to $1/z$ moles is called its *gram equivalent*. At $z = 1$ the gram equivalent of substance is equal to one mole. Faradays constant is numerically equal to the electric charge that must he passed through an electrolyte to deposit one gram equivalent of any substance on the electrode.

22.1.5

The splitting of neutral molecules into oppositely charged ions as a result of interaction between the dissolved substance (solute) and the solvent is called *electrolytic dissociation*. It is caused by the thermal motion of the polar molecules (18.1.4) of the solute, consisting of interrelated, oppositely charged ions (**??**), and by the interaction of these molecules with the polar molecules of the solvent. Both causes lead to weakening of the heteropolar bonds in ionic molecules (**??**) and to the conversion of such molecules into two oppositely charged ions.

The *degree of dissociation* α is the ratio of the number nof molecules dissociated into ions in a certain volume to the

total number n0of molecules of the solute in the same volume:

$$\alpha = \frac{n'}{n_0}.$$

22.1.6

The process opposite to electrolytic dissociation (22.1.5) is called *deionization*. It consists in the recombination of ions of opposite signs into neutral molecules. Under conditions of dynamic mobile equilibrium between the dissociation and deionization processes, α is determined by the equation

$$\frac{1-\alpha}{\alpha^2} = \text{const} \times n_0.$$

As $n_0 \to 0$, we have $\alpha \to 1$, i.e. in weak solutions almost all the molecules dissociate. The degree of dissociation α decreases with an increase in the concentration of the solution. In highly concentrated solutions

$$\alpha \approx \frac{\text{const}}{\sqrt{n_0}}.$$

22.2 Atomicity of Electric Charges

22.2.1

It follows from Faraday's laws of electrolysis that all electric charges consist of a whole number of elementary indivisible charges.

22.2.2

The charge Q of any ion is equal to

$$Q = \pm \frac{zF}{N_A},$$

where z is the valency of the ion, F is Faradays constant (22.1.4), and N_A is Avogadros number (Appendix II). The charge of a monovalent ion is equal to the charge e of the electron or proton:

$$Q_1 = e = 1.602 \times 10^{-19}\,\mathrm{C} = 4.803 \times 10^{-10}\text{electrostatic units.}$$

Any electric charge consists of a whole number of elementary charges e (14.1.2).

22.3 Electrolytic Conduction of Liquids

22.3.1

The current density $\mathbf{j}$ (20.2.3) in an arbitrary section SS, perpendicular to the direction of ion motion (Figure 22.1), is equal to the sum of the current densities of the positive and negative ions:

$$\mathbf{j} = \mathbf{j}_+ + \mathbf{j}_-.$$

Here $\mathbf{j}_+ = q_+ n_{0+} \langle \mathbf{v}_+ \rangle$ and $\mathbf{j}_- = q_- n_{0-} \langle \mathbf{v}_- \rangle$, where q_+ and q_-, n_{0+} and n_{0-}, and $\langle \mathbf{v}_+ \rangle$ and $\langle \mathbf{v}_- \rangle$ are the charges, concentrations and average velocities of ordered motion (*drift* due in the action of the electric held) of the positive and negative ions.

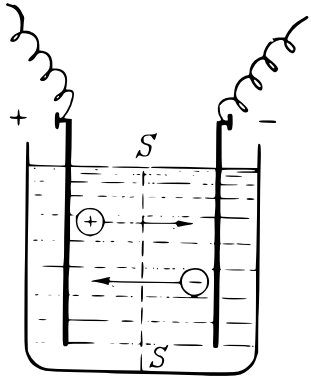


Figure 22.1.: Current density in a conducting liquid.

22.3.2

The average velocities of ion drift are proportional to the electric field strength **E**:

$$\langle \mathbf{v}_\perp \rangle = u_+ \mathbf{E} \text{ and,}$$
$$\left\langle \mathbf{v}_\parallel \right\rangle = -u_- \mathbf{E},$$

where u_+ and u_- are the *mobilities* of the positive and negative *ions*. The mobility of an ion is equal to the ratio of the magnitude of the average drift velocity vector to that of the field strength vector. The mobility is independent of the field strength vector **E**. Since there are no bulk charges in electrolytes, $q_+ n_{0+} + q_- n_{0-} = 0$. Moreover, $q_+ = ez_+ = \frac{F}{N_A} z_+$ (22.2.2).

22.3.3

Ohm's law of current density in electrolytes (cf. (20.3.4)) is:

$$\mathbf{j} = \frac{F}{N_A} z_+ n_{0+} (u_+ + u_-) \mathbf{E}.$$

The resistivity ρ of an electrolyte (20.3.4) is equal to

$$\rho = \frac{N_A}{F z_+ n_{0+} (u_+ + u_-)}.$$

If a molecule of the solute dissociates into k_+ positive and k_- negative ions, then

$$k_+ z_+ = k_- z_-; \quad n_{0+} = k_+ \alpha n_0 \quad \text{and} \quad n_{0-} = k_- \alpha n_0,$$

where α is the degree of dissociation, n_0 is the concentration of the solute (22.1.5) and

$$\rho = \frac{N_A}{Fz_+k_+\alpha n_0(u_+ + u_-)}.$$

The ratio N_A/z_+ is the number of positive ions in one gram equivalent (22.1.4). We introduce the quantity

$$C = \frac{k_+n_0z_+}{N_A} = \frac{k_-n_0z_-}{N_A},$$

which is called the *equivalent concentration of the solution*. It is the number of gram equivalents of the ions of one sign contained in unit volume of the electrolyte (either in the free state or bound in the molecules). Then

$$\rho = \frac{1}{FC\alpha(u_+ + u_-)}.$$

22.4 Electrical Conduction in Gases

22.4.1

Gases, consisting of neutral atoms and molecules, are insulators and do not conduct an electric current. Gases arc capable of conduction after they are ionized.

The *ionization of a molecule* (or *atom*) consists in the detachment of one or several electrons, after which the molecule (or atom) is converted into a positive ion. If a molecule (or atom) gains electrons, it becomes a negative ion. The reverse process, in which electrons join a positive ion to form a neutral molecule (or atom), is called *recombination*.

22.4.2

To ionize a molecule (or atom) it is necessary to perform the *work of ionization* W_i to overcome the forces of attraction between the electron being detached and the other particles of the molecule (or atom). The work W_i depends upon the energy state of the electron being detached (**??**) in the atom or molecule of the given gas. The ionization energy increases with the electron detachment factor, i.e. with the number of electrons detached from each atom.

22.4.3

The *ionization potential* V_i is the potential difference that the charged particle must traverse in an accelerating electric held in order to accumulate energy equal to the work of ionization W_i. Thus $V_i = W_i/e$, where e is the magnitude of the charge of the particle.

22.4.4

A gas is ionized by external effects: raising the temperature sufficiently, the action of various kinds of radiation, cosmic radiation, bombardment of the molecules (or atoms) of the gas by high-speed electrons or ions, etc. The *intensity*, or *rate, of ionization* is measured by the number of pairs of particles of opposite sign formed in unit time in unit volume of the gas.

22.4.5

Collision ionization is the process in which a gas is ionized by the action of fast-moving electrons or by ions. The minimum kinetic energy (3.2.1) that an ionizing particle must have is assessed by applying the laws of conservation of momentum and energy. Thus

$$\frac{mv^2}{2} = W_i \left(1 + \frac{m}{M}\right)$$

where W_i is the work of ionization, m is the mass of the electron and M is the mass of the atom.

The smaller the ratio m/M, the closer this energy is to W_i. An electron and a single-charge ion accumulate the same energy $E = e\,\Delta V$ if they traverse the same potential difference ΔV.

It follows from the preceding formula that for collision ionization by electrons and ions, the latter of a mass 10^4 times that of the electron, ions must travel across a greater potential difference in an accelerating field than electrons.

22.5 Various Types of Gas Discharges

22.5.1

A *gas discharge* is the process of current conduction through a gas.

A *semi-self-maintained gas discharge* is one caused by external ionizing agents (22.4.4) and ceasing when the ionizing action stops. The curve in Figure 22.2 shows the dependence of the current I in a semi-self-maintained discharge

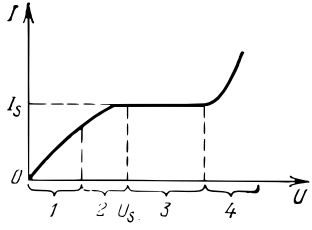


Figure 22.2.: Current-voltage relationship in a semi-self-maintained discharge gas.

on the voltage U across the electrodes, in the 1st region of the curve, at low voltages, Ohms law, similar to the one for electrolytes (22.3.3), is valid. If electrons and monovalent ions are formed in the gas, then

$$\mathbf{j} = en_0(u_+ + u_-)\mathbf{E},$$

where n_0 is the number of pairs of oppositely charged particles in unit volume, u_+ and u_- are the mobilities of the positive and negative ions, and e is the magnitude of the charge of the electron. In a wide pressure range, from 10 to 10^7 Pa, the mobility of gaseous ions is inversely proportional to the pressure.

22.5.2

The relation between the current I and the voltage U is no longer linear in the 2nd region of the curve in Figure 22.2 because the ion concentration decreases in the gas. In this region U the current increases slower and slower with an increase in U.

Beginning with a certain voltage U_s, the current re mains constant in the 3rd region of the curve in Figure 22.2 when the voltage is in creased. This occurs because, at a constant rate of ionization (22.4.4) in strong electric fields, all the ions formed in unit time in the gas reach the electrodes. No further increase in the current takes place at a fixed rate of ionization. Saturation results because all the charged particles produced in the gas travel in a strong electric field and reach the electrodes before an appreciable part of them have enough time to recombine with particles of opposite charge.

The saturation current U_s is the maximum current that can be obtained at a given rate (intensity) of ionization:

$$I_s = eN_0$$

where N_0 is the maximum number of pairs of monovalent ions formed in the gas in unit time at a given rate of ionization. The linear relation between I_s and N_0 confirms the ionic nature of electrical conduction in gases.

22.5.3

A *self-maintained gas discharge* is one that continues after the action of the external ionizing agent ceases. To obtain such a discharge it is necessary for new pairs of oppositely charged particles to be formed continuously in the gas. The main source of these particles is collision ionization (22.4.5). At a certain sufficiently high voltage across the electrodes, the electrons are so highly accelerated by the electric held that their energy proves adequate to ionize the gas molecules (22.4.5). This is called *volume ionization*. Secondary electrons, accelerated in the electric held, also ionize the gas molecules. As a result, the number of current carriers in the gas and its electrical conductance are greatly increased (4th region in Figure 22.2. But, by itself, ionization by the action of electrons is insufficient to produce a self-maintained discharge.

Electrons travelling in the direction from the cathode toward the anode ionize the molecules of gas located closer to the anode than the place where the electrons are unitied. If the energy of the positive ions is insufficient for collision ionization of the gas molecules or for knocking electrons

out of the metallic cathode (*surface ionization*), electrons can be produced near the cathode of a gas-discharge tube only by external ionizing agents. When the action of these agents is- stopped, the region of collision ionization by electrons contracts toward the anode as the electrons move in this direction. Under these conditions the gas discharge is extinguished as soon as collision ionization ceases.

22.5.4

Surface ionization (22.5.3), initiated at high voltage U, produces secondary electrons and sets up a two-way avalanche of electrons and positive ions. After this the action of the external ionizing agent is no longer essential for continuing the gas discharge. When the voltage U across the electrodes of a gas-discharge tube is raised sufficiently, an *electric breakdown of the gas* occurs. This is the transition from a semi-self-maintained to a self-maintained gas discharge. The voltage $U = U_{bd}$, corresponding to electric breakdown, is called the *ignition potential*, or *breakdown voltage*. The breakdown voltage for a gas discharge in a tube having flat parallel electrodes at the distance d from each other depends upon the product pd, where p is the gas pressure Figure 22.3. In addition, depends on the chemical nature of the gas and the material of the cathode.

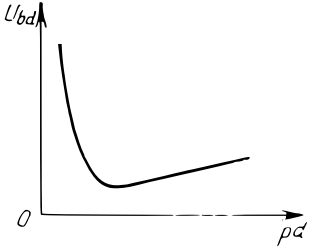


Figure 22.3.: The breakdown voltage for gas discharge.

Self-maintained gas discharges are classified into glow, corona, spark and arc discharges. They are not discussed in the present handbook.

22.6 Certain Information on Plasma

22.6.1

Plasma is a special state of matter, whose most important property is a predominant, or even complete, ionization of the particles of matter. The *degree of ionization* α is the ratio of the number of ionized particles to their initial number. Plasma is classified as *weakly ionized* (when α is a fraction of one percent), *moderately ionized* (when α equals several percent) and *fully ionized* (when α is close to 100 per cent).

Weakly ionized plasma is found in the *ionosphere*, the conducting layer of the atmosphere. The ionosphere extends from 60 to 2×10^4 km above the earths surface.

Fully ionized plasma, formed at ultra-high temperatures (high-temperature plasma), exists on the sun and hot stars. Under laboratory conditions, plasma is produced in gas discharges (22.5.1) and gaseous-discharge lamps. Accelerated plasma is employed as the working medium (11.1.1) in jet engines. Plasma can also be used for the direct conversion of internal energy into electrical energy (magnetohydrodynamic generators and plasma sources of electrical energy).

The great number of charged particles in a plasma provides for its high electrical conductance; in this aspect its properties approach those of conductors of electric current.

22.6.2

A condition for the existence of a plasma is a certain minimum density $\rho_{\min}$ of charged particles. Beginning with this density, we can speak of a plasma rather than a simple accumulation of separate charged particles. The density $\rho_{\min}$ is determined by the inequality $L \gg D$, where L is a

linear dimension of the system of charged particles and D is a typical "plasma" parameter, the length called the *Debye-Hückel screening* radius (it is also called the *Debye shielding length* or *Debye length*):

$$D = \left(\sum_i \frac{4\pi q_i^2 n_i}{kT_i} \right)^{-1/2} \qquad \text{(in cgse units)},$$

$$D = \left(\sum_i \frac{q_i^2 n_i}{\varepsilon_0 kT_i} \right)^{-1/2} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

where q_i is the charge of the i-th species of particles, n_i is their concentration, T_i is their temperature, k is Boltzmanns constant (**??**) and ε_0 is the electric constant. Summation is to be carried out over all the species of particles. The quantity D is the distance over which the Coulomb field of any charge of the plasma is shielded. The shielding occurs because any charge is predominantly surrounded by oppositely charged particles.

According to a more exact definition, a plasma is a quasi neutral assembly of a large number of charged particles that occupy a region of space with the linear dimensions $L \gg D$. The violation of quasi-neutrality in the plasma is eliminated by the strong electric fields set up in it.

The Debye-Hückel screening radius characterizes the interaction of the particles in the plasma. It was found that $E_p / E_k \propto N^{2/3}$, where $N = 4\pi n D^3/3$. Here E_p is the potential energy of interaction between two particles located at an average distance of $n^{-1/3}$ from each other (n being the concentration of particles), and E_k is the kinetic energy of these particles. The quantity N is the total number of

charged particles inside a sphere of radius D, and is called the *Debye number*. If N is large, the plasma is said to be *gaseous* and can be dealt with thermodynamically as an ideal gas with the state equation $p = nkT$ (8.4.5).

22.6.3

Coulomb long-range interaction of charged particles in a plasma leads to its qualitative uniqueness that enables it to be regarded as a special, *fourth state of aggregation of matter. The most important properties of plasma* are:

(a) its strong interaction, due to its high electrical conduction, with external magnetic and electric fields;

(b) specific collective interaction of particles in the plasma (by means of a special held whose nature and origin is beyond the scope of this handbook);

(c) the fact that due to long-range interaction it is a special kind of elastic medium in which various types of vibrations and waves can be readily excited and propagated.

22.6.4

The motion of plasma in a magnetic held is employed to directly convert the internal energy of an ionized gas into electrical energy. This method is made use of in a *magneto-hydrodynamic (MHD) generator*. This generator operates as follows: gas produced in the combustion of fuel and constituting a plasma passes through a strong traverse

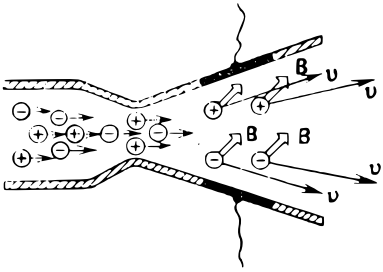


Figure 22.4.: A schematic diagram of an MHD generator.

magnetic held. In a conducting plasma, as in any conductor moving in such a held, electromagnetic induction (24.1.1) occurs. The induced emf can be taken off by means of electrodes in the external circuit. A schematic diagram of an MHD generator is shown in Figure 22.4.

The ionized gas produced in fuel combustion passes through the nozzle and its internal energy is converted into kinetic energy. As this gas passes through the transverse magnetic field **B**, the positive ions move toward the upper electrode by the action of the induced electric held (24.1.1) and the free electrons move toward the lower electrode. When we connect the electrodes to an external load, a current is obtained in the circuit.

22.6.5

A state of thermodynamic equilibrium is possible at a definite temperature in the plasma when the loss of charged particles due to recombination (22.4.1) is recompensed by new acts of ionization. The average kinetic energies of the various particles making up such a plasma are the same. The processes of energy exchange between the particles of this plasma, as well as the energy exchange of the plasma with blackbody radiation (**??**) are equilibrium processes (8.3.7). A *plasma* with the aforesaid properties is said to be *isothermal*. It exists in the atmospheres of high-temperature stars.

A condition required for a high degree of ionization of a thermodynamically equilibrium plasma, consisting of two kinds of charged particles, equal in magnitude and opposite in sign, is the maximum reduction in the recombination

(22.4.1) of the particles. A completely ionized plasma can be obtained at $kT \gg eV_i$ where V_i is the ionization potential (22.4.3) of the gas atoms and kT is the average energy of thermal motion of the plasma particles. For hydrogen and deuterium this corresponds to $T \approx 160\,000$ K. Essential under these conditions are the radiation of the plasma and the difficulty of isolating the plasma from the walls of its container (22.6.7).

22.6.6

In the plasma of a gas discharge (22.5.1) (*gas-discharge plasma*) thermodynamical equilibrium (22.6.5) is absent. The charged particles of such a plasma are in an accelerating electric field.

The average kinetic energy of the electrons in a gas-discharge plasma is characterized by a certain *electron temperature* T_e corresponding to the Maxwellian energy distribution of the electrons (10.3.7). Owing to the lack of thermodynamical equilibrium in such a plasma, T_e is of a conventional nature. The average kinetic energy of the neutral particles is substantially less than that of the electrons. Besides the electron temperature T_e, the parameters of a gas-discharge plasma are: the electron concentration n_e, the number of ionizations per electron per second, the density of the ion or electron current, and the longitudinal electric field strength E_z established along the symmetry axis of the plasma.

22.6.7

The existence of a thermodynamically nonequilibrium gas-discharge plasma is made possible by the energy of the discharge current passing through it. In the absence of an external electric field, the gas-discharge plasma disappears.

The disappearance of an unmaintained gas-discharge plasma that has been left to Itself is called *deionization of the gas*.

In addition to the ionization and recombination processes (22.4.1), a large share of the energy balance of a plasma that exists in a limited volume consists in the interaction between the plasma and the walls confining its volume, as well as the radiation of the plasma and the transport of radiation in it. The diffusion of the charged particles to the walls and their recombination on the walls, and the transfer of energy to the walls by heat conduction (10.8.2) contaminate the plasma with impurities and reduce its energy. To avoid these phenomena, measures are taken to confine the plasma by a magnetic field to prevent contact with the walls.

Radiation of the plasma in the optical range and in the far ultraviolet consists of: braking radiation (bremsstrahlung) of the electrons that occurs when they are retarded by the ions, ordinary radiation produced by excited particles, and recombination radiation that occurs in the recombination process (22.4.1). In a magnetic field, a plasma also has a special beta tron (synchrotron) radiation, which is beyond the scope of this handbook.

23 Magnetic Field Of Direct Current

23.1 Magnetic Field. Ampere's Law

23.1.1

A *magnetic field* is one of the forms of an electromagnetic field (15.1.2). A magnetic field is set up by moving charged particles, as well as moving bodies carrying electric charges. Magnetic fields act only on moving electric charges and moving charged bodies.

Variable electric fields (displacement currents) (**??**) are also sources of magnetic fields.

23.1.2

The main force characteristic of a magnetic field is *vector of magnetic induction* **B** (also called *magnetic flux density*, *magnetic displacement*, or, simply, *magnetic vector*). Vector B is determined by one of three methods:

(a) from Amperes law (23.1.4);

(b) from the effect of the magnetic field on a current-carrying loop (23.4.2);

(c) from the expression for the Lorentz force (24.1.3).

23.1.3

Magnetic fields are represented graphically by lines of magnetic induction. *Lines of magnetic induction (lines of magnetic force)* are curves whose tangent at each point coincides with vector **B** at this point of the field. The directions of the magnetic vector and the lines of magnetic induction are determined by the *corkscrew (Maxwell) rule* (also called the *right-hand screw rule*): if a corkscrew with right-hand thread is screwed in the direction of the current density vector in the conductor (20.2.3), the direction that the corkscrew handle turns indicates the direction of the lines of magnetic induction and the magnetic vector.

Lines of magnetic induction are not interrupted at any point of the magnetic field, i.e. they neither begin nor end. These lines are either closed curves or they extend from infinity to infinity or they are wound infinitely on some surface, covering it densely all over, but never returning again to any point of the surface. A similar situation is observed, for example, in a field set up by a system of a circular current and an infinite rectilinear current passing through the centre of the circular current and perpendicular to its plane.

A magnetic field is said to be *uniform*, or *homogeneous*, if vector **B** is constant at any point in the field. Otherwise, it

is said to be *nonuniform (nonhomogeneous*).

23.1.4

The force exerted by a magnetic field on a current-carrying conductor placed in the field is called *Ampere's force*.

Ampere's law states that an element of force $d\mathbf{F}$ exerted on a small element of length dl of a conductor, carrying a current and located in a magnetic field, is proportional to the vector product of the element $d\mathbf{l}$ of conductor length by the magnetic induction $\mathbf{B}$:

$$dF = I\,[d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{B}] \quad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$dF = \frac{I}{c}\,[d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{B}] \quad \text{(in Gaussian units, see Appendix I)},$$

Here $d\mathbf{l}$ is a vector with the magnitude dl and has the same direction as the density vector $\mathbf{j}$ of the current in the conductor (20.2.3).

Amperes force $\mathbf{F}$, acting in a magnetic field on a current-carrying conductor of finite length, is

$$\mathbf{F} = \int I\,[d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{B}],$$

in which integration is carried out over the whole length of the conductor. In the case of a uniform magnetic field (23.1.3).

$$dF = I\,Bl\sin\alpha \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$dF = \frac{I}{c}\,Bl\sin\alpha \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

where α is the angle between the density vector of the current in the conductor and vector **B**. The relative positions of vectors d**F**, **B** and d**l** are shown in Figure 23.1. If d**l** is perpendicular to **B**, the direction of force d**F** is found by the *left-hand rule*: if the left hand, opened flat with the fingers parallel to one another and the thumb perpendicular to the fingers, is held so that the magnetic induction vector enters the palm and the fingers indicate the direction of the electric current, the thumb indicates the direction of the force exerted by the magnetic field on the current-carrying conductor.

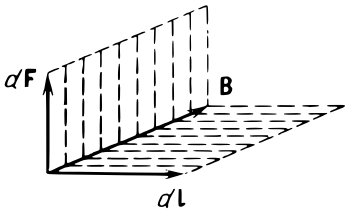


Figure 23.1.: Directions of vectors d**F**, d**l** and **B**.

It is evident from Figure 23.1 that vector d**F** is perpendicular to the plane passing through vectors d**l** and **B**, and that its direction is such that from the head of vector d**F** the direction of shortest rotation from vector d to vector **B** is counter-clockwise. In other words, vector d**F** coincides in direction with the vector product $[d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{B}]$.

23.1.5

It follows that the magnetic induction vector in SI units is numerically equal to the limit of the following ratio: the force exerted by a magnetic field on an element of a current-carrying conductor to the product of the current by the length of an element of the conductor, the limit being taken as the length of the element approaches zero and is positioned in the field so that the limit reaches its maximum

value. Thus

$$B = \frac{1}{I}\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}F}{\mathrm{d}l}\right)_{\max} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$B = \frac{c}{I}\left(\frac{\mathrm{d}F}{\mathrm{d}l}\right)_{\max} \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

where c is the electrodynamic constant (Appendix I).

23.1.6

In contrast to electrostatic forces (14.2.2), Amperes force is not a central one (3.3.4). Amperes force is perpendicular to the lines of magnetic induction and to the current-carrying conductors.

23.2 The Biot-Savart-Laplace Law

23.2.1

The *Biot-Savart-Laplace law* determines the magnetic induction at any point in a magnetic field set up by a direct electric current flowing along a conductor of any shape. The vector $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{B}$ of magnetic induction at any point C of a magnetic field, set up by an element of a conductor carrying the current I and of the length $\mathrm{d}l$ is determined by the formula

$$\mathrm{d}\mathbf{B} = k\mu_r\,[\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{r}],$$

where $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ is the vector of an element of length of the conductor (23.1.4), $\mathbf{r}$ is the radius vector from the element $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}$ of the conductor to point C (Figure 23.2), r is the magnitude of the radius vector $\mathbf{r}$, k is a factor depending only

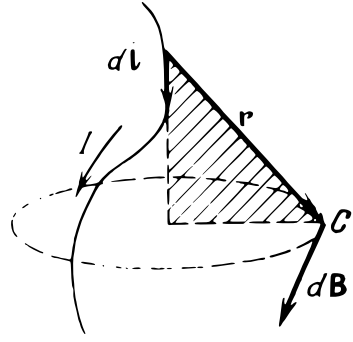


Figure 23.2.: Biot-Savart Laplace law to find magnetic induction at any point in a magnetic field set up by a direct electric current flowing along a conductor of any shape.

upon the chosen system of units, and μ_r is a dimension less quantity that characterizes the magnetic properties of the medium and called the *relative magnetic permeability* (or simply *relative permeability*) of the medium. The relative permeability does not depend upon the choice of units and equals unity for vacuum. For all substances, except ferromagnetic ones, p,r differs only slightly from unity (**??**). See (**??**) for a general definition of μ_r.

23.2.2

In SI units $k = \mu_0/4\pi$, where $\mu_0 = 4\pi \times 10^{-7}$ H/m is the *permeability* of free space, or the *magnetic constant* (Appendix II). In Gaussian units, $k = 1/c$, where $c = 3 \times 10^{10}$ cm/s is the electrodynamic constant (Appendix I).

The Biot-Savart-Laplace law is of the form

$$d\mathbf{B} = \frac{\mu_0 \mu_r}{4\pi} \frac{I}{r^3} [d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{r}]$$

This form of the Biot-Savart-Laplace law and of all the electromagnetic field equations is said to be *rationalized*.

The product $\mu_0 \mu_r$ is sometimes called the *absolute magnetic permeability* (or simply *permeability*) of the medium.

In Gaussian units

$$d\mathbf{B} = \frac{1}{c} \frac{I}{r^3} [d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{r}]$$

The magnitude of vector $d\mathbf{B}$ is equal to

$$dB = \frac{\mu_0 \mu_r}{4\pi} \frac{I dl \sin\alpha}{r^2} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$dB = \frac{\mu_r}{c} \frac{I dl \sin\alpha}{r^2} \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

where α is the angle between vectors $d\mathbf{l}$ and $\mathbf{r}$.

23.2.3

The *magnetic field strength* $\mathbf{H}$ is the vector characteristic of a magnetic field that, for a homogeneous isotropic medium, is related to B as follows:

$$\mathbf{H} = \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\mu_0 \mu_r} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{H} = \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\mu_r} \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

The universal relation between vectors $\mathbf{B}$ and $\mathbf{H}$ for a magnetic field in an arbitrary medium and the more general definition of the magnetic field strength vector $\mathbf{H}$ are discussed in (**??**).

The strength of a magnetic field set up by a direct current in a homogeneous isotropic medium is independent of the magnetic properties of the medium. Thus

$$d\mathbf{H} = \frac{I}{4\pi r^3}\,[d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{r}], \quad dH = \frac{I dl \sin\alpha}{4\pi r^2} \text{ (in SI units)},$$

$$d\mathbf{H} = \frac{I}{cr^3}\,[d\mathbf{l} \times \mathbf{r}], \quad dH = \frac{I dl \sin\alpha}{cr^2} \text{ (in Gaussian units.)}$$

where α is the angle between vectors $d\mathbf{l}$ and $\mathbf{r}$.

23.2.4

It follows from a comparison of the characteristics of electric ($\mathbf{E}$ and $\mathbf{D}$) and magnetic ($\mathbf{B}$ and $\mathbf{H}$) fields that the electric field strength vector $\mathbf{E}$ is analogous to the magnetic vector

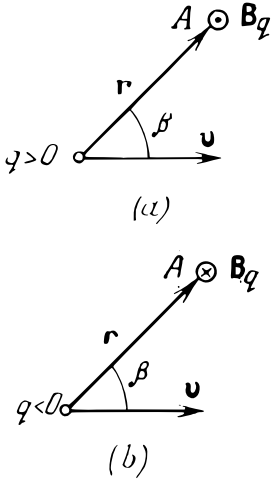


Figure 23.3.: Magnetic field by a travelling electric charge in an unbounded homogeneous and isotropic medium at the constant velocity.

B. Both vectors specify the force effects of the fields and depend upon the properties of the medium in which the field is set up.

The analogue of vector **D** of electric displacement (15.3.1) is the magnetic field strength vector **H**.

23.2.5

An electric charge q, travelling in an unbounded homogeneous and isotropic medium at the constant velocity **v**, sets up a magnetic field whose magnetic induction $\mathbf{B}_q$ can be calculated by the formula

$$\mathbf{B}_q = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\frac{q}{r^3}[\mathbf{v}\times\mathbf{r}],\ B_q = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\frac{qv\sin\beta}{r^2}\ \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{B}_q = \frac{\mu_r}{c}\frac{q}{r^3}[\mathbf{v}\times\mathbf{r}],\quad B_q = \frac{\mu_r}{c}\frac{qv\sin\beta}{r^2}\quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

where β is the angle between vectors **v** and **r**, and **r** is the radius vector from the travelling charge to the point A being considered in the field. Vectors $\mathbf{B}_q$ and $\mathbf{H}_q$ are perpendicular to the plane passing through vectors **v** and **r**.

When $q > 0$, the shortest rotation from vector **v** to vector **r** is seen from the head of vector $\mathbf{B}_q$ (and $\mathbf{H}_q$) to be counter Figure 23.3 clockwise (Figure 23.3 (a)). When $q < 0$, then $\mathbf{B}_q$ (and $\mathbf{H}_q$) have the opposite direction (Figure 23.3 (b)). The magnetic field of a moving charge is variable, because the radius vector **r** varies in magnitude and direction as charge q travels even if $\mathbf{v} = \text{const}$. The magnetic field of a moving charge, depending upon angle β between vectors **v** and **r**, is not spherically symmetrical, as in the case of the

electrostatic field of a point charge (14.2.3). The magnetic field being considered has mirror symmetry with respect to the direction of **v**. The field strength is maximum at points in a plane passed through the charge perpendicularly to vector **v** (under the condition that $v \ll c$). At all points on a straight line coinciding with vector **v** there is no magnetic field induction,

23.3 Simplest Cases of Magnetic Fields Set Up by Direct Currents

23.3.1

Making use of the Biot-Savart-Laplace law we can determine the characteristics (**B** and **H**) of a magnetic field set up by an electric current flowing in a conductor of finite dimensions and arbitrary shape. According to the principle of superposition of fields (15.2.2) the magnetic induction **B** at an arbitrary point of a magnetic field of a conductor carrying the current I is equal to

$$\mathbf{B} = \int_L \mathrm{d}\mathbf{B},$$

where $\mathrm{d}\mathbf{B}$ is the magnetic induction of the field set up by an element of the conductor with the length $\mathrm{d}l$. Integration is carried out over the whole length L of the conductor.

23.3.2

A *straight conductor* MN carrying the current I sets up a magnetic field with induction B and strength H at an arbi-

[9] It is assumed in all the examples of (??) that the medium is homogeneous, isotropic and completely fills all the space in which the magnetic field exists.

trary point A equal to[9]

$$B = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\frac{I}{r_0}(\cos\varphi_1 - \cos\varphi_2),\ H = \frac{B}{\mu_0\mu_r}\ \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$B = \frac{1}{c}\frac{I}{r_0},(\cos\varphi_1 - \cos\varphi_2),\quad H = \frac{B}{\mu_r}\quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

where r_0 is the distance from point A to the conductor, φ_1 and φ_2 are the angles formed by the radius vectors from point A to the beginning and end of the conductor (Figure 23.4), μ_r is the relative magnetic permeability of the medium, and μ_0 is the magnetic constant in SI units (Appendix II). For an infinitely long conductor $\varphi_1 = 0$ and $(\varphi_2 = \pi)$

$$B = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\frac{I}{r_0}(\cos\varphi_1 - \cos\varphi_2),\ H = \frac{B}{\mu_0\mu_r}\ \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$B = \frac{1}{c}\frac{I}{r_0},(\cos\varphi_1 - \cos\varphi_2),\quad H = \frac{B}{\mu_r}\quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

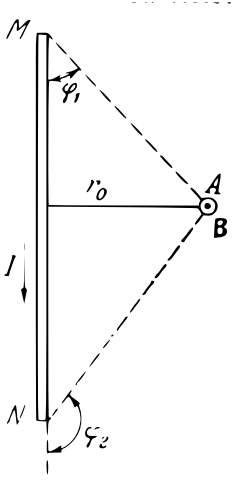


Figure 23.4.: Magnetic field by a current carrying conductor.

23.3.3

For the magnetic field at the centre of a *rectangular turn (loop) carrying the current* I

$$B = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\frac{8I\sqrt{a^2+b^2}}{ab},\ H = \frac{B}{\mu_0\mu_r}\ \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$B = \frac{1}{c}\mu_r\frac{8I\sqrt{a^2+b^2}}{ab},\quad H = \frac{B}{\mu_r}\quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

where a and b are the sides of the rectangle.

23.3.4

The *magnetic moment* $\mathbf{p}_m$ of a closed loop of arbitrary shape, carrying the current I, is equal to

$$\mathbf{p}_m = I \int_S \mathbf{n}\, dS \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{p}_m = \frac{I}{c} \int_S \mathbf{n}\, dS \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

where $\mathbf{n}$ is a unit vector of the outward normal to element dS of the surface S, bounded by the current-carrying loop. In the case of a flat loop, surface S is plane and all the normals have the same direction. Hence

$$\mathbf{p}_m = IS\mathbf{n}, \quad p_m = IS \quad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{p}_m = \frac{1}{c} IS\mathbf{n}, \; p_m = \frac{1}{c} IS \quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

Vector $\mathbf{p}_m$ is directed so that from its head the current in the circuit is seen to be flowing counterclockwise (Figure 23.5).

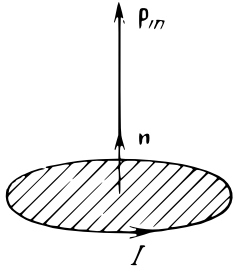


Figure 23.5.: Orientation of magnetic moment vector.

23.3.5

The magnetic field set up by a circular turn, or loop, carrying the current I, at an arbitrary point A on the axis of the turn (loop) (Figure 23.6), is specified by

$$\mathbf{B} = \frac{\mu_0 \mu_r}{4\pi} \frac{2\mathbf{p}_m}{(R^2 + h^2)^{3/2}}, \; \mathbf{H} = \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\mu_0 \mu_r} \quad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{B} = \mu_r \frac{2\mathbf{p}_m}{(R^2 + h^2)^{3/2}}, \qquad \mathbf{H} = \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\mu_r} \quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

Here $\mathbf{p}_m$ is the magnetic moment of a current-carrying turn, or loop, (23.3.4).

The magnitudes of vectors **B** and **H** equal

$$B = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{2}\frac{IR^2}{(R^2+h^2)^{3/2}} = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r IS}{2\pi(R^2+h^2)^{3/2}},\ H = \frac{B}{\mu_0\mu_r}$$

(in SI units),

$$B = \frac{1}{c}\mu_r\frac{2\pi IR^2}{(R^2+h^2)^{3/2}} = \frac{1}{c}\mu_r\frac{2IS}{(R^2+h^2)^{3/2}},\ H = \frac{B}{\mu_r}$$

(in Gaussian units.)

where h is the distance from point A to the centre of the turn (loop), R is the radius and S is the area of the turn.

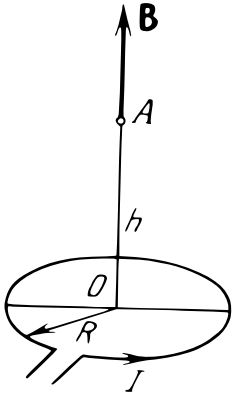


Figure 23.6.: The magnetic field at the centre of a circular turn, or loop.

23.3.6

The magnetic field at the centre of a circular turn, or loop, has the characteristics (23.3.5):

$$\mathbf{B} = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\frac{2\mathbf{p}_m}{R^3},\ \mathbf{H} = \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\mu_0\mu_r}\text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathbf{B} = \mu_r\frac{2\mathbf{p}_m}{(R^3},\qquad \mathbf{H} = \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\mu_r}\quad\text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

The magnitudes of vectors **B** and **H** equal

$$B = \mu_0\mu_r\frac{I}{2R},\ H = \frac{I}{2R}\quad\text{(in SI units)},$$

$$B = \frac{2\pi}{c}\mu_r\frac{I}{R},\ H = \frac{1}{c}\frac{2\pi I}{R}\quad\text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

The direction of the magnetic field is along the axis of the loop and perpendicular to its plane (Figure 23.6).

23.3.7

A *toroid* is an annular coil wound on a core having the shape of a torus (Figure 23.7). The magnetic field of a toroid is completely confined within its volume.

The characteristics of this magnetic field are calculated by the formulas

$$B = \mu_0 \mu_r \frac{NI}{2\pi r}, \; H = \frac{NI}{2\pi r} \quad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$B = \frac{1}{c} \mu_r \frac{2NI}{r}, \; H = \frac{1}{c} \frac{2NI}{r} \quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

The magnetic induction B and the strength H of the magnetic field on the circular centre line of the toroid are equal to

$$B_{\text{cl}} = \mu_0 \mu_r \frac{NI}{2\pi R_{\text{cl}}} = \mu_0 \mu_r n I, \quad H = nI \quad \text{(in SI units)}.$$

Here N is the number of turns of the toroid, I is the current in the turns, r is the radius of a circle in the toroid, $R_{\text{cl}} = (R_1 + R_2)/2$, R_1 and R_2 are the external and internal radii of the torus, and n is the number of turns per unit length of the toroids centre line.

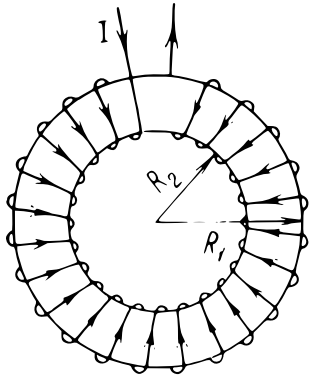


Figure 23.7.: The magnetic field at the centre of a toroid.

23.3.8

A *solenoid* is a cylindrical coil consisting of a large number of turns of wire in the form of a helix. If the turns are

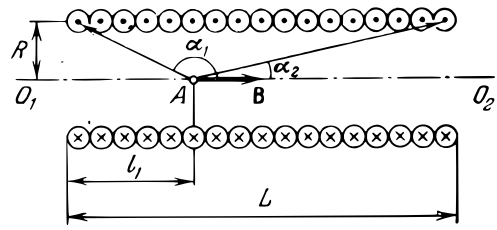


Figure 23.8.: The magnetic field of a solenoid.

wound tight up against or sufficiently close to one another, the solenoid is dealt with as a system of circular closed current-carrying loops connected in series and having the same radius and a common axis.

The magnetic moment $\mathbf{p}_m$ (23.3.4) of the solenoid is equal to the vector sum of the magnetic moments of all N of its turns. Thus

$$\mathbf{p}_m = NIS\mathbf{n},$$

where I is the current in the solenoids turns, S is the area of a turn, and $\mathbf{n}$ is a unit vector of the normal to the plane of a turn. Vector $\mathbf{p}_m$ is along the axis of the solenoid and coincides in direction with the magnetic field as determined by the cork screw rule (23.1.3).

The magnetic induction B and strength H of the solenoids magnetic field at an arbitrary point A, lying on its axis, are numerically equal to

$$B = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{2} NI\,(\cos\alpha_2 - \cos\alpha_1), \quad H = \frac{B}{\mu_0\mu_r} \text{ (in SI units),}$$

$$B = \frac{1}{c} 2\pi\mu_r nI\mu_r\,(\cos\alpha_2 - \cos\alpha_1), H = \frac{B}{\mu_0\mu_r} \text{ (in Gaussian units.)}$$

where $n = N/L$ is the number of turns per unit length of the solenoid, α_2 and α_1 are angles at which the ends of the solenoid are seen from point A $(\alpha_2 < \alpha_1)$,

$$\cos\alpha_1 = -\frac{l_1}{\sqrt{R^2 + l_1^2}}, \quad \cos\alpha_2 = \frac{L - l_1}{\sqrt{R^2 + (L - l_1)^2}},].$$

L is the length of the solenoid (Figure 23.8), and R is the radius of the cylindrical coil.

23.3.9

Under the condition that $L \gg R$, the magnetic field inside the solenoid at points on its axis sufficiently distant from its ends is characterized by the values

$$B = \mu_0\mu_r nI, \quad H = nI \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$B = \frac{1}{c}\,4\pi\mu_r nI, H = \frac{1}{c}\,4\pi nI \quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

The magnetic induction B and strength H of the magnetic field of a solenoid of sufficient length, at points of its axis coinciding with its ends, are equal to

$$B = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{2}\,nI, \quad H = \frac{1}{2}nI \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$B = \frac{1}{c}\,2\pi\mu_r nI, H = \frac{1}{c}\,2\pi nI \quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

23.4 Interaction of Conductors. Effect of a Magnetic Field on Current-Carrying Conductors

23.4.1

Amperes force (23.1.4), which acts on an element dl of length of a straight conductor carrying the current I_1 and is exerted by a long straight conductor carrying the current I_2, located parallel to the first conductor at a distance of a, is numerically equal to

$$\mathrm{d}F = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\,\frac{2I_1I_2}{a}\,\mathrm{d}l, \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\mathrm{d}F = \frac{1}{c}\,\mu_r\frac{2I_1I_2}{a}\,\mathrm{d}l, \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

where μ_0 is the magnetic constant in SI units (23.2.2) and c is the electrodynamic constant (Appendix I). The force dF is a force of magnetic interaction (24.1.4).

It is assumed that the lengths of the conductors are many times greater than the distance a between them, and that element dl is located far from the ends of the first conductor. It is moreover assumed that the conductors are in a homogeneous isotropic medium having the relative magnetic permeability μ_r.

The force F exerted on a current-carrying conductor of length l is equal to

$$F = \frac{\mu_0\mu_r}{4\pi}\,\frac{2I_1I_2}{a}\,l, \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$F = \frac{1}{c}\,\mu_r\frac{2I_1I_2}{a}\,l, \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

Conductors carrying currents I_1 and I_2 that flow in the same direction attract each other. If the currents flow in opposite directions, the conductors repulse each other (see also Sect. (24.1.4)).

23.4.2

A closed flat current-carrying loop, of arbitrary geometric shape, placed in a uniform magnetic held (23.1.3), is subject to a moment of force (torque) **M** equal to

$$\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{p}_m \times \mathbf{B}],$$

where $\mathbf{p}_m$ is the magnetic moment vector of a current-carrying loop (23.3.4), and **B** is the vector of magnetic induction (23.1.2) of the held. Torque **M** is perpendicular to the plane passing through vectors $\mathbf{p}_m$ and **B** in such a manner that the shortest rotation from $\mathbf{p}_m$ to **B** is seen from the head of vector **M** to be counterclockwise. The torque tends to turn the loop to a position of stable equilibrium, in which vectors $\mathbf{p}_m$ and **M** are parallel to each other.

The preceding formula provides for a definition of the magnetic induction **B** (23.1.2): the magnitude of the magnetic induction vector at a given point of a uniform magnetic field is equal to the maximum value of the torque $M_{\max}$ acting in the vicinity of the point on a small flat closed current-carrying loop, having a magnetic moment p_m of unit magnitude:

$$B = \frac{M_{\max}}{p_m} = \frac{M_{\max}}{IS} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$B = \frac{M_{\max}}{p_m} = \frac{M_{\max}}{\frac{1}{c}IS} \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)}.$$

23.4.3

When a closed current-carrying loop is placed into a nonuniform magnetic field (23.1.3) in which the magnetic induction **B** of the field varies over distances comparable to the linear dimensions of the loop, the loop is subject to the force **F** equal to

$$\mathbf{F} = p_{mx}\frac{\partial \mathbf{B}}{\partial x} + p_{my}\frac{\partial \mathbf{B}}{\partial y} + p_{mz}\frac{\partial \mathbf{B}}{\partial z},$$

where p_{mx}, p_{my} and p_{mz} are the projections of vector $\mathbf{p}_m$ on the axes of Cartesian coordinates. In particular, when vector **B** is along the OX axis and depends only on coordinate x [i.e. $B_x = B(x)$, $B_y = B_z = 0$ and $\mathbf{B} = \mathbf{B}_x\hat{\mathbf{i}}$ then

$$\mathbf{F} = p_{mx}\frac{\mathrm{d}B}{\mathrm{d}x}\hat{\mathbf{i}}.$$

By the action of force **F** an unfastened current-carrying loop is attracted into a region with a stronger magnetic field.

23.5 Total Current Law. Magnetic Circuits

23.5.1

The *circulation* of the magnetic induction vector **B** along a closed circuit L is an integral of the form:

$$\oint_L \mathbf{B}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = \oint_L B\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l}\cos\alpha,$$

where L is the closed loop of arbitrary shape, α is the angle between vectors $\mathbf{B}$ and $d\mathbf{l}$, and $d\mathbf{l}$ is the vector of an element of length of the loop in the direction it is circuited.

23.5.2

The *total current law for a magnetic field in vacuum states*:

> the circulation of the magnetic induction vector of a magnetic field along a closed loop in vacuum is proportional to the algebraic sum of the currents bounded by the loop.

Thus

$$\oint_L \mathbf{B}\, d\mathbf{l} = \mu_0 \sum_{k=1}^{n} I_k \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\oint_L \mathbf{B}\, d\mathbf{l} = \frac{4\pi}{c} \sum_{k=1}^{n} I_k \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)}.$$

where μ_0 is the magnetic constant in SI units (23.2.2), c is the electrodynamic constant (23.2.2) and n is the number of current-carrying conductors bounded by loop L of arbitrary shape. This law is valid for current-carrying conductors of any shape or size.

In calculating the algebraic sum of the currents, a current is considered positive if from the head of the current density vector (20.2.3) the circuiting of loop L is seen to be counter clockwise. Otherwise, the current is considered to be negative. For a generalization of the total current law to cover magnetic fields in an arbitrary media, see (**??**).

23.5.3

In contrast to an electrostatic conservative field, in which the circulation of the strength **E** along any closed path equals zero (16.1.4), a magnetic field has a curl (it is called a *rotational*, *vortical* or *circuital field*). In such a field the circulation of the magnetic induction vector **B** of the field along a closed path is not equal to zero. If no currents are bound by loop L, the circulation of vector **B** along this loop equals zero. But this does not alter the rotational nature of the magnetic field.

23.5.4

The total current law can be written for either vacuum or for an arbitrary medium in the form of the circulation of field strength vector **H** (23.2.3) along an arbitrary closed loop L that bounds the currents:

$$\oint_L \mathbf{H}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = \mu_0 \sum_{k=1}^{n} I_k \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\oint_L \mathbf{H}\,\mathrm{d}\mathbf{l} = \frac{4\pi}{c} \sum_{k=1}^{n} I_k \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)}.$$

If no currents are bounded by loop L, the circulation of vector **H** along this loop equals zero.

23.5.5

The *flux of the magnetic induction vector* **B** (*magnetic flux*) through a surface element of area $\mathrm{d}S$ is the scalar physical

quantity equal to

$$d\Phi_m = \mathbf{B}\, dS = B_n dS = B\, dS \cos\gamma,$$

where $dS = \hat{\mathbf{n}} dS$, $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ is the unit vector of the normal to the surface of area dS, B_n is the projection of vector $\mathbf{B}$ on the direction of the normal (Figure 23.9), and γ is the angle between vectors $\mathbf{B}$ and $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$. The magnetic flux Φ_m through an arbitrary surface S is

$$\Phi_m = \int_S \mathbf{B}\, dS = \int_S B_n\, dS.$$

In calculating this integral, the vectors $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ of the normals to the elements of surface dS should be all in the same direction with respect to surface S. Thus, if S is a closed surface, vectors $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ should be directed either all outward or all inward.

When the field is uniform and S is a plane surface perpendicular to vector $\mathbf{B}$, then $B_n = B = \text{const}$. and $\Phi_m = BS$.

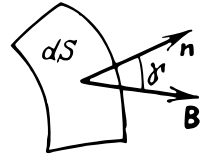


Figure 23.9.: The projection of vector $\mathbf{B}$ on the direction of the normal.

23.5.6

The *Ostrogradsky-Gauss for a magnetic field* states that the magnetic flux through an arbitrary closed surface equals zero. Thus

$$\oint_S \mathbf{B}\, d\mathbf{S} = \int_S B_n\, dS = 0.$$

This theorem is a mathematical expression of the fact that in nature there are no magnetic charges at which lines of magnetic induction begin or end (23.1.3).

The differential form of the Ostrogradsky-Gauss theorem for a magnetic field is one of Maxwell's equations for an electromagnetic field (**??**).

23.5.7

A *magnetic circuit* is a set of bodies or regions of space to which a magnetic field is confined. For example, the internal region of a toroid (23.3.7) and that of an infinitely long solenoid (23.3.9) are magnetic circuits. To strengthen their magnetic fields, magnetic circuits are made of materials having a high relative magnetic permeability μ_r (23.2.1), such as iron. The design of magnetic circuits, which are the essential components of electrical machinery and such electric devices as transformers and electromagnets, is based on the laws of magnetic circuits.

23.5.8

Ohm's law for a closed magnetic circuit (the *Hopkinson formula*) is

$$\Phi_m = \frac{F_m}{R_m},$$

where Φ_m is the magnetic flux, which is constant along each portion of the magnetic circuit, $F_m = IN$ is the *magnetomotive* force (*mmf*) or *magnetizing force* (in SI units), N is the number of turns carrying the electric current I for magnetizing the circuit, and R_m is the *total magnetic resistance* (*reluctance*) of the circuit. The magnetic resistance of

a magnetic circuit of length l_i is

$$R_{mi} = \int^{l_i} \frac{\mathrm{d}l}{\mu_0 \mu_r S} \text{ (in SI units),}$$

where μ_r is the relative magnetic permeability of the given circuit, μ_0 is the magnetic constant in SI units (23.2.2), and S is the cross-sectional area of the circuit. When $S = \text{const.}$, $R_{mi} = l_i / \mu_0 \mu_r S$ (in SI units).

23.5.9

The total magnetic resistance R_m of the parts of a magnetic circuit connected in series is

$$R_m = \sum_{i=1}^{n} R_{mi},$$

where R_{mi} is the magnetic resistance of the i-th part of the magnetic circuit, and n is the number of parts that make up the circuit.

If n magnetic resistances are connected in parallel, the total magnetic resistance R_m of the circuit is

$$R_m = \frac{1}{\sum_{i=1}^{n} \frac{1}{R_{mi}}}.$$

23.5.10

A *branch point* of a magnetic circuit is a region of space or bodies where there are more than two possible directions of the lines of magnetic induction (23.1.3).

Kirchhoff's first law for branched magnetic circuits states that the algebraic sum of the magnetic fluxes in the branches that join in a branch point is equal to zero. Thus

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n} \Phi_{mi} = 0,$$

where n is the number of branches joined at the branch point cf. (23.3.1).

A magnetic flux is considered positive if the lines of induction enter the branch point, and negative if the lines emerge from it.

23.5.11

Kirchhoff's second law for magnetic circuits states that in any closed loop (mesh of a network), arbitrarily chosen in a branched magnetic circuit (network), the algebraic sum of the products of the magnetic fluxes by the magnetic resistances of the corresponding portions of the circuit (23.5.8) equals the algebraic sum of the magnetomotive forces in this loop (23.5.8):

$$\sum_{i=1}^{k} \Phi_{mi} R_{mi} = \sum_{i=1}^{k} F_{mi},$$

where k is the number of portions that make up the closed loop (cf. (21.3.2)). The fluxes and mmfs F_{mi} are considered positive if the directions of the corresponding lines of magnetic induction (23.1.3) coincide with the arbitrarily chosen direction for circuiting the loop.

23.6 Work Done in Moving a Current-Carrying Conductor in a Magnetic Field

23.6.1

An unfixed current-carrying conductor is moved by Amperes force (23.1.4) when it is placed in a magnetic field. The element of work done by the Ampere force in moving an element, of length $\mathrm{d}l$, of a conductor carrying the current I is

$$\delta W^* = I\,\mathrm{d}\Phi_m^* \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\delta W^* = \frac{1}{c}\,I\,\mathrm{d}\Phi_m^* \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

where $\mathrm{d}\Phi_m^*$ is the element of magnetic flux (23.5.5) through the element of surface $\mathrm{d}S$ generated by the element of the conductor, of length $\mathrm{d}l$, in its small displacement, and c is the electrodynamic constant (23.2.2).

23.6.2

In a small displacement of a current-carrying conductor of finite length, the work δW done by the Ampere forces is the sum of the elements of work for all the elements of length of the conductor. It is equal to the integral of δW^* calculated along the whole length I of the conductor. Thus

$$\delta W = \int_l I\,\mathrm{d}\Phi_m^* = I\,\mathrm{d}\Phi_m \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$\delta W = \frac{1}{c}\,I\,\mathrm{d}\Phi_m \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

where $d\Phi_m$ is the magnetic flux through the surface generated by the conductor of length l in a small displacement.

23.6.3

If a conductor of finite length l carries a constant current I and is moved a finite distance, the required work of the Ampere forces for this motion is

$$W = I\Phi_m,$$

where Φ_m is the magnetic flux through the surface generated by the conductor in its motion.

23.6.4

The work done by Ampere forces in the displacement of a closed flat loop carrying the constant current I in a magnetic field from initial position *1* to final position *2* is equal to

$$W_{12} = I(\Phi_{m2} - \Phi_{m1}),$$

where Φ_{m1} and Φ_{m2} are magnetic fluxes "linked to the loop" in positions *1* and *2*, i.e. the magnetic fluxes through a surface bounded by the loop. In calculating these magnetic fluxes, the direction of normal $\hat{\mathbf{n}}$ (23.5.5) is coordinated with the direction of the current in the loop by the corkscrew rule: from the head of the vector of the normal, the current is seen flowing counter clockwise in the loop.

23.6.5

The formulas given above are valid for a current-carrying coil of N turns moving in a magnetic field by Ampere forces, or, in general, for a loop of arbitrary shape. For example, the work done in a small displacement of a coil carrying the current I is equal to

$$\delta W = I \sum_{i=1}^{N} \mathrm{d}\Phi_{mi} = Id \left(\sum_{i=1}^{N} \mathrm{d}\Phi_{mi} \right) = I \, \mathrm{d}\Psi,$$

where $\Psi = \sum_{i=1}^{N} \Phi_{mi}$ is the total magnetic flux through all N turns of the coil; it is called the *flux linkage of the circuit*.

23.6.6

The work required to move a conductor or closed loop carrying a constant current in a magnetic field is done at the expense of the energy consumed in the current source (21.1.3).

24 Motion Of Charged Particles In Electric And Magnetic Fields

24.1 Lorentz Force

24.1.1

Not only current-carrying conductors (23.1.4) are subject to the action of a magnetic field. This is also true of separate charged particles moving in the field. The force F_L, acting on an electric charge q moving in a magnetic field at the velocity $\mathbf{v}$, is called the *Lorentz force* and is equal to (see also (24.1.5))

$$F_L = q\,[\mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}] \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$F_L = \frac{q}{c}[\mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}] \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

where q is the algebraic value of the moving charge, $\mathbf{B}$ is the induction of the magnetic field in which the charge is moving (23.1.2), and c is the electrodynamic constant (23.2.2). The relative arrangement of vectors $\mathbf{v}$, $\mathbf{B}$ and $\mathbf{F}_L$

is shown in Figure 24.1 for positive ($q > 0$) and negative ($q < 0$) charges. The magnitude of the Lorentz force is

$$F_L = qvB \sin \alpha,$$

where α is the angle between vectors **v** and **B**.

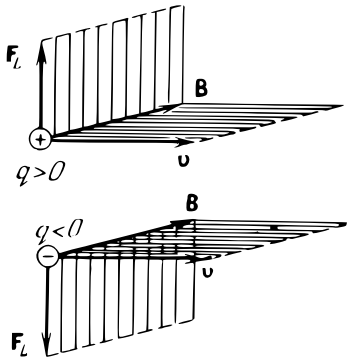


Figure 24.1.: The relative arrangement of vectors **v**, **B** and $\mathbf{F}_L$ for positive and negative charges.

24.1.2

The Lorentz force is always perpendicular to the velocity of the charged particle and imparts normal acceleration (1.4.6) to it. Since the Lorentz force does not change the magnitude of the velocity, but only its direction, this force does no work and the kinetic energy of the charged particle remains constant when it moves in a magnetic field.

24.1.3

Making use of the Lorentz force, magnetic induction **B** (23.1.2) can be defined as follows: the magnitude of the magnetic induction vector at a given point of the magnetic field is equal to the maximum Lorentz force $F_{L\max}$ acting on a unit positive charge, which, at the given point, travels at unit velocity. Thus

$$B = \frac{F_{L\max}}{qv}.$$

Here $F_L = F_{L\max}$ under the condition that $\alpha = \pi/2$ (24.1.2). See also Sections (23.1.2) and (23.4.2).

24.1.4

The force exerted on moving charge q_2 by moving charge axis called *the force of their magnetic interaction* (*magnetic force*). For the special case of two positive charges q_1 and q_2, travelling in vacuum at the same velocity $v_1 = v_2 = v \ll c$ along the OX axis, the force F_{int} of magnetic interaction is a force of attraction and is numerically equal to

$$F_{\text{int}} = \frac{\mu_0}{4\pi} \frac{q_1 q_2}{r^2} v^2 \text{ (in SI units)},$$

where r is the distance between the charges, and μ_0 is the magnetic constant (23.2.2).

The force F_{int} of magnetic interaction can be presented in the form

$$F_{\text{int}} = q_2 v \frac{\mu_0 q_1 v}{4\pi r^2} = q_2 v B,$$

where

$$B = \frac{\mu_0 q_1 v}{4\pi r^2}.$$

In this form the force F_{int} coincides with the Lorentz force at $\sin\alpha = l$ (24.1.1) if we assume that B is the induction of the magnetic field (23.1.2) set up by moving charge q_1. In its turn, this field acts on moving charge q_2. Magnetic forces and a magnetic field are the result of the way in which forces are transformed in going over from a fixed to a moving frame of reference, and follows from the formulas of the special theory of relativity (5.1.1).

Comparing force F_{int} with the force F_e of electrostatic repulsion between mutually fixed charges q_1 and q_2 in vacuum ($\varepsilon_r = 1$) located at the same distance r from each

other (14.2.6)

$$F_e = \frac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0}\frac{q_1 q_2}{r^2} \text{ (in SI units),}$$

where ε_0 is the electric constant in SI units), we readily find that

$$\frac{F_{\text{int}}}{F_e} = \frac{v^2}{c^2},$$

where c is the electrodynamic constant (23.2.2) and is related to ε_0 and μ_0 by the equation $\varepsilon_0\mu_0 = 1/c^2$ (Appendix I). When the velocity of the charges is small compared to the velocity of light in free space $(v \ll c)$, the magnetic interaction between the moving charges is considerably less than their electrostatic interaction. But in the case when the charges are moving in an electrically neutral conductor, the electric forces are compensated (16.4.2), leaving only magnetic interaction. This explains the magnetic interaction of current-carrying conductors (23.4.1). Though the force of magnetic interaction between each pair of electrons is small, the number of pairs is so immense that the resultant force of magnetic interaction of parallel current-carrying conductors is an appreciable amount (23.4.1).

24.1.5

If, in addition to a magnetic field of induction **B**, a moving electric charge is also subject to the action of an electric field of strength **E** (15.1.2), the resultant force **F** applied to the charge is equal to the vector sum of the force $\mathbf{F}_e = q\mathbf{E}$, exerted on the charge by the electric field and the Lorentz

force (24.1.1)t

$$\mathbf{F} = q\,\mathbf{E} + q\,[\mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}] \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$\mathbf{F} = q\,\mathbf{E} + \frac{q}{c}\,[\mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}] \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

The last expression is also called the Lorentz force and, sometimes, the *generalized Lorentz force* or the *Lorentz formula*.

24.1.6

By the action of the Lorentz force (24.1.1), a charged particle travels in a circular path of constant radius r in a uniform magnetic field perpendicular to the particles velocity. This circular path is in a plane perpendicular to vector **B**, and the Lorentz force is a centripetal one (2.4.3). The radius of the circular path is

$$r = \frac{m}{|q|}\,\frac{v}{B} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$
$$r = \frac{cm}{|q|}\,\frac{v}{B} \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

where $|q|$ is the absolute value of the particles charge, m is the mass of the particle, v is its velocity, B is the magnetic field induction and c is the electrodynamic constant (23.2.2). If the particle travels in the plane of the drawing (Figure 24.2), its deflection in a field perpendicular to the velocity and directed from behind the drawing depends upon the sign of the charge.

This is the basis for determining the sign of the charge of a particle travelling in a magnetic field.

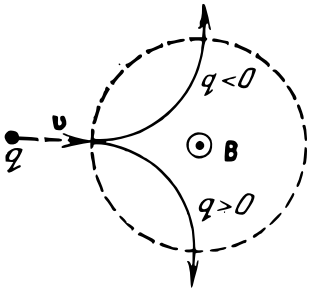


Figure 24.2.: Path of a charged particle in a magnetic field depends on the sign of its charge.

The period T of revolution (1.5.5) of a charged particle in a uniform magnetic field (23.1.3) is independent of its velocity (when $v \ll c$):

$$T = \frac{2\pi}{B}\,\frac{m}{|q|} \qquad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$r = \frac{2\pi}{B}\,\frac{mc}{|q|} \qquad \text{(in Gaussian units)},$$

The principle of cyclic orbit accelerators of charged particles (24.4.6) is based on the aforesaid.

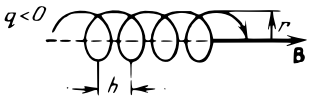


Figure 24.3.: Path of a charged particle is a helix if the velocity vector **v** of a charged particle makes the angle α with the direction of vector **B** of a uniform magnetic field.

24.1.7

If the velocity vector **v** of a charged particle makes the angle α with the direction of vector **B** of a uniform magnetic field, the particle travels along a helix (Figure 24.3) of radius r and pitch h equal to

$$r = \frac{m}{|q|}\,\frac{v\sin\alpha}{B},\ h = \frac{2\pi}{B}\,\frac{m}{|q|}\,v\cos\alpha \quad \text{(in SI units)},$$

$$r = \frac{mc}{|q|}\,\frac{v\sin\alpha}{B},\ h = \frac{2\pi}{B}\,\frac{mc}{|q|}\,v\cos\alpha \quad \text{(in Gaussian units.)}$$

If this motion occurs in a nonuniform magnetic field (23.1.3) whose magnetic induction increases in the direction of motion of the particle, then r and h decrease with an increase in B. This phenomenon is used for focusing charged particles in a magnetic field.

24.2 Hall Effect

24.2.1

The Hall effect refers to the setting up of a transverse electric field and potential difference in a current-carrying metal or semiconductor placed in a magnetic field which is perpendicular to the direction of the current density vector (20.2.3). The Hall effect results from the deflection of electrons moving in a magnetic field by the action of the Lorentz force (24.1.1).

Shown in Fig. 24.4a are the directions of the magnetic induction B, current density j, electron velocity v, Lorentz force Fl and the signs of the charges accumulated on the opposite, upper and lower, sides in the case of a metal or electron (/z-type) semiconductor (**??**). In a hole (p-type) semiconductor (**??**) the signs of the charges on the surfaces are the opposite of those Fig. 24.4 in the preceding case (Fig. 24.46). The charges are deflected by the magnetic field until the action of the force in the transverse electric field counterbalances the Lorentz force.

24.2.2

The equilibrium potential difference in the Hall effect is IB where I is the current, B is the magnetic field induction (23.1.2), d is the linear dimension of the metal or semiconductor in the direction of vector B, and Ri is the Hall coefficient. The strength Eh of the transverse electric field in the Hall effect is Eh = Rn [Bj], where j is the current density vector.

24.2.3

For metals and extrinsic semiconductors (41.10.5), having a single kind of conduction, the Hall coefficient equals A i?H= —- (in SI units), n0q i?H= —- (in Gaussian units), cn0q where c is the electrodynamic constant (23.2.2), q and n0 are the charge and concentration of the current carriers, and A 1 is a dimensionless factor depending upon how the current- carrier velocities are statistically distributed. The sign of the Hall coefficient coincides with that of the current-carrier charge q. A measurement of the Hall coefficient of a semiconductor indicates its type of electrical conduction. For an rc-type semi conductor(electronconduction)(**??**),q= eandRe.< 0; for a p-type semiconductor (hole conduction) (**??**), q = e and /?h > 0. If both types of electrical conduction are observed in a semi conductor, the predominant conduction can be determined from the sign of the Hall coefficient. The formula for Rh given in this subsection is inapplicable in such cases.

24.2.4

Provided the type of electrical conduction is known, a measurement of the Hall coefficient enables the concentra tion n0 of the current carriers to be determined. For example, the concentration of conduction electrons equals the concen tration of atoms in monovalent metals. This means that there is one free electron per atom in the electron gas (20.3.1) of the metal. A known concentration of current carriers enables the mean free path (X) of the electron in the metal to be assessed. From the formula of (20.3.4), 2xm

(u) nQe2 we find that (X) 108m, which exceeds the lattice constants of the metal by two orders of magnitude (see also Sects. (20.3.7) and (**??**)). (X)

24.3 Charge-to-Mass Ratio of Particles. Mass Spectroscopy

24.3.1

The charge-to-mass ratio of a particle, qlm, is a characteristic of charged particles. Experimental determination of this charge-to-mass ratio is based on measuring the deflection of the particles in electric and magnetic fields acting jointly on them. The mass of the particles is determined from the charge-to-mass ratio qlm and the known charge q

24.3.2

The mass spectrum of particles is the set of their mass values. Applying mass spectrometers and mass spectrographs, special instruments used in mass spectrometry, the rela tive concentrations of iso topes of chemical elements (**??**) and their masses can be measured with exceptio nally high accuracy.

24.3.3

In the Aston mass spectrograph (Fig. 24.5), which was employed to discover the isotopes of various chemical elements, the particles are deflected in the uniform electric field of capacitor C and the magnetic field of coil Af, the

fields being perpendicular to each other. The lower the velocity of the particles and the greater their charge-to-mass ratio, the more strongly they are deflected toward the capacitor plates. In a uniform magnetic field with the induction B directed into the drawing, the particles travel along circular arcs (24.1.6). The higher the velocity of the particles and the lower their charge-to-mass ratio, the greater the radii of these arcs. In a magnetic field a beam of particles is split into several beams, each corresponding to a definite charge-to-mass ratio. The magnetic field focuses particles having different velocities, but the same charge-to-mass ratio, on a single point. The magnetic induction B is chosen so that the charged particles are focused on a photographic plate AD, which is perpendicular to the plane of the drawing. A series of narrow parallel lines obtained on the plate corresponds to the various values of the particle charge-to-mass ratio. In Fig. 24.5, line corresponds to particles with a higher charge- to-mass ratio, and line 2 to particles with a lower one. If Fig. 24.5

the charge-to-mass ratio of the particles of line cSj is known, as well as the distance between lines and 2and the parameters of the instrument, the charge-to-mass ratio of the particles corresponding to line 2can he determined.

If the parallel-plate capacitors are replaced by tubular ones and special electromagnets are used that produce a plane-parallel beam of particles entering the magnetic field, we can achieve double focusing of the particles with respect to both energy and direction. With sufficient intensity of the lines on the photo graphic plate, this technique ensures high precision in particle mass measurements. For instance, the masses of the ions of light-weight elements

can be measured to an accuracy within 10-4 per cent.

24.3.4

The relative i concentrations of the isotopes of chemical elements in their natural mixtures are measured by instruments called mass spectrometers that electrically record the ion currents. Used in mass spectrometers are ion beams in which the kinetic energies of the ions are close in value. These are called mono chromatic (monoenergetic) beams and are produced by ion sources of special design. Even when they are strongly divergent and contain a great number of ions, such beams focus well in a transverse magnetic field. This raises the precision with which the concentrations of various isotopes can be measured.

24.4 Charged Particle Accelerators

24.4.1

Special installations for obtaining directed beams of charged particles (electrons, protons, atomic nuclei and ions of chemical elements) having an extremely high kinetic energy, under laboratory conditions are called accelerators. According to the shape of the path of the particles and the mechanism for accelerating them, distinction is made between linear, cyclic and induction accelerators. In linear accelerators (also called Zm- acs) the paths of motion of the particles are close to straight lines; in the cyclic and induction accelerators the paths of the particles are circles or unwinding spirals.

24.4.2

The energy of the accelerated particles is increased by the electric field set up in the accelerator. Depending on the type of accelerator, this field can be electrostatic (15.1.2), induced (**??**) or high-frequency alternating. The principle of the betatron, based on the action of an induced electric field, is discussed in Sect. (**??**). In a linear electrostatic accelerator, a charged particle passes only once through an accelerating electric field with a potential difference (Vx V2). If q is the charge of the particle, the energy acquired by the particle in the accelerator (**??**) is equal to E = q(V1- P2). In such an accelerator the electric field is set up, for example, by a Van de Graaff high-voltage electrostatic generator, operating by the principle of multiple transfer of charges to a hollow conductor (16.4.3).This raises the potential of the conductor to values limited only by the leakage of the charge from the conductor.

24.4.3

In linear resonant accelerators, the energy of the charged particles is increased by an alternating electric field of super-high frequency, which varies in synchronism with the motion of "the particles. Using this type of accelerator, electrons can be accelerated to an energy of the order of dozens of GeV over a path length of sev- eral kilometres. Fig. 24.6

24.4.4

Protons, deuterons and other, heavier, charged par ticles are accelerated by resonant cyclic accelerators, in which a particle repeatedly passes through an electric field synchronized with its motion, increasing its energy each time. A strong trans verse magnetic field controls the motion of the particles and returns them periodically to the region of the accelerating electric field. The particles pass definite points of the alternating electric field approximately when the field is in the same phase (in resonance).

24.4.5

In the cyclotron, the simplest resonant cyclic accelerator, an accelerating alternating electric field is set up in the gap between the two halves (dees) N and M (Fig. 24.6) of a cylindrical box. The dees are placed in a flat closed chamber located between the poles of a strong electromagnet, whose magnetic field is perpendicular to the plane of the drawing. The alternating electric field in the gap between the dees is set up by an electric generator whose terminals are connected to electrodes m and n.

24.4.6

A particle is accelerated in the gap between the dees M and N each time it crosses this gap after describing semicircles of continuously increasing radii due to the action of the magnet ic field. The same time is required for each semicircle (24.1.6). To continuously accelerate the particles it is necessary to com ply with the condition of synchronism

(condition of resonance): T = T0, where T is the period of revolution of the particle in the magnetic field (24.1.6), and is the period of oscillation of the magnetic field (**??**). This condition is violated at relativistic velocities u of the particle, commensurate with the velocity of light c in free space. At such high velocities, the mass m of the particle increases with the velocity (5.6.1) as does the period T (24.1.6).

24.4.7

The feasibility of accelerating charged particles trav elling at relativistic velocities in cyclic accelerators follows from the principle of phase stability (autophasing), which states that each deviation of the period T from the resonance value T0 (24.4.6) leads to such a change in the energy E of the particle at each acceleration that T varies in the neighborhood of T0 and, on an average, remains equal to T0. Thus rp rp 2ji rti 2ji E

where E = me2 (5.7.2), m = m j V 1 v2lc2 (5.6.1), m0 is the rest mass (5.6.1) of the particle, and c is the velocity of light in free space; the remaining notation is the same as in Sect. (24.1.6). If, for example, as a result of the increase in mass m and the period T, the particle enters the gap between the dees (Fig. 24.6) by the action of the decelerating instead of accelerating electric field, the reduction in particle velocity leads to the reduction in T and the equality T = Tg is reached again.

24.4.8

It follows from the principle of phase stability (24.4.7) that at a sufficiently slow increase in the period T0of the elec tric field, the period T of revolution of the particle in the mag netic field of the accelerator increases correspondingly. This leads to an increase in the average energy (E) of all the particles because at constant induction of the magnetic field any increase in T is possible only owing to the increase in mass as the veloc ity of the particles increases. This principle has been applied in an accelerator called the synchrocyclotron (also frequency-modulated cyclotron and phaso tron). This device has a constant magnetic field, whereas the frequency v0= i/T0 (**??**) of the alternating electric field varies slowly with the period tż T0. The radius of the orbit of the particles in the synchrocyclotron increases with their velocity (24.1.6). This requires a corresponding increase in the size of the synchrocyclotron to reach the maximum energy of the charged particles. The synchrocyclotron built and operated in the USSR, accelerating protons to an energy of 680 MeV, has a magnet with poles 6 m in diameter and a mass of 7 X 103 metric tons.

24.4.9

The synchrotron is an accelerator in which the frequency of the accelerating electric field is constant, and the induction B of the magnetic field varies with time. The period of revolu tion of a particle in the magnetic field of a synchrotron (24.4.6) is T 2n El ec2 B where e is the charge of the electron, and E is its energy. The condition of synchronism

(24.4.6) is complied with in a syn chrotron at Tq = const, provided that the induction of the magnetic field increases proportionally to the particles energy. Thus where T0 is the period of a high-frequency accelerating electric field.

The following condition is complied with in a synchrotron: m eT0= const. B 2ji The particles travel along orbits close to circular ones (24.1.6) and, consequently, a synchrotron is equipped with annular magnets that set up a magnetic field in a comparatively narrow region of the circular orbit.

24.4.10

A proton synchrotron, the most powerful accelerator of protons, combines the principles applied in the synchrocyclotron (24.4.8) and in the synchrotron (24.4.9). In this accelerator, the frequency v0of the accelerating electric field is reduced and the induction B of the magnetic held is increased simultaneously and in coordination. The protons being accelerated travel along a circular orbit of constant radius. Therefore, the magnetic field is set up by an annular electromagnet as in the synchrotron.

24.4.11

The condition for simultaneous maintenance of vertical (axial) and radial stability of the design circular orbit in the synchrotron and proton synchrotron is the variation of magnet ic induction B near the design orbit according to the law D const t) = - - - - , rn where r is the distance from the centre of the orbit, and n varies within the limits 0 < n < 1 (condition of weak focusing in the accelerator). With

an increase in the maximum energy 2?max acquired by the particles in an accelerator having weak focus ing, the required mass of the electromagnet increases ap proximately in proportion to max.

24.4.12

Accelerators having strong focusing are resorted to for increasing the maximum energy 7?max of particles accelerated in synchrotrons and proton synchrotrons. In these accelerators, two kinds of sector-shaped magnets are used alternately along the almost circular orbit of particle travel. In one kind of sector the magnetic field varies according to the law of Sect. (24.4.11), in which n is much less than zero (for example, n = 100), and in the other kind 1. Sectors of the first type provide for radial focusing of the beam of particles being accelerated; sectors of the second kind, for vertical focusing. The application of strong focusing enables substantial reductions to be obtained in the overall size of the accelerator, the mass of the electromagnet and the total cost of the installation. This method is also called alternating-gradient focusing.

24.4.13

To increase the share of energy utilized by accelerated particles for various nuclear reactions (**??**), the bombardment of stationary targets by high-energy particles is replaced by the colliding beam technique. It follows from the laws of conservation of energy (3.4.3) and momentum (2.7.1) that in bombarding a stationary target, the share of the

kinetic energy /',k of the incident particle, utilized in the nuclear reaction, decreases as E is increased. When the technique of colliding beams is used, the total momentum of the particles after col lision is reduced and the share of their useful energy is increased. Assume, for example, that in an accelerator with colliding beams of protons the energy of the protons in each beam is equal to 20 GeV. The total momentum of two protons colliding at equal and opposing velocities equals zero. But the collision energy of such two particles reaches 50 GeV. To obtain the same colli sion energy in bombarding a stationary hydrogen target, a beam of protons with energy of the order of 1400 GeV is required.